

On the Concept of the *De Se*

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INTRODUCTION

The Thesis of Content inherently *de se*

Imagine that John Perry seriously and literally asserts the sentence, "I am making a mess."[1] We would report him *oratio obliqua* as asserting that *he* is making a mess, not that John Perry or that the author of "Frege on Demonstratives" is making a mess. Relatedly, we would specify *what* Perry is asserting as that *he* is making a mess, neither that John Perry nor that the author of "Frege on Demonstratives" is making a mess, even though, objectively speaking, the individual we are referring to is both Perry and the author of "Frege on Demonstratives". In so doing, we would be reporting Perry as making what the literature calls an assertion *de se*. In and of itself, the Latin phrase '*de se*' simply means 'about him-, her- or itself'[2] but in the literature it has been appropriated to mark something which sets Perry's assertion apart from the latter two assertions, even though all three assertions, objectively speaking, are equally about Perry. What is distinctive about Perry's assertion *de se*?

Clearly, Perry's assertion is *de se* because what is asserted by it is about Perry in a distinctive way. Equally clearly, this distinctive aboutness is marked by the presence of the third-person pronoun, as opposed to the name 'John Perry' or the definite description 'the author of "Frege on Demonstratives"', in how we specify it. So let us proceed from how the third-person pronoun 'he' is functioning in the sentence "John Perry asserts that he is making a mess." The pronoun is anaphorically linked to the name 'John Perry', which occurs in subject-position of the intensional[3] context '*x* asserts that …' and is used to refer to John Perry, indeed, to refer to him *as* John Perry. While, however, its anaphoric link means that the third-person pronoun 'he' also refers to John Perry, it does not do so in the same way as the name. The link

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1 This illustration is based on the much-discussed example in Perry 1979.

2 The Latin reflexive pronoun '*se*' is not gender-specific.

3 Or, as it is often called these days, the *hyper*-intensional context. This term is used in order to distinguish such contexts from modal contexts. Since, however, the concern here is not with modality, the older, more elegant usage will be retained.

ensures that, as one might put it, the pronoun acquires the *referent* but not the *reference*[4] of the latter. Perry is asserting, and is reported as asserting, that *he*, not that John Perry, nor that the author of "Frege on Demonstratives," etc., is making a mess. The pronoun is used not to refer to John Perry either as John Perry or as the author of "Frege on Demonstratives," etc., but simply *as subject*[5]—subject of the assertion Perry is making and now under characterisation, of course. So Perry's assertion is distinctive at least for this reason: it requires for its *perspicuous characterisation*[6] by a speaker S who does not identify with Perry[7] a sentence in which the third-person

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4 It is important to distinguish, in a manner which derives from Michael Dummett (in Dummett 1981), between the referent of an expression and the reference of the expression itself. The reference of an expression is that semantic property possessed by the expression, always only on the occasion of its use, which determines that this rather than that individual is the referent, i.e., what the expression refers to on the occasion.

5 It must be emphasised that the use made here and throughout of the phrase 'as subject' is *not* Wittgenstein's, who uses it to speak of what he takes to be a particular way of using the pronoun 'I'—see Wittgenstein 1969, p. 66f. As the phrase is understood here, when S believes that it* is F and S✦ ascribes to S this belief by asserting, "S believes that it* is F," S✦ is referring to S as subject—in this case, subject of the belief it*, S✦, is ascribing. Similarly, when S ascribes this same belief to itself*, S asserts, "I believe that I am F," therein referring to itself* as subject—in this case, subject of both the assertion it* is making and the belief it* is ascribing. Finally, when S simply asserts, "I am F," S is referring to itself* as subject—in this case, subject of the assertion it* is making. None of this entails, of course, that the pronouns wielded *mean*, either in general or on the occasion, 'the subject of the belief it* is ascribing ' etc.

6 The perspicuous characterisation of a representation or a locution, which latter is at least typically also an illocution, captures not simply when the content of representation or locution is true or false but also the causal role possessed by the representation or illocution *in virtue of its content*. Representations and locutions, hence illocutions, can be characterised in all sorts of ways. It is, for example, perfectly possible to use the sentences "*A* believes that *B* is F" or "A says that *B* is F" in such a way that *A*'s content of belief or locution is not that *B* is F but rather, say, that *C* is F, *C* being known or at least believed by the person asserting the sentence to be *B*. Of course, when either sentence is thus used, characterisation is not perspicuous since a completely perspicuous characterisation of *A*'s belief or locution will depict content in the way one must depict it in order to provide a complete explanation of what either *A*'s belief or the belief underlying *A*'s sincere locution—in both cases, precisely belief that *C* is F—motivates *A* to do. And what this belief motivates *A* to do is a function of its content. In this sense, perspicuous characterisation captures what a representation or, for that matter, an illocution or locution 'really' is—in line with the Stranger's proposal that "a sufficient mark of real things [is] the presence in a thing of the power of being acted upon or of acting in relation to however insignificant a thing." (Plato 1961, 248c/p. 993) This anticipates the response to be given in Section III below to an objection one might make to the notion of perspicuous characterisation, namely, that it *reduces* claims about content to claims about the perspicuous characterisation thereof, as if sameness and difference in the latter were not a response to, and a reflection of, objective sameness and difference in content itself, hence of what content 'really' is.

7 Of course, S could still choose to use this sentence even if S did identify with Perry. In this case, S would be speaking more or less in what Perry calls "the manner of de Gaulle." (Perry 1979, p. 28/p. 4)

pronoun is linked anaphorically to a singular term in subject-position, thereby enabling reference by S to the referent of the singular term in this latter's capacity as the subject of the assertion characterised. For this reason, one speaks of Perry's assertion as *de se*.[8]

Now were Perry not just seriously and literally, but also sincerely asserting the sentence, "I am making a mess," he would be expressing a belief he actually holds, one also *de se*.[9] For this belief would be perspicuously characterised by asserting such sentences as "John Perry believes that he is making a mess," "The author of "Frege on Demonstratives" believes that he is making a mess," and so on. Here too, the third-person pronoun is anaphorically linked to whatever singular term is used in subject position. So here, too, the pronoun acquires not the reference but the referent of the singular term, namely, Perry. And it does so for the same reason: it is used to refer to Perry simply in his capacity as the subject of the belief possessed. Of course, Perry himself would not typically use any such third-personal sentence. In order to characterise his own belief perspicuously, he would typically use a corresponding first-personal one: he would typically assert, "I believe that I am making a mess." Similarly, he would perspicuously characterise his assertion by asserting, "I am asserting that I am making a mess."[10]

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8 So the philosophical literature gives the phrase a narrower meaning than the one it actually has in Latin. In Latin as in English the third-person reflexive pronoun can be used not merely to refer the referent of the singular term to which it is linked, but to do so as a *substitute* for the latter, in which case the pronoun is, as one says, lazy, i.e., causally gratuitous. This lazy use is evident in the sentences "Caesar se necavit" and "Caesar killed himself." From both a purely truth conditional and causal perspective, in both Latin and English one would say the same thing by saying, respectively, "Caesar Caesarem necavit" and "Caesar killed Caesar."

9 Implicit here is an assumption which perhaps should be made explicit, namely, that contents of locution and illocution can also be contents of representation. What Perry asserts is what he believes.

10 This is not to deny, of course, that Perry could, for whatever quixotic reason, assert the third-personal ones, even in order to characterise a belief and assertion he knows to be his, hence would normally characterise using the first-personal sentences. Perry in fact considers what is more or less this possibility, albeit not for the singular term 'Perry' but for the singular term 'de Gaulle'—see Perry 1979, pp. 4-5/pp. 28-29.

The sentence "Perry believes that he is making a mess" can, of course, be used differently. Let us assume that Perry believes that, say, the shopper he sees in front of him is making a mess. In fact, Perry is seeing himself in cleverly arranged mirrors. Evidently, English permits one to characterise this belief by asserting the sentence "Perry believes that he is making a mess." Yet clearly one is not characterising the belief perspicuously, as is shown by the fact that the sentence which characterises it perspicuously is the sentence used in setting the example up, namely, "Perry believes that the shopper in front of him is making a mess." Yet it is not incorrect to use the sentence "Perry believes that he is making a mess" since in English no linguistic convention *requires* one to link the pronoun 'he' anaphorically to the subject term 'Perry' in order to refer to Perry as subject. Let us remove this ambiguity by extending English so as to include such a convention. In particular, let us attach Castañeda's asterisk[11] to the third-person pronoun whenever it is used in the characterisation of representation, locution or illocution genuinely *de se*, hence whenever a user of the pronoun links it anaphorically to a singular term in *subject*-position of the relevant intensional context in order to refer to the referent thereof simply in its capacity as subject—subject, of course, of such and such representation or locution. We must now characterise Perry as asserting and believing that *he** is making a mess.

There can be other forms of illocution, hence locution, and of representation *de se*. Perry might sincerely and literally utter the sentence "Would that I were not making a mess!," therein performing what Searle calls an expressive illocutionary act.[12] Someone other than Perry could then perspicuously characterise the desire *de se* expressed by Perry by asserting the third-personally anaphoric sentence "Perry desires that he* not be making a mess." Typically, of course, Perry himself would perspicuously characterise this same desire by asserting the first-personally indexical

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[11] As introduced in Castañeda 1966.
[12] See, e.g., Searle and Vanderveken 1985, esp. pp. 211-216.

sentence "I desire that I not be making a mess."[13] What, however, *are* representations, illocutions and locutions *de se*? In all of them, there is something represented or illocuted, hence locuted. And in all cases this is such as to require for its perspicuous characterisation the asterisked third-person pronoun. In order to avoid ungainly terminology, let us call, in line with the tradition of speech act theory,[14] what is represented or illocuted, hence locuted, however it is ultimately to be explicated, the *content* of representation, illocution or locution. Our question then becomes what it is about such representations, locutions and illocutions which explains why the asterisked third-person pronoun is needed in the everyday pre-philosophical perspicuous characterisation of their content in the sense just defined. What underlies the kind of reference this pronoun accomplishes, namely, reference to a subject of representation or locution, hence typically illocution, in its capacity as such a subject?

Here a distinctive thesis will be expounded and defended, in the first instance with regard to the content of representation, but also, *mutatis mutandis*, with regard to that of locution and illocution *de se*. This thesis will be called, simply in order to have a label for it, the thesis of content inherently *de se*—inherently because literally *de se*, hence not in and of itself *de me*, i.e., self-conscious or first-personal. The thesis comprises four component claims, the first insisting simply that *there is*, ineliminably and irreducibly, representation and illocution *de se*, this because *there are* contents ineliminably and irreducibly *de se*—contents inherently such that their perspicuous characterisation by another requires sentences of the kind illustrated above.

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[13] Indeed, *prima facie* at least, there are forms of representation *de se* for whose perspicuous characterisation a 'that'-clause is inappropriate: Anscombe might see a man in front of her* making a mess, which perceptual experience one would more naturally characterise by seriously and literally asserting, not the sentence "Anscombe sees that a man in front of her* is making a mess," but rather the sentence "Anscombe sees a man in front of her* making a mess." Anscombe herself would, of course, typically characterise this same experience by seriously and literally asserting the sentence, "I see a man in front of me making a mess." One might argue that in this kind case content is not a matter of perceiving *that a* is F, but of, say, perceiving *a* (as) F-ing. Whether this is so, why it might be so and what it ultimately comes to cannot be pursued further here. There are different views on this, views which cannot be discussed here. But see Christensen 2000 and Christensen 2008.

[14] See, e.g., Searle 1969, p. 30.

Meanwhile, the other claims elaborate the first in ways which distinguish the thesis as a whole from standard conceptions of the *de se*.

Section I: The Thesis of Content inherently *de se*

Dilip Ninan, who similarly introduces and characterises "the target notion [of the *de se*] by using examples of the phenomenon we are interested in investigating" (Ninan 2016, p. 89), writes that "the term "*de se* attitude""—his term for representation *de se*—"applies specifically to *first-person* thoughts, thoughts one could express or report using the first-person pronoun." (Ninan 2016, p. 90) With this, he shows himself to be endorsing a claim and a terminological practice almost ubiquitous in reflection on the *de se*. Doubtless a "*de se* attitude" is such that its subject, provided that it is capable of the first-person pronoun at all, could "express or report [it] using the first-person pronoun." Yet this is neither to claim nor to assume that a subject can only *have or undergo* "a *de se* attitude" if it either actually exercises or actually possesses the ability to "express or report using the first-person pronoun." So why describe either the 'attitude' or the content thereof as first-person? Ninan would have conformed to the *actual meaning* of the phrase '*de se*' had he written that "the term "*de se* attitude applies specifically to a certain kind of *third-person* thought, that kind, namely, which *any* subject[15] could report using the asterisked third-person pronoun." Why the priority tacitly given to the first person, hence to the so-called 'perspective' of the subject whose 'attitude' is at issue?[16]

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15 Including, crucially, the subject thereof, if, for example, this latter, for whatever quixotic reason, should choose to speak more or less in "the manner of de Gaulle." (Perry 1979, p. 28/p. 4)

16 At first it might seem that Bermúdez is bucking the trend when he describes what Ninan calls an 'I'-thought as "a thought whose content can only be specified directly by means of the first-person pronoun 'I' or indirectly by means of the [asterisked third-person pronoun] 'he*'." (Bermúdez 1998, p. 4) Evidently, in and of itself, this no more entitles one to describe the thought and content at issue as first-personally indexical than as third-personally anaphoric. Yet in fact Bermúdez does not buck the trend: he understands what he has written as defining what he, too, calls "an 'I'-thought"! He would have done better had he used the terminology introduced in Section II, that is, had he written that a *personal* as opposed to *impersonal thought* "… is a thought whose content can only be specified directly by means of the first-person pronoun 'I' or indirectly by means of the [asterisked third-person pronoun] 'he*'."

Both the question and the observation driving it point to the general thrust of the thesis of content inherently *de se.* When S and S✦ report S's belief that it* is F by using, respectively, the sentences "I believe that I am F" and "S believes that it* is F," they are each reporting in their different ways the *very same* belief, with the *very same* content. To this extent, these two different sentences are equally good functional counterparts. Yet precisely this point leads to a certain renunciation of even-handedness. For what *explains* the fact that these two sentences constitute, as it were, two different 'perspectives' on one and the same thing? The fact that the one, as uttered by S at *t* and *l*, and the other, as uttered by S✦ at *t*✦ and *l*✦, express something true if and only if S believes at *t* and *l* that it* is F.[17] So the anaphorically third-personal sentence must be used in order to articulate the essential connection between it and the first-personal one.[18] There is nothing wrong with this, indeed it is quite unsurprising, since the anaphorically third-personal sentence articulates *publicly* what the belief and its content are, such that diverse subjects can 'grasp' in order to evaluate them. In other words, it expresses that inherent public accessibility without which representation and its content could not stand under the rational control of others, in the shape of their critique and correction. In *this* sense one may say that the

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[17] As we shall later see, full perspicuity requires use not just of the asterisked third-person pronoun but also of the asterisked adjectives of time and place, i.e., then* and there*, which in virtue of a similar anaphoric link have as their referents the referents of the expressions '*t*' and '*l*' respectively.

[18] One might ask why one cannot 'use' the first-personal sentence, that is, why one cannot have, on the right hand side of the aforementioned biconditional, the sentence "S believes at *t* and *l* "I am F""? Indeed, why can one not have, in place of *either* sentence the sentence "S self-ascribes at *t* and *l* the property F"? What is special about the anaphorically third-personal way of specifying the relevant underlying fact? Because the right hand side is meant to *explain* the unity of the two perspectives. Once this is appreciated, it becomes clear that one cannot simply *cite* a sentence on the right-hand side; some kind of specification *oratio obliqua* is needed. Of course, the self-ascriptive alternative to *either* sentence involves no mere mention of a sentence. Yet this alternative is only acceptable given some explanation of what self-ascription is. This is, after all, not an everyday pre-philosophical notion, hence is not non-tendentiously available. One needs to know what it for S to self-ascribe the property of F-ness, i.e., needs to map it onto the ordinary, everyday appearance of which it would constitute the reality. And here one can only say that it is for S *to believe*—strictly speaking, for S *to form the belief*—that it* is F. The anaphorically third personal sentence is indeed required.

anaphorically third-personal sentence captures what S's belief and its content objectively are.[19]

The thesis of content inherently *de se* thus insists upon the *irreducibly complementary functional character* of the third-personal mode of perspicuous characterisation, hence of the kind of reference signalled by the asterisk attached to the third-person pronoun. In particular, it insists that, *pace* Anscombe, the asterisked third-person pronoun is *not* to be "explained in terms of "I"" (Anscombe 1971, p. 46), that indeed, as will be elaborated and justified across Section III of Chapter Four and Section IV of Chapter Five, the order of 'explanation' runs in the *opposite* direction[20]—this precisely because content in general is, at least as a rule,[21] evaluable, hence publicly, indeed in the long run, universally accessible. Just how seriously the thesis takes this irreducible complementarity and the claim about content underlying it becomes evident once one breaks the thesis down into its four components and shows how the second, third and fourth diverge from claims standardly made in the literature. The first component reads as follows:

T.1: There are contents whose perspicuous characterisation by another requires that use of the third-person pronoun which is signalled by Castañeda's asterisk—what he calls the (S)-use.[22] So there are representations only perspicuously characterisable by sentences of the form "S believes that he* (or she* or indeed it*) is F," "S desires that he* (or she* or it*) be F," and indeed "S sees something F standing in relation R to him* (or her* or it*)," etc.; similarly, of course, for locutions, hence illocutions.

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[19] Nor would one, in saying this, deny that there is something special about the indexically first-personal counterpart of this sentence. For the latter is what S must use when S is called upon by S✦ to explain *itself** and so *take responsibility for* its* belief and the consequences thereof.

[20] As we shall see Castañeda clearly to recognise—see Section III of Chapter IV and Castañeda 1966, pp. 45-56.

[21] That is to say, *paradigmatically* evaluable. This qualification is necessary in order to avoid committing the thesis to an untenable verificationism.

[22] See Castañeda 1966, p. 35. Castañeda calls this use the (S)-use because he regards the third-person pronoun, when used in this way, as a pronoun *of self-consciousness*—see below, Section II.

This first component is widely, if not universally accepted.[23] Distinctiveness begins to emerge with the second:

T.2: A 'that'-clause used in the everyday perspicuous characterisation of content *de se*, hence of representation, locution or illocution *de se*, picks out or individuates[24] *some one thing* as responsible both for truth conditions and for the causal role of representation or illocution.[25]

As Perry points out,[26] Frege assumed that what is locuted or represented—content as defined above, hence content *qua* what is individuated by a 'that'-clause—performed two functions: firstly, it determines a condition under which it is true, thereby helping to determine when the representation or illocution of which it is content is, to borrow a word from Searle,[27] satisfied. For example, the clause 'that the King of France is bald' picks out something true if and only if the King of France is bald (at the time of the expression or possession of this content), which in turn determines that a belief or assertion with this content[28] is satisfied only if the world is a certain way, namely such that in it the King of France is bald (at the time of belief or assertion). One might call

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23 Thus, Cappelen and Dever claim that expressions such as representation *de se*, intentionality *de se*, attitudes *de se*, self-locating intentional states and experiences, etc. "denote nothing—there is no such thing … . The brilliant papers by Lewis and Perry [have led] people to believe in, and theorize about, an illusion." (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 3) It is worth noting, however, that the argument of their book is directed more towards showing the *de se* not to have the philosophical significance standardly accorded it rather than showing it to be, as they initially state, simply an illusion. Their views will be discussed in Chapter Two.

24 The notion of a 'that'-clause's individuating what is in effect content as specified above is taken from Perry—see Perry 1979 p. 30/p. 6. Admittedly, he speaks of such clauses as individuating propositions, not contents. But in this part of his essay he is using the term 'proposition' as the term 'content' is used here. A 'that'-clause will, of course, only individuate a content in an appropriate context of locution, hence only given appropriate speaker's intentions; the bare linguistic entity alone does not suffice for individuation of a content, i.e., a proposition or, to use Frege's term, a 'thought'.

25 Component T.2 thus constitutes a minimal claim about how 'that'-clauses function: whatever they do when used in the characterisation of representation or locution such that one may say that *there is* something represented or locuted, what they thus "individuate" (Perry 1979, p. 30/p. 6) is some one thing in the sense indicated by T.2. Chapter Three outlines how such clauses function according to what Perry calls the doctrine of propositions—see Perry 1979, pp. 29-30/pp.5-6—while Chapter Eight attempts a more accurate account.

26 See Perry 1977. Peacocke makes a similar point when he speaks of the two roles (a) and (b) possessed by Fregean thoughts—see Peacocke 1981, p. 188f.

27 See Searle 1979 and 1983, esp. Ch. 1.

28 Frege thus also assumes, as does the thesis of content inherently *de se*, that one and the same thing can be both a content of representation and a content of illocution, hence locution.

truth *of content* the *epistemic* truth of belief and the *apophantic* truth of assertion with this content. Similarly, in the case of a desire that the King of France be bald, the 'that'-clause individuates this same content, which in turn determines that the desire is satisfied in the conative sense—what one might call fulfilment—only if the King of France is bald (at the time of desire). Secondly, it determines the distinctive causal role of what has it as content. A subject S's belief that it* is F is true if and only if the belief that S is F are true so both beliefs are truth conditionally equivalent. Yet they shape S's behaviour in different ways so they are not causally equivalent.

According to Frege, one and the same thing accounts for this combination of sameness and difference.[29] By contrast, Perry maintains, at least across Perry 1977, Perry 1979 and Perry 1980a, that two different things account for it. We should, he argues, regard representations and illocutions as having content in two distinguishable if inseparable senses. Since his argument for this claim will be examined in Chapter Three, which reconstructs Perry's so-called problem of the essential indexical, let it suffice here to say that the thesis of content inherently *de se* retains Frege's identification. It immediately follows that the thesis cannot regard content as containing either the entities representations *de se* are about or the entities locutions, hence illocutions *de se* involve reference to. Both S's belief that it* is F and S's belief that S is F are, after all, about the same thing, namely, S itself. Same entities, different contents, so content is not Russellian. To this extent, the thesis implicates a broadly Fregean conception of content.

The third component of the thesis reads as follows:

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[29] Of course, Frege never speaks of the causal role imparted by a content to a representation or illocution with it as content. Rather, he speaks of cognitive value (*Erkenntniswert*), i.e., the distinctive way in which content enables a belief or assertion with it as content to shape either the other beliefs of its subject or the beliefs of another subject. Evidently, the notion of cognitive value can and must be generalised since (a) it is hard to speak of the cognitive value of non-cognitive representations and illocutions; and (b) belief and assertion impact not just upon other beliefs but also upon representation and purposive behaviour generally. Since Frege speaks of sense (*Sinn*) primarily in connection with causal role, component T.2 corresponds to what Perry describes as Frege's identification of "the sense of a sentence with the thought [i.e., the content or proposition,] it expresses." (Perry 1977, p. 1/p. 475)

T.3: The content individuated by a 'that'-clause used in the perspicuous characterisation of representation, locution or illocution *de se*, a 'that'-clause thus involving either the asterisked third-person or the first-person[30] pronoun, always contains an element of which the reference accomplished by the pronoun is its perspicuous linguistic expression.

With this, the thesis differentiates itself from another mainstream position, the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception of content. As will be seen in Chapter Six, Brian Loar argues[31] that a sentence used in the perspicuous characterisation of a subject's representation or illocution *de se* articulates what he calls a self-ascriptive relation between the subject and the property or, as he prefers to say, the propositional function implicated by the 'that'-clause. This is to deny that when a subject S believes that it* is F, the content of S's belief is structurally isomorphic to the structure of the sentence 'it* is F', in all its linguistically predicative unity. Loar's idea is adopted by David Lewis, Jeff Speaks and Neil Feit,[32] who seek to extend it to *all* representation and illocution.[33]

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30 In that case in which the subject doing the characterising is, and knows itself* to be, the subject whose content, hence representation or (il)locution *de se* is being characterised.

31 In Loar 1976. See also Lewis 1979, Perry 1986, Feit 2008 and Musholt 2015.

32 Loar's idea is eventually also adopted by Perry—instructively, however, only partially. Perry eventually comes to recognise the inadequacy of the account of belief and other forms of representation he had, on the basis of rejecting T.2, intimated in Perry 1979 and more fully elaborated in Perry 1980a. By 1990, in order to account for the *de se*, he has adopted a variant of the standard appeal to first-personal elements in content—original ways of givenness to oneself, presumably as oneself (Frege), 'I'-guises (Castañeda) and self-concepts (Peacocke and Musholt), etc.—, for he now speaks of self-notions. Yet he also recognises that it would be implausible to maintain that in all cases in which perspicuous characterisation requires use of the asterisked third-person pronoun, what legitimates such use is the presence of some distinctively *first-personal* element in content since this would entail that the pronoun's referent is self-conscious, that is, actually thinking or at least actually able to think of itself 'as itself', in turn understood as its thinking of itself in "the first-person way" (Castañeda 1987a, p. 150) or, as Perry himself puts it, "in the way that we think of ourselves when we use the word "I."" (Perry 1980a, p.538/p. 51) Clearly, if what legitimated use of the asterisked third-person pronoun were *always* presence of a *first-personal* element in content, then one would not be able to account for such representations of non-self-conscious and of pre- or non-linguistic beings as require the pronoun for their perspicuous characterisation. Perry thus bifurcates the *de se* into those cases in which what explains character as *de se* is the presence of a (distinctively first-personal) element in content and those cases in which what explains this character is in effect "the self-ascriptive belief relation." (Loar 1976, p. 358) Since the thesis of content inherently *de se* rejects Loar's general idea, it must reject this bifurcation.

33 This extension is critically examined only in Appendix I to Chapter Six since it is incidental to the overall argument here.

Here it will be argued that literally all representations, locutions and illocutions *de se* conform to T.3. To this extent, S's believing that it* is F is not structurally different from S's believing that *a* is F. Whatever an element in content is, there is one such corresponding to the pronoun 'it*', just as there is corresponding to the proper name '*a*'. Since the notion of such an element in content is crucial, some preliminary clarification of it is needed, prior to more extensive clarification in Chapter Seven. Given how this element has been characterised, namely, as something whose perspicuous *linguistic expression*[34] is a use of either the asterisked third-person or the first-person pronoun, hence some kind of reference on the part of the user to a subject as subject, the concept of *locution*, of the *expression* of content, serves as the point of departure. Let us say, quite minimally and noncommittally, that to be an element in content is at least to be a distinguishable feature or aspect of content—distinguishable in the sense that perspicuous characterisation of content as a whole requires perspicuous characterisation of it, through the use of some distinguishable, indeed separable, hence genuinely constituent linguistic expression, whether this latter be a singular term or a linguistic predicate.

Lest one think that this undermines the claim that T.3 contradicts the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception, let us re-iterate what T.3 insists upon: content, whether *de se* or not, is *always* such as to require for its perspicuous expression or individuation by a 'that'-clause a sentence in which reference and predication in one and the same sense is involved—involved quite independently of the representational or illocutionary mode of what has it as content. Why this is and must be so will be explained in Chapter Six, which examines the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception. Granted, however, that it is so, there is only a strictly predicative sense in which representation or illocution *de se* involves the ascription of a property or propositional function to its subject. So in sentences of the

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[34] By a subject which typically does not take itself to be identical with the subject of the representation or, for that matter, illocution characterised, hence identical with the putative referent of the pronoun.

form "S believes that it* is F," the predicative structure of the sentence 'it* is F' reveals content as it is, the content, namely, that it*, S,[35] is F. What the 'that'-clause 'that it* is F' individuates requires for such individuation precisely a linguistic reference accomplished by the pronoun 'it*', from which the thesis happily concludes that to this an element in content corresponds. Moreover, this whole content can be shared not just by S's desiring that it* be F but also, crucially, both by S's wondering whether it* is F and by S's believing that if it* is F, then *p*. In this regard, then, S's belief that it* is F is no different from S's belief that *a* is F. As soon, however, as this much is admitted, the idea that both the asterisked third-person and the first-person pronoun mark an element in content, indeed the very same element, has been given enough substance to be antithetical to the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception.

The fourth and last component reads as follows:

T.4: The element in content always marked by the asterisked third-person or first-person pronoun is not first-personal, hence neither constitutes the content to which it belongs as a so-called first-person thought, nor constitutes any representation with this content as a first-person thinking. It therefore does not entail that the pronoun's referent is either actually or potentially self-conscious, that is, is either actually thinking or at least actually able to think, of itself 'as itself,' or again, in "the first-person way" (Castañeda 1987a, p. 150) or "the way that we think of ourselves when we use the word "I."" (Perry 1980a, p.538/p. 51)

Whereas T.2 aligned the thesis of content inherently *de se* with Frege, T.4 distances it from him. Frege's position is characterised by the claim that both the asterisked third-person and, more fundamentally, the first-person pronoun express a distinctively *first-*

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[35] It is crucial to note that here the term 'S' is deployed *appositionally*. It thus does not mark any element in content but merely serves to indicate what the pronoun 'it*' anaphorically refers to, namely, S, who is the subject of the intensional context '… believes that …'. Thereby the term 'S' facilitates the role of the 'that'-clause in which it is deployed in picking out the content believed by S, namely, that *it** is F, as opposed to the content believed by S✦ when this latter believes that it* is F.

personal element in content. Frege goes on, of course, to characterise this first-personal element in terms of his doctrine of sense and reference, namely, as that particular and original way in which each self-conscious subject is given to itself,[36] presumably 'as itself'. Others make the same general claim while specifying it in a different manner. Castañeda regards his first-personal element as a so-called 'I'-guise.[37] Meanwhile, the later Perry and Musholt speak of a self-notion and self-concept respectively and Peacocke of a first-person concept[38]—all surely instances of the same general idea. Finally, Soames speaks of predicating a property of an object *o* while thinking "*of o in the first-person way*."[39] Component T.4 constitutes rejection of the general claim underlying all these more specific views. Thereby it imparts to the thesis of content inherently *de se* a truly distinctive character since it commits the thesis to maintaining that the character of a form of representation as either actually or potentially self-conscious, more specifically, as an 'I'-thinking or "explicit self-representation" (Musholt 2015, p. 47), is not to be (solely) explained by appeal to anything *in content* corresponding to either the first-person or the asterisked third-person pronoun. No such element entails or accounts for self-consciousness generally and 'I'-thinking specifically. These are to be located at the level of the 'act'. How this is possible will be elaborated in Chapter Five.

Even so, the thesis remains generically Fregean, this not just because it embraces T.2. For like Frege, it regards content generally, hence content *de se* specifically, as structured in a way in which set-theoretic conceptions of content, whether as sets of (centred or uncentred) possible worlds or as *n*-tuples in the manner of Russell, do not.[40] In accordance with recent critique of Russellian conceptions,[41] it regards set-theoretic unity as too external to permit what it unifies to constitute the distinctively

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36 See Frege 1918/1976, p. 39/p. 298.
37 See, e.g., Castañeda 1999b and 1999c.
38 See, respectively, Perry 1990, Musholt 2015, p. 73 and Peacocke 2012, p. 147.
39 See King, Soames and Speaks 2014, esp. pp. 111-112.
40 In Evans 1981.
41 As found, for example, in King, Soames and Speaks 2014 and in Hunter and Rattan 2013.

predicative character of content.[42] This is certainly a Fregean affinity, constituting as it does recognition of what underlies Frege's metaphor of content as unified by in/completeness or 'saturation' (*Sättigung*), namely, contribution to truth value.

Yet this affinity must be attenuated somewhat. It is not particularly clear *how* Frege thought of contents as having elements, hence structure. Sometimes he seems to regard the senses which constitute the elements of whole 'thoughts', i.e., contents or so-called propositions, as quite literally *constituents*. But any conception of elements in content as quite literally constituents would need "to find some [*external*] relation born (*sic*) by the constituents … to one another," a relation which ""holds them together" as parts of a single, complex entity." (King, Soames and Speaks 2014, p. 32) The thesis rejects this idea as fundamentally antithetical to Frege's own signature idea of contribution to truth value. It thus endorses a version of what Keller calls primitivism: contents "are *sui generis*, fine-grained … abstract entities" which are "*un*structured" in the sense that they do not contain elements in any sense entailing the need to find the aforementioned binding relation. (Keller 2013, p. 658) Ultimately, then, the thesis views an element in content as a distinguishable *but inseparable* feature or aspect of content[43] requiring for its perspicuous characterisation the use of some not just distinguishable but separable, hence genuinely constituent linguistic expression, whether singular term or linguistic predicate.

Of course, this raises the question of whether content *can* be structured, hence have elements, in this weak sense. How can structure, hence possession of elements *not* require a unifying binding relation imported from outside?[44] This question leads to another: can such a weak conception of the unity of content, hence of elements in content, permit the notion of content to do real work? Must it not rule out, as Keller

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[42] Hence, too external to solve what Soames calls "(t)he problem of the unity of the proposition … ." (King, Soames and Speaks 2014, p. 26)

[43] Hegel would presumably speak of a moment in content.

[44] Insofar as they may be described as constituents at all, they are only constituents in what Keller calls the lightweight sense—see Keller 2013, pp. 669-671.

suspects, any genuinely explanatory account of content?[45] These questions will be broached in Chapter Seven and addressed in Chapter Eight, which will also seek to show how this loosely Fregean conception does not entail that contents inhabit "a third realm" (Frege 1918/1976, p. 43/p. 302; my translation), neither physical nor psychological, in which they exist independently of the representations and illocutions of which they are contents. Suffice for the moment to say that the thesis of content inherently *de se* provides further reason for avoiding the Platonism embraced by the historical Frege. For according to the thesis, a content *de se* can only be had by the subject to which the asterisked third-person pronoun refers in a perspicuous characterisation of this content. Content *de se* is, as one might say, *ontologically* private. Yet this does not entail, as we shall see when examining in Chapter Four Castañeda's account of the asterisked third-person pronoun, the *epistemic* privacy afflicting Frege's views.

Section II: Three Corollaries of the Thesis of Content inherently *de se*

Let us now introduce three corollaries of the thesis of content inherently *de se*. The first of these motivates component T.1 To this extent, it is a *corollary* only in a Pickwickian sense: there would be no point to the thesis were it not true. In fact, elaboration of the thesis consists in pinning down how and why it is true.

C.1: Representations *de se*, that is, representations with content inherently *de se*, are essential to the generation or motivation of purposive behaviour, hence must be mentioned in any complete everyday explanation of it.[46]

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45 See Keller 2013, p. 658 and p. 672.

46 According to Cappelen and Dever, a being is conceivable, perhaps some kind of supremely potent if not necessarily omnipotent divinity, which can simply will states of affairs into existence—see Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 37. It would, for example, will that there be world peace and there would be world peace. They then claim that such a being would not require representation *de se*, which shows that C.1 is simply false or at best true only for agents such as we are, who can effect change in the world only on the basis of perceptual experience and through a spatiotemporally located, acting body. Whether such a being is really possible is debatable. More importantly, why should we think that capacity simply to will states of affairs into existence entailed no need for representation *de se*? Would this being not have to believe at *t* that *it** could bring about world peace *then** and desire at *t* that *it** bring about world peace *then**? In particular, would it not have to be able to know that *it** has brought about world peace *then**?

As one might also put it, representations *de se* mediate between representations as such on the one hand and purposive behaviour on other. Representation not *de se* only takes effect through representation that is.

Now C.1 is widely endorsed[47] and is standardly justified by the following consideration: when two agents A and B recognise that A is about to be attacked by a bear, they behave differently: A rolls up into a ball while B runs to get help.[48] Yet both agents may have all the same beliefs and desires with contents *anyone* can have as contents of belief and desire. For example, A and B may both believe that bears are an endangered species and may both desire that bears be protected. Indeed, A and B presumably both believe that *A* is about to be attacked by a bear and presumably both desire that *A* not be thus attacked. Following Herman Cappelen and Josh Dever,[49] let us call such sharable contents and the forms of representation of which they are contents *impersonal*. So A and B can have all the same *impersonal* representations yet behave differently. It would seem, then, that they must differ in respect of beliefs and desires *not* impersonal, hence with contents *personal* in the sense that only their subject can believe or desire them—this irrespective of how the subject is referred to in a perspicuous characterisation of said belief and desire as the subject thereof. Thus, character as personal entails character as *de se*: a subject $S^{\star}$ can only believe or desire what is believed or desired when S believes that *it** is about to be attacked by a bear and desires that *it** not be thus attacked if $S^{\star} = S$, this because the content of this belief and desire is such that the perspicuous characterisation of it requires reference to S merely in its capacity as subject of this belief and desire. Similarly, $S^{\star}$ can only have what is believed or desired when S believes that the person *it** is observing is

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47 The claim has been made initially and most influentially in Perry 1979 and Lewis 1979. Ever since then numerous authors, for example, McGinn 1983, Price 2007, Spencer 2007 and many others, have endorsed it simply on the strength of these two papers. Cappelen and Dever detail how widespread uncritical endorsement of the claim is—see Cappelen and Dever 2013, Ch. 1, § 3. Even so, acceptance is not universal: apart from Cappelen and Dever themselves, Millikan also rejects it—see Millikan 1990.

48 See Perry 1977, pp. 18-19/p. 494.

49 See Cappelen and Dever 2013, pp. 35-37.

about to be attacked by a bear and desires that this person *distinct from it** not be thus attacked if $S^{\star} = S$. So A and B must have some representations with contents *de se*.

C.1 is, however, also very quickly endorsed. The short argument just given is typically seen as sufficient, so much so, indeed, that it is often not presented in even this much detail. As Cappelen and Dever point out,[50] one relies primarily on the powerful examples presented particularly in Perry 1979, but also in Lewis 1979. Cappelen and Dever rightly object to this, for which reason Chapter One will elaborate the argument, precisely in order to prepare the ground for rebutting, in Chapter Two, their critique of this kind of argument.

Whereas the first corollary endorses mainstream philosophical opinion, the second diverges from it, this because it follows from component T.4 of the thesis of content inherently *de se*:

C.2: In no strong sense do representation and content *de se* implicate or entail the use, or the capacity for the use, of the first-person pronoun.

There is certainly a weak sense in which representation and content *de se* implicate the first-person pronoun: if S believes that it* is F, then, *should S be capable of using the first-person pronoun at all*, then S *can* use this pronoun in order to characterise its belief and the content thereof perspicuously. In other words, S can assert the sentence "I believe that I am F." Many, however, believe, or are committed to believing, that representation and content *de se* are first-personal in a sense stronger than this.[51]

This is shown by how many, even most, understand representation and content *de se* as implicating the first-person pronoun. The short argument just given is typically

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[50] C.1 "… is taken for granted to such an extent that it by now seems unnecessary to provide arguments for it—all one needs to do is include a footnote referring to Perry 1979 (or Lewis 1979) and that's supposed to settle it." (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 30) In both these papers the principal arguments are precisely examples.

[51] Note that one may *not* argue that Lewis *does not* believe this, for it is not clear what his position is. Moreover, adherents of the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception of content speak just as freely and exclusively of first-person and indexical thought, which they also just as readily characterise *oratio recta* rather *oratio obliqua*. So at most one may argue that they need not believe this.

presented and interpreted as showing that *first-personally indexical* belief and desire are essential to agency—this notwithstanding the fact that, as will be shown in Chapter One, the examples typically used to ground the claim show only that belief and desire *de se*, *whether characterised in first-personally indexical or third-personally anaphoric terms*, is essential. The penchant for such presentation and interpretation culminates in the explicit declaration that representation and content *de se* are themselves first-personally indexical even though the phrase '*de se*' itself is anaphorically third-personal. Going hand in hand with this is a tendency to characterise content *de se* by citing *oratio recta* a sentence in the first-person ('"I am F"') rather than by using *oratio obliqua* a sentence in the third-person ('it* is F').

These twin preferences are never explained. Indeed, only rarely is any strong sense in which representation *de se* is first-personally indexical clearly identified.[52] The best effort in this regard is Castañeda's doctrine of *quasi-indication*. According to Castañeda, the asterisked third-person pronoun has two roles: on the one hand, the *semantic* role of referring to the subject of the representation or locution it helps to characterise as the subject thereof; and, on the other, the *pragmatic* role of indicating

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[52] Recanati has attempted to spell just such a strong sense out—see Recanati 2007, pp. 13-14. There is much one could say about the argument he presents. The principal objection is, however, that it is at least possible and indeed plausible to interpret what he *calls* mental indexicality, i.e., indexical representational content, as not this at all. Recanati concludes that "(w)hether [a] subject speaks or merely thinks, in both cases it is possible for a single (linguistic or mental) vehicle to express distinct propositions in distinct contexts." (Recanati 2007, p. 14) But even if one accepts, as the thesis of content inherently *de se* does not and cannot, that there are mental vehicles of thought in the way there are vehicles of locution, namely, sentences, this is not, at least not without question-begging further assumption, a notion of indexicality. *Prima facie*, two subjects can locute and, let us allow, also think the 'vehicle' "John Perry is making a mess" while locuting or representing different contents, depending on whether the referent of the term 'John Perry' is the well-known philosopher or, say, the local green grocer. (The name is, after all, quite common.) The standard response to this would be to claim that in fact different 'vehicles' are involved—different in that they contain the different names 'John Perry_m' and 'John Perry_n', *m* and *n* being different natural numbers. In Chapter Seven, it is argued that this response not only distorts what one ordinarily means by a proper name, it is also incoherent—for which reason, of course, what one ordinarily means by a proper name is what a proper name is. But whether this critique of the standard response is correct or not, the very fact that one has to resort to the standard response in order to ensure that the same sentence which two subjects think is indexical shows that Recanati's claim to have uncovered an *indexicality* in and of content, mental or otherwise is question-begging. See also Appendix II to the Conclusion for a discussion of the implications of the thesis of content inherently *de se* for the notion of a 'vehicle' of *representational* content, specifically, for the LOT hypothesis.

that this subject is using, or is at least able to use, the first-person pronoun, not the least in self-ascription of representation and its content *de se* to itself*. Indeed, Castañeda describes the asterisked third-person pronoun as subject to a *pragmatic rule* which constitutes it as intimating the first-personally indexical character of representation and content *de se*.[53] He calls such intimation *quasi*-indication because it is the indication of an indication on the part of its referent. Consistent with this, he explicitly characterises it as the intimation of an *actual* use, or an *actual* capacity for the use, of the first-person pronoun.

Even Perry, who sees the looming danger of over-attributing so-called first-person thought, endorses this position: "(W)e ordinarily … take," he claims, the pronoun 'he' used as 'he*'

> to be what … Castañeda calls [a] quasi-indicator … . Used as a quasi-indicator, "he" performs two functions. First, like a pronoun, it picks up the reference to [the subject] *X*. But it also tells us how [*X*] thinks of *X*. "He" tells us *X* thinks of *X* as *himself*. He thinks of himself in the way that we think of ourselves when we use the word "I." (Perry 1980a, p.538/p. 51)

Note Perry's caution: he does not say that the pronoun 'he', when used as 'he*', tells us that *X* thinks of himself in the way ***X*** thinks of *himself* when ***X*** uses the word 'I'. Room is left for *X*'s being unable to use the word 'I' or any linguistic equivalent—in which case, however, it becomes extremely unclear what it could mean to describe *X*'s thinking as indexical, indeed first-personal.

If, however, the second corollary is true, then the problems deriving from such preferences and habits of speech simply disappear. For then no pragmatic function of quasi-indication attaches to the asterisked third-person pronoun; as will be elaborated in Chapter Four, 'he*' is not a quasi-indicator.[54] With this, one arrives at the third

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[53] See Castañeda 1998, p. 232.

[54] This is, of course, not to deny the phenomenon which leads Castañeda to speak of quasi-indication; rather, it is a call to understand the phenomenon properly. Castañeda's sentence "The Editor of *Soul* believes that he himself, i.e., he*, is a millionaire" certainly does indicate that the Editor of *Soul* is *actually* able to use (a sentence equivalent in meaning to) the first-personal sentence "I am a

corollary, which positively entails that the asterisked third-person pronoun is not a quasi-indicator:

C.3: Representation and content *de se* do not *eo ipso* implicate or entail self-consciousness.[55]

This, too, follows directly from T.4 and it may be read as asserting that representation *de se* is not *eo ipso de me*. Perhaps more than any other, corollary C.3 cuts against the grain so some elaboration of it is needed. Let us start with some independent, admittedly inconclusive motivation for it. Consider the following perceptual experience:

The small pug sees a large pit bull bearing aggressively down on it*

As in the case of agent A who believed that it* was about to be attacked by a bear, the asterisked third-person pronoun is essential. Yet it would not be merely implausible, it would be false to maintain that in thus perceiving, the small pug is *actually* aware of itself 'as itself', that is, aware of what is objectively itself in "the first-person way," etc. And it would be at least implausible to maintain that the pug is *able* to self-ascribe its perceptual experience, hence is aware itself 'as itself' merely in a capacity sense.

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millionaire" in a self-conscious assertion to the effect that he* is a millionaire. But it does so not *just* because it contains the expression 'he himself', i.e., 'he*', but because it *also* contains the expressions 'the Editor of *Soul*' and '… is a millionaire': only self-conscious beings can be editors and only self-conscious beings can be, at least typically, millionaires. So while the apposition of 'himself' to the third-person pronoun 'he' does mean that anyone who asserts this sentence literally intends to indicate both that the Editor of *Soul* is able to wield the first-person pronoun in an assertion of the content of his belief; and that the Editor of *Soul* is self-consciously aware of his* being a millionaire and is indeed self-conscious in general: this is simply a matter of emphasising or drawing attention to something implicit in the sentence "The Editor of *Soul* believes that he* is a millionaire" *taken as a whole*. As will be argued in Chapter Four, the appositively deployed reflexive pronoun 'himself' is not simply equivalent to Castañeda's asterisk.

55 This might seem counterintuitive: surely if, to use Castañeda's example, the Editor of *Soul* believes that he* is a millionaire, then he actually does know how to assert (a sentence equivalent in meaning to) the sentence "I am a millionaire" and he actually is self-consciously aware of the fact that he* is a millionaire. Yes, he does and yes, he is—not, however, *solely* because his belief is *de se* but because it also involves the properties of being an editor and being a millionaire, properties one can only bear, at least paradigmatically, if one is self-conscious and can wield the first-person pronoun. See in this connection footnote 54.

Thus, self-consciousness even in a mere capacity sense is not entailed, certainly not obviously or straightforwardly, simply by the character of a perceptual experience as *de se* in the minimal sense operative here, namely, having a content such that use of the asterisked third-person pronoun is required for perspicuous characterisation, such that the truth-conditions of content and its contribution to causal role are captured. To this extent and in this sense, being *de se* or having a content which is *de se* is *not* sufficient for a representation's either being itself or having as its content a so-called 'I'-thought, that is, a representation, more accurately, a content of representation, such that "the subject cannot but be aware that the thought refers to herself" (Musholt 2015, p. 63)[56]—refers to herself 'as herself', of course, which is in turn understood as thinking of herself in "the first-person way" or "the way that we think of ourselves when we use the word "I.""

Evidently, if while denying C.3 one is to accommodate the fact that the pug is undergoing an experience *de se* in the aforementioned minimal sense without thinking of itself 'as itself', one must bifurcate the *de se* in the minimal sense. In other words, one must admit two kinds of representation and content *de se* such that in only one of them the asterisked third-person pronoun (quasi-)indicates self-consciousness, this because only in this case does the pronoun reflect the presence of an element in content, hence capture the character of representation as explicit self-representation. Once he has recognised the inadequacy of his initial "obvious solution" (Perry 1979, p. 38/p. 16) to his problem of the essential indexical, Perry bifurcates in just this way and Musholt follows him.[57]

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[56] One should not talk blithely of reference, whether accidental or non-accidental, at the level of representation. Reference is, after all, something a subject does, in particular, in the performance of a speech act. Although such talk is often harmless, one should remember that it only is so if understood as a short way of saying that the representation at issue, more precisely, its content, is such that perspicuous characterisation of it involves reference to such and such. It is therefore potentially misleading to speak of a *content* as involving reference to anything at all. When S believes that *a* is F, desires that *a* be F or sees *a* standing in relation R to *b*, S refers to or thinks of *a* only in the sense that the contents at issue here require for their perspicuous characterisation reference to *a*.

[57] See Musholt 2015, pp. 57-61. Perry first bifurcates in Perry 1990—see footnote 32 above.

Note, however, that this bifurcation is driven by a deep-seated assumption, namely, that if the asterisked third-person pronoun marks an element in content, then this latter must be first-personal—first-personal in the sense that it constitutes the pronoun's referent as thinking of, indeed, as Musholt puts it, referring to, itself 'as itself', hence in "the way that we think of ourselves when we use the word "I."" The referent of the pronoun is thus thinking of, even referring to, itself in "the first-person way." *Some* representations and contents which qualify as *de se* in the minimal sense have an element in their content which, given the aforementioned assumption, cannot but be first-personal. So some representations and contents *de se* are also *de me*; they have, as one might put it, their perspicuous first-personal characterisation, hence attribution built into them. Consequently, not all representations and contents *de se* in the minimal sense can contain an element in content marked by the asterisked third-person pronoun.

Bifurcation of the class of representations *de se* into those which do and those which do not contain an element in their content creates, however, two problems. Firstly, one no longer has a unified account of representation and content *de se*. Secondly, one needs to know why *either* form of representation and content counts as *de* ***se*** at all. For it now seems that what makes the one form *de se* is quite different from what makes the other *de se*, which in turn makes it mysterious why in *any* of these cases the asterisked third-person pronoun should even be possible, much less necessary. Yet in some cases, ordinary, everyday language characterisation as *de se* in the minimal sense seems mandatory. Perhaps when a subject S perceives at a time *t* and a location *l* a tree, it is ultimately wrong to describe S as perceiving a tree *in front of it**. Perhaps in this kind of case S is more accurately characterised as perceiving at *t* and *l* a tree standing then and there, i.e., *then* and there**. The thesis of content inherently *de se* will eventually endorse this view of certain forms of perceptual experience, which clearly presupposes extension of the thesis to the *de nunc* and *de hic* in general. Even so, it is hard to deny that when S is characterised as perceiving,

say, a large truck hurtling dangerously towards it*, use of the asterisked third-person pronoun is entirely perspicuous, hence required.

The thesis of content inherently *de se* simply rejects the assumption that if the asterisked third-person pronoun marks an element in content, then this latter is such as to entail that its referent is referring to itself 'as itself', hence is actually or even merely potentially self-conscious and thinking of itself in "the first-person way," etc. It does so because, as Chapter Five will show, the notion of self-consciousness becomes incoherent when one makes this assumption. Chapter Five will then propose a hypothesis as to how one might account for self-consciousness while endorsing the thesis, hence rejecting the assumption. Meanwhile, Chapter Six will develop a critique of the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception of content which yields the elegant result that in the characterisations "S perceives a large truck hurtling dangerously towards it*" and "The small pug perceives a large pit bull charging aggressively towards it*," the asterisked third-person pronoun is functioning just as it does in the characterisation "The Editor of *Soul* believes that he* is a millionaire." In other words, a property-theoretic or propositionally functional construal of those forms of content *de se* which cannot be plausibly regarded as containing a *first-personal* element in content will be rejected. All this more than justifies the dual conclusion that the assumption is false and that the asterisked third-person pronoun always marks an element in content.

Of course, Musholt is not at all alone in assuming that if the asterisked third-person pronoun marks an element in content, then this latter must be first-personal. Frege assumes similarly when he speaks of an original way in which its referent is given to itself ('as itself'),[58] as does Castañeda when he speaks of an 'I'-guise. So, too, does Perry when he eventually turns to the notion of a self-notion, which is surely simply another name for Musholt's self-concept. Lastly, Soames makes the assumption when

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[58] See Frege 1918, p. 39.

he speaks of a subject's thinking "*of* [an object] *o in the first-person way*."[59] (King, Soames and Speaks 2014, pp. 111-112) And while Musholt and Perry recognise that this assumption forces one to bifurcate the notion of the *de se*, such recognition is not universal. Jaszczolt describes it *as a fact* that "(t)he essence of [the] *de se*," hence of all things *de se*, "is self-awareness, the epistemic concept of one's conscious access to oneself"[60] (Jaszczolt 2013, p. 82)—*actual* self-awareness.[61] Castañeda declares the asterisked third-person pronoun to be a pronoun *of self-consciousness*,[62] such that it *always* marks the fact that the subject is aware of the representation or locution it is used to characterise as *its**. It *always* intimates, as he puts it, that "ONE is conscious of ONEself *qua oneSELF*," or again, "that one thinks of ONEself as *oneSELF*." (Castañeda 1999b, p. 256 and p. 264) Members of the so-called Heidelberg School also appear to think similarly.[63] They all take, or at least in all consistency ought to take, the pronoun to intimate that its referent is *actually* thinking, or at least *actually* able to think, of itself '*as itself*'[64], which they all understand to consist in thinking some 'I'-thought, hence in being self-conscious.

Given how widespread such claims are, some account is owed of why they are so widespread. In particular, some explanation must be given of the assumption driving them, namely, that if the asterisked third-person pronoun marks an element in content, this latter can only be some first-personal item entailing self-consciousness. This will

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59 In a personal communication of October 8th, 2024, Markos Valaris has in effect argued that Evans constitutes, or at least could be read as constituting, an exception to this claim. Valaris's argument is discussed in the Appendix to the Introduction.

60 That the Editor of *Soul* believes that he* is a millionaire does, of course, implicate *actual* (capacity for) self-consciousness and (arguably therefore) also *actual* ability to wield the first-person pronoun, as when the Editor of *Soul* asserts the sentence, "I am a millionaire." But one can and, or so it is argued here, must construe this as a consequence of what the sentence means *as a whole*, not as an accomplishment solely of the asterisked third-person pronoun. See once again in this connection footnote 54.

61 And ultimately so, too, does Anscombe—see Anscombe 1975, p. 47. For according to her Castañeda's 'he*' presupposes 'I', which latter sets itself apart from her curious expression 'A' precisely through the character of its use as expressing self-consciousness.

62 See Castañeda 1966, pp. 36-41, and also Castañeda 1967a.

63 See Frank 2015, p. 129. Apart from Frank himself, other members include Dieter Henrich and Ulrich Pothast. Its founding text is Henrich 1967.

64 See Castañeda 1999b, p. 264f.

be provided in Chapter Four, through an examination of Castañeda's claim that literally all so-called "thinking reference" conforms to the general formula for reference "*X* thinks of *Y* as *Z*." (Castañeda 1999b, p. 258) When S *asserts* that the Morning Star is a planet, S *refers to* Venus *as* the Morning Star. Here, the phrase 'as the Morning Star' intimates that S is specifying the property of being identical with the Morning Star[65] as necessary and sufficient for being what S's assertion refers to. The passage just cited shows that Castañeda *extends* this, first to belief, then to representation in general: when S *believes* that the Morning Star is a planet, or *desires* that the Morning Star be a planet, S *refers to* or *thinks of* Venus as the Morning Star. So analogously, S's belief is such that the property of being identical with the Morning Star, as thus characterised by an attributor S✦ of the belief, is necessary and sufficient for being what S's belief or desire is about.

In Chapter Four it will first be argued that if one believes there to be reference in representation as in locution, then one is committed to the idea that reference is to be *explicated* in terms of Castañeda's 'as'-structure. It will then be argued that just this commitment yields the offending assumption, thereby making it necessary to bifurcate representation *de se*. The argument will not, of course, reject the general idea that what in *all* cases underpins and explains the asterisked third-person pronoun, hence also the *first-person* pronoun, is an element in content since this would constitute rejection of T.3. It will, however, reject the idea that this element in content is essentially first-personal, even in those cases in which the referent of the asterisked third-person pronoun actually is self-conscious. Evidently, this is to endorse T.4, which immediately raises the question of what it is be self-conscious. What is it either *actually* to think, or to be *actually* capable of thinking, whatever it is one is getting at

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65 In other words, it intimates that S *intends* that its* assertion possess the property of referring to something *x* if and only if *x* is (identical with) the Morning Star, hence *knows* that the property of which it* intends that it be a necessary and sufficient condition of (successful) reference is that of being (identical with) the Morning Star. See in this connection Chapter Seven, Section I, in particular, the discussion of how this kind of intention ensures that the identity conditions for senses are stricter than those for properties.

when one speaks of 'I'-thoughts? As indicated above, answering this question is the task of Chapter Five and it will do so by developing an account of self-consciousness which positively requires that character as *de se* not entail character as self-conscious or first-personal. What is *de se* is not *eo ipso de me*, in which case whatever character a representation *de se* has as self-conscious comes so to speak from outside.

The third corollary may therefore be put as follows: the asterisked third-person pronoun is not to be understood as itself (quasi-)indicating that its referent is thinking of itself 'as itself', not even in those higher-level cases to which Perry and Musholt restrict its ostensible quasi-indicatory function. So it denies that the asterisked third-person pronoun is, as Castañeda puts it, a pronoun of self-consciousness. This turns out to be a very good thing because the assumption that the pronoun itself intimates, at least in some cases, that its referent is thinking of itself 'as itself', hence is self-conscious, constitutes, as Chapter Five will also show, a bad response to what José Luis Bermúdez has called the paradox of self-consciousness.[66] One of the chief merits of the thesis of content inherently *de se* is that it dissipates the paradox, this because its component T.4 frees the asterisked third-person pronoun of any bond to self-consciousness, hence subordination to the first-person pronoun. In consequence, as Chapter Five will further show, it may be used, as Castañeda originally saw and Anscombe wrongly denied,[67] without circularity in an account of both.

As already indicated, Perry and Musholt claim that in some cases of representation characterisable as *de se*—perceptual experience, proprioception, possibly low-level perceptual belief and the representation of non- and pre-linguistic beings generally—the asterisked third-person pronoun does *not* reflect an element in content.[68] Rather,

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66 See Bermúdez 1998.

67 See Castañeda 1966, pp. 45-46, and Anscombe 1975, pp. 47-48. Bermúdez also denies this—see Bermúdez 1998, p. 14. Anscombe's claim and Bermúdez's elaboration of it will be discussed in Section IV of Chapter Five.

68 Since this, they believe, could only entail that the referent of the pronoun is thinking of itself 'as itself', in and through its self-notion or -concept.

content is, to put things roughly,[69] a propositional function, e.g., 'A tree standing in front of (*x*)', or, for current purposes equivalently, a property, that, namely, of a tree's standing in front of something. In the characterisation of perceptual experience, what explains the necessity or at least possibility of the asterisked third-person pronoun, hence character as *de se*, is representational *mode*, that is, the simple fact of being perceptual experience.[70] As also already indicated, this idea intersects with the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception of the *de se*.

Advocates of the latter could, however, in principle embrace both C.3 and indeed C.2, arguing that any putative connection of the asterisked third-person pronoun with self-consciousness is orthogonal to their concerns. The views of David Lewis illustrate this. True, his example of the two gods and the knowledge each lacks about who and where it* is certainly suggests that what each lacks is some self-conscious belief, i.e., a belief possessed self-consciously. Yet in this same paper he speaks about various forms of representation *de se* possessed by a cat which wants to find *itself** safely on the roof because it fears finding *itself** in the jaws of the dog. Of course, Lewis characterises these representations *de se* in terms of his favoured understanding of their content:

> The cat wants a class of centered worlds that are centered on a cat safely on a roof. He fears a class of centered worlds that are centered instead on a cat in the jaws of a dog. (Lewis 1979, p. 532)

Presumably, the cat does not believe, desire and fear self-consciously yet this does not entail, nor does Lewis take it to entail, the illegitimacy of characterisation in terms

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69 Musholt puts things in this rough fashion, that is, without making clear that in thus speaking one is no longer using the old notion of content according to which content is what is individuated by a 'that'-clause—see Musholt 2015, p. 100. Perry comes close to this in Perry 1986b, p. 178.

70 Perry's and Musholt's bifurcated treatment of the asterisked third-person pronoun as marking an element in content in some cases, cases, namely, of what Musholt calls explicit self-representation—see, e.g., Musholt 2015, p. 47—; and not doing so in others, cases, for example, of 'self-less' perceptual experience, leads them to say that the latter cases provide information *concerning* the perceiving subject but not *about*, hence not *referring to* it. At the same time, they do not deny that *we*, in our characterisation of such experience, must use the asterisked third-person pronoun.

quite literally *de se*. The cat's representations *de se* are on a par with those of the two gods as far as content is concerned, so Lewis can be read as not denying C.3. Whatever problems there are with the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception do not turn on denial of C.3. Chapter Six will show what these problems are.

Finally, let us recall that the thesis of content inherently *de se* is generically Fregean: it takes seriously Frege's idea that in order to explain why belief or assertion that Hesperus is a planet differs in causal role, hence content, from belief or assertion that Phosphorus is a planet even though Hesperus is Phosphorus, one must take the difference in content to be such that the singular terms required for perspicuous characterisation of content, viz., 'Hesperus' and 'Phosphorus', differ in *how* they refer, as used on the occasion, to what is objectively the same thing. Each has, as one standardly says, a different sense in virtue of which it has one and the same planet as its referent. Chapter Seven seeks to explain how, no less than the names 'Hesperus' and 'Phosphorus', the asterisked third-person pronoun can do this, i.e., possess in broadly Fregean manner a sense enabling it to refer. This discussion of how the asterisked third-person pronoun can possess sense in a manner comparable to proper names plays a crucial role in substantiating the thesis of content inherently *de se*. For it enables elaboration of a notion already acknowledged to be crucial throughout, that, namely, of an element in content. As we shall see, this elaboration has implications for a question much discussed of late, that, namely, of the unity of a proposition, i.e., a content.[71] This issue, as well as the deep question implicit in it concerning the nature of content itself, will be discussed in Chapter Eight. Then, in the Concluding Chapter, an admittedly hand-waving attempt will be made to explain why the general idea underlying the thesis has not so much been dismissed as never countenanced at all.

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[71] See, e.g., Hunter and Rattan 2013 and King, Soames and Speaks 2014.

Section III: The Nature and Significance of the Thesis of Content inherently *de se*

The thesis of content inherently *de se* is above all a claim about what certain kinds of content *are*. These contents—the contents one *calls de se*—literally and irreducibly *are de se*, hence not to be cashed as somehow 'really' *de me*, as they would be did they contain a distinctively *first-personal* element.[72] Yet they are *de se* in virtue of an element in content, an aspect or feature thereof which plays a functional role similar to, although of course not exactly the same as, that played by the elements marked either by names or by definite descriptions. Implicit in this claim is once again the broadly Fregean character of the thesis: it regards contents in general as items whose principle of unity is nothing other or more than contribution to truth value. Given this, contents are *intrinsically* truth-apt in the sense that, unlike set-theoretic or mereological unity, there can be no instances of their kind of unity which are not truth-apt, i.e., not contents. Consequently, the content individuated by the 'that'-clause in the sentence "Anscombe believes that Perry is making a mess" is what Frege would call the 'thought' that Perry is making a mess, no more, no less. The thesis extends this stance towards the 'that'-clauses in the sentences "I believe that I am making a mess" and "Perry believes that he* is making a mess." Both clauses pick out an *intrinsically* truth-apt content, indeed, the very same truth-apt content, and this content *just is* that he*, Perry, is making a mess.

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[72] One might argue that this claim constitutes a very specific, indeed maximalist conception of what counts as a first-personal element. It does indeed constitute such a maximalist conception but it does so because the insinuation that there is a less maximalist but still first-personal one is dubious. When Castañeda, Perry and others, e.g., Musholt, cash talk of ""representing oneself as oneself"" in terms of one's thinking of oneself in "the first-person way" (Castañeda 1987a, p. 150) or "in the way that we think of ourselves when we use the word "I"," (Perry 1980a, p.538/p. 51), they clearly mean the maximalist conception implied by their own remarks and in any case it is hard to see what else they could mean. If one wants to argue for there being some more minimal notion of a first-personal element in content, or, as Valaris has put it, a minimal self-notion, one must make clear what this less than fully first-personal but nonetheless still 'self-ish' notion is. It is not sufficient just to assert this as a possibility without explaining what it is. See the Appendix to the Introduction for a discussion of both Valaris's claim that one might read Evans as proposing such a minimal notion; and his suggestion as to how one might explain what it is.

Unsurprisingly, the broadly Fregean character of the thesis affects how it conceives not just the unity of but also the elements in content. The essence of a Fregean conception lies in the claim that in the content expressed by the sentence "*a* is F" one can discern aspects or features which play certain functional roles in shaping how, specifically, the whole is truth-apt, i.e., which determine that the whole is true if and only if such and such is the case. These elements cannot, therefore, be the entities referred to, the property or relation predicated, in the expression or individuation of the whole since these are not *able*, in and of themselves, to render any whole in which they are elements truth-apt. To this extent, then, the elements in content are items fitted out with those Fregean properties of completeness and incompleteness which make them able to be elements in truth-apt wholes. As we shall see in Chapter Seven, this entails that the elements in content are distinguishable *but inseparable* aspects or features of the whole to which they belong.[73] As we shall also see, this conception of them, which constitutes a commitment to what was called above, following Keller, primitivism about content,[74] requires one to make a distinction Frege fails to make clearly, a distinction, namely, between sense *qua* the referential and predicative properties *of expressions*, as determined by general linguistic meaning, particular context and speaker's intention, which enable the whole sentence to express or individuate a content; and sense *qua* element in a whole content and, of course, *qua* content itself.[75]

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[73] The thesis thus rejects whatever suggestion there is in Frege and other Fregeans that contents, as opposed to the sentences used in the expression or individuation thereof, contain elements which "can be … decomposed and recombined in new contexts." (Musholt 2015, p. 29) Contents, as opposed to what expresses or individuates them, are not assemblable and disassembable.

[74] See once again Keller 2013, p. 658.

[75] The meanings both of the English word 'sense' and of the German word 'Sinn' are such that what each connotes is always the sense *of something*, in particular, of a linguistic expression as used in such and such a context of locution. This suggests that one should distinguish between a) the general linguistic meaning of an expression; b) the sense it has, in part, of course, in virtue of its linguistic meaning, on the occasion of its use; and c) what is expressed on the occasion by the whole sentence used. One would then take the general linguistic meaning of the expression 'Perry' to be its character as a conventionally appointed device for referring to some individual in the manner of a proper name, specifically, individuals named 'Perry'. Meanwhile, the sense of this expression would be its character as referring, as used by, say, S on 07.07.79 in the supermarket in the intention of thus referring, to something *x* if and only if *x* is John Perry the philosopher, author

Yet as Chapter Eight will make clear, the thesis of content inherently *de se* rejects the Platonist spin Frege puts on the notions of content and the elements thereof when he declares them to reside in a third realm beyond space and time.[76] Rather, it seeks to be, as it were, Aristotelian: contents are only ever *in dicentibus vel cogitantibus*, not *ante dicentia et cogitantia*. *Locutionary* content is what a sentence 'says' in virtue of the general linguistic meaning of its components and as uttered with appropriate intentions in an appropriate social setting. And a locutionary content is an at least possible *illocutionary* content, that is, character as determining some state of the world, one independent of what one might, in the spirit of Searle, call satisfaction,[77] as a condition on satisfaction. The same can be said of *representational* content and this permits one to say that representations have content in the same sense as illocutions, hence locutions. In general, content is character as determining how the world must be, independently of satisfaction, if what has it as content, whether representation or illocution, is to be satisfied. Contents are thus nothing beyond their functional role of determining, in publicly, indeed ultimately universally accessible fashion, such standards of evaluation for what has them as its content. Precisely for this reason contents cannot but be truth-apt and indeed at least as a rule, evaluably so, since otherwise what had them as content could not stand under the rational control either of its own subject or of others.

No doubt this will not satisfy those who would only acknowledge 'abstract entities', if at all, of the kind one finds, for example, in set-theory or "a possible-

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of "Frege on Demonstratives," etc. Finally, because the expression has this sense on this occasion, it is able, in syntactical combination with the predicate expression '… is making a mess', to contribute to S's expressing the content that Perry is making a mess. (Grice makes at least similar distinctions in Grice 1968.) Note now that if one makes these distinctions, sense is not itself (part of) what is expressed but that in virtue of which an expression, in particular, a whole sentence, is able to express it. See Chapter Seven, Section I, for a response to the objection one might want to make at this point concerning how the expression 'Perry' is handled. According to this objection the expression 'Perry' in fact abbreviates multiple names 'Perry_n', each referring to the *n*-th Perry in an enumeration of all the Perrys.

76 See Frege 1918/1976, p. 43.

77 See Searle 1979 and 1983, esp. Ch. 1.

worlds framework."[78] (Perry 1979, p. 35/p. 13) It cannot be, however, a primary task here to show that views which dispense with the notion of sense are wrong-headed. In any case, that they are wrong-headed is by no means a novel conviction. In addition, the argument given in Chapter Six against the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception of content; the argument given in Chapter Seven against set-theoretic and mereological conceptions of the unity of content; and, lastly, the account of the functional role of content given in Chapter Eight: provide indirect support for a conception of content Fregean at least to the extent that it requires a notion of sense.

What, however, is the significance of the thesis of content inherently *de se*? It has at least four implications. Firstly, if it is true, then a whole series of termini regularly deployed in the literature fall by the wayside: 'original modes of givenness to oneself', presumably as oneself*, ''I'-guises', ''I'-ideas', 'self-concepts', 'self-notions' and 'thinkings of oneself as oneself*'. All these are labels deployed by diverse authors across diverse texts for the ostensibly *first-personal* elements in content expressed in different ways by the first-person and asterisked third-person pronoun. As already intimated, Chapter Five will argue that the very idea of *first-personal* elements in content is incoherent. The Concluding Chapter will reinforce this conclusion by exposing the oxymoron implicit most evidently in talk of self-*concepts* and self-*notions*, but in fact also, when one takes literally what can be meant by the terms 'mode', 'guise' or 'idea', in talk of first-personal modes of givenness, 'I'-guises and 'I'-ideas.

Secondly, if the thesis is true, then a language capable of expressing, hence individuating all kinds of content, must *primitively* contain some device or technique for accomplishing the (S)-use. This kind of reference must occur as primitive alongside, hence not be assimilated to, the kinds of reference accomplished by

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[78] Which framework intersects, of course, with set-theory inasmuch as it appeals to the notion of a set.

indexicals, definite descriptions, variables[79] and proper names. The thesis thus takes seriously, indeed more seriously than Castañeda himself,[80] the latter's claim "that the S-uses of 'he' constitute the employment of a *unique logical* category, which is not analyzable in terms of any other type of referring mechanism (i.e., the other uses of 'he', other personal pronouns, proper names, demonstratives, and definite descriptions)." (Castañeda 1966, p. 35) To the extent that formal semantics and model theory *de facto* assume otherwise, or simply ignore this primitiveness, they are deficient.

Thirdly, the thesis of content inherently *de se* itself intimates the need to extend it by acknowledging, alongside asterisked third-person pronouns which accomplish the (S)-use, asterisked adverbs of time and place. As Musholt points out (Musholt 2013, p. 79f.), it is phenomenologically plausible to maintain that when a subject S sees a tree standing in front of what is objectively it, S, the content of its perceptual experience involves no element such that the perspicuous linguistic characterisation thereof were a reference to S. Rather, it is more phenomenologically accurate to say that in the case envisaged, S sees at some *t* and *l* a tree standing then* and there*, which content S could explicate, on the basis of its experience, as the tree's standing at some remove (*Entfernung*) from it* within the location it* shares with the tree[81]—within their common 'here', as it were. In the perspicuous characterisation of this

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79 The inclusion of variables in this list implies commitment to the claim that the asterisked third-person pronoun is *not* a variable, not even when the subject term to which it is linked is a quantified variable, as in "There is someone who believes that he* is a millionaire," which clearly expresses an inferential consequence of what is expressed by "The Editor of *Soul* believes that he* is a millionaire." This contradicts Castañeda's claim that while 'he*' as used in the latter sentence is *not* functioning as a variable, i.e., is not, as Castañeda puts it, "an instance of use (C)," it plays this role in the former. In other words, according to Castañeda, the asterisked third-person pronoun "can *also* be an instance of use (C). It plays this role in "Someone thinks that he* is a genius." (Castañeda 1966, p. 38) The claim that the asterisked third-person pronoun is at least sometimes a variable will be discussed and rejected in Appendix II to Chapter Seven.

80 See footnote 79 for an explanation of why the thesis takes Castañeda's claim more seriously than he himself.

81 What this remove is, i.e., how far from it*, S, the tree is, is intimated in the *non-conceptual,* indeed *anschaulichen* character of S's perceptual experience. Note that to claim this is not *eo ipso* to deny that S's experience possesses a core conceptual character, precisely that which legitimates characterisation of it as a perceiving by S at *t* and *l* of a tree standing then* and (at some remove from S within) there*. See in this connection Christensen 2000 and 2008.

particular perceptual experience, no reference to S, not even one involving the asterisked third-person pronoun, is involved because the reference required is that accomplished by asterisked adverbs. Of course, S no doubt forms, presumably at *t* and *l*, the belief that a tree is standing in front of it* (then* and there*), on the basis of its perceptual experience but the latter is not a matter of S's seeing this.

At the same time, caution is needed, a caution which the thesis is able to display. When a subject S sees at *t* and *l*, *l* being the road S is jay-walking across, a large truck hurtling towards it*, the causal role S's perceptual experience possesses in virtue of its content is only captured if one captures the directionality of the truck's travel towards S *as it is represented in S's perceptual experience*, namely, as hurtling towards *it**. This case shows that the asterisked third-person pronoun is sometimes required. Furthermore, in so doing, it also shows that there being in S's perception no perception of S itself does not, indeed cannot rule out reference to S in the perspicuous characterisation of S's perception—reference which can only be an (S)-use. The thesis thus permits one to avoid having to make such dubious claims as that S perceives a tree merely standing in front or that S perceives a large truck merely hurtling towards. In addition, it permits one to explain what is right, but also what is wrong, in claims that in perceiving, the subject S does not perceive itself. There are more things referred to in (the perspicuous characterisation of) perceptual experience than what is perceived—in the examples, the tree and the truck. All in all, when extended to include content *de nunc* and content *de hic* alongside content *de se*, the thesis permits one both to avoid relational contents with missing relata—S's perceiving merely a tree standing in front or a truck hurtling towards—; and to accommodate a crucial point made in Chapter Six against the property-theoretic or propositionally functional interpretation of content, namely, that the asterisked third-person pronoun simply must be taken as reflecting an element in content.

Fourthly, the thesis of content inherently *de se* entails what one might call, in a manner derived from Evans, the idea of *subject*-dependent thought. Such subject-

dependence has a number of advantages over Evansian *object*-dependence. Let us assume that S believes that it* is F. Then the content individuated by the 'that'-clause 'that it* is F' is dependent for its identity, hence existence on that of the subject S, just as according to Evans the content of a so-called demonstrative thought about an object *o* is dependent for its identity, hence existence on that of *o*. Similarly, once the thesis of content inherently *de se* has been augmented by the admission of content *de nunc* and *de hic*, hence of asterisked adverbs of time and place, when S believes at *t* and *l* that a tree is standing then* and there*, the content individuated by the 'that'-clause 'that a tree is standing then* and there*' presupposes *immediately* the existence of the spatio-temporal point <*t*, *l*>; and *mediately* the existence of S itself since the character of the spatio-temporal position of the tree as then*, *t*, and (at some remove within) there*, *l*, presupposes the character of <*t*, *l*> as what S would know, assuming it has the capacity for such knowledge, as where it* then* is—as its* 'here and now'. In this sense, the identity, hence existence, both of content *de se* and of content *de nunc* and *de hic*, presupposes that of the entire context of representation or locution <S, *t*, *l*>.

If, however, this is so, then a self-conscious subject S can only claim to know that what it* represents or locutes then* and there* is that a tree is standing then* and (at-a-distance-from-it*-within-)there*, that a large truck is hurtling (at-a-distance-from-it*-)towards it* or even simply that it* is F, etc., insofar as it can claim to know what its* context of representation or locution is, hence what the relevant items therein are. In this sense, the appositions in such nominal phrases as 'here, in this garden, the garden I am now standing in', 'here, on this road, the road I am now jay-walking on', 'now, this morning', even, 'I, René Descartes, now here in Paris in 1637', etc. are essential—essential in that while it is possible for Descartes to wonder in Paris in 1637 whether he* is Descartes in Paris in 1637, he can only do so on the basis of an open-ended understanding of who, what, when and where he*, the subject currently wondering whether he* is Descartes in Paris in 1637, is, an understanding which constitutes the basis upon which he can individuate specific contents, in particular,

contents *de se* and, for that matter, *de nunc* and *de hic*, as believed by him*. Thus, even Rudolf Lingens,[82] after Perry has, at some *t* and *l*, inflicted radical amnesia upon him,[83] must still believe at *t* and *l* such things as that he* is then* and there* in a library, presumably having just then* come in through the door to his* left behind him*, standing then* and there* just across from a closed window towards he* is facing, to which he* could move in order to open it up, thereby letting in some fresh air, that he* is then* and there* surrounded by diverse books on shelves whose titles he* can read,[84] etc.

Much in this open-ended (putative) self-understanding can, of course, be wrong. Perhaps the subject wondering then* and there* whether he* is Descartes living in 1637 in Paris and working on a discourse on method, etc., errs in much of this. The example of Lingens intimates, however, that this self-understanding must possess, indeed be built up around, a kernel of truth. It is, after all, not primarily an *actual* indefinite totality of claims or beliefs but rather primarily an ability to generate indefinitely such claims, i.e., either literally or mentally to assert such and such about who, what, when and where one* is, an ability which therefore must be grounded in a core. And this core is ultimately perceptual awareness of, indeed belief about, one*'s current and, in particular, perceptually mediated situation—a core of perceptual awareness which is veridical, such that belief immediately arising from it is *knowledge*.[85] At the core of such self-understanding lies belief about (what one could

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82 See https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Rudolf_Lingens.

83 See Perry 1977, p. 17/p. 492.

84 Perry does not specify whether Lingens has lost the ability to read and presumably he has no more lost this ability than he has lost the ability to walk around and wonder where and, in particular, who he* is.

85 This claim raises questions which cannot be addressed here: What about AI systems without mechanisms for perceptual input? And what about spatially scattered beings, e.g. an AI system which operates across widely distributed servers? Finally, what about the kind of being Descartes would be more interested in, viz., God and our immortal souls? Does not the view just sketched, while perhaps plausible in the ordinary human case, exclude these other beings, hence count as illegimately 'chauvinistic'? The view is indeed at least superficially chauvinistic: it entails that what lacks perceptual mechanisms and a spatiotemporal body *qua* origin of purposive behaviour in space and time does not count as Dasein, hence self-conscious. Would, however, an AI system to which one merely *tacked on* some ostensibly perceptual mechanism, e.g., a camera which enabled it to register what is going on around it, render it Dasein? Nothing said thus far rules this out, at least not

term) one*'s immediate situation, in which one is not merely objectively embedded but knows oneself* to be embedded. However many of the beliefs causally grounded in it are stripped away, this perceptually-grounded belief always remains knowledge—knowledge that one* is then* and there* *in the world*,[86] perceiving, or at least seeming to perceive, such and such. In other words, one possess a core of perceptually immediate *knowledge* to the effect that one* exists an indefinite, open-ended spatio-temporal totality of entities in which one* is placed by one*'s context of perceptual experience, entities with histories of their own of which one* claims to know, in some but not all cases, something and which one* can, to one degree or another, affect and be oneself* affected by. Crucially, it is a totality which contains at least the place at which what one at least seems to perceive, say, a dagger hovering then* and there* before one*, would be, a place to which one stands in kinaesthetically regulatable spatial relation.

Evidently, this entails that in situations of truly *total* sensory deprivation awareness of one's representations and the contents thereof as one*'s own would collapse since one's core understanding of oneself* as then* and there* in the world, (putatively) perceiving such and such then* at some remove within one*'s shared there* of causal interaction, would be absent. *If*, therefore, in the case imagined by Anscombe,[87] the

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straightforwardly. Yet the claim is gesturing towards a more profound chauvinism, the possibility, namely, that not just *self-conscious awareness* of representation and the like *as one*'s own* but that *representation itself* entails perceptual experience centred in and regulative of a spatiotemporal body *qua* origin of purposive behaviour. In other words, it is hinting at the (Romantic?) idea that thinking, perceiving, purposively behaving and, for that matter, imagining are inseparable aspects of subjectivity, whether self-conscious or not. This admittedly leaves AI systems of any standard kind, as well as God and our immortal souls, out in the cold. It need not, of course, rule out spatially scattered subjects in some sense of the term, provided only that the spatially scattered parts of such subjects displayed organic unity, i.e., were in some sense organs.

86 This is knowledge one would express by means of the sentence "I am here and now *in the world*—this whoever I am, whenever I am and wherever I am." Note that the characterisation of this knowledge *oratio obliqua* by means of the sentence "S knows at t and l in the world (or, if one likes, in the actual world W_{ACTUAL}) that it* is then* and there* in the world (in w*)" explains why one knows this contingent truth *a priori*. For if S self-ascribes the belief which constitutes this knowledge, S knows at t and l in the world (or in the actual world W_{ACTUAL}) that there is, objectively speaking, some subject $S^{\blacklozenge}$, some $t^{\blacklozenge}$ and some $l^{\blacklozenge}$ in the world (in W_{ACTUAL}) such that $S^{\blacklozenge}$ is at $t^{\blacklozenge}$ and $l^{\blacklozenge}$ and $S^{\blacklozenge}$ is it*, $t^{\blacklozenge}$ is then* and $l^{\blacklozenge}$ is there* in the world (in w*).

87 See Anscombe 1975, p. 57.

sensory deprivation is truly total—it is not clear from the example that it is—, then it would *not* be possible for the subject to wonder what was going on and to hope that, whatever it is, it will soon be over. In fact, the situation in which the self-conscious subject found itself would be somewhat comparable to sleep. Sleep is, of course, not a condition of *total* sensory deprivation. Moreover, what Anscombe understands by sensory deprivation is not a condition in which sensory mechanisms are themselves shut down but rather one in which they are so to speak neutralised. The end result is, however, similar: absence of organised and ongoing perceiving-and-effecting-and-being-affected-across-time-in-a-location.

Now in sleep, one can certainly *dream* that one is perceiving at some *t* and *l* such and such then* at some remove within one*'s shared there* of causal interaction. Yet no one would say that one is really doing so. Crucially, the same applies to the self-ascription of representation, illocution and locution, hence to that in which such self-ascription is grounded: one's understanding of oneself* as then* and there* in the world, (putatively) perceiving such and such then* at some remove within one*'s shared there* of causal interaction. One can, of course, *dream* that one is ascribing such and such representations, illocutions or locutions on the basis of existence in the world. But here, too, one is not really doing so. The same would be true insofar as an approximately similar situation resulted from Anscombian sensory deprivation.

This character of *any* subject of representation as perceiving at some *t* and *l* such and such then* and at some remove within a shared there* of causal interaction, more precisely put, this character of any *distinctively self-conscious* subject of representation as *understanding itself* to be* such, will be encountered again, as something implicit in the refutation undertaken in Section II of Chapter Two of the attack launched by Cappelen and Dever on what they argue to be the inessential indexical.[88] Importantly, it lies at the heart of what Heidegger means when he speaks

[88] See Cappelen and Dever 2013, esp. Ch. 3.

of such a subject, i.e., of *Dasein*, as an entity "which in its Being"—what it is—"comports itself [*sich ... verhält*] understandingly towards this Being." (Heidegger 1979, § 12, pp. 52-53; my translation) For in order to qualify as Dasein in this sense, a subject must also be comporting itself towards *entities* (*Seiendes*) within the world. Just this is the character of any self-conscious subject of representation as existing in the world, therein perceiving at some *t* and *l* (and, of course, acting with regard to) such and such then* and at some remove within a shared there* of causal interaction.

Its four implications show that the thesis of content inherently *de se* is indeed significant. It is thus asserting much more than that (i) some contents are only perspicuously characterisable, hence ascribable, by means of either the first-person or the asterisked third-person pronoun; that (ii) the (S)-use of the third-person pronoun is essential and neither needs to, nor indeed can be, explicated by appeal to that of the first-person pronoun; and that therefore (iii) attributions of representation, locution and content *de se* by means of the asterisked third-person pronoun can stand on their own two feet. In particular, its generic Fregeanism shows that the thesis speaks to the nature of the *de se* itself, not simply to our practices of attributing and individuating the latter. It does so, of course, only within the parameters set by its generic Fregeanism. And any recognisably Fregean position must endorse the idea that something called sense accounts for the reference of all referring expressions, up to and including the asterisked third-person pronoun. Precisely for this reason, Chapter Seven will seek to explain how, that is, in what way, an (S)-used third-person pronoun possesses sense.

These considerations intimate the proper response to a worry one might have at this point: even if, one might ask, (i), (ii) and (iii) above are true, how does this have any bearing on what the *de se* itself is? There is clearly something distinctive about Perry which makes it right to describe him as believing that he* is making a mess, as opposed to believing, say, that Perry is making a mess. Yet surely use of 'he*' rather than any other co-referential term in the 'that'-clause merely *marks* this difference, it

does not explain it. Whereas we want to know what it is about Perry's belief that makes it correct to use either the asterisked third-person pronoun in *other*-attribution; or the first-person pronoun in *self*-attribution. Does the thesis of content inherently *de se*, as delineated by the claims T.1 through to T.4 and as elaborated in terms of the corollaries C.1 to C.3, really address this decisive question?

Perhaps concern that it does not arises because of a certain spin put on a claim certainly made by the thesis, namely, that a representation *R* had or undergone by a subject S has a content *de se* just in case the content of *R* is such that perspicuous characterisation of *R* and its content by a subject S✦ requires use of the asterisked third-person pronoun. This spin consists in the assumption that this claim is, indeed can only be, one about the *meaning* of such noun phrases as 'representation *de se* and 'content *de se*'. In other words, one is tacitly assuming that the claim can only speak to the nature of content itself, as opposed to merely our practices of characterising and attributing content, if understood as entailing that these noun phrases *mean the same as*, respectively, 'representation only perspicuously characterisable, hence attributable, by means of the asterisked third-person pronoun' and 'content only perspicuously individuatable by a 'that'-clause containing the asterisked third-person pronoun.' If, however, this is so, then the thesis only speaks to the nature of the *de se* by so to speak operationalising it: to be *de se just is* to be treatable by us in such and such a way when characterising and attributing it.

That, however, this and similar kinds of claim made by the thesis must be understood in any such operationalist fashion is false. The claim is perfectly consistent with the idea that representations and, for that matter, illocutions, hence locutions, can have their contents, whatever these might be, quite independently of any means of characterising, hence ascribing or attributing them. In particular, it is consistent with the idea that something's independently having content *de se explains* why perspicuous characterisation, hence ascription or attribution of it, as well as perspicuous individuation of its content in a 'that'-clause, requires use of the

asterisked third-person pronoun. The question as to what the *de se is*, in and of itself, is indeed the decisive one. Yet this question one can only answer on the basis of how one thinks about contents generally. And here it must be emphasised once again that the thesis of content inherently *de se* thinks about content *generally* in broadly Fregean terms. Content generally, hence content *de se* specifically, is neither an ordered *n*-tuple of referents and a property or relation predicated, i.e., a Russellian proposition, nor a set of possible worlds, centred or otherwise, in which such and such is the case. Contents generally are akin to what the historical Frege understood by 'thoughts' even if, as Chapter Eight will argue, they do not exist in a third realm beyond space and time. Moreover, as Chapter Seven will argue, contents specifically *de se* are akin to certain contents not *de se*, those, namely, expressed by sentences of the form "*a* is F," in which '*a*' is a proper name (*Eigenname*) or, more formally put, a logical constant.[89] Frege held that the content expressed by S's locution of the sentence "*a* is F" and individuated by a 'that'-clause containing the sentence "*a* is F" is the 'thought' that *a* is F. The thesis of content inherently *de se* thinks similarly: it holds that the content expressed by S's locution of the sentence "I am F" and individuated by a 'that'-clause containing *either* the sentence "I am F" (as wielded by S itself) *or* the sentence 'it* is F' (as wielded by a subject S✦) is the 'thought' that it*, S, is F. It does not, of course, think identically since it rejects Frege's Platonistic construal of 'thoughts' in general. It insists, however, that there is S's 'thought' that it* is F, just as it insists that there is S's 'thought' that *a* is F.

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[89] This intimates an elegant way of putting the general thrust of the thesis of content inherently *de se*: when setting up a formal language, one either lists all the types of expression belonging to the language or, in the case of logical constants, perhaps provides some general principle for generating them, e.g., being a small-case letter of the Latin alphabet with a subscripted numeral. The thesis of content inherently *de se* insists that insofar as the language purports to contain means for expressing and individuating all contents in publicly accessible fashion, it must contain some device equivalent to the asterisked third-person pronoun.

CHAPTER ONE

Perry on the Essential Indexical—A Reconstruction (Part I)

The point of departure for elaborating and justifying the thesis of content inherently *de se* must be its first corollary since whatever one means by such content, the presumed truth of this corollary drives talk of it:

C.1: Representations *de se*, that is, representations with content inherently *de se*, are essential to the generation or motivation of purposive behaviour, hence must be mentioned in any complete everyday explanation of it.

C.1 is widely endorsed, typically, however, in a form rather different from that given it here. For usually it is understood as the claim that certain kinds of *inherently indexical* representation are essential for the generation and everyday explanation of purposive behaviour. Two papers are primarily responsible for such widespread endorsement of the claim: John Perry's "The Problem of the Essential Indexical" and David Lewis's "Attitudes *De Dicto* and *De Se*,"[1] both published in 1979. Perry's paper in particular has been decisive since it contains the examples to which one often appeals when justifying what is in effect C.1.

One may well ask what exactly is meant when certain representations are described as indexical. Representations can, of course, be indexical in the sense of possessing contents such that their subject, should it be able and willing to do so, can use indexical expressions *oratio obliqua* in order to characterise these contents perspicuously. But this sense is uncontentious in the sense that all hands, no matter how they conceive content more specifically, can agree on it. Those, however, who endorse C.1 (in whatever specific form in which they endorse it) maintain that it creates problems precisely for certain conceptions of content, in particular, a Fregean one.[2] So a stronger sense is intended in which certain representational contents, hence

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1 Section XI of Lewis's paper contains what is in effect his argument for C.1, couched, of course, in his preferred terminology.

2 Perry 1979 builds directly on Perry 1977, in which problems specifically for Frege's conception of content are raised.

representations with such contents, can be indexical. As we shall see in Chapter Three, just such a stronger sense is implicit in Perry's initial attempt first to elaborate, then to resolve, the problem uncovered in Perry 1979. For the moment, however, let us not focus on the question of what exactly an indexical representation is, but rather simply on how Perry's paper has secured widespread agreement for what is in effect the first corollary of the thesis of content inherently *de se*. This it has done, not through explicit argument, but through persuasive interpretation of graphic examples.

Section I: The Founding Examples

Perry's paper opens with the following example:

> I once followed a trail of sugar on a supermarket floor, pushing my cart down the aisle on one side of a tall counter and back the aisle on the other, seeking the shopper with the torn sack to tell him he was making a mess. With each trip around the counter, the trail became thicker. But I seemed unable to catch up. Finally it dawned on me. I was the shopper I was trying to catch.
>
> I believed at the outset that the shopper with a torn sack was making a mess. And I was right. But I did not believe that I was making a mess. That seems to be something I came to believe. And when I came to believe that, I stopped following the trail around the counter, and rearranged the torn sack in my cart. My change in beliefs seems to explain my change in behavior. My aim in this paper is to make a key point about the characterization of this change, and of beliefs in general.
>
> At first characterizing the change seems easy. My beliefs changed, didn't they, in that I came to have a new one, namely, *that I am making a mess*? But things are not so simple.
>
> The reason they are not is the importance of the word "I" in my expression of what I came to believe. When we replace it with other designations of me, we no longer have an explanation of my behavior and so, it seems, no longer an attribution of the same belief. It seems to be an essential indexical. (Perry 1979, p. 27/p. 3)

Perry's example and the observation about the first-person pronoun he bases on it are evidently intended to make the general point that a certain kind of belief is essential if

purposive behaviour and its full everyday explanation are to be possible. At least some of the beliefs, more generally, at least some of the representations driving *any* instance of purposive behaviour *must* be 'indexical' at least in the sense that a perspicuous characterisation of their content by their subject will typically[3] involve use of indexical singular terms. Consequently, any complete everyday explanation of such behaviour *by its own subject* will as a rule employ such terms.

One might well ask how a mere example can demonstrate this general point. Herman Cappelen and Josh Dever, who are highly critical of the whole tradition deriving from Perry's and Lewis's papers, claim that it cannot.[4] No doubt belief indexical, indeed, first-personal in the sense indicated plays *in this particular case* a role in the generation of behaviour. So no doubt *in this particular case* it must be mentioned in any adequate explanation of behaviour. But, they ask, how can this one case show such belief to be required in all cases? In fact, the only truly general lesson taught by the example is, they claim, is a very familiar one: failure of substitutivity for co-referential singular terms in intensional contexts. One may certainly concede that some of the representations causally implicated in Perry's behaviour are such that Perry himself would typically use indexical terms to characterise them. So in this sense at least some of these representations are indexical. But this does not reveal any

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[3] Why, one might ask, the adverb 'typically'? Perry could, as he himself points out, have chosen to speak more or less "in the manner of de Gaulle" (Perry 1979, p. 28/p. 5). That is, he could have chosen to characterise his belief and the content thereof using the third-personal sentence "Perry believes that he is making mess," in which the pronoun 'he' is anaphorically linked to the subject-term 'Perry' in order to refer to Perry simply in his capacity as subject, in which case the pronoun deserves Castañeda's asterisk. Had, however, Perry thus chosen, he would still have expressed his belief and its content perspicuously since, by definition, a perspicuous characterisation captures the contribution of content to potential causal role and anaphorically third-personal characterisation does this perfectly well. It is possible, of course, that another might be misled by the anaphorically third-personal mode of characterisation in a way he or she would not be by the indexically first-personal mode. But this is neither here nor there. One can, after all, easily imagine circumstances under which the potential to mislead in this regard is reversed. The sentence "I believe that I am making a mess," as asserted by Perry, expresses nothing more (or less) about Perry's belief than does the sentence "Perry believes that he* is making mess." Of course, the former sentence tells us that the subject characterising belief is the subject whose belief is characterised while the latter sentence does not. But this is feature of the *characterisation* of belief, not of the belief itself. And only in this sense does the former 'say more' than the latter. In any case, in its own way the latter itself 'says more' than the former: it tells us that the subject whose belief is characterised is Perry.

[4] See Cappelen and Dever 2013.

necessity to representations indexical even in this weak sense. Indexical terms are, after all, simply particular kinds of singular term. As such, they will participate in the logical behaviour displayed by singular terms as such, to which belongs the aforementioned failure of substitutivity. And they only participate in this behaviour because they are singular terms, not because they are indexical. So according to Cappelen and Dever, Perry's example legitimates merely the following two claims: (1) *in this particular case* belief indexical, indeed first-personal, in the weak and uncontentious sense is causally implicated; and (2) this belief, like all belief, is such that one cannot replace *salva veritate*, hence *salva explanatione*, the singular terms used in perspicuous characterisation of it by other singular terms merely co-referential with them.

Clearly, Perry intends more than these two claims and certainly he has been read as intending more. More than an example is therefore needed if more interesting claims are to be motivated. *If* so-called indexical belief and representation generally, whatever it is precisely, is essentially implicated in the generation of *all* purposive behaviour,[5] such that it must be mentioned in a truly complete everyday explanation of *all* such behaviour, then one must be able to *show* that it is. The example must therefore point, and be understood as pointing, to an argument constructible out of it. So let us now, with a view to constructing just such an argument, examine Perry's example and his whole paper more closely.

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[5] At least of the kind we finite human subjects can engage in. This qualification is necessary in order to sidestep the argument presented by Cappelen and Dever, already discussed in footnote 46 of the Introduction, according to which "there could be a god … who can bring about states of the world just by intending them or maybe just thinking them. The god thinks, "The door is closed," and straightaway the door is closed." (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 37) Such a being would, they claim, be able to act to bring about states of affairs without any mediation by beliefs or desires *de se*. This is highly debatable: surely such a being would have to believe that if it* intends or thinks that *p*, then it* can make it the case that *p*. In order, however, not to get bogged down in speculative theology, let us simply restrict the class of agents of concern here to those such as we are, who can only effect changes in the world through the perceptually mediated action of their spatiotemporally located bodies.

Perry's characterisation of the crucial belief that he, i.e., *he**,[6] is making a mess as indexical rather than first-personal shows that what he is interested in is indeed indexicality, not first-personality. It is thus not surprising that he should now go on to adduce further examples in which the beliefs involved, while still indexical, are not first-personal. In these examples, too, the beliefs at issue are indexical in at least the uncontroversial sense that any truly perspicuous characterisation of them by their subject requires the use of indexical singular terms—in these cases, demonstrative adverbs of time and place.[7] In the first of these further examples,

> ... a professor, who desires to attend the department meeting on time, and believes correctly that it begins at noon, sits motionless in his office at that time. Suddenly he begins to move. What explains his action? A change in belief. He believed all along that the department meeting starts at noon; he came to believe, as he would have put it, that it starts *now*.

In the second,

> (t)he author of the book, *Hiker's Guide to the Desolation Wilderness*, stands in the wilderness beside Gilmore Lake, looking at the Mt. Tallac trail as it leaves the lake and climbs the mountain. He desires to leave the wilderness. He believes that the best way out from Gilmore Lake is to follow the Mt. Tallac trail up the mountain to Cathedral Peaks trail, on to the Floating Island trail, emerging at Spring Creek Tract Road. But he does not move. He is lost. He is not sure whether he is standing beside Gilmore Lake, looking at Mt. Tallac, or beside Clyde Lake looking at Jack's peak, or beside Eagle Lake looking at one of the Maggie peaks. Then he begins to move along the Mt. Tallac trail. If asked, he would have explained the crucial change in his beliefs this way: "I came to believe that *this* is the Mt. Tallac trail and *that* is Gilmore Lake."

Perry now observes that in these further cases as in the first

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6 Henceforth we shall deploy Castañeda's asterisk universally and, in particular, extend it to adverbs of time and place when these are deployed anaphorically within intensional contexts to refer to the time and/or place of representation or locution (as the time and/or place of representation or locution).

7 Of course, a perspicuous characterisation of such representation by a subject which does not identify with the subject thereof could use indexical singular terms *oratio recta*, i.e., *mention* or *cite* them.

> the subjects in explaining their actions would [at least typically] use indexicals to characterize certain beliefs they came to have. These indexicals are [similarly] essential, in that replacement of them by other terms destroys the force of the explanation, or at least requires certain assumptions to be made to preserve it. (Perry 1979, p. 28/p. 4)

So according to Perry demonstrative, hence indexical adverbs of time and place, such as 'now', 'here' and 'there', are essential in just the same sense and for the same reason as the first-person pronoun. All these indexicals are essential in that they would typically be used by an agent in order to characterise perspicuously certain kinds of belief and representation generally without which it would not be able to engage in rationally motivated purposive behaviour. Since some of the beliefs and other representations driving behaviour may well be perspicuously characterisable only *non*-indexically, hence will be *non*-indexical, one may say that indexical representation, in particular, indexical belief, mediates between the non-indexical kind and behaviour. Because it is such that its own subject will typically characterise it perspicuously by means of indexicals, thereby identifying who, when or where it is, Perry describes such belief, more generally, such representation, as "locating."[8] As Perry construes it, such representation in effect functions like the sentence "You are here" on a tourist map: it locates the subject as an agent in the world.

These examples and the paper containing them have exerted a powerful influence in the philosophy of mind and language.[9] The notion of locating, or, as it is sometimes also called, *self*-locating[10] belief is widely endorsed. Talk of indexical and in particular first-person belief—more generally, of indexical and in particular first-

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8 See Perry 1979, pp. 28-29/pp. 4-5.

9 Not, of course, alone. The role of Lewis's paper has already been mentioned. But one should not forget the crucial role played by Castañeda and indeed, before him, Peter Geach—see Castañeda 1966 and Geach 1957. Perry acknowledges the role of Castañeda in note 8, p. 28/note 1, p. 21, of Perry 1979.

10 Most notably and originally by Lewis—see Lewis 1979, esp. p. 522. Strictly speaking, Lewis is wrong in his claim that *Perry* "distinguishes believing Fregean thoughts from what he calls "self-locating belief."" (Lewis 1979, p. 522) For in Perry 1979 Perry does not speak of *self*-locating belief.

personal representation—is widespread and claims are often made that such representation is essential in the causation and must be mentioned in the explanation of agency.[11] As early as 1983 we find Colin McGinn maintaining, as if it were unproblematically, even obviously true, that

> ... indexical concepts are ineliminable because without them agency would be impossible: when I imagine myself divested of indexical thoughts, employing only centreless mental representations, I *eo ipso* imagine myself deprived of the power to act. (McGinn 1983, p.104; cited in Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 38)

Almost twenty five years later we find Huw Price claiming almost exactly the same thing:

> In his well-known paper 'The Problem of the Essential Indexical' ... John Perry points out that action depends on indexical beliefs. In addition to "impersonal" or "third-personal" information about her environment, an agent needs "situated" or "first-personal" information—information about the "I, here and now" of her situation. (Price 2007, p.1)

One could adduce passages from many other authors, all making similar or related claims.

But are indexical thoughts, beliefs, desires, information and the like really essential? Indeed, what are they? Note that the only sense implicated in the examples in which representations are indexical is the weak one. Yet both McGinn and Price clearly believe that the adjective 'indexical' *uniquely captures* the decisive behaviour-enabling feature of these forms of representation. So what exactly are we being told? Are we to understand that representations can be indexical in some sense more substantive than the weak one? These questions must be answered if one wishes so much as to understand, let alone justify, any claim to the effect that indexical thoughts, beliefs, desires, information and the like are essential to the generation of purposive behaviour, hence must be mentioned in any complete everyday explanation

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[11] Cappelen and Dever provide an extensive account of just how widespread this consensus is—see Cappelen and Dever 2012, § 1.3, pp. 6-9.

of it. Yet as a rule, the literature barely addresses them.[12] Little effort is made to clarify, much less justify, claims of essential indexicality. Typically, the reader is simply directed to Perry or Lewis.[13]

Evidently, in order to answer these questions, one must determine precisely what Perry's examples show, in particular, whether they show more than what Cappelen and Dever allege. That this is by no means as clear-cut as is standardly assumed, that indeed Perry's examples are under-elaborated, hence unclear, is shown by the possibility of reformulating them in completely non-indexical ways. Perry's paper could, after all, have been written by someone else. It would then have opened as follows:

> John Perry once followed a trail of sugar on a supermarket floor, pushing his cart down the aisle on one side of a tall counter and back the aisle on the other, seeking the shopper with the torn sack to tell this latter that he was making a mess. With each trip around the counter, the trail became thicker. But Perry seemed unable to catch up. Finally it dawned on him. He was the shopper he was trying to catch.
>
> Perry believed at the outset that the shopper with a torn sack was making a mess. And he was right. But he did not believe that he was making a mess. That seems to be something he came to believe. And when he came to believe that, he stopped following the trail around the counter, and rearranged the torn sack in his cart. His change in beliefs seems to explain his change in behavior. The aim of this paper is to make a key point about the characterization of this change, and of beliefs in general.

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[12] But only as a rule. As pointed out in the Introduction, Recanati has explicitly addressed the second issue, that is, attempted to clarify what he calls mental indexicality—see Recanati 2007, pp. 11-14.

[13] Thus, Cappelen and Dever rightly complain about "the now common way in which philosophers will make some rather vague and grandiose claim on behalf of indexicality (for first-person thought, or "the *de se*" or egocentric thought or what have you), and then casually add a footnote, "See Perry 1979 or Lewis 1979."" (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 6) Similarly, they point out that "(i)t is more or less common ground in contemporary philosophy that some … significant connection [between indexicality and agency] exists … ", a connection so much "taken for granted … that it by now seems unnecessary to provide arguments for it—all one needs to do is include a footnote referring to Perry 1979 (or Lewis 1979) and that's supposed to settle it." (p. 30)

> At first characterizing the change seems easy. Perry's beliefs changed, didn't they, in that he came to have a new one, namely, that he was making a mess? But things are not so simple.
>
> The reason they are not is the importance of the word "he" in the expression of what Perry came to believe. When we replace it with other designations of Perry, we no longer have an explanation of his behaviour and so, it seems, no longer an attribution of the same belief. This anaphoric use of the third-person pronoun seems to be essential.

Clearly, this is just as good an example as Perry's actual one. Clearly, too, Perry's other examples, which are in the third-person anyway, can be reformulated without loss so as to involve anaphoric rather than indexical characterisation[14] of the relevant beliefs:[15] The professor believed all along that the department meeting starts at noon but at noon he came to believe that *his** meeting was starting *then*, or rather *then**. Meanwhile, the hiker begins to move along the Mt. Tallac trail because his beliefs have changed: he has come to believe at a certain location *l* in the wilderness that *here** is the Mt. Tallac trail while Gilmore Lake is *over there**, hence at some (typically perceptible) remove from *him**, such that the trail which will take *him** out of the wilderness is the trail *here**.

So if Perry's examples show anything, so, too, do their reformulations. They appear, however, to show something different, in particular, something which does not directly concern either the first person specifically or indexicality in general. For in all these reformulations anaphora has replaced indexicality in the strict, hence *narrow* sense of the term.[16] In the reformulation of the first example the indexical

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[14] When Perry uses indexicals in his *first* example, he is using them *oratio obliqua* because he is characterising *his* own* intentional states and experiences and *his* own* behaviour. Since this is no longer the case in the other examples, indexicals must be used *oratio recta*.

[15] Sainsbury has also recognised this—see Sainsbury 1998.

[16] There is, or at least may be stipulated to be, a wide sense in which both indexicals in the sense presumed by Perry throughout and anaphorically deployed pronouns and adverbs of time and place count as indexical. For if by an indexical one simply means an expression whose general linguistic meaning is such that its referent can vary from context to context, then the anaphorically deployed expressions are indexical. As Perry says, "Indexicals [in the narrow sense] are not the only expressions that use context semantically. *Anaphora* provides another example." The decisive difference is, of course, that "in the case of anaphora, the contextual facts have to do with the

first-person pronoun has been replaced by an anaphorically deployed third-person pronoun while in the other two examples demonstratively, hence indexically deployed adverbs of time and space have been replaced by ones deployed anaphorically. The reformulations reveal essential anaphora just as much, or just as little, as the originals reveal essential indexicality.

One might dispute, of course, in one way correctly, that the reformulations reveal something *different*. The weak, hence uncontentious sense in which representation and its content can be indexical in general and first-personal in particular suffices entirely to explain why Perry uses the sentence "I am making a mess" to express in complete perspicuity and transparency the belief he acquires in the supermarket that he* is making a mess. So in a similarly weak sense a subject who is seeking to characterise perspicuously the content of Perry's belief but does not identify with Perry will use the third-person pronoun in the manner in which it is used here, namely, anaphorically. Such a subject will assert that John Perry believes that he* is making a mess and that what John Perry believes is he* is making a mess. What we have here are mere differences in *modes of characterisation*, whose appropriateness is determined solely by something entirely external to the belief up for characterisation. Belief and its content are what they are, irrespective of whether the subject characterising them does or does not identify with the subject possessing them. Precisely for this reason, both modes of characterisation capture causal role equally well.[17] Properly interpreted, Perry's first example, however it is formulated, shows

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relation of the utterance to previous noun-phrases in the discourse, while with indexicality [in the strict, hence narrow sense], rather different sorts of facts are relevant, having to do with the relation of the utterance to things other than words, such as the speaker, the addressee, time and place of the utterance." (Perry 2000b, p. 316) Here the notion of indexicality is understood as it is almost everywhere else, namely, in the narrow sense of the term. An indexical is thus a word whose referent is determined by contextual factors "other than words."

17 It cannot be emphasised enough that were Perry to assert the sentence "Perry believes that he is making a mess," therein (S)-using it, he would be characterising what is objectively his belief just as perspicuously as when he asserts the sentence "I believe that I am making a mess." For objectively speaking, his belief is that he*, Perry, is making a mess, however it is characterised. Of course, in asserting the first-personal sentence in one way he does 'say more'. For in thus asserting he intimates that he*, the subject asserting, is both what does the believing and what is believed about. This 'more' is, however, entirely a feature of his characterisation, not of what is

first-personalness, hence indexicality, to be a possibility of *perspicuous characterisation* for a subject which understands itself to be the subject of belief; and a distinctive kind of third-personal anaphora to be such a possibility, indeed *the only* such possibility, for a subject which does not thus understand itself. Meanwhile, the belief itself is what it is. In this sense, the reformulations do not demonstrate anything different from the originals.

Yet this perfectly correct observation throws up two questions, each obvious but also difficult to answer. Firstly, why has Perry chosen to formulate things in a manner which prioritises first-personality specifically and indexicality generally, given that all examples could have been formulated just as readily in anaphorically third-personal terms or anaphorically adverbial terms? Secondly, what exactly does his first example, however formulated, show? It would seem that if neither mode of characterisation has any priority, then only an arbitrary preference has allowed indexicality to enter into the picture at all. Yet Perry and all those who follow him regularly home in on first-personalness specifically and indexicality generally as those features of the case which make the generation and explanation of action possible, this by, as they would put it, locating the subject and its non-indexical forms of representation in the world. These questions are not addressed simply by pointing out that some of the beliefs Perry has or acquires in the supermarket are essentially first-personal, hence indexical in the weak, hence uncontentious sense appealed to thus far.

Moreover, the details of Perry's example obscure these points. Perry says *that it dawns on him* that he* is the shopper he* is looking for because he* is the one making a mess. The notion of something's dawning on a subject, as well as our own capacity to put ourselves into Perry's shoes so as to relive vicariously the whole incident,

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characterised. It remains only to point out that were Perry assert, more or less in the manner of de Gaulle, the third-personal sentence, therein (S)-using it, he would in another way also 'say more'. For he would locutionarily implicate there to be some name or definite description of which he* is the referent—presumably, of course, 'Perry' or, say, 'the author of "Frege on Demonstratives"'. Precisely for this reason he can add, "… and I am Perry" or "…and I am the author of "Frege on Demonstratives"," etc.

suggests that an event of self-conscious realisation, i.e., of explicitly self-conscious thinking, is causally involved. Perry finds himself in a situation which eventually leads him to a moment of epiphany: it suddenly occurs to him that *he** is the one making a mess. Perry *hears himself asserting in his head* the sentence, "I am (the one) making a mess". We intuitively recognise that this is a real possibility for self-conscious, linguistic beings such as we humans are. It is certainly possible both that a sentence should pass sensuously through one's mind, typically assertorically, and that this should affect behaviour.

It is clear, however, that this element of self-conscious insight or judgement is specific to the example. Such explicitly self-conscious thinking obviously need not be present in all cases of purposive behaviour.[18] Yet Perry wants to claim that in *all* purposive behaviour some of the psychological drivers thereof are *essentially* indexical. So the allegedly essential first-personal, hence indexical character of belief cannot consist in such belief's being, or even merely arising from, such explicitly self-conscious mental judgement, in which a subject sensuously imagines itself asserting first-personal or other kinds of indexical sentence. Thus far at least, the sense in which belief and other representations must be first-personal, hence indexical can only be the weak one. So why then put the point first-personally, hence indexically, rather than third-personally and anaphorically, using Castañeda's asterisk, of course, in order to secure the necessary disambiguation? Why the preference for the first-person specifically and indexicality generally, a preference manifest in the tendency displayed not just by Perry but by all advocates of essential indexicality to

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[18] Musholt takes Perry's example to show that "awareness of [what she calls] the self-referring nature of a belief … is required for that belief to have guaranteed implications for action. It is only by realizing that a thought is about myself that I can take appropriate action (such as, in Perry's example, stopping to rearrange the sugar bag)." (Musholt 2015, p. 10) It is, however, incorrect to claim that *awareness* of any representation or representational content is required for purposive behaviour or the explanation thereof. Rather, what is required is the representation itself, more precisely put, a distinctive kind of representation with a distinctive kind of content, one which is "about myself" *in a distinctive way*. It is also incorrect to claim, or at least to imply, that Perry is arguing for Musholt's claim.

characterise representation *oratio recta*[19] rather than *oratio oliqua*? For indeed in the literature one frequently, even typically, says that Perry believes, "I am making a mess," rather than that he* is making a mess; that the professor believes at noon, "My meeting is starting now," rather than that his* meeting was starting then*; and that the hiker believes, "The Mt. Tallac trail is the trail here," rather than that the Mt. Tallac trail is the trail here* (rather than over there*). And so on, *mutatis mutandis*, for other forms of representation. Has one decided that the character of a representation as either generally indexical or specifically first-personal in the uncontentious sense is grounded in some more fundamental sense in which it is this? If so, on what basis?

Prima facie, one may go in precisely the opposite direction. The sentences "I believe that I am F," as asserted by S, and the sentence "S believes that it* is F," as asserted by a subject S✦ who typically does not take itself to be identical with S, are, after all, two modes of characterising *the very same thing*, S's believing, namely, that it* is F. That they characterise the very same thing is shown by the fact that the third-personally anaphoric reformulation of Perry's example is just as good as his first-personally indexical original. So both sentences express, as asserted by their respective speakers, one and the same thing, which is precisely something true if and only if S believes that it* is F. Note now that in this biconditional claim the latter of the two sentences is *used* to explain the interconnection between them. It is clear why this is so: the claim articulates how in general the one sentence stands to the other, something which becomes completely evident once one appreciates that the expressions 'S' and 'S✦' are, at least implicitly, universally quantified variables.[20]

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[19] Speaking of the passage with which Perry introduces his Hume/Heimson case, namely, Perry 1977, p. 13/p. 487, Cappelen and Dever astutely observe, "This passage illustrates a common and problematic way of presenting these kinds of issues. A sentence is quoted, and then we are told that Hume thinks that sentence." (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 22)

[20] Just this explains why one *cannot* argue that since the sentences "I believe that I am F", as asserted by *me*, S, and "S believes that it* is F," as asserted by S✦, express something true if and only if *I* believe that *I* am F; and since now the former sentence is the one used in explanation of the connection: the first-personally indexical sentence is 'more basic than' or prior to the third-personally anaphoric one. For the indexically biconditional claim, as true as it is, is entirely *singular*, indeed only true because it is an inferential consequence of the general one, whose expression requires use of the third-personally anaphoric pronoun. If the general connection

Thereby the claim captures, for the kind of content at issue here, a general, indeed defining feature of content as such—captures it as the general and defining feature it is: in principle accessibility to a subject S✦, irrespective of whether S✦ is the subject S whose content it is.[21] And so, precisely because contents are by nature publicly accessible, the claim may be said to capture what the kind of content at issue here *objectively* is. As one may put it, the anaphorically third-personal mode of characterisation articulates the *objectivity* of content—that without which content, hence representation and locution generally, would not be publicly accessible, hence publicly evaluable, as at least as a rule they must be. So in this sense, one may say that such characterisation gets at 'how things really are'.

This latter thought suggests that if either of the two modes of characterisation have priority, then the third-personally anaphoric rather than the first-personally indexical.[22] Nor is this priority trivial, for it gestures towards the master idea underpinning the thesis of content inherently *de se*:

1. Content as such, hence content *de se*, *always* possesses predicative unity independently of the representation or locution of it, such that solving whatever

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between the two sentences is to be expressed *as the general connection it is*, one must put matters in third-personal, hence anaphoric terms.

[21] Or indeed irrespective of whether the time or place of S✦'s characterisation of S's content is the time or place at which S has it as content. With this, one extend this general, indeed defining feature of content to the kind of content expressed by demonstrative adverbs of time and place and characterised by their asterisked counterparts.

[22] This is not to deny that there is a sense in which the first-personal sentence "I believe that I am F," or rather, the so-called first-person perspective articulated by it, has a priority of its own. Whereas the third-person perspective articulated by the sentence "S believes that it* is F" constitutes the perspective of an evaluating subject (which subject, precisely because it is evaluating, may or may not identify with S), the first-person perspective is that of the subject, here S, which is *causally*, hence *normatively* responsible for the belief (or, *mutatis mutandis*, the illocution). In a personal communication of May 31st, 2025, Markos Valaris has argued that "(t)he natural answer" to the question as to why the first-personal mode of characterisation might have priority is that "it is *the only one* that has any chance at all of representing how things are with the agent's own mind." Yes, the first-personal mode of characterisation is indeed the only one able to represent how things are with the agent's, hence with a subject's own mind in general. But the *significance* of this the subject's own perspective on its belief—its possible awareness of the latter as *its**—consists in its being what one needs if one is to be *answerable* for one's representations and illocutions. This, one may well contend, is what Valaris is getting at when he speaks of "(t)he natural answer" to the question of priority—a 'practical' priority of the first-person perspective *entirely complementary to* the 'theoretical' priority of the third-person perspective.

since Perry 1979 has been seen as a problem of essential *indexicality* requires one to incorporate an element in *some* sense *de se* into content; yet

2. this element in content, marked equally as it is by the first-person as wielded by S and the asterisked third-person pronoun as wielded by S✦, is not indexical in any sense stronger than perspicuous characterisability by these two pronouns.[23]

In other words, one must do something which Perry at one point provisionally recommends, namely, "incorporate [an] element into what is believed" (Perry 1979, p. 35/p. 12), more generally, into what is represented or locuted. But one must do so *without* taking this element to be "indexical" in any strong sense, hence as *first*-personal in the manner of Frege, Castañeda, Peacocke, Musholt and so many others. For to do this to construe the element incorporated as personal only because and insofar as it is *first*-personal, thereby admitting what Perry calls "propositions," i.e., contents, "of limited accessibility." (Perry 1979, p. 37/p. 15) And such epistemically private contents contradict the very notion of content; precisely for this reason, one finds them so discomfiting.

Of course, if an alternative account of what the two sentences are used to characterise is available, then this consideration cannot be regarded as decisive. And many would maintain that an alternative account is available. As we shall see in Chapter Three, Perry himself develops an account of belief in general which yields just such an alternative. So, too, do those who embrace a property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception of content *de se*, e.g., Loar, Feit and in particular Lewis. And, of course, there are precisely those who postulate first-personal elements in content—Frege, Castañeda, Peacocke, Musholt and the like. Consequently, one may not assert that the sentences of the form "S believes that it* is

[23] In effect, one must regard it as indexical in no sense stronger than the wide sense specified in footnote 16.

F" capture all there can and needs to be said about what belief *de se* is unless and until these alternative accounts have been found wanting.[24]

So for the moment let us put the question of priority to one side since, importantly, it is possible to reconstruct out of Perry's examples an argument for what he would call the essentiality of indexicality—in effect, for C.1—without addressing it, hence without deciding between this and any of the aforementioned alternative accounts. Given that all the examples can be formulated in anaphorically third personal terms, it must be possible to formulate the argument in this fashion. Moreover, formulation in such terms is apposite because Cappelen and Dever formulate their critique of the tradition deriving from Perry[25] precisely in the third person, a critique which will be examined in Chapter Two. Only once the argument has been constructed, then saved from their critique, will we turn in Chapter Three to determine what Perry means when he speaks of the problem of the essential indexical and how he seeks to solve it. For this will identify why he speaks of a problem of essential *indexicality*, hence explain the priority he *de facto* gives to the indexical mode of characterisation.

Section II: An Argument for Essential Indexicality

Underpinning the alleged essentiality of indexical belief in particular and indexical representation in general is the following intuition:[26]

> When you and I both apprehend the thought that I am about to be attacked by a bear, we behave differently. I roll up in a ball, you run to get help. Same thought apprehended, different sense entertained, different behavior. (Perry 1977, p. 494)

Note that we may proceed here as in the case of Perry's examples. *Prima facie* nothing about the intuition requires the first- and second-personal, hence indexical

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[24] Perry's initial account will be examined in Chapter Three, accounts in terms of *first-personal* elements in content across Chapters Four and Five, and the property-theoretic or propositionally functional account in Chapter Six.

[25] And, of course, also Lewis.

[26] As both Cappelen and Dever as well as Millikan point out—see Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 49, and Millikan 1990, p. 723.

formulation Perry gives it. Using the *dramatis personae* of Cappelen and Dever's critique, we may formulate it as follows:

> When François and Dilip both apprehend the thought that François is about to be attacked by a bear, they behave differently. François rolls up in a ball, Dilip runs to get help. Same thought apprehended, different sense entertained, different behaviour.

This formulation is completely non-indexical yet the force of the intuition, whatever it is precisely, remains.

So *prima facie* the issue Perry raises in his paper about the kind of psychological representation needed for action and purposive behaviour generally does not primarily concern indexicality. This can be readily confirmed. In line with what was specified in the Introduction, let us call, following Cappelen and Dever,[27] a representation with content such that numerically distinct subjects can have a representation with this same content an *impersonal* representation. And let us now consider the following argument, whose first premise articulates the aforementioned intuition:

Premise 1: Two agents A and B can have the same impersonal representations yet act differently.[28]

Premise 2: Sameness or difference in purposive behaviour between the two agents A and B reflects sameness or difference in their representation, so the difference in behaviour between A and B reflects a difference in *further* representation between them.

Lemma: This further representation on the part of A and B is not impersonal, hence is *personal*, since according to Premise 1 A and B have the same impersonal representation.

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[27] See Cappelen and Dever 2013, § 3.3, pp. 35-37. Price speaks similarly—see Price 2007, p. 1, quoted above.

[28] In order to accommodate the case of Perry in the supermarket, one could reformulate Premise 1 as follows: "An agent A can have the same impersonal representations in the worlds W_m and W_n yet act differently in worlds W_m and W_n."

Premise 3: The agents A and B, as well as their representations and purposive behaviours, have been chosen completely arbitrarily. So what goes for them goes for all agents and their representations and behaviours.

Initial Conclusion:

> *Personal* representation is involved in the generation of purposive behaviour generally, hence must be mentioned in any complete everyday explanation or rationalisation of it.

In this initial conclusion there is no reference to indexicality at all. Thus far, then, we only have what one might call essential personalness: some representations must be personal, i.e., have contents such that only their subject can have them as content, if purposive behaviour and its complete everyday explanation are to be possible. The issue, whatever it is precisely, does not concern indexicality at all.[29] If, however, we add a further premise, essential indexicality is easily reached:

Premise 4: All personal representations are indexical representations *at least* in the sense that they require for their perspicuous characterisation by a subject which identifies with their subject use of indexical expressions.

We may now conclude:

Final Conclusion:

> *Indexical* representation is involved in the generation of purposive behaviour, hence must be mentioned in any complete everyday explanation of it.

For the moment, we are not interested in whether this argument is sound but rather in understanding what it shows, assuming that it is sound. In particular, we are interested in understanding how different background assumptions shape understanding of its final conclusion and thereby the depth and significance of this conclusion. Everything depends on how the notion of indexical representation is understood. One might understand the notion weakly: the indexicality of

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[29] To this extent, Millikan as well as Cappelen and Dever are right when they ask what all this has to do with indexicality—see Millikan 1990, p. 730, and Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 44-45.

representation is *nothing more than* character as having contents such that its own subject, assuming this latter to have the capacity and desire for such characterisation, will typically use indexicals, in particular, the first-person, in order to characterise it and its content perspicuously. Thus, François' belief that he, or rather, he*, is about to be attacked by bear is indexical simply because François, whom we are assuming to have the capacity for self-ascription, must use indexicals, specifically, the first person, in order perspicuously to characterise both the belief itself and its content. François must say, "I believe that I am about to be attacked by a bear" and "What I believe is that I am about to be attacked by a bear". So, too, with his desire that he* not be attacked by a bear: François must say, "I desire that I not be attacked by a bear" and "What I desire is that I not be attacked by a bear."

Evidently, if this is all one understands by indexical representation, then the essential indexicality at which the argument arrives is uncontroversial.[30] Indeed, it is so uncontroversial that the fourth premise is no more (or less) true than the following alternative:

Premise 4*: All personal representations are anaphoric representations *at least* in the sense that they require for their perspicuous characterisation by a subject which does not identify with their subject use of the kind of anaphora signalled by Castañeda's asterisk

After all, someone like Dilip, who is equally able to characterise François' representations but takes himself *not* to be François, must use the third-person pronoun, anaphorically linked to the subject-term 'François', in order perspicuously to characterise both François' belief and its content. Dilip must say, "François believes that he* is about to be attacked by a bear" and "What François believes is that he* is about to be attacked by a bear". So, too, with François' desire: Dilip must say,

[30] More accurately put, it is as uncontroversial as the argument which generates it.

"François desires that he* not be attacked by a bear" and "What François desires is that he* not be attacked by a bear."[31] And so we may also conclude:

Final Conclusion*:

> *Anaphoric* representation is necessarily involved in the generation of purposive behaviour generally, hence must be mentioned in any complete everyday explanation of it.

So thus far, complete even-handedness prevails. While we may certainly talk of indexical representation, we may equally talk of anaphoric representation. It is clear why this is so: thus far we are tacitly understanding the adjectives 'indexical' and 'anaphoric' as applying simply to the *characterisation* of representation and thus far, all characterisations are equal, whether they contain indexicals, such as the first-person pronoun, or anaphorically deployed expressions,[32] such as the asterisked third-person pronoun. Relatedly, all characterisers are equal, whether they do or do not identify with the subject of representation. Consequently, all 'perspectives' are equal, whether first-person or third-person.

Concluding Questions

The results of the preceding sections raise several interrelated questions which must be answered. In the first instance, there is the question already encountered of why Perry and others in his tradition are so insistent on indexicality, in particular, first-person indexicality, as is manifest in their pronounced tendency to characterise contents indexically, hence often *oratio recta*,[33] rather than anaphorically, hence

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[31] Note that the sentences used by us here to depict the scenario and to indicate what François and Dilip must each do are the very same sentences as those cited by us here as the ones Dilip rather than François must use. This concretely illustrates the crucial point that it is use of the third-person, hence of asterisked third-person pronouns, which captures how things objectively, hence publicly and even, in the long run, universally accessibly, are.

[32] As Castañeda points out in, e.g., Castañeda 1989, pp. 218-223, there are *anaphorically* deployed expressions corresponding to non-first-personal, indeed non-pronominal, adverbial indexicals such as 'here' and 'now': "When he went to Berlin in December, 2019, John discovered that Mary was then living there."

[33] But not always, of course. The characterisation of content will be both indexical and *oratio recta* when, and only when, the subject characterising does not identify with the subject characterised.

oratio oliqua. In the second instance, one must ask, not simply whether the argument given in Section II is sound, but also whether its even-handedness is real or apparent. In one way, of course, its even-handedness is obvious: *viewed simply as ways of characterising content*, indexical characterisation and anaphoric characterisation are equally good, just as the A-series and B-series, viewed simply as ways of characterising points in time are equally good. The only decisive consideration is whether the subject characterising does or does not identify with the subject characterised, for this determines whether one's characterisation may be indexical without having to be *oratio recta*.[34] And now Premises 4 and 4* are equally true, also, however, equally trivial.

Yet one can and must ask whether both modes of characterisation are equally good *as characterisations of what the relevant form of psychological or linguistic intentionality and its content objectively are*.[35] This is in effect to ask how strongly Premise 4 must be read. If, for example, one should read it in a Castañedian spirit, that is, in accordance with his interpretation of asterisked third-person pronoun, then the indexical mode of characterisation will have ontological priority. For as we shall see and discuss in detail in Chapter Four, Castañeda believes that the asterisked third-person pronoun, over and above whatever role or function it possesses as singular referring term,[36] serves as a so-called *quasi-indicator*.[37] In this pragmatic rather than semantic role, it serves to indicate an indexical reference *on the part of the subject of the representation or locution it is used to characterise*. More precisely put, the asterisked third-person pronoun serves to indicate that its referent, the subject of representation or locution, is *actually* using or at least *actually* could use the first-

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[34] Analogously, whether the time of characterisation is or is not identified by the subject characterising with the time of what is characterised determines whether characterisation may be A-serial, i.e., temporally indexical, without having to be *oratio recta*.

[35] Analogously, one might ask whether A-serial or B-serial characterisations are equally good as characterisations of points in time, or whether one series rather than the other is the 'real' one.

[36] According to Kapitan, it is a good question whether Castañeda regarded the asterisked third-person pronoun as referring at all—see Kapitan 1998. See in this connection Appendix I to Chapter Four.

[37] See Castañeda 1967a.

person pronoun to refer to itself 'as itself', i.e., as the subject of this *its** representation or locution. Evidently, if Castañeda is right in this, then he can give relatively clear sense to the claim that belief and other forms of representation *de se* are indexical, indeed first-personal, in a sense stronger than that of having a content such that their subject, should it be at all capable and desirous of self-attribution, will typically use the appropriate first-person sentence in the characterisation of representation and the individuation of content.

The possibility, however, of undermining even-handedness in favour of the indexical mode of characterisation raises the question of why one might not go in the other direction. Why not claim that even-handedness is merely apparent because the anaphoric mode of characterisation gets at how things objectively are? It is, after all, as seen above, what one uses in depicting how the one mode relates alethically to the other, hence how either is the mode of characterisation it is at all. Indeed, the anaphoric mode of characterisation has been used here throughout in the very presentation of the diverse issues at stake. So why not take all this as showing that Premise 4 can *only* be read weakly, this because Premise 4*, *understood strongly*, is true? In this case the anaphoric mode of characterisation would have priority and our final conclusion would be what one might call essential anaphora *rather than* essential indexicality. With this, one would have embraced what was described above as the master idea underpinning the thesis of content inherently *de se*.

Thus far, of course, nothing entitles us either to endorse even-handedness or to give priority to one or the other mode of characterisation, hence to embrace the master idea. Everything depends on how the asterisked third-person pronoun is correctly understood, which in turn depends on the philosophical account one should give of belief and other forms of representation *de se*. As we shall see in Chapter Three, not just Castañeda but Perry also provide accounts which end up giving priority to the indexical mode of characterisation. That is, both provide accounts ostensibly showing how representation *de se* can be indexical in a genuinely substantive, hence

potentially contentious sense. Note, however, that none of this has any effect on the soundness or otherwise of the argument constructed out of Perry's examples. This, therefore, may either be challenged or defended against challenge quite independently of whether there is ontological priority and, if so, what this priority is. To this extent, the *initial* conclusion of essential personalness is the actually decisive one.

So whether there is anything at all to talk of essential indexicality or, for that matter, essential anaphora, the argument above must be assessable independently of it. What is really at issue in C.1, the first corollary of the thesis of content inherently *de se*, is indeed essential personalness. And the argument for it must be assessable independently of however one understands the *de se*, whether in accordance with the position advanced here or in the manner of Perry in Perry 1979 and in particular 1980a; or in the manner of Loar, Feit and Lewis; or in the manner of Frege, Castañeda, Peacocke and Musholt. For this reason, the most immediate concern must be to deal with the attack mounted by Cappelen and Dever against the whole tradition stemming from the papers of Perry and Lewis. For according to Cappelen and Dever, C.1., however it is understood, is false. There is, they argue, something wrong with the kind of argument just given, whatever one takes its proper conclusion to be, whether the essentiality of indexical, anaphoric or merely personal representation. Their critique is thus examined in the next chapter.

CHAPTER TWO

Cappelen and Dever on the Allegedly Inessential Indexical

Herman Cappelen and Josh Dever argue that the contemporary consensus around notions of essential indexicality, attitudes ineliminably *de se* and self-locating belief is far too complacent: all these notions are seriously under-elaborated, hence unclear and insufficiently justified. Yet Cappelen and Dever reject any suggestion that the consensus constitutes something seen through a glass but darkly. They have no reconstructive ambitions to the effect that the phenomenon towards which these notions are gesturing "... should be explained in ways different from how, e.g., Lewis and Perry [have] explained them." Their goal is rather

> … to show that the entire topic is an illusion—there's nothing there. ... It isn't that [Lewis's and Perry's] theories fail to adequately explain the phenomenon they [have] identified. The problem is deeper; there's nothing to explain or account for. ... Perry and Lewis, and their followers have observed fragments of various different phenomena. They have then made the mistake of thinking that there's something—call it *essential indexicality*—that ties all of these fragments together, when in fact there's no unified phenomenon at all. It's just a bunch of different phenomena with differing explanations. (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p.3)

They would thus reject out of hand the attempt made in Section II of the previous chapter to sketch an argument for essential indexicality or whatever else one might call it, say, essential anaphora or, better than either, essential personalness—an argument in effect for the first corollary of the thesis of content inherently *de se*. For according to them, "the entire topic is an illusion." But what exactly do they regard as illusory about it? And are they right to do so?

Section I: The Impersonal Incompleteness Claim

Having pointed out how unclear and insufficiently justified talk of essential indexicals, attitudes *de se*, self-locating belief and the like is, Cappelen and Dever set out to clarify it to the point where they have a clear target to aim at. They rightly claim that "attempts to articulate the essence of Perry and Lewis's insight tend to

come back to something or other about a distinctive connection with agency."[1] (Cappelen and Dever, p.18) So they orient their critique around a consideration of the putative role of indexicality in agency, understood as the capacity for purposive behaviour generally.[2] Specifically, they begin with an account of the *explanation* and/or *rationalisation* of purposive behaviour.

What they mean by explanation, at least in this context, and, in particular, by rationalisation needs some clarification. Consider the following case, which is adapted from Cappelen and Dever:[3]

* Belief: François is about to be shot.

* Desire: François not be shot.

* Belief: If François ducks under the table, François will not be shot.

* Action: François ducks under the table.

This they understand, firstly, as indicating why François ducks under table in the sense of specifying the representations which have led, hence in an ordinary everyday sense caused, him to duck under the table. In other words, they see it as that kind of more or less Humean explanation which consists in specifying the psychological drivers of behaviour, that is, the *motives* one has for behaving as one does. Secondly, they see this more or less Humean kind of explanation as *rationalising* François's behaviour—rationalising it in the sense of showing why François's behaviour makes sense, given these psychological drivers of it. So everyday explanation of purposive behaviour, which specifies the psychological drivers thereof, is inherently oriented towards doing so in a fashion which rationalises the behaviour it explains. Such

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1 Elsewhere they write, "In talking to philosophers about these issues over many years, we find that attempts to articulate the essence of Perry and Lewis's insight tend to come back to something or other about a distinctive connection to agency." (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p.18)

2 So action understood as some might like to understand it, namely, as purposive behaviour *self-consciously performed on the basis of reasons*, is only a particular form of agency and action as Cappelen and Dever understand these notions.

3 See Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 36.

explanation of behaviour is therefore at least typically, although obviously not always, a *rationalisation* of it as well.

Cappelen and Dever go on to call this an *impersonal* action explanation and/or rationalisation, this because the beliefs and the desire at issue are *impersonal* in the sense characterised in Section II of Chapter One: they can be had by anyone. This impersonality seems to explain why Cappelen and Dever do not explicitly mention François as the *subject* of the beliefs and desires specified in the explanation/rationalisation. As a matter of fact, he is, of course, this subject. But because his belief and desires could be had by anyone, he need not be explicitly mentioned as their subject. Precisely because these psychological motives are impersonal, their being his is not constitutive of the identity of their contents, hence not constitutive of the identity of these motives themselves.

Now this notion of impersonal action explanation and rationalisation is important because it permits Cappelen and Dever to formulate "the distinctive connection with agency" driving talk of essential indexicality in a distinctive way. In particular, it permits them to formulate it as what they call the *Impersonal Incompleteness Claim*:

IIC Impersonal action explanations and rationalisations, i.e., ones which specify merely *impersonal* representations as the drivers or motives of behaviour, "... are necessarily incomplete because of a missing indexical component." (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p.37)

Evidently, the IIC is solely a claim about what is essential to the *explanation and/or rationalisation* of purposive behaviour, not the *generation* or *motivation* thereof.[4] This is rather odd because the claims made on behalf of essential indexicality primarily concern the generation or motivation of purposive behaviour, and only derivatively the explanation and/or rationalisation thereof—something particularly evident in the passages from McGinn and Price cited in Chapter One. Moreover, Cappelen and

[4] It is, in effect, only one half of the final conclusion of the argument constructed in Section II of Chapter One on the basis of Perry's examples.

Dever themselves eventually quote a long passage from Perry and Israel and a shorter one from Perry himself in which the claim is clearly understood in this way.[5] Indeed, at many points they write in a fashion which shows that they themselves understand the claim in this way. Finally, so-called impersonal action explanations and rationalisations will be "necessarily incomplete because of a missing indexical component" if and only if the psychological driver characterised by the indexical component is essential to the generation or motivation of behaviour. These considerations make it legitimate to understand the IIC as effectively identical with the final conclusion of the argument outlined in the previous chapter. Not only is the explanation and/or rationalisation of purposive behaviour necessarily incomplete if it contains no "indexical component," what this "indexical component" characterises is itself implicated in the generation of such behaviour.

There appear to be two main strands[6] to how Cappelen and Dever justify their claim that the IIC is false, hence that any argument of the kind given in Section II of Chapter One is unsound. The first attempts to show that when two agents A and B have the same impersonal beliefs and desires yet act differently, the difference in their behaviour need *not* be due to the presence in each of different further belief and/or desire which is not impersonal, i.e., is personal. Meanwhile, the second seeks to show

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5 See Cappelen and Dever 2013, pp. 42-43. The passages in question are from Perry and Israel 1993, p. 311/p. 261, and Perry 1998, p. 87/p. 327.

6 There are other strands as well but these will not be discussed here. Suffice to say that § 3.5 is quite right in its claim that merely by adducing examples, which is basically all that Perry, Lewis and those following them do, one cannot prove a general thesis such as the IIC, hence the final conclusion of the argument outlined in Section II of Chapter One. Section 3.6 is also right in its claim that neither Perry nor anyone else ever attempts to *demonstrate* that in order to engage with certain objects in the world, the agent *must* have intentional states or experiences which are in some sense about the agent itself. "What we get is simply a claim that this is required, not evidence or argument to the effect that the act couldn't happen without a representation of the agent" (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 345), that is, without a representation the perspicuous characterisation of whose content involves a reference to the agent. Finally, § 3.7 seems rather confused, this because Cappelen and Dever misunderstand Perry. In the passages they quote from him, Perry is not attempting to justify anything approximating to the IIC, but rather to draw the lessons for the notion of content and how we speak of content, given the truth of what is in effect the IIC and Perry's conviction that one must somehow preserve the doctrine of propositions. The problem of preserving the doctrine of propositions in the face of the essentiality of 'indexical' representation is precisely what Perry means by the problem of the essential indexical. His initial solution to it, the one at least adumbrated in Perry 1979 itself, will be discussed in Chapter Three.

how A and B can behave differently even when the difference in their behaviour is not due to the presence in each of such further belief and/or desire. In effect, the first attempts to demonstrate the falsity of the second premise of the argument given in Section II of Chapter One while the second seeks to show how the first premise thereof can be true despite the falsity of the second. Let us discuss the first strand of critique in the next section, the second in the one thereafter. As we shall see, a proper response to Cappelen and Dever's critique of the second premise requires a refinement of the first.

Section II: Is There a Problem of the Essential Superman?

From the outset it must be said that what precisely Cappelen and Dever are arguing in the first strand of their critique is unclear. Nonetheless, across pp. 47-49 they appear to be advancing a *reductio ad absurdum* of the IIC. Specifically, they appear to be arguing that if 'indexical' belief, whatever this is precisely, is essential to agency, then, so, too, is belief about Superman! Since the latter is patently false, so, too, is the claim that 'indexical' belief, hence presumably 'indexical' representation in general, is essential to agency.

Cappelen and Dever begin by considering

> … a case where two agents have all the same objective, or non-indexical, information about the world. Not only can they be motivated differently, but what it is rational for them to do can differ. (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 47)

Imagine that two lost bush walkers A and B are each consulting the same bushwalkers' guide in order to determine the best route to Mount M. Evidently, each will extract the same information, hence form the same completely impersonal beliefs about the national park they are in. They might, however, disagree about where they are on the map in the guide. "It seems," as Perry puts it, "that there has to be some indexical element in the characterization of their beliefs to bring out this disagreement." (Perry 1979, p. 5/p. 29) Not only this: given their beliefs, different as they are with respect to location,

> what it is rational for the two agents to do will differ. They both want to reach Mount *M*. For one of them, it will be rational to turn left, for the other to continue straight ahead, even though they have the very same non-indexical beliefs. (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 48)

In general, then, two agents can have all the same impersonal representation yet it be rational, indeed they be motivated to act differently. Evidently, given that these two agents are rational, they will act on their different rational motivations, hence act differently. So this much is basically Premise 1 of the argument given in Section II of the previous chapter, grounded, however, in a claim of *some* psychological difference between agents.

Cappelen and Dever now claim that this alone does not license one to infer

> … anything as strong as [the] IIC. Even if it were true that in some case what makes it rational for *A* to perform an action, but not for *B*, is that *A* has an indexical belief that *B* does not have, nothing in general follows about the connection between indexicality and agency. All kinds of difference in beliefs can make a difference to what it is rational to do. (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 48)

Thus, two subjects A and B might have exactly the same information, i.e., exactly the same impersonal beliefs, about Lex Luthor. Each might also find himself threatened by Lex Luthor and see a person rushing towards him, presumably in an effort to save him.

> *A* believes that the person is Superman; *B* believes that the person is Clark Kent. Now *A* has reason to refuse to give in to Lex Luthor's threats since he has reason to think that Superman will save him. But *B* has reason to submit to Lex Luthor's threats, since he has reason to think Clark Kent won't save him. *A* and *B* have all the same objective information and desires here, but have reason to act differently. (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 48)

At first sight, this is all rather odd. The example of Lex Luthor and Superman seems to *corroborate* the IIC. After all, the belief which rationalises A's resistance to Luthor is more perspicuously characterised as a matter of this latter's believing that

the person rushing towards him*, A, is Superman, whereas the belief which rationalises B's submission is that the person rushing towards him*, B, is Clark Kent.[7] These are clearly beliefs *de se*.[8] Cappelen and Dever only compound the oddity because they deny this: "Notice," they claim, "that there's nothing distinctively *de se* and nothing indexical going on in this case." (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 48) This is *prima facie* wrong and something a proponent of the IIC would refute simply by specifying the differing beliefs *de se*.

But let us follow Cappelen and Dever a little further. "It might be tempting," they write,

> to improve on this argument for IIC in the following way. In any case where someone, *A*, is characterized *only* by her non-indexical beliefs, we can imagine another agent, *B*, with the *same* non-indexical beliefs, but rationally motivated to pursue a different course of action because of the presence of an indexical belief not shared with *A*. In reply to this attempted improvement, we say: even if this were true, it doesn't show that as a matter of fact indexical beliefs are always a component of what rationalizes an action. (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 49)

The key to understanding what is going on here is that claim "even if this [putative improvement] were true, it doesn't show that as a matter of fact indexical beliefs are *always* a component of what rationalizes an action." (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 49; italics added) It seems that the point of this discussion is to argue the limits of the intuition to which arguments for the IIC appeal: even if Premise 1 of the argument given in Section II of Chapter One is true, a further premise is needed, namely, Premise 2, according to which the difference in behaviour is *always* due to the presence in each case of *different further representations*—representations which,

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[7] Note that one cannot argue, more or less in property-theoretic or propositionally functional fashion, that A's belief is merely that the person rushing is Superman, while B's is merely that the person rushing is Clark Kent. For either these beliefs are personal, which renders the case not a counterexample; or they are impersonal, hence the assumption that A and B have the same impersonal beliefs false, which also renders the case not a counterexample.

[8] It remains only to point out that Cappelen and Dever should have said that A has reason to think that Superman will save *him**, while B has reason to think that Clark Kent will not save *him**.

given Premise 1, can only be personal. But why should one think, or so Cappelen and Dever appear to argue, indeed later do argue, that non-indexical or impersonal representation *always* needs to be topped up *with further representation*? In effect, Cappelen and Dever are arguing that by assuming Premise 2 the argument begs the question.

Evidently, if this is right, then Cappelen and Dever may assert one of their chief contentions: what Perry and others have drawn attention to with their various examples, such as Perry's making a mess in the supermarket, is *nothing more than* a very familiar opacity of intensional contexts. The beliefs and other representations implicated in the examples are, of course, such that the perspicuous characterisation of their content by their own subject must involve the use of indexical terms. And these terms, like any other singular term performing such a function, cannot be replaced *salva veritate* by another merely co-referential singular term. But this is all there is to it, at least in the absence of any argument for Premise 2. What excites Perry and so many others is nothing more than a very familiar opacity of intensional contexts as it manifests itself in the case of representations with indexical contents.[9]

Yet Cappelen and Dever not only argue that Premise 2 is unmotivated; they also argue that it is false. For if it were true, they believe, one could show with just as much right that beliefs about Superman were essential to agency! After all,

> the following may be true … : in any case where someone, *A*, is characterized *only* by her non-Superman beliefs, we can imagine another agent, *B*, with the *same* non-Superman beliefs, but rationally motivated to pursue a different course of action because of the presence of a Superman-involving belief not shared with *A*. For example, suppose *A* and *B* are alike with respect to their beliefs and desires about what to order for dessert: it all points towards apple crumble as the rational choice. Now imagine that *B* has the added belief that Superman will torture everyone who eats apple crumble for dessert. The addition of this belief will make a difference as to what it is rational for each to

[9] As Cappelen and Dever elsewhere put it, we should see "Indexical Opacity as an instance of Generic Opacity." (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 33)

> do: it is rational for *B* to not order the crumble, while it is rational for *A* to order the crumble. This point obviously generalizes, but that's not a good reason for thinking that "Superman"-beliefs play distinctive, essential, or even important roles in an account of rational agency. (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 49)

This seems to be a *reductio ad absurdum* of the kind of argument spelt out in Section II of Chapter One, a *reductio* which proceeds by falsifying Premise 2.

It is not easy to see how this *reductio* is supposed to work, so elaboration of it is needed. Let us assume, firstly, that an agent A has certain representations of kind *K*. What *K* is left unspecified; '*K*' is simply a schematic letter representing any arbitrary property, in the broadest sense of the term, possessable by representations. Let us assume, secondly, that certain representations of kind *K* belong to the set I_A, the set of representations which together make it rational for A to engage in the purposive behaviour H_A and actually motivate A to do so. Let us assume, thirdly, that another agent B has certain representations also of kind *K* belonging to the set I_B, the set of representations which together make it rational for B to engage in the purposive behaviour H_B and actually motivate B to do so.[10]

Let us now consider the following argument-schema:

Premise 1:

> The same representations of kind *K* can be contained in I_A as are contained in I_B yet A and B behave differently in the sense that H_A is not the same (type of) behaviour as H_B

Premise 2:

> That a behaviour H_X is not the same (type of) behaviour as H_Y is due to there being some representation R_X in the set I_X such that *R* differs in content, hence itself differs, from any representation R_Y in I_Y

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[10] The sets I_A and I_B are thus the sets of beliefs and desires *salient for* the generation, hence explanation of the purposive behaviours H_A and H_B respectively. The notion of salience proves to be crucial.

Lemma:

> There is at least one representation R_A of kind *not-K* in I_A such that R_A is not identical with any in I_B *AND* at least one representation R_B of kind *not-K* in I_B such that *y* is not identical with any in I_A.

Premise 3:

> The agents A and B, as well as their representations and purposive behaviours have been chosen completely arbitrarily. So what goes for this set of agents, representations and purposive behaviours goes for all agents, representations and purposive behaviours.

Conclusion:

> For all agents A and B engaging in different (types of) behaviour H_A and H_B on the basis of the same representations of kind *K* contained in H_A and H_B, A and B must *each* have at least one representation of kind *not-K* such that these representations differ in content from one another, hence themselves differ, which difference in representation of kind *not-K* determines a difference in I_A and I_B, hence accounts for the difference between H_A and H_B.

Clearly, if this argument-schema is valid and if replacement of the schematic letter '*K*' by a predicate for some specific property yields a true first premise, then, given the truth of the other premises, the argument generated thereby is sound. Clearly, too, the argument outlined in Section II of Chapter One at least seems to instantiate the schema. It in fact seems to be an instance of the schema in which the property of being impersonal is the value of '*K*'. Note, however, what happens when we specify a different value for '*K*', the property, for example, of not being Superman-involving, which a representation possesses just in case it is not about Superman. The argument will now yield the conclusion that A and B must have (different) Superman-involving representations and Superman-involving representation turns out to be essential to purposive behaviour. Since this is absurd, one of the premises in the argument schema must be false and this can only be Premise 2 since we cannot reject either Premise 1 or Premise 3.

Such at least would seem to be the argument towards which Cappelen and Dever are gesturing with their case of the apple crumble. It goes without saying that if everything is in order with the argument-schema apparently underpinning it, then Cappelen and Dever have given us very good reason for rejecting Premise 2. To reject this premise, however, is to reject every instance of the schema, even along the impersonal/personal dimension. However much indexical, hence personal representation may be involved, in some sense even essentially, in *specific cases* of purposive behaviour, this cannot be so *generally*, i.e., in *all* cases. Both the IIC and C.1, the first corollary of the thesis of content inherently *de se*, are false. As far as both the explanation or rationalisation and the motivation or generation of purposive behaviour are concerned, there is nothing special about either indexicality or the *de se*. So-called indexical contents or contents *de se*—those whose perspicuous characterisation requires either the appropriate indexical on the part of the subject of representation itself or the appropriate asterisked expression on the part of a subject which does not identify with the latter—do not behave or function in any way which sets them apart from contents whose perspicuous characterisation requires some other kind of singular term. All that is left for Perry and others to draw attention to with their examples are just specific cases of a familiar opacity displayed by all intensional contexts involving any kind of singular term.

Yet manifestly the argument-schema is not valid. In particular, as it stands, the lemma does not follow; '*AND*' needs to be replaced by '*OR*'. And then, given that its first premise is as formulated, the argument yields only the following:

Conclusion*:

> For all agents A and B engaging in different (types of) behaviour H_A and H_B on the basis of the same representations of kind *K* contained in H_A and H_B, *either* A has at least one representation of kind *not-K* in H_A *or* B has at least one representation of kind *not-K* in H_B, which difference between I_A and I_B accounts for the difference between H_A and H_B.

It is, of course, easy to render the schema such that it entails the conclusion desired by Cappelen and Dever. One has only to restrict the notion of containment of representations of kind *K* in the sets I_A and I_B to *proper* containment. Then, however, the argument-schema becomes entirely trivial, this because it no longer speaks to all purposive behaviour as such, but merely to purposive behaviours H_X such that the set of representations of kind *K* is a proper subset of I_X—in which case, of course, I_X trivially contains representations of kind *not-K*.

Fortunately, this result is not entirely negative. For it raises a question of which Cappelen and Dever could rightly demand that proponents either of the IIC or of C.1 answer it: What exactly *is* the first premise of the argument given in Section II of Chapter One? Only by clarifying and refining this premise will one be able to show that the argument to which it contributes is not either invalid or trivial in the manner of the schema above. Crucially, only so will one be able to show that the whole argument does not instantiate a schema into which any arbitrary property of representation—not being personal, not being Superman-involving, etc.—may be indifferently plugged.

So let us consider once again the cases on the basis of which the first premise of the argument given in Section II of Chapter One has been formulated: François's being attacked by a bear, François's acting to save himself by rolling up into a ball and Dilip's acting to save François by calling for help; or again, A's and B's being lost in the national Park *en route* to Mount M, A's turning left (on the basis of what A has learnt from the guidebook) and B's continuing on straight ahead (on the basis of what B has learnt from the guidebook). These are both scenarios in which two agents are acting, and are rationally motivated to act, with regard to the same objects in pursuit of what is objectively the same goal, or at least objectively the same *type* of goal: both François and Dilip are acting with regard to a certain bear at a certain place and time with a view to saving François while A and B are acting with regard to a certain guidebook at a certain time and location with a view to each reaching Mount

M. They have representations concerning these *self-same* items and these representations are all relevant for achieving the very same goal or at least the very same type of goal: both François and Dilip seek to make it the case that François is saved, i.e., is not attacked by a bear, while A and B each seek to make at least the same type of thing the case, namely, that each reaches Mount M.

Consequently, the first premise of the argument outlined in Section II of Chapter One is more accurately and explicitly formulated as an instance of the following schema:

Premise 1✦:

> For all subjects S_1 and S_2 and for all entities a, b, c, … such that S_1 and S_2 are each purposively behaving[11] with regard to a, b, c, … in pursuit of the same (type of) goal, it is possible that S_1 and S_2 have the same *salient* impersonal representations[12] about a, b, c, … yet are each rationally motivated to engage, and do in fact engage, in different types of behaviour.[13]

The notion of salience is clearly necessary: in the examples from which the premise has been extracted two subjects S_1 and S_2 are tacitly assumed to be engaging with regard to one and the same set of entities in pursuit of the same (type of) goal *because*

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[11] It is hard to find a completely adequate English verb for what is meant here. The notion of an agent's objectively behaving with regard to an entity is meant to capture what one might be tempted *simply to identify* with what Heidegger calls *das Sich Verhalten zum Seienden*—as it is typically translated, with the self-comporting of a subject towards an entity. Unfortunately, Heidegger understands *das Sich Verhalten zu etwas* as something of which only distinctively self-conscious subjects capable of self-understanding are capable. As he intimates esp. in § 9 and 12 of Heidegger 1979, non-self-conscious animals are not *daseiend*. Elsewhere he writes, "… (D)er Maulwurf … *benimmt sich … gegen* den Regenwurm, indem er ihn verfolgt" (Heidegger 1983, § 58, p. 345, and §§ 58-60), which is hard to translate, particularly once one has settled on the English verb 'to comport oneself towards something' as one's translation of the German 'sich verhalten zu etwas'. Let us translate, somewhat stipulatively, Heidegger's sentence as "... (T)he mole [*merely*] conducts itself ... with regard to the earthworm when pursuing it."

[12] That is, have numerically distinct representations, presumably beliefs and desires, about a, b, c, … with the very same *content.*

[13] Note that nothing here entails that S_1 and S_2 are acting *jointly* or *collectively*. They may be acting perfectly individually, even in the case of François and Dilip: the latter may be observing what is happening to François completely unbeknownst to the latter and without interacting with him. Thus, whatever conclusions flow from Premise 1 apply to *all* actions, whether individual or not. *Mutatis mutandis*, they will also apply to all intendings to act and deliberatings about acting, whether individual or not.

the notion of salience operates, as it were, on the set of representations possessed or undergone by S_1 and S_2, *even ones about the entities a, b, c, ... themselves*, to select for those *relevant for reaching the same (type of) goal*. More precisely put, from the outset the set of representations at issue has been restricted to those salient to, hence relevant for, the (rational) motivation and generation of such and such purposive behaviour, which latter has from the outset been picked out as each agent's acting with regard to a common set of entities a, b, c, ... for the sake of a same or similar goal.[14]

Immediately one sees that the case of the apple crumble is irrelevant to whether the IIC is true or not since it is not a case of two agents acting on the basis of the same *salient* representations, specifically, beliefs, about entities a, b, c, … .[15] For one of the agents, namely, B, has a *salient* belief about something, viz., Superman, which the other, A, does not. As one may also put the point, B is purposively behaving with regard to a *different* set of entities, namely, a, b, c, Superman, … . So Premise 1 simply does not get a grip on the case, that is, apply to it. In fact, the case in no way concerns the issue of whether representation *de se* is or is not essential to purposive behaviour. Rather, it concerns the non-monotonicity of practical reasoning and, correspondingly, the ineliminably *ceteris paribus* character of the causality of representations.[16]

This result should not be surprising. The contrasts 'non-indexical/indexical' and 'non-, i.e., impersonal/personal' are, after all, qualitatively different from the contrast

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[14] Adapting this point and the considerations behind it to Perry's example of the professor whose meeting begins at noon is straightforward. For this is a situation in which, as it were, the subjects S_1 and S_2 are the same while the worlds differ. One and the same subject is acting in different possible worlds in which it has the same *salient* B-series representations while having different *salient* A-series ones.

[15] Although in this case they are, of course, acting in pursuit of the same type of goal, namely, ordering dessert.

[16] This ineliminable *ceteris paribus* character consists in the fact that when a subject S desires that *p* and believes that it* will make it the case that *p* by engaging in behaviour H, S will only ever be ***ceteris paribus*** rationally motivated to engage in, hence only ever ***ceteris paribus*** actually engage in, H.

'non-Superman-involving/Superman-involving'. The former are, as one might put it, contrasts between kinds of representational aboutness whereas the latter is a contrast between what representations are about. The significance of this difference becomes evident, or at least more evident, when Premise 1 is elaborated as Premise 1✦: embedded only implicitly in the former but explicitly in the latter is recognition of what one might call *epistemic perspective*, understood as a set of beliefs and other cognitive representations concerning such and such entities x, y, z, … . In Premise 1✦ the subjects S_1 and S_2 are conceived of as acting with regard *to the same entities a, b, c, … from different epistemic perspectives*, which difference in perspective determines differences (i) in what it is rational for each to do, (ii) in what each is motivated to do; and (iii) in what each actually does *with regard to the same entities a, b, c, …* . So this difference in perspective must be reflected in any perspicuous *characterisation* of what it is rational for each to do, of what each is motivated to do and of what each actually does. In other words, it must be reflected in any complete explanation. Clearly, in the case of the apple crumble, the subjects involved are not acting with regard to the same entities, this precisely because their epistemic perspectives are not perspectives *on the same things*: the one perspective is constituted by a (salient) belief about something *x* such that the other has no belief or any other cognitive representation about *x*.[17]

Cappelen and Dever's putative *reductio* thus fails. This does not mean, of course, that Premise 2 is true. Yet we have an improved formulation of Premise 1 and gained further insight into, and clarity about, the position of Cappelen and Dever themselves. In particular, we see that they do not deny that possession by an agent of *nothing more than* non-indexical, that is to say, impersonal representation is insufficient to motivate purposive behaviour. Given, therefore, that Cappelen and Dever deny Premise 2, it is

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[17] The term 'perspective' needs, of course, to be wielded with care since it is quite common to use it in connection with the first and third person: one speaks of distinctively *first-person* as opposed to *third-person* perspectives. It should be clear that the notion of perspective appealed to here does not have any particular connection with whatever first-, second- or third-person perspectives there might be.

positively incumbent upon them to identify, however tentatively and speculatively, some other way in which the causal, hence explanatory gap between an agent's impersonal representation and its purposive behaviour might be bridged—something other than non-impersonal, hence 'indexical' representation, and so, since all forms of representation have been specified, something other than representation *as such*.

Cappelen and Dever see this very clearly: having pointed out what they regard as "flaws in arguments attempting to establish [the] IIC," they acknowledge that one

> might still wonder why it is the case that "when you and I both apprehend the thought that I am about to be attacked by a bear, we behave differently" (Perry 1977, p. 494). More generally, an agent will have indefinitely many third-person beliefs and desires about the world that don't result in or rationalize [purposive behaviour] by the agent. So we need to explain which ones produce [purposive behaviour] and which ones don't; we need a filtering mechanism of some sort. Call this "the Selection Problem." (Cappelen and Dever 2013, pp. 49-50)

Proponents of the IIC maintain that, as Cappelen and Dever put it, "the first-person status is the filtering mechanism; only the first-person beliefs and desires give rise to the right sort of intentions, which then gives rise to" (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 50) purposive behaviour and the rationalisation thereof. Or, to put the point in a manner more congenial to the thesis of content inherently *de se*, proponents of the IIC maintain that representation *de se* is the "filtering mechanism": representation with content *de se*, hence such that a subject which does not identify with the subject of purposive behaviour must use asterisked third-person pronouns (and, as the case may be, asterisked adverbs of time and place) in order to characterise it perspicuously, mediates between impersonal representation and behaviour. So "(w)hat can be said about the Selection Problem if we don't appeal to *de se* states?" (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 50)

In the next section, critical examination of how Cappelen and Dever attempt to solve the Selection Problem without "appeal to *de se* states" will reveal precisely why one needs them, hence why Premise 2 is true. So let us end this section with a final

observation. Cappelen and Dever believe that there is nothing special about the indexical expressions with which the content of 'indexical' or personal intentionality is perspicuously expressed. True, such expressions are distinctive in that their referents vary from speaker to speaker. But in this regard they are not *importantly* distinctive, at least not in the ways proponents of the IIC allege. Yet Cappelen and Dever say nothing at all about asterisked third-person pronouns and adverbs of time and place. There would seem to be an important reason for this: they, too, endorse the almost ubiquitous assumption that such expressions must be explained as derivative upon corresponding indexical ones.[18] In other words, they implicitly accept that representation and content *de se* implicate or entail the use, or the capacity for the use, of the first-person pronoun. So given that use of the first-person pronoun implicates or indeed entails self-consciousness, they implicitly accept that representation and content *de se* implicates or entails the latter. With this, they deny the second corollary C.2, hence the third corollary C.3, of the thesis of content inherently *de se*.

Section III: The Action Inventory Model

Cappelen and Dever offer as an admittedly speculative solution to the Selection Problem what they describe as "a toy picture" intended to serve "as a replacement for the *de se* picture." (Cappelen and Dever, p. 50) This they call the Action Inventory Model:

> Every agent has a very wide range of third-person beliefs and desires that give rise to third-person intentions, which in turn rationalize or motivate actions … . Not all of these intentions are going to produce action, at least in normal cases (perhaps in a god they would). This is because a given agent has an "action inventory": a range of actions that he can perform. An agent constantly seeks to match his intentions with his action inventory, and when he finds a match, action occurs. When there's no match, the intention idles, and doesn't motivate

[18] This assumption underpins, as will be seen in Chapter Four, Carl Ginet's suggestion that the asterisked third-person pronoun be directly analysed in terms of the first-person pronoun. It is also operative in Anscombe's protest that "explanation of the word "I" as 'the word which each of us uses to speak of himself' is hardly an explanation!" (Anscombe 1975, p. 48)

> or rationalize action. So the Selection Problem is solved by appealing to the physical or psychological constraints of the agent: only certain actions result because only certain actions were available in the first place.[14] (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 50)

The Action Inventory Model is meant to provide an alternative possible explanation of the intuition that "when you and I both apprehend the thought that I am about to be attacked by a bear, we behave differently" (Perry 1977, p. 494) or, as Cappelen and Dever put it, "when two agents have the same belief-desire sets, they [*ceteris paribus*[19]] perform the same action." (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 52). In other words, the model is meant to explain how, given Premise 1 of the argument given in Chapter One, representation can lead to purposive behaviour without the truth of Premise 2. Cappelen and Dever stress that they "… are taking the Action Inventory model pretty loosely … ." In particular, they are not committing themselves "to anything like a serious model with a switchboard in the head." Indeed, they claim that they "… don't need that this model is really right at all, but just that it's a possibility." (Cappelen and Dever 2013, footnote 14, p. 50) Arguably, this is not quite correct: they need their chosen model to be plausibly, not just possibly right. Let us, however, simply accept the claim in order to examine whether the Action Inventory Model is possible at all.

How exactly is the Action Inventory Model supposed to solve the Selection Problem? That is, how does it show how an agent's merely impersonal representation can both "give rise … to action … ," thereby rationalising it, i.e., making it rational, while ensuring that, without any mediation by personal representation, two agents with the same impersonal representation can both engage in, and have good reason to

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[19] Clearly, when two agents have the same belief-desire sets, they perform the same action only *ceteris paribus* since for some external reason an agent might fail to perform an action towards which he or she is psychologically disposed, e.g., just as the agent is about to act, the agent is struck dead by a bolt of lightning. See in this connection Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 52.

engage in, *different* purposive behaviours? Consider the following, which Cappelen and Dever would call an impersonal explanation/rationalisation:[20]

* Belief: François is about to be attacked by a bear.

* Desire: François not be attacked by the bear.

* Belief: If François climbs into the tree and Dilip calls for help, François will not be attacked by the bear.

* Action: François climbs into the tree and Dilip calls for help.

Evidently, François and Dilip could and presumably do share these impersonal beliefs and desires. Yet the purposive behaviour of each is different: François climbs into the tree and Dilip calls for help. Thereby they both save François from the bear. What difference between them could explain both the reality and the rationality of the difference if not a difference in further representation?

Cappelen and Dever open their attempt to answer this question with the following move: in cases like that of François and Dilip,

> actions will differ but not what we are rationally motivated to do. Someone other than François, e.g., Dilip, can be rationally motivated to perform the action *that François climb into the tree*. (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 52)

At first sight, talk of *Dilip's* being rationally motivated to perform the action *that* ***François*** *climb into the tree* seems odd. Cappelen and Dever appear, however, to believe that to perform an action is always simply to make it the case that *p*. In other words, to engage in purposive behaviour is to seek so to affect the world that the proposition that *p* is made true. This makes the claim that someone other than François, precisely Dilip, could be rationally motivated to perform the action *that François climb into the tree* less odd. Cappelen and Dever now go on to claim that

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[20] For a use of the term 'impersonal action explanation/rationalization', see the heading of § 3.3, Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 35. On p. 39 we find a weaker version of the IIC formulated as follows: "In *some* action explanations/rationalizations, indexicals occur ineliminably."

even though Dilip might be no less rationally motivated to make it the case that François climb into the tree,

> Dilip just can't perform the action. François can perform it, so he does. François is, like Dilip, rationally motivated to perform the action *that Dilip call for help*. But François can't perform that act. So François climbs into a tree and Dilip calls for help. (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 52)

But why cannot Dilip make it the case that François climbs into a tree? And why cannot François perform the action Dilip performs, namely, make it the case that Dilip calls for help? Each, say Cappelen and Dever, is subject to "various physical or psychological constraints" which limit the range of actions he can perform. More generally,

> a given agent has an "action inventory": a range of actions that he can perform. An agent constantly seeks to match his intentions with his action inventory, and when he finds a match, action occurs. When there's no match, the intention idles, and doesn't motivate or rationalize action. ... (O)nly certain actions result because only certain actions were available in the first place. (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 50)

It seems, then, that although the beliefs and desires of each agent cause an intention to do what the other does, this intention, because it does not match up with a doable action—what Cappelen and Dever call an *actionable* content—, neither causes purposive behaviour nor makes it rational.

Cappelen and Dever make clear that this process of matching is not to be understood as something done consciously. Rather, it occurs at the sub-personal level:

> (N)o one has to "look" to see if there's a match, ... hence no one has to "think about available actions" in any way, let alone a first-person way. The actions have already been "thought about" by the time they emerge as potential actions (and thought about just as ... third-person [actions of the form] "that *p*"); all that remains is to see if the actions are among the things that can be done. (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 51)

Obviously, if the agent had to think about available actions in a first-person way, then we would have reinstated essential indexicality. But this is ruled out because, properly understood, the matching process involves no thinking at all.

Clearly, if this story suffices as an account of both the reality and the rationality of the behavioural difference between François and Dilip, then Cappelen and Dever can maintain that their wholly impersonal action explanation/rationalisation is complete. In particular, they can claim to have provided an alternative account of the causal and explanatory difference between François and Dilip without appeal to mediating personal, hence indexical representation. But does the story suffice? It does not, not only because it is incoherent,[21] but, more importantly, because it does not address the right question, indeed addresses the wrong one. At best, it constitutes a hypothesis as to how the explanatory difference between François and Dilip is sub-personally realised or implemented, not an account of what this difference is. In this sense, the story is nothing short of a category mistake.

In order to see this, one must ask what sense of 'can't', hence of 'can', is operative when Cappelen and Dever claim that although "Dilip can be rationally motivated to perform the action *that François climb into the tree* ...," "he just can't perform the action." (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p.52) The action *that François climb into the tree* is, they say, not in Dilip's action centre; it is not, as they put it, an actionable content for him. But

> (w)hat constitutes actionable content for an agent will depend on the kinds of sensory inputs the agent has—for example, whether he moves around the world only with smell and taste or using sonar and sounds. It will depend on the agent's physical setup: whether he has fingers, claws, a trunk, wings, feet, fins, etc. It will depend on whether the agent's skills include steering cars out of skids or balancing plates on poles, and whether the agent's casual (*sic*) reach includes having employees publish Kripke's manuscripts. (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 51)

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[21] This in at least four respects—see Appendix to Chapter Two for an argument to this effect.

So an actionable content is simply a function of what an agent can physically do. The sense of 'can't', hence of 'can' operative here is thus that of bodily or physical ability and inability. This is, however, not the right sense of 'can', the sense actually operative in the case of François and Dilip and assumed in Premise 1 of the argument given in Section II of Chapter One. After all, the action *that François climb into the tree* may well be in Dilip's action centre in a purely bodily or physical sense. That is, Dilip may well be able to move François to climb into the tree.[22] Similarly, François may well be able to move Dilip to call for help. But neither do these things because they cannot do them *rationally*. From the perspective of ensuring that François not be attacked by a bear, it is better that Dilip call for help rather than get François to climb into the tree; and that François climb into the tree rather than get Dilip to call for help.

If, however, difference in behaviour is due to what different agents can and cannot *rationally* do, then we must explain it in terms of differences in belief. These differing beliefs need not be beliefs *explicitly about* what each can rationally do because perhaps the agents in question are not sophisticated enough to have such beliefs. But each must at least have beliefs *about its particular situation* which objectively determine that this rather than that of what it can do physically it can, to whatever degree, do rationally. In other words, in addition to whatever impersonal beliefs each has and possibly shares with the other, it must have beliefs about its situation which so to speak select amongst what it can *physically* do for what it can *rationally* do, given its situation.[23] Selection in this sense is the Selection Problem properly understood. In principle, then, impersonal beliefs can only cause action insofar as they are mediated by beliefs constituting awareness of the particular situation.

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[22] One might claim that the action of climbing into a tree is a qualitatively different type of action to moving someone, say, François, to climb into a tree. But Cappelen and Dever do not see things this way. The former is for them just a species of the latter, that species, namely, in which François does the moving of François!

[23] This is not to suggest that *the agent* literally selects—as if it had beliefs about the totality of what it can and cannot do, either as a matter of fact or even when understood as fully and ideally rational.

It might be objected that this mediation could perhaps be accomplished by the situation itself, in all its possible distinctiveness and difference from the situation of another agent with the same impersonal beliefs, rather than by an agent's beliefs about it. Against this suggestion one has only to point out that if it were correct, then whatever beliefs an agent had about its particular situation would be causally irrelevant. But such beliefs are evidently not causally irrelevant. This is shown by the fact that when the agent has beliefs about its particular situation which diverge from the situation itself, i.e., when these beliefs are *erroneous*, what it may rationally do diverges from what the situation objectively determines as appropriate to achieving the desired goal.[24] Causal mediation between impersonal representation on the one hand and purposive behaviour on the other can only be accomplished by intervening *representations*, in particular, intervening *beliefs*, about the agent's particular situation. It is indeed *constitutive* of impersonal belief and representation generally, precisely as impersonal, that it operate causally through other forms of representation, in particular, belief and desire, about the agent's situation, hence indirectly about the agent, *as they specifically and particularly are*. This is, of course, the rationale behind talk of (self-)locating belief and the like. Evidently, the representation thus mediating between impersonal representation and purposive behaviour cannot itself be impersonal. It must be non-impersonal, hence *personal*.

We now see why Premise 2 is needed: the whole issue turns not just on the reality but on the rationality of behavioural difference between two agents with the same impersonal representation. Action and purposive behaviour generally are essentially subject to standards of rationality. Representations do not merely cause behaviour, they do so more or less intelligibly, such that it is possible to evaluate the behaviour they cause as more or less appropriate, given these representations. Since the situations of different agents with the very same impersonal beliefs and desires may

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[24] Even when the behaviour to which an erroneous belief leads is not objectively appropriate, it can still be perfectly rational, given the belief.

differ in ways which determine that different courses of action are rational for them, their impersonal beliefs and desires can only cause purposive behaviour *rationally* if mediated by personal forms of representation belonging to the agent's epistemic perspective as defined above in Section II—an epistemic perspective which we may now describe, at least in the case of such clearly self-conscious agents as François and Dilip, as their at least putative *understanding* of the particular situation *in all its particularity*. An agent's epistemic perspective can, of course, be erroneous, that is, contain erroneous representations. Even so, it constitutes a necessary condition of the rationality of purposive behaviour, hence a necessary condition of its *rational* generation. Relatedly, it, more precisely put, the personal representations it contains, must be mentioned in any complete *rationalising* explanation of such behaviour.

Conclusion

The argument constructed in Section II of Chapter One for the Initial Conclusion, hence for *both* a thesis of essential indexicality (Final Conclusion) *and* a thesis of essential anaphora (Final Conclusion*), is sound, at least when its first premise is refined in the manner undertaken here. Of course, what precisely either of these two theses comes to depends on how the relevant fourth premise, either Premise 4 or Premise 4*, is understood. There are trivial or at least uncontentious readings of them under which their respective conclusions are similarly uncontentious, in fact merely different ways of articulating the same thing, the essentiality, namely, of *personal* representation—what the *Initial* Conclusion asserts. So is there any reason for preferring one of these premises over the other, that is, for thinking that the conclusion it enables articulates how things objectively, hence to this extent *ontologically*, are? One reason has already been given for thinking that there is an ontological priority, one possessed by the anaphorically third-person mode of characterisation, the fact, namely, that it must be *used* when *mentioning* both in explanation of how they are interconnected.

Ultimately, however, this consideration cannot be decisive. The issue must be decided by investigating the very notion of distinctively personal representation in general; and the very notion of distinctively personal belief specifically—of what has been called here, already somewhat tendentiously, given the meaning of the pronoun '*se*', representation *inherently de se*. Everything thus turns on how one must understand sentences of the form "S V's that it* is F," where V is a verb constitutive of an intensional context, e.g., 'believes', 'desires', and indeed, *mutatis mutandis*, 'says', 'asserts', etc. Evidently, this depends in turn on how one must understand the asterisked third-person pronoun and, for that matter, asterisked adverbs of time and place. What is the relation of Castañeda's anaphorically deployed 'he*' to its corresponding indexical, the first-person pronoun 'I'—*mutatis mutandis*, of course, for the non-nominative asterisked third-person pronouns 'him*', 'his*', etc., and the non-nominative forms of the first-person pronoun corresponding to them? And what, for that matter, is the relation of the asterisked adverbs of time and place 'then*' and 'there*' to their corresponding demonstrative, hence indexical counterparts 'now' and 'here'?

As we shall see in Chapter Three, Perry, having identified what he calls the problem of the essential indexical, sketches what he describes as the obvious solution to it.[25] This is precisely an ontology of belief which seeks to cash Castañeda's 'he*' in terms of its relation to 'I'. Yet although Perry is indebted to Castañeda, his account of the phenomenon expressed by sentences of the form "S believes that it* is F" is importantly different from the latter's. An independent examination of Castañeda's views is thus necessary, which will be undertaken in Chapter Four. As we shall see, this will permit an answer to the question of priority. Yet even then the answer remains provisional because there is *another way entirely* of understanding how asterisked third-person pronouns and adverbs function. This is the so-called property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception of content, a conception endorsed,

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[25] Admittedly only with a question mark! See Perry 1979, pp. 16-18/pp. 38-40.

in varying degrees of strength and, in particular, ontologically distinct ways, by Brian Loar, Neil Feit and, most importantly, David Lewis. This seriously alternative conception of representation, locution, illocution and content *de se* will be examined in Chapter Six.

CHAPTER THREE

Perry on the Essential Indexical—A Reconstruction (Part II)

Having constructed out of Perry's paper an argument for what Cappelen and Dever call the Impersonal Incompleteness Claim and defended it against their critique, let us now turn to determine what Perry takes the problem of the essential indexical to be and how he responds to it. This proves to be a surprisingly difficult task.

Section I: Perry and the Doctrine of Propositions

"It is clear," writes Perry, "that the essential indexical is a problem for" what he calls "the doctrine of propositions." (Perry 1979, p. 30/p. 6) In other words, the in *some* sense indexical forms of representation essential for the generation and explanation of purposive behaviour present a problem for what Perry sees as the traditional account of the contents of representation and, for that matter, locution and illocution—of what is picked out by 'that'-clauses subordinate to intensional contexts. According to Perry, this traditional account consists in three tenets:

First Tenet: Belief and other forms of representation[1] whose perspicuous characterisation involves a 'that'-clause are relations of their subject to something, standardly called a proposition, which constitutes what is believed, desired, feared, etc., hence is the *content* of such representation and is perspicuously individuated[2] by the 'that'-clause

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1 Needless to say, this and the other tenets of the doctrine of propositions are taken also to apply to locutions and illocutions. Let us, however, for the sake of briefer formulation leave speech acts to one side.

2 This usage of the verb 'to individuate' is taken directly from Perry, who speaks of "how we individuate propositions," i.e., contents, then goes on to point out that while "(i)t is necessary, for *that S* and *that S'* to be the same, that they have the same truth-value[,] … it is not sufficient, for *that the sea is salty* and *that milk is white* are not the same proposition." (Perry 1979, p. 30/p. 6) Here the claim that 'that'-clauses individuate contents is intended in exactly the way Perry intends it, namely, as articulating the function of 'that'-clauses as devices for picking out or distinguishing what is represented or locuted—this however one might ultimately go on to explicate content as the notion is understood here. Note that a 'that'-clause's individuating a content is not to be confused with what Perry means by a sentence's 'identifying' a proposition since, as will be seen below, the latter notion appeals to the former.

Motivating this tenet is the observation that in everyday discourse one speaks of *there being* something believed when a subject S believes or, for that matter, asserts that, e.g., Atlanta is the capital of Georgia. What is believed or asserted is precisely that Atlanta is the capital of Georgia. The first tenet takes this observation to show that such sentences as "S believes that Atlanta is the capital of Georgia," "S desires that Atlanta be the capital of Georgia," "S asserts that Atlanta is the capital of Georgia" and the like express relations of belief, desire, assertion, etc. to the content individuated by the 'that'-clause, which content is a so-called proposition.

Perry describes the doctrine of propositions as "traditional" (Perry 1979, p. 32/p. 8) because it has been endorsed by a number of thinkers across a relatively long period of time. At the same time, his characterisation of its first tenet has been tailored to fit that advocate of it who constitutes his stalking horse in both Perry 1979 and Perry 1977, namely, Frege. "The doctrines" he describes "were held by Frege" even though he, Perry, formulates them "in a way that does not incorporate [Frege's] terminology or the details of his view." (Perry 1979, p. 29/p 6) The first tenet may therefore be specified in a distinctively Fregean direction: not only are the aforementioned sentences understood as intimating that belief, desire and indeed assertion are relations to a proposition, they are also taken to suggest that 'that'-clauses individuating propositions do so *by* referring to them. With this, such clauses have been fully assimilated to the general pattern $R(x,y)$, in which terms referring to subjects replace 'x', 'that'-clauses referring to propositions replace 'y' and intensional contexts replace 'R' itself. In the Concluding Remarks Chapter Eight we shall see that a 'that'-clause cannot be construed as *referring to* or *denoting* a content, at least not when this is taken as its primary, non-derivative accomplishment. For the moment, however, let us understand the tenet as tacitly implicating a Fregean conception of 'that'-clauses according to which contents, i.e., propositions or, as Frege calls them, thoughts (*Gedanken*), are primarily and originally "denoted … by a that-clause." (Perry 1979, p. 29/p. 6)

The second tenet insists that contents "have a truth-value in an absolute sense, as opposed to merely being true for a person or at a time" (Perry 1979, pp. 29-30/p. 6):

Second Tenet: A content of representation, i.e., a proposition, is true or false absolutely. As one might also put it, the truth-predicate as it applies to propositions is monadic.

Forms of representation such as belief have satisfaction conditions and what these conditions are is determined by their content. Thus, Perry's belief that Atlanta is the capital of Georgia is satisfied in the specifically cognitive or epistemic sense only if Atlanta is the capital of Georgia, which satisfaction condition is determined by the content of belief, the proposition, namely, that Atlanta is the capital of Georgia. This proposition is not true or false relative to anything, it is simply true or false.

The third tenet seeks to capture the intuition that "propositions," however one conceives them more specifically, "must be individuated in a more "fine-grained" way than" (Perry 1979, p. 30/p. 6) by mere possession of the same truth value or mere fixing of the same truth conditions *qua* attribution of the same property or relation to the same objects.

> Propositions must not only have the same truth-value, and concern the same objects and relations, but also involve the same concepts. For Frege, this meant that if *that S* = *that S′*, *S* and *S′* must have the same sense. Others might eschew senses in favor of properties and relations, [while] others take concepts to be just words, so that sameness of propositions is just sameness of sentences. What [all] these approaches have in common is the insistence that propositions must be individuated in a more "fine-grained" way than is provided by truth-value or the notion of truth conditions employed above.[3] (Perry 1979, p. 30/p. 6)

One may capture this intuition as follows:

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[3] That is, the notion of a truth condition implicit in what was described above as "mere sameness of the objects referred to and of the property or relation ascribed to these objects in an expression of them." According to this less restrictive notion of a truth condition, two sentences determine the same truth condition simply when their locution involves attributing the same property or relation to the same objects.

Third Tenet: The identity of a content of representation, i.e., a proposition, is *partly* determined by the linguistic meaning[4] of a sentence contained in a 'that'-clause individuating it, and by the linguistic meaning of a sentence with which it is perspicuously expressed, i.e., locuted, this determination being understood as follows:

For any two distinct[5] representations R and $R^{\star}$,

(a) if R has a proposition p as content such that p is perspicuously *individuated* by a 'that'-clause containing the sentence s;[6] and $R^{\star}$ has a proposition q as content such that q is perspicuously individuated by a 'that'-clause containing the sentence $s^{\star}$: then if s is not synonymous with $s^{\star}$, then $p \neq q$, inversely put, if $p = q$, then s is synonymous with $s^{\star}$; and, correlatively,

(b) if R has a proposition p as content such that p is perspicuously *expressed*, i.e., locuted, by the sentence s (as uttered by a speaker S at a time t and location l); and $R^{\star}$ has a proposition q as content such that q is perspicuously expressed, i.e., locuted by the sentence $s^{\star}$ (as uttered by $S^{\star}$ at $t^{\star}$ and $l^{\star}$): then if s is not synonymous with $s^{\star}$, then $p \neq q$, once again inversely put, if $p = q$, then s is synonymous with $s^{\star}$.[7]

The passage just quoted shows that, notwithstanding a certain tweaking in the direction of Frege, Perry understands the doctrine of propositions not as so much a *specific* set of conditions necessary for being a content, hence a proposition, but rather

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4 By linguistic meaning is meant the conventionally determined property of an expression which enables it to refer to an entity, to predicate a property or relation of an entity or to express a proposition, i.e., a whole truth-apt content, when uttered in the intention of a speaker S at a time t and a location l that it thus refer, predicate or express, hence that it*, S, should thus refer, predicate or express, then* and there*.

5 R and $R^{\star}$ need to be distinct because we must ensure that the clauses 'that I am F' and 'that it* is F' pick out the same content. That these clauses must be able to do this follows from that fact that the sentence "I believe here and now that I am F here and now," as asserted S at t and l, expresses something true if and only if S believes at t and l that it* is F* then* and there*. Clause (a) would generate problems in this regard in the case where $R = R^{\star}$. The representations R and $R^{\star}$ will be distinct, of course, just in case it is possible to have the one without the other.

6 Which 'that'-clause is therefore one utterable by a speaker S at a time t and location l for the sake of perspicuously attributing R and/or perspicuously individuating its content. The same applies, of course, to the 'that'-clause characterising the content of representation $R^{\star}$.

7 See Appendix I to Chapter Three for a discussion of Ninan's rather different formulation of this tenet.

as a schema for picking out such sets—sets all entailing that the identity of contents consists in more than identity in truth value or in the objects referred to and the property or relation ascribed to them. Precisely for this reason, the third tenet must make reference to (the linguistic meaning of) the means by which contents are expressed and individuated, namely, to sentences and corresponding 'that'-clauses. All in all, what Perry calls the doctrine of propositions on the one hand sets the *general form* for certain *specific* doctrines of propositions, that is, for certain *specific* philosophical accounts of the notion of content; and, on the other, provides the *point of departure* for such accounts, this because it constitutes that initial articulation of what we pre-philosophically understand by content in elaborating which these accounts consist.

Evidently, when understood as above, the third tenet permits the traditional doctrine to rule out those conceptions of content according to which a proposition is a set of possible worlds. It also allows the doctrine to entail that one and the same thing plays the role of content *qua* what is true or false if and only if such and such is the case; and the role of content *qua* what determines causal role—an assumption made by Frege, whom we already know to be Perry's paradigmatic representative of the doctrine of propositions.[8] Perry thus intends the doctrine to be understood as assuming that *some one thing* is responsible for the truth conditions and shapes the causal role of representation or illocution. In other words, he intends it to be understood as committed to component T.2 of the thesis of content inherently *de se*.

So how "is [it] clear that the essential indexical is a problem for the doctrine of propositions"? (Perry 1979, p. 6/p. 30) Indeed, is it clear that it *is* a problem? Two different speakers who say something by means of the same sentence containing indexical expressions, in particular, the first-person pronoun, will not say the same

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[8] This intimates why it is essential to read Perry 1979 in conjunction with Perry 1977.

thing. Perry puts this anodyne point in an odd but ultimately instructive way: the sentence "I am making a mess" expresses something true or false

> only as said by one person or another; had another shopper said it when I did, he would have been wrong [since Perry is the one making a mess]. So the sentence by which I identify what I came to believe does not identify, *by itself*, a proposition (Perry 1979, pp. 6-7/p. 30; italics added)

It is reasonably clear what Perry is getting at when he speaks of a sentence *s*, as uttered by a speaker S at a time *t* and arguably a location *l*, as 'identifying a proposition', i.e., a content. In uttering the sentence *s*, typically in the performance of an illocutionary act, S says something by means of *s*—something true if and only if such and such is the case. So understanding S's locution involves recognising that the sentence *s*, as uttered by S at *t* and *l* in locutionary and typically also illocutionary intent, possesses the property of expressing something true if and only if, say, *p*. Yet understanding S's locution also involves something more: recognition that the sentence occurring on the right-hand side of a perspicuous characterisation of this property forms part of a 'that'-clause which distinguishes what S says from all other contents. In this sense, the clause *perspicuously* individuates what S says—perspicuously individuates it by displaying a sentence, e.g., the sentence '*p*', which, as interpreted on the occasion, makes the contribution of content to causal role evident. Note that nothing said thus far entails that the sentence '*p*' is *s* itself. It is thus possible that '*p*' is not *s* but rather a sentence systematically related to *s* by the latter's linguistic meaning. Just this possibility is realised, of course, when *s* is, as in the case of the sentence "I am making a mess," a sentence involving indexical expressions, in particular, the first-person pronoun. In this case, '*p*' will contain the asterisked third-person pronoun and possibly also asterisked third-person adverbs of time and/or place.

This character of S's locution as determining a content-distinguishing 'that'-clause, e.g., 'that *p*', is crucial. It reflects the character of what S says as having an objective identity and public accessibility without which whatever illocutionary act S might be

performing would not be evaluable, hence rationally regulatable, by anyone, whether another subject S✦ or S itself. We speak, after all, of *there being* something said by a locution or represented in a representation, in other words, of a *content* thereof, precisely because we understand illocutions, hence locutions, as well as the representations of self-conscious subjects, to stand under the rational control of their own and other subjects—this in the sense that such subjects can take contents as *objects* of comment and critique. Appreciation of just this point permits specification of what Perry means when he speaks of a sentence as 'identifying a proposition': the sentence *s*, as uttered by an S at a *t* and *l*, 'identifies a proposition', i.e., a content, just in case it determines a clause 'that *p*' which perspicuously individuates what *s* expresses, such that a subject, whether S or S✦, can know what this content is and, at least as a rule,[9] evaluate it for truth or falsity.[10]

The qualification 'as uttered by an S at a *t* and *l*' is, of course, indispensable, not just for indexical sentences such as "I am making a mess," but for all sentences. It is, after all, primarily speakers, not sentences, who say things. A locution, hence a

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9 This qualification is necessary in order to avoid verificationism. One must not exclude the possibility of contents neither nomologically nor logically verifiable.

10 One might argue that for the sentence *s* to 'identify' a proposition is simply for *s* to be such that, when two speakers locute it, or the same speaker at different times or in different places locutes it, what is locuted, the proposition, is the same. Similarly, it is for *s* to be such that, when two speakers use it to express a belief, or the same speaker at different times or in different places thus uses it, what is believed, the proposition, is the same. One might then point out that this immediately, indeed trivially, explains why the sentence "I am making a mess" does not 'identify' a proposition since it effectively entails that sentences can only ever 'identify' *impersonal* contents. But Perry cannot mean this when he speaks of sentences as 'identifying' propositions. Firstly, this is merely an account of when two sentences as locuted by different speakers, or the one sentence as locuted at different times or places, 'identify' the same proposition. As such, it presupposes and does not explicate what is for the sentence *s* to 'identify' a proposition. Perry clearly means by such 'identification' the *singling out*, the *making recognisable*—to use Perry's own word, the *individuation* (Perry 1979, p. 30/p. 6)—of a proposition such that thereby one comes to know what it is, hence is *ceteris paribus* able to evaluate it and appeal to it in the explanation of behaviour. Secondly, if he did mean this, he would have excluded from the outset those distinctively first-person 'thoughts' which according to Frege are accessible only to their own subject. And so he could not maintain, as he in fact does, that "(o)ne may take all that has been said so far as an argument for the existence of a special class of propositions, propositions of limited accessibility." (Perry 1979, p. 37/p. 15) This points to what the argument really amounts to: a strengthening of the Third Tenet through which the conditionals it currently contains (in clauses (a) and (b)) are turned into biconditionals. That thereby "propositions of limited accessibility" are excluded shows this strengthening to be illicit.

context of locution (and typically also an illocution), is needed, even if only *potentialiter*, before a sentence says anything. In this trivial sense, Perry is right when he claims that "(t)he sentence "I am making a mess" … does not identify, *by itself*, a proposition." (Perry 1979, pp. 6-7/p. 30; italics added) If, however, a context of locution is provided, then the sentence *does* 'identify' something in the sense just defined. As asserted by Perry at 7 pm on 07.07.79 in the supermarket, it expresses something true if and only if he* is making a mess (then* and there*). Thereby it determines a 'that'-clause, namely, 'that he* is making a mess (then* and there*)', which, notwithstanding its anaphoric links to the appropriate context of locution, happily pins down, in thoroughly objective, hence publicly accessible and presumably evaluable fashion, what is said. *Prima facie*, the sentence "I am making a mess," at least as locuted by Perry at 7 pm on 07.07.79 in the supermarket, does not fail to 'identify a proposition'. Insofar as the traditional doctrine of propositions consists simply in the three tenets thus far listed, this sentence creates no more problems for the doctrine than any other.

Yet according to Perry there *is* a "problem of the essential indexical." So what he understands by the doctrine of propositions must involve more than the three tenets thus far listed.[11] It must involve some further and entirely implicit assumption about content which entails that the sentence which *appears to* falsify Perry's claim that the "(t)he sentence "I am making a mess" does not identify a proposition" (Perry 1979, p. 30/p. 6), the sentence, namely, "he* is making a mess (then* and there*)," fails to pin down a content when it occurs in a 'that'-clause. Now the only thing setting this sentence apart from sentences which, as components of 'that'-clauses, suffer no such failure is that it involves an (S)-used, hence asterisked third-person pronoun, as well, of course, as asterisked adverbs. It seems, then, that the doctrine of propositions tacitly assumes, and is tacitly assumed by Perry to assume, that contents can always

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[11] Ninan has seen this, too—see Ninan 2016. For a discussion of Ninan on Perry's problem of the essential indexical, see Appendix II to Chapter Three.

be perspicuously individuated by 'that'-clauses *not* reliant on such asterisked expressions. In other words, contents can always be individuated, picked out or distinguished from one another by 'that'-clauses *not* reliant on the reference of linguistic items in the wider linguistic context, in particular, on the reference of linguistic items in whatever intensional context contains them. We thus arrive at a more complete because more explicit depiction of "the traditional doctrine of propositions" (Perry 1979, p. 32/p. 8) by adding this assumption as a fourth tenet:

Fourth Tenet: What is perspicuously individuated by a 'that'-clause, a proposition, namely, can always be thus individuated without use of terms anaphorically reliant for their reference on that of terms within the wider linguistic context.

This fourth tenet directly entails 'that'-clauses containing asterisked third-person pronouns (and/or asterisked adverbs of time and place) do not count as individuating contents.

Note, however, that this is to say nothing at all about 'that'-clauses containing the *first-person* pronoun (and, for that matter, the *demonstrative* adverbs). So, strictly speaking, the fourth tenet does *not* rule these out as perspicuously individuating contents. One can still consistently say that the clause 'that I am making a mess (here and now)' identifies what Perry believes, admittedly only for Perry himself. As for what this content *objectively*, hence *publicly*, is, this becomes problematic. The concept of content is such that an instance of it is paradigmatically evaluable by subjects not identical with the subject which has it as content. So contents must be as accessible to others as they are to their own subject. Yet the fourth tenet entails that a 'that'-clause containing (S)-used, hence asterisked third-person pronouns does not perspicuously individuate just as satisfactorily as the first-personal clause to which it corresponds. With this, the content picked out by the latter is now only limitedly accessible, which puts its evaluability by anyone, its own subject included, at risk. The fourth tenet has turned sentences containing indexicals, in particular, first-person

pronouns, into Cinderellas because it has driven their asterisked counterparts out of the house.

It is thus this implicit fourth tenet which might now lead an advocate of the doctrine of propositions to conclude that when Perry asserts the sentence "I am making a mess," "(t)here is *a missing conceptual ingredient*" (Perry 1979, p. 30/p. 7) not 'identified' by the sentence, a missing ingredient whose linguistic expression one could put in place of both the first-person pronoun and its asterisked counterpart. For if contents are propositions as defined by all four tenets, then only sentences entirely composed of non-indexical items expressing conceptual ingredients remain as possible components in 'that'-clauses which perspicuously individuate *in objective, hence publicly accessible terms* what Perry asserts or believes. Only such sentences can play this role for a subject S✦ which would characterise this content, whether S✦ is the subject of locution or representation S or not.[12] This missing conceptual ingredient is "a sense for which" Perry is the referent, "or a complex of properties" he alone has, "or a singular term that refers to no one but" him. "To identify the proposition" Perry "came to believe, the advocate of the doctrine of propositions must identify this missing conceptual ingredient." (Perry 1979, p. 30/p. 7) An advocate of the doctrine will now search for some non-indexical sentence with which to construct a 'that'-clause individuating in objective, hence publicly accessible fashion something 'identified' by the indexical sentence, only then to read Perry and realise that there is no such thing.

With this, the essential indexical has been encountered *as a problem*. Insofar as the notion of content is defined by all four tenets, there seems to be no content 'identified' by any sentence containing indexicals, at least not if a content is essentially something objective, hence characterisable *oratio obliqua* by, and so accessible to, different

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[12] Or indeed, in the case of the conceptual ingredients missing when demonstrative adverbs of time and space are deployed, whether S✦ should or should not occur at the time or location of S's representation or locution.

subjects at different times and locations. Since it would be absurd to maintain that, appearances notwithstanding, indexical sentences express and 'identify' literally nothing at all, it seems that what they express and 'identify' is at best accessible only to their utterer and/or a subject at the time or location of utterance. Ultimately, then, the problem of the essential indexical consists in finding a way of eliminating or at least rendering acceptable this apparent necessity while preserving at least the spirit, although of course not the detail, of the doctrine of propositions. And this is a serious problem because *prima facie* to speak of sentences as expressing or 'identifying' something inaccessible to others or inaccessible at different times and locations contradicts the very notion of content.

One could, of course, simply reject the fourth tenet. Why, after all, should one not say that the content, indeed the proposition, identified by the sentence "I am making a mess" when Perry asserts it at 07.07.79 in the supermarket, *just is* that he* is making a mess (then* and there*)? Clearly only Perry can believe, mentally judge or assert this content but any self-conscious subject S can *know* this content. That he* is making a mess (then* and there*) just *is* the content of Perry's assertion, judgement or belief, objectively speaking, hence as it is *for others*. There is now no problem of intersubjective accessibility, which shows, incidentally, that securing such accessibility is not the underlying motivation or reason for the fourth tenet. Thus far, nothing speaks against, and everything, for dropping the fourth tenet.

Yet as we will see only in the Concluding Chapter, deep assumptions preclude or rather occlude *this* "Obvious Solution." (Perry 1979, p. 38/p. 16) Perry thus only ever considers ways of solving the problem of the essential indexical which do not undermine the fourth tenet. He quickly and rightly rejects one such putative solution, namely, rejection of the third tenet entirely, this by recourse to the notion of belief *de re*.[13] He then considers whether one might solve the problem by rejecting the second

[13] See Perry 1979, pp. 32-33/pp. 9-10.

tenet, i.e., by denying that propositions are true or false absolutely and regarding them instead as only true or false relative to items in the context of representation or locution.[14] His conclusion is clear: whether contents are or are not absolutely true or false is orthogonal to the problem of the essential indexical. Unfortunately, his argument for his conclusion is not, indeed is somewhat muddled.

Perry begins with the following observation:

> It seems that to deal with essential indexicality we must somehow incorporate the indexical element into what is believed, the object of belief. (Perry 1979, p. 35/p. 12)

In other words, the first move made by this putative solution consists in taking seriously Frege's assumption that content *qua* what determines the truth conditions of belief[15] is content *qua* what accounts for the causal role of belief, more generally, of representation and illocution. Belief specifically and representation generally are relations to some *one* thing—some one thing which accounts for both truth conditions and causal role. It seems, therefore, that in the case of 'indexical' belief specifically and 'indexical' representation generally, content must quite literally "incorporate the indexical element." In particular, it seems that in the case of 'first-personal' belief one must build first-personalness into content.

Now as already indicated, Perry *rejects* this putative solution, hence Frege's assumption. Indeed, he is examining the putative solution precisely *in order to reject* it. For in Perry 1979 he is seeking to bolster the conclusion of Perry 1977, namely, that one must "give up the identification of sense expressed with thought expressed." (Perry 1977, p. 21/p. 497) To this end, he is seeking ultimately to show that we must *not* "incorporate the indexical element into what is believed" but rather distinguish the two senses in which one may speak of content. Just this is to reject Frege's assumption, hence component T.2 of the thesis of content inherently *de se*. So given

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[14] See Perry 1979, pp. 35-36/pp. 12-14.

[15] And thereby a condition on the satisfaction of representation and, for that matter, illocution.

this dialectical purpose and strategy—consideration of a putative solution in order to reject it, in particular, the assumption underlying it—, it is helpful to jump ahead of ourselves a little and note the bare bones of what, in Perry 1979, he takes the "Obvious Solution" to be.

At no point does Perry deny at least the central core of the first tenet: belief and the like are relations to something. He also appreciates what underpins this tenet: the fact that there are and must be such 'objectifying' locutions as "What S believes is that *p*," "If what S believes, namely, that *p*, is true, then *q*," and in particular, "There is something that S believes, namely, that *p*." Similar locutions are available for illocutions and other forms of representation, at least insofar as their contents are perspicuously characterisable by 'that'-clauses.[16] Perry does, however, deny the way these intuitions are interpreted by the doctrine of propositions. The problem of the essential indexical shows, he thinks, that while belief and the like are relations to something, they are not relations to some *one* thing.[17] Rather, they are a complex of relations to different things. As we shall see, one of these different things—what Perry takes to be content *qua* "what is believed," more generally, content *qua* what is represented or locuted—

> is not a sentence, nor a sentence meaning, nor one of Frege's thoughts—an abstract object with a sentence-like structure. It is rather, as Russell thought, a complex of objects and properties—objects and properties which are part of the world, not part of the mind (except in rare instances). (Perry 1980a, p. 45/p. 533)

If, however, this is so, then the third tenet must be revised so as to reflect the split between what the doctrine of propositions, traditionally understood, wrongly identifies:

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[16] Note that all this is as true of representation *de se* as it is of representation not *de se*. To this extent, content *de se*, no less than content not *de se*, can be regarded as something to which a subject of representation stands in relation. So to this extent and as already noted above, content *de se* is no less a proposition than content not *de se*.

[17] It is, as he puts it, a "two-tiered structure." (Perry 1979, p. 40, footnote 13/p. 21, note 6)

Third Tenet$^{\blacklozenge}$: The identity of a content of representation, i.e., a proposition, is *partly* determined by the linguistic meaning[18] of a sentence contained in the 'that'-clause individuating it, this determination being understood as follows:

For any two distinct representations R and $R^{\blacklozenge}$ such that

a) if R requires for its perspicuous characterisation the clause 'that s', $R^{\blacklozenge}$ the clause 'that $s^{\blacklozenge}$', then R and $R^{\blacklozenge}$ are *contentful*[19] in the same way only if s is synonymous with $s^{\blacklozenge}$; and

b) if R requires for its perspicuous characterisation the clause 'that s', $R^{\blacklozenge}$ the clause 'that $s^{\blacklozenge}$', then R and $R^{\blacklozenge}$ possess the same (proposition as) *content* if and only if the n-tuple consisting of the entities referred to in, and the property or relation predicated of them by, 'that s'[20] is the same as the n-tuple consisting of the entities referred to in, and the property or relation predicated of them by, 'that $s^{\blacklozenge}$'.

With this, the proposition has been identified with the n-tuple specified in sub-clause b), hence has become Russellian, just as Perry claims. And because it is now nothing more than an n-tuple, a representation R is no longer *simply* a relation to it. Rather, the relation of representation to it is now mediated by a relation to a sentence s, which relation determines causal role. Meanwhile, content *qua* what is represented or, for that matter, locuted—represented or locuted *in a certain way determined by the sentence* ***s***— conforms to the modified doctrine of propositions, in particular, to the latter's implicit fourth tenet. A Russellian proposition is, after all, whatever it is quite independently of any item in the context of its representation or locution. So the

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[18] By linguistic meaning is meant the conventionally determined property of an expression which enables it to refer to an entity, to predicate a property or relation of an entity or to express a proposition, i.e., a whole truth-apt content, when uttered by a speaker S at a time t and a location l in the intention that it thus refer, predicate or express, hence that it*, S, should thus refer, predicate or express, then* and there*.

[19] Because content has been as it were bifurcated, one should speak of a representation's being contentful rather than its having a content since the latter suggests singularity. Note, incidentally, how the reformulation of (a) prepares the way for the notion of acceptance introduced in Perry 1980a.

[20] Strictly speaking, one must also specify that these items are ordered in a manner *stipulated* to reflect the order of predication in the sentence 's'—see in this connection footnote 36 and Section I of Chapter Eight.

problem of the essential indexical is solved—solved within the parameters accepted by Perry.

This ostensibly obvious solution is only more fully elaborated in Perry 1980a, in which Perry develops his account of belief and, as one would at least hope, other forms of representation as the acceptance of a sentence. So assessment of it must await examination in Section III below of the claim that belief involves something called acceptance of a sentence. Let us, however, first examine what leads Perry to his obvious solution. This is his critique of the suggestion that one can solve the problem of the essential indexical by rejecting the second tenet rather than by modifying the third, that is, by rejecting the idea that propositions are true or false absolutely but only true or false relative to items in a context of representation (or locution). In other words, let us first examine Perry's critique of "Relativized Propositions" (Perry 1979, pp. 35-37/pp. 12-15) as a solution to the problem.

Section II: Perry on Incorporating the Indexical Element: "Relativized Propositions"

The problem of the essential indexical arises when one recognises that for the explanation and generation of purposive behaviour a certain kind of content is needed which the doctrine of propositions, at least as it stands, can only accommodate by denying that it is cognisable by other subjects (or, in order to cover the case of temporal and spatial demonstratives, by subjects at other times or locations). The existence of "a special class of propositions," i.e., contents, "of limited accessibility" (Perry 1979, p. 37/p. 15) is, however, problematic. What has content must be evaluable, at least as a rule, since otherwise it would not stand under the rational control of its subject. Moreover, it is at least plausible to maintain that evaluability by one subject at one time and location entails evaluability by another at another time or location. So admission of any such "special class" would complicate matters by requiring an account of how representations or locutions with such contents could be unlimitedly evaluable. Much better, then, not to admit any such class in the first place.

To this end, at least one of the tenets traditionally taken as constitutive of the notion of content must be modified.

According to Perry, some might think that the tenet one must modify is the second. Having shown that "(t)he problem of the essential indexical reveals that something is badly wrong with the traditional doctrine of propositions" (Perry 1979, p. 32/p. 8) and provisionally concluded that in order "to deal with essential indexicality we must somehow incorporate the indexical element into" (Perry 1979, p. 35/p. 12) what is represented, he now claims that "(i)f we do so, we come up against the second tenet of the doctrine of propositions, that such objects are true or false absolutely." (Perry 1979, p. 35/p. 12) In other words, incorporation of "the indexical element" puts us at odds with the second tenet. Is this right?

In order to understand what Perry means by this claim and why he makes it, one must first examine how he comes to it. He first points out that when Frege, for him the classic adherent of the doctrine of propositions, insisted that propositions or, as Frege called them, 'thoughts',

> … were true or false absolutely, he didn't mean that they had the same truth-value in all possible worlds. Had he used a possible worlds frame-work, he would have had their truth-values vary from world to world, and simply insisted on a determinate truth-value in each world and in particular in the actual world. In a way, then, taking propositions to be functions from possible worlds to truth-values is just a way of looking at the old notion of a proposition. (Perry 1979, p. 35/p. 12)

Now to adopt "a possible worlds frame-work"[21] is to regard the notions *of truth and falsity* as relative to worlds: a proposition is true or false only in or at some world *w*. And this is, as Perry points out, entirely consistent with Frege's account of 'thoughts', in particular, with his conception of them as *complete*, i.e., essentially truth-apt items, hence such that their perspicuous linguistic expression requires a full sentence, with

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[21] At least in the sense intended here by Perry. By "a possible worlds frame-work" he does not necessarily mean *solely* the view that propositions are sets of possible worlds.

no empty places. Adoption of "a possible worlds frame-work" involves taking the notions *of truth and falsity*, not the notion of *content*, as relative to worlds and so it involves taking *the truth-predicate*, not *the sentence which expresses content*, as incomplete. The truth-predicate is now understood to contain an implicit empty place for a variable ranging over worlds, hence as not truly monadic. Just this, however, leaves the sentence, hence the content the latter expresses, intact. These may remain as complete as ever. Relativisation of the truth-predicate, hence of truth and falsity themselves, does not compel one to understand the sentence "The King of France is bald" as expressing imperspicuously something expressed perspicuously by "The King of France is bald in W_{ACTUAL}," 'W_{ACTUAL}' being a 'name' for that possible world which is the actual one.

Perry now claims that relativisation *in this sense* "invites generalization." (Perry 1979, p. 35/p. 13) What has been done for worlds may be done for times. The copula in the sentence "The King of France is bald" may be treated, not as expressing an *element in content* whose perspicuous linguistic expression is a reference to a time, but as indicating a time at which the content is true—in this case, a time identical with the time of representation or locution since the copula is in the present tense. Note, however, that insofar as this remains relativisation in the same sense, one is now regarding the truth-predicate as containing an empty place for variables ranging over times. Meanwhile, the proposition expressed by the sentence, namely, that the King of France is bald, now contains no element whose perspicuous linguistic expression is a reference to time.[22] The time indicated by the copula is now something referred to only in the sentence "That the King of France is bald is true at *t*," *t* being, of course, given the present tense of the copula, the time of representation or locution. More precisely put, the proposition is now, given the first step of relativisation as well as this second one, something picked out by the 'that'-clause in the sentence "That the

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[22] Insofar as one wishes to regard the copula as marking an *element in content* at all, it can now only do so in the way it does in the sentence "The number two is prime."

King of France is bald is true at *t* and *w*," *t* and *w* being respectively the time and world of representation or locution, hence typically illocution. We may thus regard the ordered pair <*t*, *w*> as the *index* at which the proposition satisfies the truth-predicate (if at all).

Yet because relativisation to times is of exactly the same kind as relativisation to worlds, it in no way detracts from the completeness of content. True, the proposition has been shorn of any element whose perspicuous expression would be a reference to a time. Yet no more for times than for worlds does it follow from this that the proposition has been rendered incomplete, as if it were 'in reality' a propositional function or perhaps a property. It is therefore at best misleading for Perry to say that relativisation either to worlds or to times "takes us away from the old notion" (Perry 1979, p. 35/p. 13) of a proposition. For relativisation in the sense thus far considered has not taken us away from the old notion at all.

Clearly, it is possible similarly to relativise to locations even though a sentence such as "The King of France is making a mess" contains nothing so much as appearing to refer to location. Lack of even apparent reference presents no more problem in the case of locations than it did in the case of worlds: one regards the sentence not as imperspicuously expressing a proposition whose perspicuous expression requires reference to a location, but as perspicuously expressing a proposition true or false only at a location. Taking all three steps of relativisation together, we may now say that the sentence "The King of France is making a mess" expresses the proposition that the King of France is making a mess, a proposition true or false at a time and a location in a world. Or, as one may also put it, this proposition is true or false relative to an index <*t*, *l*, *w*>, *t*, *l*, and *w* being a time, location and world such that *t* and *l* occur in *w*. Yet the proposition itself remains as complete as ever. In general, it is paralogistic to regard relativisation *of the truth and falsity* of propositions as showing that apparently complete propositions are really incomplete propositional functions or properties.

Now one can only meaningfully relativise the truth and falsity of content to something *x* insofar as how or what *x* is is relevant for such truth and falsity. The kind of relativisation at issue here thus consists in so construing content that for some item *x* such that how or what *x* is determines the truth or falsity of content, *x* occurs in an index rather than there being an element in content whose linguistic characterisation constitutes reference to *x*.[23] Alternatively put, this kind of relativisation entails that not all items are truth-relevant in virtue of content but rather in virtue of the condition under which a now relativised truth-predicate, as applied to the content, expresses a truth.[24] This must be borne in mind when complying with the request Perry now makes to consider the indexical sentence "I am making a mess." Speaking of behalf of those who would recommend relativisation of truth and falsity, hence revision of the second tenet, as a solution to the problem of the essential indexical, he writes,

> Rather than thinking of [the sentence "I am making a mess"] as partially identifying an absolutely true proposition, with the [pronoun] "I" showing the place of the missing conceptual ingredient, why not think of it as completely identifying a new-fangled proposition, [one] true or false only *at a person*? More precisely, it is one that is true or false at a time, and a person, since though true when I said it, it has since occasionally been false. (Perry 1979, p. 36/p. 13)

So Perry is asking us to consider whether relativisation *in the very same sense* as has just been undertaken with regard to worlds, times and locations can be extended, at

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[23] Note that there is no tacit restriction here to a Fregean conception of content, hence to a Fregean conception of elements in content. Even if one thinks of contents as Russellian propositions, that is, as *n*-tuples of referents and properties or relations predicated of them, relativisation in the sense at issue here can still be undertaken: one can regard the sentence "Perry is making a mess" as expressing the Russellian proposition <Perry, making a mess>, which is true or false at 7 pm on 07.07.79 in the supermarket in W_{ACTUAL}, rather than the Russellian proposition <Perry, making a mess, 7 pm on 07.07.79, the supermarket, W_{ACTUAL}>, which is true or false absolutely.

[24] Note that here, in application either to a use of the truth-predicate or to what is expressed by such a use, the notion of truth and falsity must be understood *absolutely*. We encounter here the limits of a relativised truth-predicate: all items in the index to which the truth and falsity of content has been relativised must correspond to elements in the content individuated by the 'that'-clause containing the sentence *on the right-hand side* of a biconditional specifying when content satisfies the relativised truth-predicate. One can indeed regard correspondence to such an element as defining what it means for something to be an item in the index for a relativised truth-predicate. And *this* content must be true or false absolutely. Relativisation in the sense at issue here cannot eliminate 'absolute' truth and falsity entirely since ultimately it is dependent upon the latter.

least in the case of the content expressed, in the relevant context of locution or (attribution of) representation, by the first-personally indexical sentence "I am making a mess," to the subject of locution or representation. Such extension would not appear to be possible in the case of the sentence "The King of France is bald" since the King of France is and surely can only be truth-relevant *in virtue of being a referent*, specifically, a referent of the definite description 'the King of France', which marks an element in content. But perhaps such extension is possible in the case of indexical sentences. If so, then content *de se* can be distinguished from content not *de se* by construing its truth and falsity as relative to the subject of a locution or representation whose content requires perspicuous characterisation by a first-personally indexical sentence such as "I am making a mess." If so, then "the problem [of the essential indexical] must be solved." (Perry 1979, p. 36/p. 14)

Yet Perry denies that the problem is solved. In progressively relativising the truth and falsity of what is expressed by an assertion of the sentence "The King of France is bald," content has in effect been re-construed, such that what once at least appeared to be truth-relevant in virtue of content is so because it occurs in the index—first a world, then a time and lastly a location. Yet content remained a *complete* unity of reference and predication in the sense that its perspicuous characterisation required use of a full sentence with no empty places. At no point did relativisation entitle one to conclude that an apparently whole proposition had shown itself to be really a propositional function or property. Things are, however, different with the step of relativisation now envisaged. It applies to what an illocution or representation with the content *is about*—precisely "the *object* of [representation or locution]" (Perry 1979, p. 35/p. 12; italics added). In the non-indexical case, this object was the King of France, in the indexical one, Perry, the subject of representation or locution. And while such aboutness is doubtless a property of what has content rather than of content itself, it is always enabled by content: if a representation or locution with a content *C* is *about x*,

i.e., has *x* as its *object*, then perspicuous characterisation of *C* involves reference to *x*.[25]

Thus, as soon as one targets for relativisation to the truth-predicate what a locution or representation is about, one destroys this aboutness. In fact, the character of a content as a complete predicative unity just *is* its character as about something, more precisely put, as imparting a certain aboutness to a possible locution or representation of it. So relativisation engenders a content so "new-fangled" that it is no longer a content at all. The further step of relativisation envisaged is incoherent. Not only this, and more importantly, relativisation *of the truth-predicate* to anything shows itself to be entirely orthogonal to the problem. One does not solve the problem of the essential indexical by tinkering with the second tenet.

Unfortunately, this elegant argument is not Perry's. In fact, it is very hard to discern just what his argument is—this precisely because what he is struggling to articulate does not concern, just as he insists, the second tenet at all. All along, Perry is imputing standard conceptions both of mode and content and of 'that'-clauses to whoever might advocate tinkering with the second tenet, hence relativisation *of the truth-predicate*, as a solution to the problem of the essential indexical. In other words, he is assuming that what he describes as a "new-fangled proposition" can still be regarded as what is believed, asserted, desired, requested, etc. Relatedly, he is assuming that the 'that'-clauses required for the perspicuous characterisation of illocution, locution or representation straightforwardly pick out "a new-fangled proposition".[26] Both assumptions are evident in the following passage:

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[25] Note that this permits one to say, as one must, that the contents expressed by the sentences "Jack loves Jill" and "Jill is loved by Jack" are the same. It also permits one to say that depending on context, an assertion of the sentence "Jack loves Jill" could be about either Jack or Jill or both. Aboutness is a matter of linguistic pragmatics—this even when possible aboutness is and must be reflected in content.

[26] Precisely for this reason, he sees his final step of relativisation as merely amending the doctrine of propositions—see Perry 1979, p. 36/p. 14.

> I say "I believe that I am making a mess." On our amended doctrine of propositions, this ascribes a relation between me and that I am making a mess, *which is a function from indices to truth values*. The belief report seems to completely specify the relativized proposition involved; there is no missing conceptual ingredient. So the problem [of the essential indexical] must be solved. (Perry 1979, p. 36/p. 14; italics added)

The function from indices to truth values of which Perry speak here is a function taking persons *x* and also, as one may allow, times *t*, locations *l* and worlds *w*, as arguments, a function yielding truth just in case *x* is making a mess at *t* and *l* in *w*.[27] Note now that in the passage just cited this *function* is said to be content *qua* what is believed and what is individuated both by the 'that'-clause Perry would use, namely, "that I am making a mess (here and now)"; and by the 'that'-clause another would use, namely, "that he* is making a mess (there* and then*)." So Perry is indeed deploying, at least on behalf of those who would advocate this solution, standard conceptions of mode and content and of 'that'-clauses as picking out such content. Yet it makes no sense to talk of believing a mere *function* $f(x, t, l, w)$ such that $f(x, t, l, w)$ yields truth if and only if *x* is making a mess at *t* and *l* in *w*. And even if it did, the problem would still not be solved. For *any* subject S who believed that it* were making a mess would surely end up believing this very same function, which, if this function itself were content, would entail the falsehood that S believed what Perry believes.

Of course, this only shows, however perversely, that with regard to the point actually relevant here Perry is right: "our amended doctrine of propositions" does not,

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[27] That Perry really does think of these 'that'-clauses as picking out this function is shown by his claiming, on the one hand, that "I believed that a certain proposition, *that I am making a mess was true*—true for me"; and, on the other, that "(y)ou," who are assumed to have recognised the belief causing Perry to stop and start re-arranging the items in his shopping trolley, "believe that *that I am making a mess was true* for me … ." (Perry 1979, p. 36/p. 14) According to Perry, both he and you believe the same function to be true for Perry—to yield truth when Perry is the argument—and this function, which is "a new-fangled proposition, true or false only *at a person* …" (Perry 1979, p. 36/p. 14), is individuated by the clause *that I am making a mess*.

indeed cannot show how indexical sentences 'identify' a content.[28] So Perry now considers whether one might do better by moving to a meta-level. Surely, he argues, the envisaged step of relativisation, since it relativises the truth and falsity of content to him, John Perry, means that he believes the function to be true *for him*, John Perry.[29] Perry seems to suggesting here that we understand him to believe, not the function itself, but an *instantiation* or *application* thereof. Perry in fact believes at 7 pm on 07.07.79 in the supermarket in W_{ACTUAL} f(Perry, 7 pm on 07.07.79, the supermarket, W_{ACTUAL}). This is what the sentence "I am making a mess," as asserted by Perry at 7 pm on 07.07.79 in the supermarket in W_{ACTUAL} 'identifies'. So it is what is picked out by the 'that'-clause 'that he* is making a mess', as asserted by another at 7 pm on 07.07.79 in the supermarket in W_{ACTUAL}.

Evidently, thus baldly stated, this move does not solve the problem at all. Perry's assertion or belief at 7 pm on 07.07.79 in the supermarket in W_{ACTUAL} that he* is making a mess[30] cannot be a matter of his asserting or believing f(Perry, 7 pm on 07.07.79, the supermarket, W_{ACTUAL}) since f(Perry, 7 pm on 07.07.79, the supermarket, W_{ACTUAL}) is surely something *anyone* could assert or believe. Perry makes this point in the following obscure passage:

> I believed that a certain proposition, *that I am making a mess was true*—true for me. So belief that this proposition was true for me then doesn't differentiate me from the other shopper, and can't be what explains my stopping and searching my cart for the torn sack. Once we have adopted these new-fangled propositions, which are only true at times for persons, we have to admit also that we believe them as true for persons at times, and not absolutely. And then our problem returns. (Perry 1979, p. 36/p. 14)

Perry is clearly right—right, that is, *as long as one retains standard conceptions of mode and content*. So what follows is not quite that the problem has returned but

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[28] Indeed, since it is simply false that any subject S can believe exactly what Perry believes, one has, given standard assumptions about mode and 'that'-clauses, reduced talk of believing, hence, more generally, of representing or locuting functions (or, for that matter, properties) to absurdity.

[29] See Perry 1979, p. 36/p. 14.

[30] Then* and there* and, perhaps one must add, in w*!

rather that an advocate of the proposed solution cannot naively retain these standard conceptions. What this latter should have said is that, on the amended doctrine, the sentence "I am making a mess," as located or believed by Perry at 7 pm on 07.07.79 in the supermarket in W_{ACTUAL}, applies to Perry at 7 pm on 07.07.79 in the supermarket in W_{ACTUAL} the function $f(x, t, l, w)$. By contrast, the sentence "Perry is making a mess," as located or believed by anyone at 7 pm on 07.07.79 in the supermarket in W_{ACTUAL}, applies merely to 7 pm on 07.07.79 in the supermarket in W_{ACTUAL} the function f(Perry, t, l, w).[31] The one application makes it the case that what is located by Perry at 7 pm on 07.07.79 in the supermarket in W_{ACTUAL} is true if and only if he* is making a mess then* and there* in w*. Meanwhile the other makes it the case that what is located by anyone at 7 pm on 07.07.79 in the supermarket in W_{ACTUAL} is true if and only if Perry is making a mess then* and there* in w*.

Now it seems that we do have a solution. We can explain both how the first sentence can, in the sense specified above, 'identify' a proposition at all, and how the personal proposition it 'identifies' differs in kind from the impersonal one 'identified' by the second sentence. The fact, however, that this has come at the cost of standard conceptions of mode and content shows that the putative solution Perry is considering is actually a somewhat inept formulation of that property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception of content *de se* according to which belief in what is expressed by the sentence "I am making a mess" consists in a "self-ascriptive belief relation" (Loar 1976, p. 358)—a relation which, as Loar makes clear, one must not naively construe as expressed by the predicate '… believes …'. When Cynthia believes something *de se*, that, for example, she* has the flu, "what is true is: B*(Cynthia, *y* has the flu)" (Loar 1976, p. 358) and 'B*(…, …)' is *not* synonymous with '… believes …' since 'Believes(Cynthia, *y* has the flu)' is a solecism. The same applies,

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[31] Whose extension is a subset of the extension of the former function. Both functions yield, of course, truth if and only if Perry is making a mess at t and l in w.

mutatis mutandis, for the self-ascriptive *locutionary* relation into which Cynthia enters when she asserts, "I have the flu."

The property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception of content *de se* will be considered at length in Chapter Six so let us note here simply the following: firstly, irrespective of whether the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception is at all coherent, whatever 'relativisation' it involves is simply not relativisation of the kind operative in Perry's discussion of "Relativized Propositions," which is relativisation, not of content itself, but of the truth and falsity thereof, to items in an index. There is equivocation here between relativisation in a sense which perhaps addresses the problem because it gestures towards the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception of content *de se*; and relativisation in a sense which genuinely concerns the second tenet but has nothing to do with, just as Perry claims, the problem of so-called "essential indexicality."[32]

Secondly and more importantly, Perry takes his discussion to justify rejection of something he takes to be assumed by recourse to "Relativized Propositions," namely, that "to deal with essential indexicality we must somehow incorporate the indexical element into the object" (Perry 1979, p. 35/p. 12), i.e., into the content of representation and locution. Once its obscurity has at least to some extent been cleared away, Perry's discussion yields a distinction between the function $f(x, t, l, w)$ and the function f(Perry, t, l, w), a distinction which does seem to solve the problem. Yet this nascently property-theoretic or propositionally functional solution comes at the cost of standard conceptions both of mode and content as well as of what 'that'-clauses accomplish. Thereby it undermines the doctrine of propositions itself, which works with these standard conceptions. With this, we reach the true conclusion of Perry's confusing discussion: *in order to retain these standard conceptions, thereby remaining within the general parameters set by the doctrine*, one must *not* incorporate

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[32] See Appendix III to Chapter Three for a discussion of Feldman's attempt, in Feldman 1980, to defend relativisation of propositions against Perry.

"the indexical element" into content. As we shall see with increasing clarity across subsequent chapters, this conclusion is fundamentally correct. So let us turn to examine the specific way in which Perry seeks to exclude "the indexical element", namely, by distinguishing it in the manner intimated by the third tenet as revised at the end of Section I.

Section III: Perry on *Not* Incorporating the Indexical Element—Belief by Acceptance

In Perry 1977 Perry had argued that Frege's identification of sense and thought must be rejected if one is to solve the problem Frege has with demonstratives or, as Perry later calls them, indexicals. One must not identify the causally relevant *Sinn* of a belief or assertion specifically, and of a representation or illocution generally, with the truth conditionally relevant 'thought', i.e., proposition, in a relation to which representation or illocution in *some* sense consists. To do this is to make this one relation do all the work in ensuring contentfulness, as if belief and assertion specifically, representation and illocution generally, consisted solely in this relation. Perry sees his discussion of "Relativized Propositions" as confirming that the one relation cannot do all the work. It thus intimates the need to modify the first tenet in a way which entails rejection of component T.2 of the thesis of content inherently *de se*. Only so, he maintains, can one solve the problem of the essential indexical.

Clearly, if this is right, then the standard conception of representations, illocutions and locutions as relations to some *one* thing conflates two distinguishable albeit mutually entailing[33] senses in which representations and illocutions such as belief and

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[33] One might object to this use of the adjective 'mutually entailing' on the grounds that Perry is seeking to show not just that these relations must be distinguished from, but that they are quite independent of, one other. This way of putting it immediately reveals, however, why the objection cannot be right. To be sure, the *n*-tuple <Louis Capet, 1793, the property of being bald>, which turns out to be, on the account of content waiting in the wings, something to which belief or assertion that the King of France in 1793 was bald is related, is independent of, hence does not entail, either the belief or the assertion. It thus does not entail the other sense in which the belief and the assertion are each a relation to something. But what is at issue here are not the *relata* but the *relations*. One cannot have the one relation without the other, even if one of these can only be

assertion are relations to something.[34] We must distinguish both senses if we are to understand how one and the same representation or illocution can possess both a content with such and such truth conditions; and such and such causal or functional role in part because it has this content. 'Alethic' character is to be understood in terms of a relation of its subject S to something *x*. Meanwhile, causal character is to be understood as a matter of standing in this relation *in a certain way*, which is itself a relation of S to something *y*. As this way of putting things intimates, one cannot have the one relation without the other even though they are not the same, this because *x* is not *y*. So as Perry sees things, the problem of the essential indexical arises because one has failed to distinguish the two interlocking relations in which representation and illocution, hence locution consist.

In Perry 1980a he turns to spell this picture out. He begins with a sketch of the view he seeks to defend:

> When asked what I believe, I typically respond with a sentence, or a sentence embedded in a that-clause: That the Giants will lose; that life is short; that philosophy is noble. I would use the same sentences to describe the world to others, and in my own thinking about it. I shall say that I *accept* them.
>
> I think acceptance is not belief, and not analyzable in terms of belief; rather, it is an important component of belief. It is the contribution the subject's mind makes to belief. One has a belief *by* accepting a sentence. Which belief one thereby has also depends on who the believer is and when the believing takes place—factors that need have no representation in the mind. What one thereby believes is not a sentence, nor a sentence meaning, nor one of Frege's thoughts—an abstract object with a sentence-like structure. It is rather, as Russell thought, a complex of objects and properties—objects and properties

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construed as, say, a relation to something containing the empty set—this because in 1793 there was no King of France, indeed, very early in the year no Louis Capet.

[34] Perry is alluding to this conflation when he speaks of "(t)he … assumption … that [what he calls] belief states should be classified by propositions believed." This assumption, he goes on to say, "seems to be built right into traditional philosophies of belief. Given this assumption, whenever we have believers in the same belief state, we must expect to find a proposition they all believe, and differences in belief state lead us to expect a difference in proposition believed. The bulk of this paper [has] consisted in following such leads to nowhere (or [as illustrated by the case of Frege] to propositions of limited accessibility)." (Perry 1979, p. 40/p. 18)

> which are part of the world, not part of the mind (except in rare instances). (Perry 1980a, p. 45/p. 533)

One can make some sense of the idea that one *asserts* by accepting a sentence.[35] But what does it mean to say that one *believes* by accepting a sentence, that indeed acceptance is a *component* of belief and the *contribution made by one's mind* to (the identity of) belief? Perry continues,

> In saying that acceptance is the contribution the subject's mind makes to belief, I mean this. When we believe, we do so by being in belief states. These states have typical effects which we use to classify them. In particular, we classify them by the sentences a competent speaker of the language in question would be apt to think or utter in certain circumstances when in that state. To accept a sentence *S* is to be in a belief state that would lead such a speaker to utter or think *S*. Thus my conception allows an animal or a pre-verbal child to be meaningfully said to accept a sentence. (Perry 1980a, p. 45/p. 533)

The last sentence reflects Perry's concern to ensure that non-linguistic and pre-linguistic beings can have beliefs. Sentences accepted are of interest to Perry as ways of *characterising* belief states, which latter entail dispositions to behave in diverse ways one of which could consist in asserting a sentence perspicuously expressive of the content of belief. In particular, a sentence can be used by a subject to characterise a content of belief it would quite literally accept, i.e., assert, assuming it has the ability to do so. So nothing said thus far entails that a believing subject must *actually* be able to wield the sentence it accepts in having the belief. It entails merely that this subject finds itself in a state which, *given* the capacity to wield the sentence, *would* dispose it under certain circumstances to utter the sentence by way of asserting it. This is what it is to believe *by* or *in virtue of* accepting a sentence.

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[35] Let us leave to one side a concern towards which talk of *assertion* by acceptance gestures, namely, that Perry will not be able to handle satisfactorily the difference yet connection between illocution and locution. One asserts something by locuting, i.e., saying, it. So when one comes to apply Perry's conception of belief as the acceptance of a sentence to speech acts, what one must properly apply it to is locution, not illocution. How is this supposed to work (without begging the question)? See the end of Section III below.

We should therefore think of the *state* of belief—the psychological reality possessed of that distinctive causal role towards which Frege was gesturing with his notion of *Sinn*, hence to which one appeals when explaining and predicting behaviour—as primarily the acceptance of a sentence. The character of the state as belief in a certain 'thought', i.e., proposition, is then to be explicated on this basis. So where we had once posited only one relation of the subject to something, we must now distinguish two interlocking relations to different things. Causally relevant belief states are relations "… to *sentences* …," as the case may be, "sentences *containing indexicals*." (Perry 1979, p. 39/p. 17; italics added) This is the relation we use when concerned "to individuate belief states … in ways useful for explanation and prediction" (Perry 1979, p. 39/p. 18) and it is the relation of acceptance. By contrast, when we are concerned to individuate belief in ways useful for the determination of truth value, we are taking it in a manner *determined by*, *but not identical with*, the character of belief as the acceptance of such and such a sentence. We are taking it as a relation to a *Russellian* proposition, i.e., an *n*-tuple consisting of an object or objects, and a property or relation, which *n*-tuple one may now stipulate to be true just in case the object bears the property or the objects stand in the relation to one another (in the right order).[36]

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[36] The *n*-tuple <Othello, Desdemona, the property of *x*'s loving *y*, (or the propositional function '*x* loves *y*')> will exist just in case its elements exist. And of course it may exist whether Othello loves Desdemona or not. So to this extent it permits of truth *or* falsity. Yet there is a very large problem for Russellian 'propositions': diverse *n*-tuples can be identified as Russellian propositions: <Othello, Desdemona, the property of *x*'s loving *y*>, <Desdemona, Othello, the property of *x*'s loving *y*>, <Othello, the property of *x*'s loving *y*, Desdemona>, etc., which shows that none of them *naturally* or *instrinsically* permits of truth or falsity. One can, of course, simply *stipulate* that one of these constitutes the proposition that Desdemona loves Othello. But the fact that one must stipulate this points precisely to the problem: the Russellian 'proposition' is only a proposition by stipulation, hence by courtesy. One can at best decree both which *n*-tuple captures the order of predication and, more fundamentally, that it is true or false just in case its elements stand in this order of predication to one another. These issues and their implications will be discussed in Chapter Eight, esp. Section I.

Evidently, on this conception of them, belief and, *mutatis mutandis*, other forms of representation, as well as illocutions, hence locutions,[37] are bi-relational[38] rather than mono-relational. This conception thus constitutes a revision, but only a revision, of the first tenet of the doctrine of propositions. In particular, it modifies the first tenet in such a way that the two dimensions of *Sinn* and 'thought', that is, of causal efficacy and truth conditionality, are distinguished. It now makes no sense to describe what is believed, more generally, what is represented, illocuted or locuted, as 'indexical' because this latter is just not the sort of thing into which one could "incorporate the indexical element." (Perry 1979, p. 35/p. 12) Yet "the indexical element," which is obviously incorporated in the sentence accepted, still determines "what is believed, the object of belief." (Perry 1979, p. 35/p. 12) Moreover, it determines the latter in a distinctive way, which way can differ even as "what is believed, the object of belief" remains the same. So causal role is accounted for and the problem of the essential indexical is solved.

Unfortunately, this neat solution is just a little too neat. Perry is rightly concerned to accommodate non- and pre-linguistic beings, which commits him to maintaining that when one describes a subject as accepting a sentence, one is not attributing to it an *actual* but merely a *possible* capacity to use the sentence accepted. This, however, is to understand acceptance so weakly that we lose all grip on what it could mean to speak of a subject's believing *by* acceptance. After all, acceptance can now only connote the merely possible, not the actual contribution a subject's mind makes to

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[37] At least insofar as their pre-philosophical characterisation requires use of a 'that'-clause embedded in an intensional context. Let us not arbitrarily rule out representations and locutions with contents not strictly propositional.

[38] Stalnaker "... initially interpreted Perry's account to imply the following: statements of the form *x believes that p* assert that *x* stands in relation to *two* abstract entities, a proposition and a belief state, both of which are determined by the sentential clause, *that p*." (Stalnaker 1981, p. 149/p.134) He now recognises that this is a mistake. It is indeed a mistake but this does not mean that Perry's account is not bi-relational in the sense envisaged here. On the interpretation given here, Perry's account implies that statements of the form *x believes that p* assert that *x* stands in relation to two entities, a Russellian proposition and, not a belief state, but rather the sentence by accepting, hence in applying which to such and such entities, the belief consists. Because it is such application, acceptance of a sentence so to speak elevates a certain *n*-tuple of entities to the status of (Russellian) propositional content and so there is nothing with this status without it.

belief. Indeed, if to describe a subject S as accepting a sentence is to ascribe to S a merely *possible* capacity to use the same, then S's belief state can consist only in a merely *possible* relation to the sentence.[39] So it is not an *actual* relation to anything at all. At this point, the claim that belief has been construed bi-relationally rather than mono-relationally shows itself to be illusory—and with it, the idea that one has distinguished the dimensions of *Sinn* and 'thought' while preserving their integral relation to one another. One has kept "the indexical element" out of "what is believed" only by eliminating it. There is neither genuine revision of the first tenet of the doctrine of propositions, nor real solution to the problem of the essential indexical.

In addition, there is a more fundamental difficulty—more fundamental in that it directly challenges the whole idea of distinguishing between *Sinn* and 'thought'. One must ask what it is about a sentence which makes it such that a subject S, by accepting it at a time *t* and location *l*, believes such and such a Russellian proposition at *t* and *l*, say, <Othello, *x* loves *y*, Desdemona> rather than <Shylock, *x* despises *y*, Antonio>. Clearly, this is nothing merely orthographic or syntactic about the sentence. But neither is it anything semantic if by this one means merely general linguistic meaning. It can only be the character of the sentence as expressing, as wielded by S at *t* and *l*, something true if and only if Othello loves Desdemona rather than something true if and only if Shylock despises Antonio.[40] With this, however, one has straightforwardly identified *Sinn* and 'thought'.

There is a general lesson implicit in this critical point, one applicable not just to Perry's specific account of what the two allegedly distinct aspects or dimensions are into which one must split Frege's identity of *Sinn* and 'thought', namely, sentence accepted and Russellian proposition represented or locuted. For whatever two items one might postulate in place of Frege's one item, one of them must be such as to

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[39] This whether the sentence is or is not actual.

[40] Or, if one prefers, as being itself, as wielded by S at *t* and *l*, true if and only if Othello loves Desdemona rather than if and only if Shylock despises Antonio.

determine the other. Perry acknowledges this general point when he speaks of belief in a Russellian proposition *by* acceptance of a sentence. The two aspects or dimensions one distinguishes, whatever they are, must not be left sitting indifferently alongside one another. The only way to avoid this indifference is, however, to conceive one of them as sufficiently sentence-like to possess the property of expressing a truth, or being itself true, on the occasion if and only if such and such is the case—if and only if, for example, Othello loves Desdemona. Only so can one ensure that the one determines the other. But then one has simply re-admitted the Fregean identification. One can, of course, speak of Russellian propositions if one likes but these could never be what is represented or locuted in any primary or original sense. What is primarily represented or locuted can only be that one thing which both contributes to causal role and is true if and only if such and such is the case.

Perry's account of belief by acceptance is thus fundamentally incoherent—this before one so much as turns to consider how one might generalise it from belief to other forms of representation.[41] In particular, it does not solve the problem of the essential indexical because its bi-relational rejection of the Fregean identification is untenable. One has no choice but to build an 'indexical' *or at least a personal* element into content. Importantly, these points can be confirmed by examining the views of someone who would reject Perry's obvious solution precisely because he endorses Frege's identification: Hector-Neri Castañeda. As we shall see in Section III of Chapter Four, Castañeda anticipates the criticism just made of Perry's solution, when, namely, he criticises a suggestion made by Carl Ginet as to how one might understand the asterisked third-person pronoun.[42] Examination of Ginet's suggestion reveals it to

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[41] Perry never considers this further but surely critical issue. One can only say that the prospects for plausible generalisation look decidedly bleak.

[42] See Castañeda 1966, pp. 45-46.

anticipate what Perry is advocating when he construes so-called first-personal belief as the acceptance of a first-personal sentence.[43]

Conclusion

Implicit in Section III is an argument for component T.2 of the thesis of content inherently *de se*: recourse to dispositions to assert a first-personally and in general indexical sentence, in which Perry's "Obvious Solution" ultimately and most charitably interpreted consists, at best presupposes something it would explicate, namely, characterisation of representation and illocution by means of the asterisked third-person pronoun and, as the case may be, asterisked adverbs of time and place. At the same time, one must agree with Perry that representation and, *mutatis mutandis*, illocution, hence locution *de se*, are essential. In other words, one must endorse corollary C.1. So there is a problem for what Perry calls the doctrine of propositions, a problem more properly called one of essential *personalness* and which arises, as Section I has shown, because of the fourth tenet implicit in the doctrine.

Yet it is still too early simply to embrace the thesis of content inherently *de se*, thereby renouncing the problematic fourth tenet. This can only be done once one has shown to be faulty those alternatives to it which also retain the Fregean identification, such as Castañeda's account of the *de se*. Similarly, it can only be done once one has shown to be inadequate the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception. By no means, then, are we done with alternative conceptions of representation, illocution and content. In the first instance, we must consider Castañeda's generically Fregean response to the issue of how to understand those forms of representation for whose perspicuous characterisation the asterisked third-person pronoun is required. In the second instance, we must come to terms with the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception. The first task will be

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[43] Perry is aware of Ginet's suggestion—see Perry 1983, p. 87f. Curiously, he seems to misunderstand the suggestion and he does not mention that Castañeda only cites it in order to reject it. Perhaps for this reason he fails to see that Castañeda's critique of Ginet can be readily deployed against his own account.

undertaken in Chapter Four, which will examine Castañeda's account of content *de se*, shaped as it is by his conviction that the asterisked third-person pronoun with which it is perspicuously characterised is a quasi-indicator, indeed, a pronoun of self-consciousness. This examination will reveal how deeply Castañeda is committed to denying C.2 and C.3, the second and third corollaries of the thesis of content inherently *de se*. For reasons to be explained below, the second task will be deferred to Chapter Six.

Crucially, Perry quickly realises how unsatisfactory his conception of belief by acceptance is. At least by 1990, he has dispensed with this pseudo-solution and developed a very different account of representation and content *de se*. This latter one may describe as a hybrid: on the one hand, Perry postulates for *some* forms of representation *de se* what he calls self-notions, thereby incorporating a distinctively *first*-personal, hence indexical element into content. Similarly, Frege, Castañeda, Peacocke, Musholt and others postulate first-personal elements in content, even when they differ from Perry in the details. On other hand, Perry makes, for *other* forms of representation *de se*, a move similar to that made by the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception of content. This amounts to rehabilitating for these forms of the *de se* what lay behind the appeal to relativised propositions rejected in Perry 1979. Fortunately, the hybrid character of Perry's later conception means that one can deal with it *en passant*, namely, by coming to terms with, on the one hand, the generic appeal to first-personal elements in content and, on the other, the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception.

Yet precisely because Perry's later conception resurrects for *some* forms of representation *de se* a move made for *all* forms by Castañeda, it encounters at least for these forms the kind of difficulty encountered by the latter for all. Both conceptions, because of their either partial or total endorsement of the appeal to *first*-personal elements in content, commit themselves to denying C.3. In consequence, they raise the issue of what that self-conscious character is which one builds into content *de se*

when one denies C.3. For this reason, Chapter Five will examine self-consciousness and the paradox it is traditionally regarded as presenting. Only then will we turn, in Chapter Six, to the second task, the critical examination, namely, of the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception of content—a conception which shares with the thesis of content inherently *de se* the merit of eschewing indexical, in particular, *first*-personal elements in content.

CHAPTER FOUR

Castañeda on Quasi-Indication and Referring to Oneself as Oneself*

In his essay "'He'—A Study in the Logic of Self-Consciousness" (Castañeda 1966), Hector-Neri Castañeda distinguishes seven ways (A)-(G) in which the third-person personal pronoun 'he' can be used to refer to an individual. He then argues that its use in sentences of the form "S believes (or desires, intends, fears, regrets, hopes ...) that he is F," etc.,[1] in which the user of the pronoun refers to S in this latter's capacity as subject, is both essential and irreducible to any of the uses (A)-(G). We cannot explain this use away, either by showing it to be a special case of other uses of the pronoun or by denying that it refers at all;[2] it is a referential use in its own right.[3] It seems, then, that he argues for something also argued here, namely, that what he calls the (S)-use[4] is both indispensable and referential, that indeed it would be as implausible to deny that the (S)-used pronoun refers as it would be to deny that the first-person pronoun refers. 'He' used as 'he*' is not just a genuine but a unique kind of singular term.

The (S)-used third-person pronoun is, of course, subject to failure of substitutivity *salva veritate* in intensional contexts. The significance of such failure only emerges, however, once one moves beyond observing how the pronoun refers to theoretical reflection on why and to what end it does so. Thus Castañeda, having observed that the (S)-used 'he', i.e., 'he*', refers by inheriting the referent of the subject-term of an intensional context,[5] moves to theoretical interpretation of this use. The basic thrust of his account can be brought out by considering a case in which the pronoun 'he' occurs within an intensional context while *not* referring in anaphoric fashion to the subject thereof (in its capacity as the subject thereof). Jones might assert, "Crown Prosecutor

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1 Or indeed in sentences of the form "S asserts (or denies or concedes ...) that it is F,", "S requests (or orders or begs or ...) that it be F," "S promises (or assures or guarantees or ...) that it will be F," etc.

2 See Appendix I to Chapter Four for a discussion of whether Castañeda ever regarded the asterisked third-person pronoun as not genuinely referential.

3 See Castañeda 1966, p. 35f.

4 See Castañeda 1966, p. 35.

5 What he calls its "grammatical and logical antecedent." (Castañeda 1966, p. 48)

Bloggs believes him to be guilty" or, equivalently, "Crown Prosecutor Bloggs believes that he is guilty," the third-person pronoun referring, as is evident from the context, not to Bloggs, but to Smith, who is standing in the dock. Here, the pronoun refers demonstratively, hence constitutes a case of what Castañeda calls use (B).[6]

Unsurprisingly, the (B)-use implicates a capacity for self-ascription on the part of the user, here Jones. There is nothing special or distinctive about this. The (B)-use is, after all, a use of language of the kind we find amongst human beings and all such uses typically occur in the performance of speech acts for which performers can be held to account, which, therefore, must be self-ascribable by the latter. Jones thus believes and can assert that *he** is believing and asserting that Crown Prosecutor Bloggs believes that he, Smith, is guilty. Evidently, should Jones actually assert this, he would be performing an act of self-ascription in which the first-person pronoun is deployed. Jones thus knows, or at least takes himself* to know, what, or rather who, his* referents are, namely, Crown Prosecutor Bloggs and the individual standing in the dock. The same applies in the case of an (S)-use: it, too, presupposes a capacity for self-ascription *on the part of the user*. The (S)-user knows, or at least takes itself*, to know what or who the referent of this *its** (S)-use is: this latter is identical with the referent of the term to which the pronoun is anaphorically linked.

Castañeda, however, reads more into the (S)-use. According to him, just as the *user* of an (S)-used pronoun knows that the referent of the pronoun is such and such a subject, in particular, the subject of the representation or locution to whose characterisation the pronoun contributes, so, too, the *referent* of the pronoun is aware that *it** is such and such a subject, in particular, the subject of such and such a representation or locution had, undergone or performed by it*, a representation or locution now being characterised by means of the (S)-used pronoun even though the referent will not typically know it as such. Insofar as a pronoun is correctly (S)-used,

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6 See Castañeda 1966, p. 37.

its *referent* always already knows, or is at least always already able to know, *itself** as such and such a subject, not the least of such and such a representation or locution, the one now being characterised, typically unbeknownst to the referent. As it is commonly put in the literature, the referent is always already actually (able to be actually) thinking of itself 'as itself', hence in its capacity as subject of *this* representation, the one *it** has or is undergoing, or *this* locution, the one it* is performing, *here and now*. In this sense, the referent of the pronoun is, as it is invariably put, thinking of itself in "the first-person way" (Castañeda 1987a, p. 150) or again, "in the way that we think of ourselves when we use the word "I."" (Perry 1980a, p.538/p. 51) So for Castañeda self-consciousness is hardwired into representation and content *de se*. The latter *eo ipso* implicates the former, which constitutes denial of C.3, the third corollary of the thesis of content inherently *de se.* But how does Castañeda come to this denial?

Section I: The (S)-Used Third-Person Pronoun as a Quasi-Indicator and Pronoun of Self-Consciousness

In the first instance, Castañeda comes to denial of C.3 simply in virtue of how he proceeds. Focussed as he is on language and language users, he primarily considers two kinds of example:

(a) (S)-uses occurring in the characterisation of locution, in which the referent of the asterisked third-person pronoun is capable of self-ascription and explicit self-awareness simply because locution is, at least paradigmatically, under the rational control of its subject, hence presupposes these capacities; or

(b) (S)-uses occurring in the characterisation of representation or locution with content such as to entail that its subject paradigmatically possesses these capacities.

Evidently, the sentence "The Editor of *Soul* says that he (i.e., he*) is a millionaire" is an example of both (a) and (b). Saying is, at least typically or paradigmatically, something done only by a subject possessed of both capacities. The same applies to

editing and being a millionaire.[7] So for both reasons the referent of the singular term 'The Editor of *Soul*' is capable of self-ascription and self-awareness. Serious and literal assertion of this whole sentence not only expresses that the Editor of *Soul* says that he* is a millionaire, it also intimates capacities of self-ascription and self-awareness on the part of the pronoun's referent.

Note, however, that nothing said thus far entails that in *all* cases the referent of the asterisked third-person pronoun possesses capacities of self-ascription and self-awareness, as would be the case were the correctness of a pronoun's (S)-use to entail that its referent possessed them. So nothing said thus far entails that when correctly (S)-used, the pronoun is used to refer to its referent as either actually self-ascribing, or at least actually able to self-ascribe, the relevant predicate to itself, hence as either actually thinking, or at least actually able to think, of itself 'as itself', in "the first-person way," etc. It is one thing to claim that there is a distinct use of the third-person pronoun which consists in its anaphorically referring from within an intensional context to the subject of the context in its capacity as subject. It is quite another to maintain that such (S)-use of the pronoun entails commitment on the part of its user to its referent's possessing even merely a capacity for self-ascription and self-awareness. Yet Castañeda claims just this. Not just (S)-used third-person pronouns, but also adverbs of place and time, when deserving of an asterisk, are subject not to just a semantic but also to a "pragmatic rule" such that their uses "indicate/attribute an indexical reference to [the referent of] the antecedent prefix that it is linked to." (Corazza 1998, p. 232) In the case of the (S)-use, this "indexical reference" will be a first-personal one, so as (S)-used, the third-person pronoun becomes, as Castañeda puts it, a pronoun of self-consciousness.[8]

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[7] This is not to deny that a dog might inherit its millionaire owner's fortune, hence become, in some merely Pickwickian sense, a millionaire.

[8] See Castañeda 1966, pp. 36-41. This is, of course, why Castañeda describes this use as the (*S*)-use: 'S' stands for 'self-conscious'.

For the moment, let us just accept the claim that whenever a third-person pronoun is correctly (S)-used, it evinces self-consciousness on the part of its referent. So *whenever* a subject S asserts or believes that it* is F, desires that it* be F, perceives something *x* F-ing in relation to it*, etc., it can self-ascribe these locutions or representations, which one can only understand as S's at least being actually able to judge, perhaps mentally, "I am asserting that I am F" or "I believe that I am F," "I desire that I be F," "I am perceiving something *x*'s F-ing in relation to me," etc.[9] This is already quite a strong claim. Yet Castañeda seems to claim even more: the semantic rule to which the asterisked third-person pronoun is subject *depends on* the pragmatic one. In other words, he seems to believe that the asterisked third-person pronoun refers in its distinctive way *only because* its use in this way, i.e., its (S)-use, evinces self-consciousness on the part of its referent.

Just how strong this claim is will only become fully apparent in Section II. Yet only it justifies Castañeda's characterisation of the asterisked third-person pronoun as a *quasi-indicator*.[10] The first-person pronoun specifically and indexicals generally refer in that they *indicate*. By contrast, 'he*' and its adverbial relatives 'then*' and 'there*' refer in that they *quasi*-indicate. It seems that Castañeda deploys the prefix 'quasi-' in this fashion in order to intimate dependence: the quasi-indicative reference accomplished by use of an asterisked expression *depends on*, i.e., presupposes, an indicative reference accomplished by use of its indexical counterpart, hence a reference accomplished not by the subject wielding the asterisked expression but by the subject whose representation or locution is being characterised. So the asterisked third-person pronoun cannot but intimate possession by its referent of a capacity for 'I'-thinking. Importantly, this is *not* necessarily to say that the former may be

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9 Strictly speaking, one should speak here of *sentences synonymous with* the English sentences cited. The subject may, after all, not be an English speaker.

10 See Castañeda 1967a for his principal account of asterisked third-person pronouns and indeed of adverbs of time and place used as so-called quasi-indicators.

analysed or explicated in terms of the latter. As we shall see, this is something Castañeda explicitly denies.

A dash of Grice[11] makes the envisaged dependence clearer: the indexicality of the reference accomplished by the first-person pronoun consists in the fact that an utterer of it uses the utterance to reveal an *intention* to refer to itself 'as itself'. That is, a user of the first-person pronoun uses the utterance thereof to reveal an intention to refer to what is objectively itself as *itself**—this in accordance with the convention that the pronoun refers, as uttered by an S at a *t* and arguably an *l*, to something *x* if and only if *x* is it*, S, *thereby realising the intention*. So what makes a particular first-person reference and the intention to accomplish it possible is the appropriate underlying convention, which constitutes the pronoun as in general a device for making publicly recognisable at a time *t* and arguably also a location *l* of utterance an intention on the part of its speaker that the expression, as uttered by it* then* and there*, refer to it* in accordance with both convention and intention. Putting things this way makes clear how it is rational, hence possible to intend first-personal reference simply by making one's intention to accomplish it public, that is, by *publicly indicating* (i) *that* one* is intending to refer; (ii) *what* one* is intending to refer to; and, in particular, (iii) *how* one* intends to refer, namely, in "the first-person way." Castañeda appears to be getting at this character of reference as brought about by indicating the intention to bring it about[12] when he writes that "an indicator," i.e., an indexical expression,

> gains a referent in a context C of possible use, not by a mere pairing of its general meaning with the circumstances pertaining to C, but by the *execution* of an appropriate speech act by a language user. Briefly, a token T of an indexical singular term gains a referent by virtue of an actual *experience* lived through the tokening in context C of some sentence containing the token T. To illustrate, no object is really a *this* or a *that* or a *you* by merely lying in the neighbourhood of a potential speaker. Something is a *this* only by being *selected* [hence intended]

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11 The classic statement is Grice 1957.

12 That is, this character of *all* reference. For this performative character is surely possessed by any kind of reference, not just by the indexical kind.

> as the target of reference in an *encounter* with it. (Castañeda 1987b, pp. 181-182)

Use of the asterisked third-person pronoun is to be understood in contrast, hence in relation to this. It refers in that it *quasi*-indicates. In other words, it refers to the referent of the subject term of the intensional context in which it occurs by indicating an actual or potential use of the *first*-person pronoun by its referent in accordance with the convention for the *first*-person pronoun and, of course, the intention to apply the convention. If, however, this is so, then use of asterisked third-person pronoun has the convention governing the first-person pronoun so to speak built in to it. Reference accomplished by its means is *parasitic upon* first-personal reference and what enables the latter. One might say that the asterisked third-person pronoun refers by indicating an indication, that, namely, of the first-person pronoun. In this sense, or so it seems, the pronoun refers *quasi*-indicatively.

In general, says Castañeda, quasi-indicative reference is "a ... vicarious presentational way of referring to objects not necessarily present to us *through representation of their presence to others*." (Castañeda 1989, p. 5; italics added) Following Goodman, he calls

> *indicators* the personal and demonstrative pronouns and adverbs like 'this,' 'that,' 'I,' 'you,' 'here,' 'there,' and 'now,' ... when they are used purely referentially[13] either to single out an item present in the speaker's current experience or to pinpoint a self that is a relatum in the cognitive relation evinced by the speaker. I call *quasi-indicators* the expressions which in *oratio obliqua*

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[13] Castañeda actually writes here, " ... when they are used to make a strictly demonstrative reference, i.e., when they are used purely referentially ... ." This is a highly instructive claim because it intimates a tendency to construe a subject's awareness of itself 'as itself' (as one is wont to say) in *demonstrative*, hence perceptual terms. Elsewhere Castañeda acknowledges that "first-person reference is irreducible to demonstrative reference to oneself." (Castañeda 1989, p. 14) What Castañeda is getting at with this acknowledgement is unclear but presumably he means that one cannot conceive awareness of oneself 'as oneself' as any kind of 'this' awareness of what is objectively oneself, i.e., 'as this speaker', 'as this subject', etc., which latter ultimately boil down to something token-reflexive: 'as the speaker of *this* speech act', 'as the subject of *this* representation', etc. At the same time, there is, as we shall see in Chapter Five, something right in the intimation that self-awareness, i.e., self-consciousness, has something perceptual or, as Kant would say, *anschaulich* about it. (Evans, too, speaks of the first-person pronoun as a demonstrative.)

> represent uses, perhaps only implicit, of indicators, i.e., uses which are ascribed to some person or persons by means of a [psychological[14]] or linguistic verb. For example, suppose that at a certain place *p* and time *t*, *A* says to *B*: (1) "I am going to kill you here now." Suppose that *C* reports this by asserting: (2) "*A* said to *B* at *p* at *t* that he was going to kill him there then." Sentence (2) contains the quasi-indicators 'he,' 'him,' 'there,' and 'then,' which represent uses, ascribed to A, of the indicators 'I,' 'you,' 'here,' and 'now,' respectively. ... (T)he very same marks or noises 'I,' 'you,' 'here,' 'there,' 'he,' 'this,' function as either indicators, quasi-indicators, or something else. It is a mere accident of grammar that the same physical objects are used in different logical roles. The underlying rationale is this: indicators are a primary means of referring to particulars, but the references made with them are personal and ephemeral; quasi-indicators are the derivative means of making an indexical reference both interpersonal and enduring, yet preserving it intact. (Castañeda 1967a, pp. 61-62)

In describing the references made by indicators as personal and ephemeral, Castañeda is getting at the fact that indexical singular terms shift their reference depending on when, where and by whom they are uttered. By contrast, the reference accomplished by the quasi-indicator 'he*' is both interpersonal and enduring since its reference is inherited from the interpersonally and enduringly referential singular term to which it is anaphorically tied. It does, of course, shift its reference since it can be anaphorically tied to differently referring yet enduringly referential singular terms. But precisely because its reference is determined by linguistic rather than non-linguistic context, its reference is not "personal and ephemeral", hence is not (what Castañeda means by) indexical. Relatedly, in describing the kind of reference accomplished by the asterisked third-person pronoun as "vicarious," Castañeda is intimating the dependence mentioned above: the "interpersonal and enduring" reference of asterisked third-person pronoun is derivative upon the "personal and ephemeral" reference of the first-person pronoun.[15] It only refers in and through

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[14] Castañeda has the adjective 'cognitive' here but he must surely wish to include non-cognitive psychological verbs.

[15] Similarly, of course, for the quasi-indicators 'then*' and 'there*', whose "interpersonal and enduring" reference is 'vicariously' derivative upon the "personal and ephemeral" reference of the *demonstrative* adverbs 'now' and 'here' (as well as 'there' used demonstratively).

expressing the fact that its referent is at least capable of first-personal reference, which latter consists in the first-person pronoun's indicating that its utterer is referring to itself 'as itself', in other words that, as Castañeda fully appreciates, its utterer is referring to (what is objectively itself as) *itself**.

Already here one glimpses an at least apparent tension in Castañeda's position: on the one hand, he has the asterisked third-person pronoun depend, in the sense intimated above, on the indexically first-personal mode of reference. On the other, the asterisked third-person pronoun must be used, as the preceding intimates and Castañeda acknowledges,[16] in an account of the first-person pronoun, more precisely put, in an account of the convention governing the latter. Is there not something Münchausenish in this? In Section III we will see how Castañeda might, indeed must, respond to this worry. In the meantime, let us note that if there is the dependence Castañeda alleges, then use of the asterisked third-person pronoun will express a capacity for self-ascription on the part of its referent, given that use of the first-person pronoun does. And of course Castañeda regards the first-person pronoun as doing just this. So as *quasi-indicating*, that is, *vicariously indicating*, an actual (capacity for) first-personally indexical reference on the part of its referent, the asterisked third-person pronoun cannot but be a pronoun of self-consciousness, understood precisely as self-ascription, that is, the attribution of properties and relations, in particular, representational and locutionary properties and relations, *as one*'s own*.

Note, however, what this entails: capacity for first-personally indexical reference quasi-indicated by a use of the asterisked third-person pronoun is *actually* possessed by the latter's referent.[17] It makes no sense to suggest that the pronoun could refer by quasi-indicating a mere possibility. It succeeds in referring only if it succeeds in

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16 See Castañeda 1966, pp. 45-46, discussed below in Section III.

17 As Kapitan *de facto* acknowledges when, speaking for Castañeda, he writes that "(t)he reflexive 'he himself'," hence the asterisked third-person pronoun 'he*', "serves as a proxy for the first-person pronoun by depicting a first-person reference that someone makes or is disposed to make." (Kapitan 1999, p. 4)

quasi-indicating an actuality—if not an actual use of the first-person pronoun, then at least an actual capacity for such use. Castañeda seems to acknowledge this, for having said that attributions of reference need not be attributions of references actually "... involved in dialogue ...," he then says that they are at least attributions "... of propensities or powers to refer ..."—*actual* propensities or powers to refer. (Castañeda 1989, p. 88)[18] This only underscores a point already made in the Introduction: not only does Castañeda deny C.3, everything he says entails, at least if taken literally and without qualification, denial of C.2, the second corollary of the thesis of content inherently *de se*, according to which representation and content *de se* do not implicate any actual use, or any actual capacity for the use, of the first-person pronoun.

Yet C.2 and C.3, hence the denials thereof, at least *appear* to be distinct, if only because it is not *obviously* false that there might be a non-linguistic being able to think of itself 'as itself'—able to think of itself "in the way that we think of ourselves when we use the word "I"" (Perry 1980a, p.538/p. 51)—without being able to wield a first-person pronoun at all.[19] Indeed, many things said by Castañeda seem to imply endorsement of this possibility and Section II will argue that he *does*, Section III that he *must*, endorse it. But however Castañeda conceives the relation between his denials of C.2 and C.3, he is committed to both. So let us now investigate more closely his claims that the (S)-use of the third-person pronoun entails that its referent is thinking, or can think, of itself 'as itself'; and that this use is quasi-indication, hence intimates at least an actual capacity on the part of its referent to use a first-person pronoun. For this will reveal their ultimate origin.

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[18] And he immediately goes on to claim that "(a)ttributions of references to others are part and parcel of our attributions to those others of speech acts or thinking episodes, anchored to such reference. Likewise, attributions *of powers to refer* are included in, as central components of, attributions of dispositional mental states, for example, believing, taking it for granted, intending, having a purpose or plan." (Castañeda 1989, p. 89; italics added)

[19] To wield a first-person pronoun is to be able to assert or to mentally judge (sentences synonymous with) sentences of the form "I am F." But it seems built into what we understand by the wielding of such a sentence that if one can wield it, one can also wield (sentences synonymous with) sentences of the form "I believe that I am F." Given sincerity, this generates precisely that harmless infinite regress which can be generated from the fact that one has a belief self-consciously.

Section II: How does the Asterisked Third-person Pronoun become a Quasi-Indicator and a Pronoun of Self-Consciousness?

The argument given in Section II of Chapter One entailed, at least *prima facie*, nothing in particular about self-consciousness, understood as (a capacity for) self-ascription. True, the agents in both the argument itself and in the examples were capable of explicitly self-conscious judgement. And surely only self-conscious agents could, at some *t* and *l*, believe such things as that one* is making a mess then* and there*, that one*'s meeting starts then* or that the Mt. Tallac trail is here*. Indeed, in all the examples the agents seem to have undergone an episode in which something dawns on them, which dawning may be understood as a mental event in which the agent realises the truth of what is expressed, on the occasion, by an indexical sentence actually available to it. Clearly, only self-conscious linguistic subjects can undergo such events. Yet these are not essential features of either the argument or the examples. Only minor tweaking is required in order to construe the agents mentioned in the argument as incapable of self-consciousness, at least in the aforementioned sense of self-conscious mental judging. Had François and Dilip not been philosophers but, say, dogs, then they would surely not have been capable of such dawnings. Yet the argument could have proceeded more or less as it did.[20]

Consider, then, the following sentence:

> "The small pug sees a large pit bull charging aggressively towards it* and so it runs away."

This is a perfectly acceptable everyday characterisation of two events and the psychologically causal link between them. It is thus a perfectly acceptable everyday psychological explanation of the one event in terms of the other, an explanation underwritten, of course, by the assumption that the pug desires that it* not be mauled

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[20] Perhaps then François could not have climbed into a tree and Dilip could not literally have called for help. In order to accommodate this, we need only re-imagine the behaviour in which both engage in order to save François.

by a large pit bull. Moreover, use of the asterisked third-person pronoun is not only possible, it is also necessary: if we replaced the asterisked third-person pronoun by some possibly co-referential term, e.g., 'Jones' dog', we would "destroy the explanation." (Perry 1979, p. 29/p. 5) Yet there is no trace of self-ascription or self-awareness in any sense thus far mentioned. Even more clearly, there is neither actual use of, nor actual disposition or capacity to use, the first-person pronoun.[21]

In fact, in this kind of case, hence in all the others, the reason why the asterisked third-person pronoun is necessary has nothing to do with any capacity on the part of its referent to wield the first-person pronoun, hence *mutatis mutandis* other indexicals. Nor does its necessity have anything to do with whatever self-consciousness this referent might possess. A perspicuous characterisation of representation makes causal role evident. So in a completely perspicuous explanation of purposive behaviour, characterisation of the relevant representation must use such terms, and only such terms, as capture causal efficacy. And no name or definite description referring to the small pug is relevant to characterisation of the pug's perceptual experience in its causal efficacy, hence as it is 'objectively' or 'in itself' because neither the name nor the definite description captures the causal efficacy of the experience.

This is not to deny that the pug's being, say, Jones' dog might need to be mentioned in a causally complete everyday explanation: perhaps Jones' dog is particularly timid so perhaps the pug behaved in the way it did in part because it is particularly timid. This timidity must therefore be mentioned insofar as explanation seeks to mention all causally relevant factors and one might at some point in the explanation indirectly[22] accomplish this by using the term 'Jones' dog'. But this has nothing to do with the asterisked third-person pronoun and its necessity. The fact that the small pug is Jones' dog, which is particularly timid, must not be mentioned *in the*

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[21] Of course, *possibly* there is such a use, disposition or capacity but this much is so weak that all hands, whatever their views on content *de se*, can agree on it.

[22] Hence to this extent somewhat imperspicuously.

characterisation of the content of the pug's perceptual experience itself. Rather, it must be mentioned only *outside of* the intensional context involved in characterisation of the pug's experience.[23] It would thus be wrong to construe the content of the pug's perceptual experience in any way which entailed the further fact of the pug's extreme timidity.

These considerations show that not just in the case of the small pug, but in *all* cases, the asterisked third-person pronoun is merely a pronoun of purposive behaviour or agency, not a pronoun of self-consciousness. Consequently, it is not "a device for talking about persons, beings who enjoy, even indulge in, self-awareness." (Castañeda 1966, p. 35) It is therefore not a quasi-indicator. On occasion it might help to evince actual self-consciousness and an actual use, or at least an actual capacity for the use, of the first-person pronoun. Since, however, it does not evince either across the board, this is not its linguistic function. Why, then, does Castañeda assume that the asterisked third-person is a pronoun of self-consciousness and a quasi-indicator, even in the face of the problem thereby created, namely, that now the small pug cannot *literally* perceive a large pit bull charging aggressively towards it*?[24]

Let us look at what Castañeda says about Armand Duval from Dumas' *Camille*, who knows, hence believes that he* loves Marguerite Gautier too deeply, who, moreover, being both self-conscious and able to wield the first-person pronoun, is *ceteris paribus* disposed to assert, both in mental and linguistic judgement, the sentence "I love Marguerite Gautier too deeply."

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[23] This is shown, incidentally, by the subject term of the context, namely, 'The small pug'. The whole explanation makes sense of the pug's behaviour, hence explains it adequately (or at least adequately enough), because it involves reference to the small pug *as a small pug*. After all, a small pug is precisely the kind of dog likely to prefer running away from, rather than standing up to, what it perceives to be a large pit bull charging aggressively towards it*. Referring to the pug as small contributes to the capacity of the characterisation of the pug's perceptual experience to make sense of, hence explain, the pug's behaviour.

[24] Nor literally believe that a large pit bull is charging aggressively towards it* and literally desire that it* not be mauled by the pit bull.

> "(W)hereas others must use third-person ways to think and gossip about [Armand], not only does Armand *not* need such third-person ways to think about himself, but he MUST use the first-person way to really think about *himself*, to think of himself as *himself*. … The two italicized 'himself's in the preceding sentences are … mechanisms especially devised to depict first-person reference. They are special cases of *quasi-indicators … . From now on, we may write 'he*' to indicate the quasi-indexical use of the pronoun 'he/she (him/herself)'* (Castañeda 1987a, p. 150; last sentence italicised)

Note that in the last sentence Castañeda does not write "'he/she' ('himself/herself')," i.e., "'he/she' or 'himself/herself'." Rather, he writes "'he/she (him/herself)'," which implies that the reflexive pronoun is attached to the personal pronoun, as in "he himself/she herself." It thus seems that Castañeda construes the asterisked third-person pronouns 'he*' and 'she*, hence also 'it*', as synonymous with, respectively, the phrases 'he himself', 'she herself' and 'it itself', as if the third-person reflexive pronoun, when used in such contexts, played the role of his asterisk. In other words, Castañeda construes the third-person reflexive pronoun, when attached to the third-person personal pronoun in such contexts, as intimating that the latter is (S)-used.

Castañeda's point of departure for this interpretation of such use of the third-person reflexive pronoun, hence of his own asterisk, would appear to be the following linguistic fact: in ordinary English the third-person *reflexive* pronoun can be attached to a third-person *personal* pronoun in order to intimate (i) that the referent of the personal pronoun is self-consciously aware of the intentional state or experience the pronoun serves to ascribe, hence (ii) would self-ascribe said state or experience by means of whatever first-personal pronoun it has at its disposal. Thus, to tweak slightly an example from Castañeda himself,[25] the sentence "The Editor of *Soul* believes that he himself is a millionaire," thanks to the presence of the reflexive third-person pronoun in it, can be taken as intimating that the Editor is actually able to assert, "I am a millionaire," with all the implications of self-consciousness involved in such self-

[25] See Castañeda 1966, p. 38, and Castañeda 1968a, p. 90.

ascription of the property of being a millionaire. Note, however, that nothing requires one to build this intimation into the use of the *personal* pronoun 'he', which is clearly an (S)-use. In other words, one might understand what is going on in the example as made explicit by the following:

"The Editor of *Soul* believes that he* himself is a millionaire."

Castañeda, however, assumes that the job of the reflexive pronoun 'himself' in the original sentence is to intimate precisely that the personal pronoun 'he' is (S)-used. In other words, he *equates* the reflexive pronoun with his asterisk, thereby building what the reflexive pronoun intimates, namely, (i) and (ii) above, into intimation that a third-person personal pronoun is (S)-used. Both his asterisk and the reflexive pronoun end up intimating all three.

Yet as the alternative reading of the example shows, another interpretation is possible: the reflexive pronoun *independently* intimates (i), hence (ii), *on the basis of* the (S)-use of the third-person personal pronoun to which it is attached. Castañeda's asterisk is now not identified with the third-person reflexive pronoun but rather makes independently clear merely that the third-person personal pronoun is (S)-used. If this is so, then use of the reflexive pronoun presupposes rather than belongs to an (S)-use of the third-person personal pronoun to which it is attached. Castañeda himself provides no reason for rejecting this interpretation, indeed he never considers it. He moves directly from empirical observation as to how the reflexive pronoun functions when attached to the personal pronoun to the conclusion that, as thus attached, the former reveals the latter to be (S)-used. Thereby he builds the function of the reflexive pronoun into that of the (S)-used personal pronoun. The (S)-use itself, hence the correct use of the asterisk, now *entails* that when a subject S believes that it* is F, it believes this self-consciously: S actually does think, or at least actually can think, "I believe that I am F," "What I believe is that I am F," etc. And given the further assumption that S is actually capable of the first-person pronoun, S can actually assert, "I believe that I am F," "What I believe is that I am F," etc. The asterisked third-

person pronoun now *itself* intimates (i), hence (ii). It has become a quasi-indicator and a pronoun of self-consciousness.

But what leads Castañeda to think that 'he*' in effect abbreviates 'he himself', hence entails that its referent is thinking, or at least can think, of itself in "the first-person way"? The answer lies in Castañeda's appeal to what he describes as "the general formula" for *all* reference, namely, "*X refers to Y as Z*," in particular, "the *as* moment" contained in it. (Castañeda 1999c, p. 258) More precisely put, it lies in the way he understands and deploys the formula. In the first instance, the formula implies a biconditional articulating when *X* succeeds in referring to something actual, a condition one make take as *constitutive of X*'s referring:[26] "*X* refers to something *Y* if and only if *Y* is (identical with) *Z*." This biconditional articulates what *X*'s referring to *Y is*, hence may be said to articulate the *being* of *X*'s reference *qua* property determining when *X* refers to something actual. Of course, if *Z* is, as it happens, identical with $Z^{\star}$, then the property possessed by *X* of referring to something *Y* if and only if *Y* is *Z* can be *the very same* property as that of referring to something *Y* if and only if *Y* is $Z^{\star}$.[27] *X* itself, however, neither intends, nor intends to be understood as intending, to refer to $Z^{\star}$, but only to *Z*. So *X*'s referring to *Y* as *Z* must be more precisely understood as *X*'s referring to something *Y* if and only if *Y* is *Z as a result of* ***X****'s intending to refer to* ***Y*** *if and only if* ***Y*** *is* ***Z****.*

More, however, is contained in Castañeda's formula. As Castañeda's student Kapitan puts it, reference

> requires some means of distinguishing [the referent] from other things of which one is aware. These means—modes of presentation or identifying properties of the referent—constitute the conceptual mechanisms underlying reference. If I

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[26] In contrast to a biconditional of the form "*X* refers to something *Y* if and only if *Y* is (identical with) $Z^{\star}$," understood as true *only because of the truth of the original biconditional and the further fact that* $\boldsymbol{Z^{\star}}$ *is identical with* ***Z***.

[27] They will be the same when '*Z*' and '$Z^{\star}$' either both refer rigidly or both refer non-rigidly. Note, incidentally, that the observation that the biconditional "*X* refers to something *Y* if and only if *Y* is (identical with) *Z*" is extensional only makes this point in another way.

> report that *the Louvre is in Paris*, for example, I must have some way of picking out the Louvre, say, as the largest art gallery in France or *qua* that huge building over there across the Seine. Each description corresponds to a mode through which the referent is distinguished, even if this mode is not itself articulated in my report. Several modes of presentation might be operative within a single act, as when one says; (*sic*) "Look at that one, the statue to the left, the only Michelangelo in the room," and while some modes may be generic, at least one must permit the user to identify or individuate the referent. … (Kapitan 1999, p. 6)

On this basis, Kapitan concludes that "(w)e must recognize the following *satisfaction principle*:

> One … refers to an item only *by distinguishing it through a mode of presentation uniquely satisfied by it*.[28] (Kapitan 1999, p. 8; italics added)

One could take this as (attribution by Kapitan to Castañeda of) commitment to that naively descriptivist conception of reference which Kripke, Kaplan, Perry and others are widely held to have refuted. According to such descriptivism, referring to something *x* just is a matter of possessing "some means of distinguishing [*x*] from other things of which one is aware," certain "modes of presentation or identifying properties of" *x* which permit one "to identify or individuate" *x*, in which case these means constitute the sense of the expression by which reference is accomplished. A more charitable interpretation is, however, possible. The italicised participial clause intimates that the satisfaction principle is not solely semantic, but also epistemic. Why is this? Because when *X* refers to something *Y* as *Z*, *X* is doing so, as Castañeda puts it,[29] 'thinkingly'. That is, *X*'s referring to something *Y* as *Z* is ideally such that the locution or, as we are temporarily allowing, the representation in which it occurs[30] is,

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[28] As Kapitan points out (Kapitan 1999, p. 14), Castañeda's commitment to the so-called satisfaction principle is shown by the following passage: "(T)hinking in (perceptual) absence can reach its objects only if it segregates them from other objects by means of a set of uniquely possessed traits … ." (Castañeda 1989, p. 77)

[29] See Castañeda 1999c, p. 256.

[30] For the moment we are granting Castañeda his conviction that in (the content of) representation there is reference. As, however, will be argued below, talk of reference in representation cannot be understood literally. Reference is, after all, a feature of locutions; it is something speakers do. To

as a rule, *objectively evaluable* in the sense that it possesses a content others can evaluate with respect to truth, thereby enabling determination of whether the illocution or representation at issue is satisfied. So *X*'s referring to *Y* as *Z* is not simply *identical* with *X*'s making it the case that *Y* is identifiable by others as the referent of its reference, namely, as *Z*, as would be the case were naïve descriptivism correct, hence '*Z*' always an at least covert definite description.

The general formula thus has a dual character. On the one hand, it embodies the character of *X*'s referring to, or thinking about, *Y* as subject to a condition necessary and sufficient for *X*'s referring to something actual, namely, identity with *Z*. On the other, it intimates what is required for a subject $X^{\blacklozenge}$[31] to identify *X*'s referent, thereby ascertaining that *X* is referring to something actual and what this is. In short, the formula embodies *a further functional role over and above reference*, that, namely, of publicly identifying[32] something *Y as X*'s referent, i.e., identifying it for others,[33] that they might determine what actual thing, if any, *X* is referring to. Thereby it contributes to rendering what involves reference, whether illocution, locution or, as Castañeda allows, representation, objectively, hence publicly evaluable, as all illocutions and representations must at least ideally and typically be. "(T)he *as* moment" thus houses under one roof two distinct albeit inseparable dimensions: on the one hand, the *being* of reference—the property of being subject to a condition necessary and sufficient for

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speak of a representation as implicating reference is at most to say that it has a content whose perspicuous expression involves such reference.

31 Note that $X^{\blacklozenge}$ may *or may not* be other than *X*.

32 At least as a rule. This qualification is necessary in order to avoid the quasi-verificationist claim that *X* only refers to something *Y* as *Z* if $X^{\blacklozenge}$ can *always* identify something as *X*'s referent. When *X* asserts the sentence "The galaxy a million light years from the Milky Way is perhaps larger than the latter," the referent of the nominal definite description may be, for diverse nomological reasons, not literally identifiable as *X*'s referent.

33 Note that this does not entail that *X* positively intends an illocution in which it refers to something *Y* as *Z* to be intelligible for *all possible other subjects as such*, whoever and whatever they may be. *X* may well have only a restricted circle of possible evaluating subjects in mind. But even if *X*'s illocution is thus restricted, the very fact that it implicates evaluability for any set of intended evaluating subjects at all implicates evaluability for subjects beyond *X*'s ken. This is implicit in the claim of any illocution (and, for that matter, representation) to there being something it is objectively about, hence something determining when its content is or is not true, hence contributing to when it itself is or is not satisfied.

referring to something actual—; and, on the other, the *public identifiability* of the referent—the property of reference as implicating what one knows when one knows something as the referent.

Now the latter epistemic dimension one can also express by means of a biconditional sentence, often indeed the *same* sentence, namely, "X refers to, or thinks about, something Y if and only if Y is Z." Yet any sentence which would expresses this epistemic character is subject to a restriction: the identity sentence occurring on its right hand side must express an impersonal content, for only so can it serve to make something objectively identifiable as X's referent.[34] This restriction presents no problem when the schematic letter 'Z' in Castañeda's "as moment" is tokened to some such expression as 'Venus' or 'the Morning Star' because then, as just seen, the same biconditional sentence can articulate both dimensions simultaneously—what it is to be the referent and what one must know in order to identify something as the referent. Such expressions yield, after all, identity sentences expressing impersonal contents, given appropriate completion of the predicates '… is Venus' or '… is the Morning Star'.

What, however, when *X* asserts or believes that *it** is F? How is Castañeda's formula to be applied to the kind of reference *X* now accomplishes both in its assertion and, according to Castañeda, in its belief? In this case, one can only say that *X* is referring to something *Y* (which is, of course, in this case *X*) as *itself**, *namely,* ***X***.[35] Just this way of putting things shows that, for all their inseparability, the two

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[34] This biconditional constitutes, as one may instructively put it, the cognitive value (*Erkenntniswert*) of *X*'s reference for a subject $X^{\blacklozenge}$.

[35] When we characterise *X* as referring to something *Y* as itself*, *we* are, in our use of the asterisked third-person *reflexive* pronoun, referring to *X* in *X*'s capacity as subject of the act of reference *we* are characterising. Meanwhile, *X* itself, insofar as it is genuinely *referring* to something *Y*, is referring to *Y* as thus and so and if *X* is referring to *Y as itself**, then *X* is referring to *X* in its capacity as subject of the act of reference *it** is performing. But it is a *non sequitur* to argue that this holds generally, that is, to conclude simply from the fact that *we* are referring to *X* by means of an asterisked third-person pronoun, hence to *X* in its capacity as subject of whatever we are characterising, that *X* is also *referring* to *Y*, let alone referring to *Y as itself*,* hence as subject of whatever representation, illocution or locution *it** possesses, is undergoing or is performing. As we shall see in Section IV of Chapter Five, this *non sequitur* underpins the claim made by both

dimensions implicated in reference are distinct. For in this application of the formula, the occurrence of 'itself*' corresponds to the biconditional articulating what *X*'s reference *is*, namely, "*X* refers to, or thinks of, something *Y* if and only if *Y* is it*," while the appositionally deployed term '*X*' in the phrase 'as *itself**, *namely,* ***X***' intimates the biconditional articulating the public identifiability of *Y* as *X*'s referent, namely, "*X* refers to, or thinks of, something *Y* if and only if *Y* is *X*." Evidently, what is expressed on the occasion by the sentences used to ascribe *X*'s assertion and belief licenses appositional attachment of the term '*X*' to the asterisked third-person (personal or reflexive) pronoun in the formula. In this way, it shows both the inseparability and the distinctness of the two dimensions.

Thus all reference can indeed be depicted, just as Castañeda claims, as in some sense a referring to something as something. When *X* asserts or, as we are for the moment allowing, when *X* believes, that it* is F, there must be something *as which X* refers to something *Y*. The account just provided of what it is *in general* for *X* to refer to something *Y* as *Z* entails, however, that this consists in *X*'s referring to *Y* if and only if *Y* is it*, *X* itself—crucially, of course, only as a result of X's thus intending to refer. Thereby the account reveals something very important: when *X* either asserts or believes that it* is F, the relevant "*as* moment" cannot be captured in the way it is typically captured by so many in the literature, indeed even by Castañeda himself, namely, by the unadorned phrase 'as itself'. Even when serving as value of the schematic letter '*Z*' in "the *as*-moment," the third-person reflexive pronoun must be supplied with an asterisk. Only the phrase 'as *itself**' will do.[36]

At this point, the distinctive way in which Castañeda understands and deploys his general formula becomes relevant—relevant in that it explains both why Castañeda places so much emphasis on his general formula and ultimately why he takes the (S)-

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Anscombe and, following her, Bermúdez that the asterisked third-person pronoun presupposes, hence cannot be used to explain, the first-person pronoun.

[36] At at least one point Castañeda recognises this: "In an episode of *self*-consciousness X refers to X as himself*." (Castañeda 1999c, p. 265)

used pronoun ‘he’ to be in effect synonymous with the phrase ‘he himself’, thereby equating the asterisk with the reflexive pronoun and so turning the pronoun into a quasi-indicator and pronoun of self-consciousness. Castañeda in fact takes his general formula for all reference to intimate more than is *prima facie* suggested by the analysis just given according to which *X* refers to something *Y* as *Z* just in case *X* is referring to something *Y* if and only if *Y* is *Z* (as a result of intending thus to refer). As Castañeda sees things, the formula points to *something underlying*, something which *explains* the truth of the analysis, the occurrence, namely, of *an act* of referring to something as something, this in all cases in which one may speak of reference. And for Castañeda this includes representation since according to him there can be reference in representation just as there is in locution, hence illocution. When *X believes* that *Z* is F, *X* refers to something *Y* as *Z*, just as *X* does when *X says* that *Z* is F, therein asserting what is said. One sometimes responds to the jarring note this strikes by speaking, not of *X*’s *referring to*, but of *X*’s *thinking of Y* as *Z*. But this move does not affect the point at issue because, however one describes it, there is, as Castañeda sees things, some kind of act going on which accounts for the character of a representation or locution as referring to something *Y* if and only if *Y* is *Z*. Precisely for this reason he places so much emphasis on the general formula: it points to this act as the *explanans* for that mere *explanandum* as which he understands the biconditional. For Castañeda, the order of analysis runs from the formula to the biconditional, not conversely.

Now if “it’s an odd idea, that predication in the sense of some sort of cognitive *activity* generally enters into representation …” (Richard 2013, p. 714f.), then it is also odd that some act of referring-to or thinking-of enters into it. This oddity is, however, not the deepest problem inherent in Castañeda’s assumption that an underlying act on *X*’s part of referring to *Y* as *Z* explains the truth of biconditional—an act which, because it ostensibly also occurs in representation, cannot simply *be* the linguistic act *X* performs in order to refer to *Y* if and only if *Y* is *Z*. For Castañeda’s

assumption makes it impossible to account for the *epistemic* function seen above to be one of two functions combined in "the *as* moment." This is not evident as long as one remains focussed solely upon assertion of, or belief in, *impersonal* contents such as that Venus is a planet or that the Morning Star is bright. For in these cases, the schematic letter '*Z*' in the formula is tokened to a name or a definite description and so one and the same biconditional expresses both what *X*'s reference is and what one must know if one knows something as *X*'s referent. The difficulty of accommodating the epistemic function becomes very evident, however, as soon as one turns to assertion of, or belief in, personal contents, such as those of the form 'that *it** is F'.

If the characterisation of *X* as performing an underlying act of referring to something *Y* as itself* is to *explain* what is going on when *X* refers to something *Y* just in case *Y* is it*, then it must also explain the truth of what is expressed by a biconditional specifying what is required for knowing something as *X*'s referent. Otherwise reference could not stand under the rational control of either *X* itself or others. Unfortunately, unlike the terms 'Venus' and 'the Morning Star', the reflexive pronoun 'itself*' cannot yield one and the same biconditional as able to fulfil both functions; in its case a different one is required, namely, that *X* refers to something *Y* if and only if *Y* is *X*. And one can only know this latter biconditional *on the basis of* knowing what *X*'s reference is, that is, *on the basis of* knowing that *X*'s locution or, as we are allowing, *X*'s representation is such that in it *X* refers to *Y* if and only if *Y* is it*. So one can *only* make sense of Castañeda's general formula in terms of the analysis given above.

In other words, *pace* Castañeda, one *cannot* assume a reverse order of analysis. Insofar as one may speak in any literal sense at all of an act of referring to something as something, one can *only* mean by this *X*'s genuinely acting to make it the case that *X*, or rather, since this is something *X* is genuinely *acting* to bring about, *it**, *X*, refers to something *Y* if and only if *Y* is it*. Once, however, this is granted for the case of X's referring to something as itself*, one must grant it for *X*'s referring to *Y* as Venus,

the Morning Star, etc., that is, for all values of the schematic letter '*Z*'. At this point, the idea that *acts* of referring to, or even merely of thinking of, something as something *occur in representation, thereby engendering representational 'reference'*,[37] shows itself to be senseless. It is thus hardly surprising that the idea should be odd. Indeed, strictly speaking, it is senseless to regard such acts as occurring even *in illocution*. For reference occurs at the level of *locution*, as a result of successfully intending that an expression, and thereby one* oneself, refer to something *Y* if and only if *Y* is *Z*.

It is crucial to understand exactly what is being claimed here. In *some* sense the formula "*X* refers to [or thinks of] something *Y* as *Z*" can be applied both *X*'s asserting and even to *X*'s believing that *Z* is thus and so. Thus to apply it is, however, to say that a content is illocuted, a content is represented, whose perspicuous expression by *X* requires *X* to wield a term τ such that, as thus wielded, τ refers to something *Y* if and only if *Y* is Z (as a result of the intention thus to refer). So what is being denied is, in the first instance, the *explanatory status* Castañeda accords his formula, then in the second and more fundamental instance, the basis upon which he thus accords it, *the assumption*, namely, *of an underlying act which grounds the truth of what expressed by the biconditional specifying what reference is*. This assumption compels Castañeda effectively to shoehorn the two aspects of reference—its being such and such a reference and its implicating some identification, however impoverished, of such and such as referent—into the one schema 'as *Z*'. This conflation remains hidden as long as one is focussed solely upon impersonal contents. As soon, however, as one considers personal ones, it comes to the fore.

It would be tempting at this point simply to reject the way Castañeda understands his general formula, namely, as identifying an act which accounts for the reference of anything, whether illocution, hence locution, or representation. Why not simply say

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[37] What is actually more properly called representational aboutness. See in this connection Chapter Five, Section II.

that for *X* to refer to *Y* as *Z* just is for *X* to (successfully intend) to refer to something *Y* if and only if *Y* is *Z*, and leave it at that? This would permit one to say that only in locution is there any actual act—any act of uttering an expression in order to refer—while in representation there is only a content whose perspicuous characterisation requires such locution. Thereby one avoids entirely the "odd idea … of some sort of cognitive *activity*" entering "into representation." (Richard 2013, p. 714f.) As attractive as this is, in one way it would be too quick. For Castañeda can and does find a way of preserving the idea that in representation *X* is performing an act of referring to, or at least thinking of, something as something, an act which *explains* why one may describe *X* as referring to, or thinking of something *Y* if and only if *Y* is *Z*. As Section III will elaborate in more detail, he clearly recognises what one is committing oneself to when one takes seriously, hence explanatorily, talk of *X*'s referring to something as something, and in particular, of *X*'s referring to something as itself*. As Castañeda appreciates far better than most who speak similarly, one is postulating an act of original 'I'-awareness neither further explicable nor available to beings like the small pug[38]—what Kant called the "»Ich denke«," "die *reine* … oder auch … *ursprüngliche* Apperzeption." (Kant 1781-87/1986, B 132)

Clearly, this move, if coherent, enables Castañeda to preserve, even when the schematic letter '*Z*' must take as its value 'itself*', the general idea of an act of referring to, or thinking of, something *Y* as *Z* in which *X*'s referring by means of some linguistic expression to *Y* if and only if *Y* is *Z* is *genuinely*, that is to say, *explanatorily* grounded. Clearly, too, the move turns the asterisked third-person pronoun into a quasi-indicator and a pronoun of self-consciousness. It is therefore this move—the postulation of a pure and original apperception—which ultimately explains why Castañeda describes the asterisked third-person pronoun as a quasi-indicator and a pronoun of self-consciousness. Relatedly, it explains why he equates his asterisk with

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[38] Kapitan, speaking on Castañeda's behalf, puts this well—see Kapitan 1999, pp. 12-13. But see also Castañeda 1999c, pp. 268-269, and, in particular, Castañeda 1999b, pp. 187-190.

the third-person reflexive pronoun often attached to an (S)-used third-person personal pronoun, thereby giving to his asterisk the functions (i) and (ii) of the reflexive pronoun. Indeed, it explains why he sees the semantic rule governing the asterisked third-person pronoun as grounded in a pragmatic rule of quasi-indicating first-personal reference. Of course, many of those happy to speak of *X*'s referring to, or thinking of, something *Y* as itself* in order then to cash this as a matter of *X*'s referring to, or thinking of, *Y* in "the first-person way" or "in the way that we think of ourselves when we use the word "I"," would not follow Castañeda this far, if only because they do not see as clearly what consistency demands.

Section III: Referring to Oneself in "the First-Person Way" as Pure and Original Apperception

Castañeda cites Carl Ginet as proposing[39] "an ingenious analysis of 'he*' in terms of the pronoun 'I' … ." According to Ginet,

> for any sentence of the form "X believes that he* is H" [there is] a corresponding sentence that contains no form of "he*" but that would in most circumstances make the same statement. The corresponding sentence that will do the job, I suggest, is the one of the form "X believes (to be true) the proposition that X would express if X were to say, "I am H" or, perhaps more clearly, "If X were to say 'I am H' he would express what he (X) believes." (Castañeda 1966, p. 45-46)

Castañeda then points out that

> (m)erely saying 'I am H' does not guarantee that any proposition is expressed. We must, then, construe Ginet's "saying 'I am H'" as something like "assertively uttering 'I am H' and nothing else." But this does not suffice. For one can express many different propositions by assertively uttering 'I am H'. What Ginet's formula lacks is a precise specification of the proposition that X believes when he believes that he* is H. That is to say, Ginet's "saying 'I am H'" must be understood as "assertively uttering 'I am H' and nothing else, when

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[39] Castañeda reports that Ginet made this proposal in the course of comments on Castañeda 1966 as presented at the meeting of the Michigan Academy in March 1965—see note 10, Castañeda 1966, p. 59.

> the sentence 'I am H' means what it normally means." But the analysis requires that we unpack the clause 'what it normally means'. Evidently, when this is done we are going to come out with something like "assertively uttering 'I am H' and nothing else, when the word 'I' is used by X to refer to himself*. Thus, this analysis of 'he*' in terms of 'I' is at bottom circular. (Castañeda 1966, p. 46)

Clearly, this is right; the first-person pronoun can only be understood as "the word each one uses in speaking of himself" (Anscombe 1975, p. 47), that is, *himself**.[40] Just this, however, creates at least the appearance of a serious problem for Castañeda.

In Section II, it was pointed out that Castañeda in effect equates his asterisk with the third-person reflexive pronoun when this latter is attached to the (S)-used third-person personal pronoun. Thereby the asterisk inherits the functions of the reflexive pronoun as thus attached: it not only makes clear that the third-person personal pronoun is (S)-used but also intimates (i) that the referent of the pronoun is self-consciously aware, at least in a capacity sense, of the intentional state or experience the pronoun is used to ascribe, hence (ii) would self-ascribe said state or experience by means of whatever first-personal pronoun it has at its disposal. And as Section II has also pointed out, this equation of the asterisk with the reflexive pronoun often attached to an (S)-used third-person personal pronoun is legitimate *only if* the (S)-use of any third-person pronoun, whether personal or reflexive, is grounded in an original act on its referent's part of referring to, or thinking of what is objectively itself as, itself.* No wonder, then, that the (S)-used third-person personal pronoun cannot but intimate that its referent is referring to, or thinking of, itself in "the first-person way"!

At no point, however, does Castañeda consider the possibility that the reflexive pronoun in the pronominal phrase 'he himself' in the sentence "X believes that he himself is H" only intimates that X is referring to himself in "the first-person way" insofar as it *presupposes* that the personal pronoun is (S)-used. Clearly, this

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[40] The argument to the contrary which Anscombe presents at this point in her essay will be discussed in Section IV of Chapter Five.

possibility entails that the pronominal phrase is only rendered fully explicit when the personal pronoun is furnished with an asterisk so as to become 'he* himself'. This makes clear that the reflexive pronoun, functioning as it does to intimate (i) and (ii), *builds on* the (S)-use, in which case the asterisk cannot be equated with it. In consequence, one is no longer compelled to construe the (S)-use not simply as accomplishing reference *on the part of the (S)-user* to a subject *qua* subject of such and such a representation or locution, but as also *(quasi-)indicating* reference on the part of the pronoun's *referent* to a subject *qua* subject of this, *its** representation or locution, which implicates an 'I'-awareness, i.e., an apperception.

With this, we return to the suspicion of Münchausenism voiced in Section I. Section II argued that talk of *X*'s referring to something *Y* as itself* can only *explain*, as opposed to *being explained by*, the character of *X* as referring to something *Y* if and only if *Y* is it*[41] if understood as depicting an act of 'I'-awareness. This point would seem now to combine with the point just made against Ginet to create a circle. On the one hand, the first-person pronoun is grounded in the asterisked third-person pronoun, on the other, use of the latter, i.e., the (S)-use, grounds in the fact that that its referent *X* is referring to, or thinking of, itself, in "the first-person way." Must this not be viciously circular? *Prima facie* it need not. *X*'s thinking of, or referring to, something *Y*, i.e., it, *X*, as itself*, hence in "the first-person way," must be *perspicuously expressed by* ***X*** by means of the first-person pronoun. Perhaps, however, this 'external' act of wielding the pronoun is itself grounded in *X*'s 'mental' act of referring to, or thinking of, *X* as itself*, an 'internal', hence distinguishable reality always present when the pronoun is correctly wielded. In short, the circle is not vicious if one admits into representation itself, first, independent mental acts of thinking of something as something generally, then independent mental acts of thinking of something as oneself* specifically. In particular, one must admit an

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[41] In the case of locution, as a result of *X*'s intending thus to refer, in the case of representation, because content is such as to require *X* thus to refer when *X* self-ascribes.

awareness of, or presence to, oneself as oneself*[42] which is primitive not just in the sense that it is irreducible, hence not to be explained in terms of anything else, *but in the sense that it is independent of any vehicle of its expression*. In other words, one must admit not only what is in effect a first-personal element in content but also allow that this element floats free of the first-person pronoun, so much so that it is possible *without* the latter. At this point, the apperception to which one is committed shows itself to be pure and original. Indeed, such independence and priority is its purity and originality.

So while one can avoid vicious circularity, one must pay a high price for it: one must postulate an 'I'-awareness, a referring to, better, a thinking of, oneself as oneself*, which, while it can only be spelt out as one's thinking of oneself in "the first-person way" or "in the way that we think of ourselves when we use the word "I"," is itself radically non-, hence possibly even pre-linguistic. Castañeda appears to do just this. As his student Kapitan puts it, "to refer with a first-person token is to be aware of oneself *internally*, through an irreducible *self* mode, and this differs from any variety of *external* awareness of oneself through non-first-person forms of encounter." When "Castañeda spoke of the self-concept,"[43] he meant something "unique, primitive, and inexplicable." (Kapitan 1999, p. 8) And as Castañeda himself says,

> (s)elf-consciousness is *I*-consciousness. Not because we identify *I*-consciousness with the use of the pronoun 'I'; but because the uses of 'I'-sentences reveal the speaker's thinking *I*-contents …. (Castañeda 1999c, p. 257)[44]

As with Frege, so, too, with Castañeda, an original givenness-to-oneself-of-oneself-as-oneself* *enables* the first-person pronoun *qua* first-person pronoun and only for

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[42] Famously, Frege claims that "everyone is given to himself in a particular and original way, a way in which he is given to no one else." (Frege 1918/1976, p. 39; my translation)

[43] Unfortunately, Kapitan does not indicate where Castañeda speaks thus.

[44] Castañeda goes on to add here, "and, consequently, his having a brain *I*-representation."

this reason does use of the latter *express* it.[45] At the same time, this original givenness floats so free of any vehicle for its expression that it occurs independently of and, it would seem, prior to any means of its expression.

Castañeda does not, of course, make this move precisely in Frege's manner. In particular, he does not regard the "irreducible *self* mode" or "self-concept" (Kapitan 1999, p. 8) as either constituting or imparting to the first-person pronoun a sense (*Sinn*) in virtue of which the latter refers.[46] For Castañeda, this primitive 'I'-awareness is awareness of what he calls an 'I'-guise[47] and in general a guise is neither "a semantical" nor a "psychological intermediary ... ." (Castañeda 1983, p. 314) Rather, it is itself the immediate, non-derivative referent of the use of a singular term or again, of the mental act of thinking of something as something which grounds use of the term. Meanwhile, the ordinary, everyday object ordinarily taken by, e.g., Frege to be the referent is a Kantian synthesis or system of guises, hence only derivatively a referent.[48]

What this amounts to is grossly unclear.[49] Fortunately, what it amounts to is not relevant, for as Castañeda himself says, the "*individual guises*" which so-called Guise Theory "posits as referents … are objectively somewhat analogous to Fregean

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[45] As indicated above, positing such an original self-givenness does not, in and of itself, entail commitment to the idea that a subject can be aware of (what is objectively) itself as itself*, can have an *I*-consciousness, etc., independently of the first-person pronoun specifically and of language generally. That there should be an underlying distinguishable 'internal' psychological reality both expressed by and enabling the external act of wielding the first-person pronoun (and thereby indirectly of wielding the asterisked third-person pronoun) does not *eo ipso* rule out the idea that a capacity for the latter just as much enables the former as the former enables the latter. It is not easy to determine where Frege stands on the issue of whether a givenness to oneself as oneself* is primitive not only in the sense that it is ineliminable, not to be explained away, etc., but also in the sense that it is ontologically prior to, hence not equiprimordial with, the capacity to wield the first-person pronoun. Castañeda, however, must endorse primitiveness in both senses since otherwise the circle in his position would be vicious. Yet at one point, Castañeda claims that Armand Duval must use "… the first-person way to really think about *himself*," that is, "to think of himself as *himself*". (Castañeda 1987a, p. 149) Perhaps this can be interpreted as an endorsement of the aforementioned equiprimordiality. Castañeda can, however, surely not afford such endorsement.

[46] However one might understand the notion of sense, which is, of course, notoriously unclear.

[47] See Castañeda 1987b, esp. § 7, p. 186f.

[48] See Castañeda 1983, p. 315.

[49] See Appendix II to Chapter Four for more on how guises differ from Fregean senses, hence what they are, and in particular why Castañeda regards guises as preferable to Fregean senses.

individual senses." (Castañeda 1983, p. 314) So the Castañedian 'I'-guises expressed by uses of the first-person pronoun are structurally similar both to Frege's first-personal senses[50] and to all those self-concepts and/or self-notions of which others, e.g., the later Perry, Peacocke and Musholt, speak. In particular, whatever not just 'I'-guises but first-personal senses, self-concepts and self-notions are, they all appeal to an idea most explicit in Castañeda, namely, that there is something going on in *X*'s mind which *explains why X* is correctly described as referring to, or thinking of, something *Y* if and only if *Y* is *Z*, in particular, if and only if *Y* is itself*. Note that this postulation of "some sort of cognitive *activity*" (Richard 2013, p. 715) amounts precisely to that incorporation of an indexical, specifically, a first-personal element into content of which Perry speaks on p. 35/p. 12 of Perry 1979. Only Castañeda sees clearly, however, and embraces fully what this involves.

In fact, just how structurally similar Castañeda's position is to Frege's is shown by an unpalatable consequence he shares with Frege:[51] when Jones thinks or believes, "I am rich" and Alfred attributes this belief to Jones by asserting, "Jones believes that he* is rich,"[52] the content thought by Jones, namely, the content expressed by his possible assertion of the first-person sentence "I am rich," is *not* identical with the content individuated by the third-person clause 'that he* is rich'. Put more generally, as Castañeda only eventually came to recognise, he cannot regard "a quasi-indexical clause" such as 'that he* is rich' as individuating "the identical proposition that a corresponding indexical [and in particular, first-personal] sentence paired with a

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50 As Perry in his own way appreciates—see Perry 1983. Perry recognises that the account Castañeda gives of the act of first-personal reference and of the 'internal' giveness-of-oneself-to-oneself-as-oneself* both expressed and presupposed by it is similar to Frege's even though what underpins the account—the notion of a distinctive *I*-guise as the referent of the act and the awareness—differs from Frege's notion of distinctively first-personal sense. In Castañeda 1983 Castañeda protests that Perry misconstrues him but, however much Perry may err in the details, the fundamental thrust of his interpretation is correct: guises, whatever they are precisely, map one-to-one onto the subsentential expressions which express them, thereby articulating their contribution to content. And guises are not themselves referents *in the ordinary, everyday sense* but rather constitute how, i.e., that through which, a representing or locuting subject refers in the ordinary, everyday sense to referents in the ordinary, everyday sense.

51 A consequence Castañeda initially thought he could avoid—see Kapitan 1999, note 10, p. 15.

52 This is basically an example from Castañeda himself—see Castañeda 1989, p. 151.

certain context of utterance expresses …," here the pair <"I am rich", <Jones, *t*, *l*>>, in which Jones, *t* and *l* are the subject, time and location of utterance respectively. (Castañeda 1989, p. 157) Since Alfred has no choice but to use the third-personal clause 'that he* is rich' in order to characterise Jones' belief and its content, it follows that only Jones can grasp the proposition expressed by his assertion of the first-personal sentence "I am rich." Castañeda no less than Frege turns what one might call the *ontological* privacy of what Jones believes into an *epistemic* one.[53] How precisely does this occur?

Explanatory deployment of "the general formula" for all reference, namely, "*X refers to Y as Z*" (Castañeda 1999c, p. 258) forces Castañeda to construe Jones as referring to or thinking of Jones as himself*, which, while a matter of Jones's thinking of Jones in "the first-person way," floats free of any actual capacity to wield the first-person pronoun. For Jones's thinking of Jones in "the first-person way" is a primitive, non-, even pre-linguistic first-personal element in the content of Jones's belief—a *pure and original* apperception. Castañeda regards this as awareness of an 'I'-guise, but it could equally be an original givenness to oneself as oneself*, a self-concept or whatever else one might postulate as entailing that the subject whose content it is referring to, or thinking of what is objectively itself as, itself*, in "the first-person way," etc. Yet however precisely one makes this move, the end result is always the same: first-personality, hence self-consciousness, is pushed into content. The content of Jones's belief is now conceived as containing an element positively entailing that Jones is aware of his belief and its content as his*. In other words, it now positively

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[53] In that later essay in which Castañeda speaks, in quasi-Fregean fashion, of the presentational representation "with which one harpoons ONEself" when "one thinks of ONEself as *one*SELF," Castañeda goes on to claim that such awareness of, or reference to, oneself as oneself "… is a unique, ephemeral, and irreducible representation. The uniqueness and privacy of *I*-reference is established by the fact that for any third-person individual *i* which is the same as a person X, X may fail to know that that he himSELF is (the same as) *i*. The first-person pronoun has a general meaning that determines a framework within which, on each occasion of its use, a speaker confronts a unique and personal representation of the reality he or she is." (Castañeda 1999c, p. 264)

entails that for Jones to grasp it in the sense of having or undergoing it as a content is for Jones to grasp it in the sense of recognising that it refers to, or is about himself*.[54]

Consequently, when Alfred grasps what Jones believes in the sense of cognising what he believes, the element in content which makes Jones's belief and content the self-conscious and first-personal affair it is cannot literally occur in what Alfred grasps since did it thus occur, it would not be Jones' content but Alfred's. Alfred would believe that *he** is rich! At best, this element in what Jones believes can only be mentioned.[55] When Alfred asserts that Jones believes that he* is rich, Alfred is in reality asserting that Jones believes of Jones that he is rich by means of what one might dub '*ego*(Jones)', which term literally *names* that element in the content of Jones' belief which renders it a thinking by Jones of himself as himself*, hence in "the first-person way," etc.[56] Note that the term '*ego*(Jones)' is ontologically noncommittal: it does not matter whether one regards what it refers to as Jones's awareness of a Castañedian 'I'-guise; as his original Fregean way in which he is given to himself (as himself*), or as what the later Perry, Peacocke, Musholt and others call his self-notion or self-concept.

Now the problem with such epistemically private contents—what Perry calls "propositions of limited accessibily" (Perry 1979, p. 37/p. 15)—is not that Alfred is

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[54] Many who embrace such first-personal elements in content, however they conceive them precisely, would want to say that Jones is aware of his belief and its content as his* only in a capacity sense. In other words, they would want to say that for Jones to grasp a first-personal content in the sense of having or undergoing it as a content is for Jones to grasp it merely in the sense of *being able* to recognise that it refers to, or is about himself*. In Chapter Five, it will be argued that this response is not possible if one takes seriously and literally the character of one's preferred first-personal element in content as first-personal. There it will in effect be argued that incorporation of the indexical element positively entails that "(w)hat Castañeda understands by the Fichtean thesis," namely, "that all consciousness [i.e., all conscious representation] is [*actual*] self-consciousness," such that "in being aware of the non-I I am also, in some way, [*actually*] aware of myself." (Hart 1999, p. 25)

[55] This would seem to explain why Kapitan claims, speaking for Castañeda, that "(q)uasi-indicators are [merely] devices for depicting [i.e., mentioning] indexical reference." (Kapitan 1998, p. 204)

[56] Perry interprets Castañeda along these lines in Perry 1983. Interestingly, in this essay there is no hint of any kind of first-personal element in content, whether a Fregean first-personal sense or a Castañedian 'I'-guise. It seems that in 1983 Perry is still adhering to that doctrine of belief by acceptance which he had proposed in Perry 1980a. Only later does he come to endorse such elements, in particular, so-called self-notions—see Perry 1990.

less able to exert rational control over Jones' belief than Jones himself. This, after all, is not true at all. The problem is rather that since the whole point and functional role of content is to permit such control, whether by Jones, Alfred or anyone else, there is no point to epistemic privacy; it does no work. Precisely for this reason, the suggestion that Alfred should have merely *de re* access to what Jones believes flies in the face of common sense. Pre-philosopically there is a clear sense in which Alfred grasps *exactly* what Jones believes, such that all the elements in the content of Jones' belief occur in what Alfred grasps just as they occur in what Jones grasps. While Alfred cannot believe what Jones believes when this latter believes that he* is rich, he knows exactly what Jones believes, namely, that he*, Jones, is rich! One can, however, only allow both that Alfred cannot believe what Jones believes and that Alfred can know exactly what Jones believes if one does *not* build first-personalness, hence self-consciousness, into whatever element in content is marked by the pronoun 'he*' or, for that matter, by the pronoun 'I'. Otherwise one turns ontological privacy into an entirely redundant epistemic one. Whatever element of content, if any, is marked by the pronoun 'he*' cannot be first-personal. Self-consciousness, whatever it is precisely, must not be pushed into content.

Of course, the claim that one must not push self-consciousness into content raises the question as to what self-consciousness is. This question will be addressed in Chapter Five. In the meantime let us note the double-barrelled insight needed in order to answer it. Firstly, one must acknowledge that the asterisked third-person pronoun marks a fundamental and primitive form of representation, locution and content. Secondly, one must acknowledge that this pronoun is not to be understood as *eo ipso* entailing that its referent is thinking of itself 'as itself' in any way which amounts to its thinking of itself in "the first-person," hence self-conscious "way." In other words, one must embrace C. 2 and C.3, the second and third corollaries of the thesis of content inherently *de se*.

Conclusion—The Crucial Lesson

On Castañeda's conception of it, the content of Perry's assertion or belief (at 7 pm on 07.07.79 in the supermarket in *W*) that he* is making a mess (then* and there* in *w**) fulfils both the functions which Perry, across Perry 1977, Perry 1979 and Perry 1980a, seeks to separate, namely, determination of truth conditions and determination of causal role. Yet Castañeda's commitment to the identification of these two functions goes hand in hand with another commitment: construal of the asterisked third-person pronoun as entailing that its referent is performing an act of referring to, or thinking of what is objectively itself as, itself*, hence referring to, or thinking of, itself in "the first-person way". While this renders ontological privacy epistemic, this is but a surface manifestation of the real problem, which lies in the assumption that if the asterisked third-person pronoun articulates an element in content, this latter must be first-personal, i.e., such as to entail, indeed constitute, a consciousness of oneself as oneself*, which in turn must ultimately and implausibly be understood as a radically non-, hence presumably pre-linguistic 'I'-thinking—as a *pure and original* apperception. To make this assumption is to attempt to place the character of a representation or locution as self-conscious, that is, as something its subject either actually does or at least actually can self-ascribe, in content itself and, as Chapter Five will show, such incorporation of a first-personally indexical element into content renders self-consciousness incoherently groundless. So this assumption must be rejected and indeed it is the whole thrust of the thesis of content inherently *de se* to do just this. But what, then, *is* it is to be aware of representations, locutions, contents and indeed much else *as one*'s own*? Chapter Five will also attempt an answer.

CHAPTER FIVE

Content *de se* and Self-Consciousness

In the preceding a question has hovered unanswered in the background: how does the thesis of content inherently *de se* impact upon the concept of self-consciousness? In other words, what might self-consciousness be, given its truth? In fact, this question, or so it will now be argued, can only be effectively answered given its truth. One might attempt to account for self-consciousness by construing it as something which, so to speak, comes 'from the outside', as a higher-order act taking representation and its content as its object, in which case content would not be sufficient for it. Unfortunately, if one proceeds in this way *while denying the thesis*, one encounters, as we shall see in Section II, the traditional problem, indeed according to José Luis Bermúdez the paradox,[1] of self-consciousness, which manifests itself as a choice between vicious regress and circularity. In response to this problem, one might then appeal, *even as one continues to deny the thesis*, to a distinctive kind of content in one's account of what self-consciousness is. To do this is to make the familiar move of postulating distinctively *first-personal* elements in content, whether 'I'-guises (Castañeda); self- or first-person concepts (Musholt and Peacocke); self-notions (the later Perry); or original modes of givenness to oneself as oneself* (Frege). However such elements are conceived more specifically, their defining first-personalness consists in their rendering what possesses them as elements contents self-consciously possessed. In this sense, they, hence the contents to which they belong, are *sufficient* for self-consciousness. Yet as we shall see in Section I, just this sufficiency engenders a *groundlessness* which can be seen as the obverse of the traditional problem. Thereby the notion of an 'I'-thought, understood as a content containing such an element, however this element is conceived more specifically, shows itself to be incoherent.

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[1] See Bermúdez 1998, esp. Ch. 1.

Implicit here, driving the very idea of a distinctively first-personal element, hence the notion of an 'I'-thought, is the assumption that insofar as either the first- or the asterisked third-person pronoun marks an element in content at all, this latter must be first-personal, such that the pronoun's referent is *actually* self-conscious, that is, *actually* thinking, or at least *actually able* to think, of itself 'as itself,' hence in "the first-person way" (Castañeda 1987a, p. 150) or "in the way that we think of ourselves when we use the word "I."" (Perry 1980a, p.538/p. 51) Kristina Musholt, for example, explicitly states that an 'I'-thought is a content such that in having it as a content a subject "cannot but be aware that the thought," as she puts it, "refers to herself" (Musholt 2015, p. 63), i.e., to *herself**. This conception of self-consciousness as coming so to speak from inside content, as a result of the latter's containing something sufficient for it, is seen as the only possible alternative to a conception of it as coming from outside since the latter conception, it is held, must generate the traditional paradox.

Crucially, this assumption implicates that incorporation of an *indexical* element into content—a *first-personally* indexical element, of course—of which Perry speaks on p. 35/p. 12 of Perry 1979. So the argument to be presented in Section I is not just a critique of a conception of self-consciousness which appeals to *first-personal* elements in content and the associated notion of an 'I'-thought; in principle, it can be extended into a critique of the whole idea of *indexical* elements in content—of 'here'- and 'now'-thoughts as well as 'I'-thoughts. The assumption that if either the first-person or the asterisked third-person pronoun marks an element in content, this latter must be first-personal arises, however, because one has denied (or at least not countenanced) the thesis of content inherently *de se*. This prevents one from allowing that content *de se* always involves an element, one marked equally by both pronouns—component T.3 of the thesis—, which is entirely personal *without* being first-personal, hence indexical—component T.4. If, however, one denies the denial, one can readily give, as will be seen in Section III, a plausible account of explicitly

self-conscious thinking *qua* 'inner speech', which is certainly self-consciousness in one good sense of the term. Section III will also argue that it is all the self-consciousness there is.

Section I: On the Very Idea of First-Personal Elements in Content

Musholt writes that "self-consciousness can be understood as the ability to think "I"-thoughts" (Musholt 2015, p. xi), that is, to have or undergo representations with 'I'-thoughts as their contents. Such contents are ones whose "canonical linguistic expression … involves the first-person pronoun" (Musholt 2015, p. 7), so an 'I'-thought is a content only perspicuously expressed, such that the contribution of content to causal role is captured, by a use *oratio obliqua* on the part of the representing subject itself of a sentence containing the first-person pronoun. It is therefore only perspicuously picked out by this same subject in a 'that'-clause containing this sentence. To put the point in terms borrowed from Perry, it is a content 'identified' by a sentence containing the first-person pronoun.[2] If a representation has an 'I'-thought as its content, then it is itself an 'I'-thinking, hence actual self-consciousness *qua* realisation of "the ability to think "I"-thoughts."

Now knowing what kind of sentence perspicuously expresses, 'identifies' or individuates 'I'-thoughts presupposes knowing what the latter are, so more must be said about them. As already seen, Musholt characterises an 'I'-thought as a content such that in having it as a content a subject "cannot but be aware that the thought refers to herself" (Musholt 2015, p. 63), i.e., to *herself**.[3] When a subject S seriously and literally asserts the sentence "I believe I am F," what makes the content S claims to believe an 'I'-thought is the presence in it of an element which ensures that S "cannot but be aware that the thought refers to" itself*, an element which is therefore in this sense *first-personal*. The presence of this element in a content explains why S,

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2 See Perry 1979, p. 30/pp. 6-7, and Chapter Three, Section I.

3 Recall both that the asterisk merely disambiguates and that disambiguation is needed here because it is possible to understand this use of the reflexive third-person pronoun as *not* an (S)-use.

in believing the content, always already knows, or at least claims to know, what this content is. In particular, S always already knows that this content, as Musholt puts it, involves reference to itself*, the subject thinking the thought. The presence of this element thus accounts for the character of S's belief as self-consciously had and thereby for the character of S itself as a self-conscious subject.

Is, however, the assumption of a distinctively first-personal element in content coherent? Let us examine what is involved when S locutes, typically assertorically, the sentence, "I am F." Insofar as S is genuinely locuting this sentence, it knows, at least typically and ideally, what it* is doing, hence knows that what it* is referring to is it* itself. This knowledge of what it* is doing and, in particular, of what it* is referring to is manifest in S's capacity to augment its locution with an appositionally deployed definite description articulating who it* *at least* is. S can say, "I, the speaker producing *here and now this token* of the sentence "I am F" in order to refer to itself* by means of the token of the word 'I' contained therein and to apply thereby the linguistic predicate '… is F' to itself* so as to say here and now that it* is F then* and there*, am F."[4] This knowledge of what or rather who it* at least is, manifest as it is in the capacity appositionally to deploy this (in part indexical!) definite description, undergirds S's knowledge that what it* is referring to is it*; it knows the latter in virtue of knowing the former.

Note that the appositionally deployed description 'the speaker producing *here and now this token* of the sentence "I am F" in order to refer to itself* by means of the token of the word 'I' contained therein …' articulates the form of an *objective*

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[4] Note that this is *not* to deny that in using the first-person pronoun "a speaker does not need to know anything about herself *as a person*," for which reason "she does not need to know any self-identifying criteria." (Musholt 2013, p. 7, italics added) What is at issue here is what the speaker must *at least* know about itself*, not as an empirical person, but simply as a speaker genuinely, hence in every sense of the word locuting the first-person pronoun. And this knowledge, while certainly knowledge of an *identity*, is not arrived at through *identification*, which would imply that it were something *arrived at* on the basis of prior knowledge—prior knowledge gained through, say, some kind of self-observation. The knowledge at issue here "not only does not rest on outer [or inner] observation, it does not rest on observation at all." (Tugendhat 1979, p. 87; my translation) It is what Tugendhat would call an unmediated knowledge (*unmittelbares Wissen*).

understanding on S's part of what or rather who it* is. In other words, it articulates the form of a minimal understanding in principle possible for others, at least insofar as they share S's time and location and are perceptually so related to S that they can also refer to both S's token of 'I' and S's tokening thereof in the same temporally and spatially demonstrative terms. In other words, they, too, can know S as satisfying the complex definite description 'the speaker producing *here and now this* token of the sentence "I am F" in order to refer to itself* by means of the token of the word 'I' contained therein …'.[5] As one may put it, the definite description articulates who S is also for another subject S✦ who shares S's here and now—what Heidegger would call S's *Da*.[6]

There is nothing problematic in this. In particular, there is no need for, nor does it make sense to demand, an account of how S *arrives at* knowledge that it* is the speaker producing *here and now this* token of the sentence …, etc., as if S had somehow to *infer* it on the basis of observation. Possession of this minimal knowledge just comes with the territory of typical, indeed paradigmatic use and understanding of the first-person pronoun. If neither S itself nor S✦ possessed as a minimum the type of knowledge manifest in the definite description—in one case, of course, self-knowledge, in the other, knowledge of another—, then S's locution, hence whatever illocution S is performing in and through its locution, would not be rationally regulatable by either.[7] In this sense, the description captures on the one hand, as interpreted by S, S's *minimal* awareness of who it* is, and, on the other, as interpreted by S✦, S✦'s *minimal* awareness of who S is. This suggests in turn that the 'I'-awareness or self-consciousness undoubtedly evinced by S's act—S's awareness, indeed knowledge, that what it* is referring to is it*—*relies on* there being these tokens. In other words, it suggests that a token of the pronoun 'I', as embedded in a

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5 They can know this, of course, only from their own so-called perspective. That is, they possess knowledge of the same *type*—the type manifest in the description.

6 See Heidegger 1979, § 28, p. 132.

7 In the case of S itself, who knows that *it** satisfies the description, this would be rational *self*-regulation.

whole sentence token, constitutes the ground upon which S stands when knowing that the object of its* locution is it*, the subject thereof. Without this token, without this concrete, perceptible and publicly available utterance in space and time, S cannot know what it* is doing, hence cannot know this identity of subject and object. If this is right, then 'I'-awareness cannot be dissociated from the means of its expression.

Two difficulties immediately present themselves. Firstly, it is clearly possible simply to think first-personally, as when it dawns on Perry, in what is presumably an episode of mental judging, that he* is (the one) making a mess. This is a case of actual 'I'-awareness yet no actual token and tokening of the word 'I' is involved. Secondly, the content which dawns on Perry, a content he could assert by means of the sentence "I am (the one) making a mess," can also be believed by him, that is, be a content of representation. How could this be possible if the 'I'-awareness in some sense involved in this dawning were bound to an actual token and tokening of the word 'I'? Precisely at this point, one sees more clearly what Castañeda is doing when he adverts to an 'I'-awareness floating free of the linguistic means of its expression: he is assuming that when S locutes the sentence "I am F," what S must be able to attach appositionally to its sentence is *even more* minimal. It is captured by the *reduced* description 'the subject here and now referring to itself*' or, in order to avoid even the slightest hint of linguistic means, 'the subject here and now thinking of itself as itself*,[8] this for the sake of ascribing to itself* the property of being F then* and there*'. In thus thinking of itself as itself*, S is, of course, locuting but this is now held to be a contingent feature. Apperception becomes pure and original precisely in the sense that it floats free of, even as it underpins, the pronominal means of its expression. And Castañeda makes this move, hence tacitly assumes that the reduced description expresses a genuinely possible awareness of something, because it enables him to "incorporate the [first-personally] indexical element into" (Perry 1979, p. 35/p. 12) content whilst

[8] "*The essence and substance of an I is just to conceive itself as a subject* qua *subject*." (Castañeda 1987b, p.187)

ensuring that such content is both mentally judgeable and representable. Thereby he avoids the two aforementioned difficulties. To this end, language in general and the first-person pronoun in particular are rendered means merely of expressing, not also of realising, an 'I'-awareness, hence self-consciousness.

That, however, apperception is *this* pure and original is itself problematic. Recall Castañeda's own general formula for reference, namely, "*X refers to Y as Z*" and, in particular, how it houses, in virtue of "the *as* moment" (Castañeda 1999c, p. 258) contained in it, two functions under one roof. On the one hand, it gestures towards what *X*'s reference is, on the other, towards what one knows when one knows what *X*'s referent is. Often enough, one and the same biconditional sentence, namely, "*X* refers to something *Y* if and only if *Y* is *Z*", can express both functions. When, however, *X* refers to something *Y as itself**, one needs a different sentence for the latter function, one determined, however, by the fact that *X* is referring to something *Y* if and only if *Y* is it*, the sentence, namely, "*X* refers to *Y* if and only if *Y* is *X*." For this latter expresses how one knows what *X* is referring to simply on the basis of knowing that *X* is referring to something *Y* if and only if *Y* is it*.

This points to the significance of the *unreduced* definite description available to S when it locutes a sentence of the form "I am F": it constitutes that minimal value of the schematic letter '*X*' which yields the biconditional expressing what any subject, whether S or another, provided only that it shares S's *Da*, must *at least* know of S if it knows what, or rather who, S is referring to. It is thus the basis upon which S itself can know that what it* is referring to is it*. Yet this description can only play this epistemic role because it has *not* been stripped back so as to characterise a *pure* apperception, that is, because reference to S's token and tokening of the sentence and the first-person pronoun contained therein has not been eliminated from it. Precisely this reference to something spatiotemporally and perceptibly concrete[9] ties S's

[9] Which is indeed a spatiotemporally and perceptibly concrete *product* resulting from a spatiotemporally and perceptibly concrete *producing* of it!

'transcendental' identity as referring here and now to, or thinking here and now of something as, itself* to its 'empirical' identity as S, who is such and such a subject in the world. There is simply no knowledge or even awareness of oneself *merely* as a subject here and now referring to, or thinking of something as, itself*. As one might put the point, this reduced description is too reduced, in that it does not articulate a possible awareness. The minimal 'I'-awareness possible is of oneself as the subject producing *here and now this token* of (such and such a sentence containing) 'I', therein and thereby referring to (what is objectively itself as) itself*. As its very label suggests, which, after all, contains *oratio recta* the pronoun 'I', an 'I'-awareness requires this anchoring tie.

This intimates the very first step one must take in order to deal with the difficulties presented both by the possibility of one's merely thinking first-personally, as illustrated by Perry's dawning; and by the possibility that the content of a locution accomplished by means of a first-personal sentence is also a content of representation. One must *not* seek to "incorporate the [first-personally] indexical element into" content, that is, construe whatever element in content is marked by either the first-person pronoun or, for that matter, the asterisked third-person pronoun as itself first-personal. For such incorporation forces a *pure and original* apperception upon one, that is, an 'I'-awareness so ungrounded in a use of the first-person pronoun that it can indifferently occur both in the content of a mere first-personal thinking and in the content of a representation. Yet there is no awareness by a subject *X* of something *Y* *merely* as here and now referring to, or thinking of *Y* as, itself*, *X*. Such putative awareness lacks, as it were, the bridge provided by a token, hence a tokening, of the first-person pronoun which would enable *X* to cross from 'it*' to, first, the unreduced definite description—the most minimal value of '*X*'—, then to any value of '*X*' beyond this.[10] Only the reference contained within it to *X*'s token and tokening of a

[10] This is most emphatically *not* to say that it provides a bridge to this minimum value itself. Rather, the latter *is* the bridge and precisely its unreduced character permits it to serve as such, i.e., to permit passage across it to 'empirical' values of '*X*'.

first-personal sentence, in particular, to the token and tokening of the first-person pronoun contained therein, permits *X* to be aware that it* is referring to, or thinking of, anything as itself*—this because such awareness grounds in *X*'s awareness that it* is producing here and now this token of (such and such a sentence containing) 'I', therein, indeed thereby referring to itself*.

At this point, one might object that "the [first-personally] indexical element" simply must be built into content because otherwise one could not account for self-ascription. Unless the content of S's locution or, for that matter, S's belief that it* is F were such that whatever element in it is marked by either the first-person pronoun as wielded by S or the asterisked third-person pronoun as wielded by S✦ were itself first-personal, S could never know its content as *its**, i.e., as locuted or believed by *it**. In other words, S could only ascribe to itself* the content that it* is F, as something locuted or believed by it*, if this content entailed, in virtue of containing the element marked by either the first-person pronoun as wielded by S itself, or the asterisked third-person pronoun as wielded by S✦, that S is, as Musholt puts it, "aware that the [content] refers to herself[*]." (Musholt 2015, p. 63) So this element must be first-personal.

This way of motivating first-personal elements in content rests, however, on a mistakenly objectifying conception of the self-ascription of locution and representation generally. Such self-ascription does not consist in a subject S's picking out from some arbitrary field of locutions or representations some one of them as such and such a representation and one which, as it happens, is possessed, undergone or performed by it*. This would require S first to identify this field of locutions or representations as its*, that is, first to recognise that it* is the subject of a field of locutions or representations it is already independently aware of, hence already aware of as if the field were ownerless. Just this is not possible. Self-ascription can only ever be understood as an answer to such questions as "What am *I* saying?," "What do *I* believe?", "What do *I* desire?", "What am *I* perceiving?," etc. Insofar as it is

appropriate to speak of picking items out from a field of locutions or representations at all, the self-ascriber is only ever picking out from a field understood from the outset to be its* own. Trivially, the referring expression occupying subject position in a self-ascriptive sentence is the first-person pronoun but, less trivially, it occupies this position from the outset, such that the self-ascriber neither must nor indeed can 'work out' that what it is referring to in *subject* position is itself*. And the presence of the first-person pronoun in subject position determines that, in the case of a personal locution or representation, i.e., one whose content is, say, that it* is F, content must be characterised by a 'that'-clause itself containing the *first*-person pronoun, in other words, by the clause 'that I am F'. There is, after all, no other expression which a *self*-ascriber can use in place of the asterisked third-person pronoun used by an *other*-ascriber. For as a *self*-ascriber, it has always already referred to itself* in subject position, hence referred to itself first-personally.

It is therefore entirely possible to say that when S believes that it* is F, what it believes is that it*, S, is F, no more, no less, *without* any assumption that whatever element is marked either by the asterisked third-person or by the first-person pronoun as wielded by S is itself first-personal. We have already seen that characterisation of S's content as that it* is F leaves nothing out as far as the generation and explanation of behaviour is concerned. We now see that the possibility of self-ascription does not require one to assume that whatever element is marked by the asterisked third-person is first-personal. In addition and in this context more importantly, we now have a response to the *second* of the two difficulties mentioned above. The content which dawns on Perry is that he* is (the one) making a mess (then* and there*), no more, no less. This is an entirely representable *content*, even if its *dawning on Perry*, which is certainly in some sense an 'I'-awareness, should, in a sense to be clarified in Section III, be bound to a token, hence a tokening of the first-person pronoun.

Of course, G.E.M Anscombe has argued that the asterisked third-person pronoun *presupposes* the first-person pronoun, whose use expresses self-consciousness.[11] This argument, if sound, would indeed require one to build first-personalness, hence self-consciousness, into content—either that or to deny any element in content at all, as if the pronouns were not referring expressions in the manner of names and definite descriptions. But as Castañeda has indirectly shown and as will be explicitly argued in Section IV below, Anscombe's argument is faulty. And this is a very good thing since to "incorporate a [first-personally] indexical element into" content is to render apperception so pure and original that it no longer counts as awareness, hence knowledge of anything at all. With this, it renders self-consciousness groundless.

It is therefore fundamentally this groundlessness which speaks against the idea of *first-personal* elements in content. Clearly, in so doing, it speaks *for* component T.4 of the thesis of content inherently *de se*, which insists, sloganistically put, that the *de se* is not *eo ipso de me*. Towards its end, Section II will explore what it means to embrace the slogan while Section III will attempt to account for the *de me*, i.e., 'I'-awareness, self-consciousness, etc., given its truth. Thereby Section III will also yield a response to the *first* of the two difficulties mentioned above. That is, it will show how its dawning on Perry that he* is (the one) making a mess (then* and there*), an 'I'-awareness which involves no actual token and tokening of the first-person pronoun, is possible. So let us end this first section simply by summarising the results reached thus far: what Musholt and others call an 'I'-thought is a content containing an element which in effect replicates at the level of content the behaviour of the first-person pronoun required for the locution of said content and for its first-personal individuation by means of a 'that'-clause.[12] With this, the self-consciousness

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[11] See Anscombe 1975, pp. 47-48.

[12] At one point, Musholt writes, "The ability to think "I"-thoughts requires the ability to ascribe mental and bodily predicates to oneself by means of applying the *first-person* concept." She then adds, "(C)oncept possession is required to think genuine "I"-thoughts, for it is by applying the *self*-concept in self-ascribing one's mental and bodily states that one makes explicit the essential self-relatedness that is implicit in the mode of perception and bodily or agentive awareness." (Musholt

displayed by S's use of the first-person pronoun both in locuting such a content—"I am F"—and in picking it out—'that I am F'—is hardwired into content itself.[13] An 'I'-thought thus replicates *in* content *characterisation of* content. The familiar turns of phrase now follow: in having an 'I'-thought as content, S "cannot but be aware that the thought refers to herself[*]" (Musholt 2015, p. 63); S is thinking of itself in "the first-person way"; and S is thinking of itself "in the way that we think of ourselves when we use the word "I."" And all this is what it is for S to be actually conscious of itself 'as itself', i.e., to be actually self-conscious.[14]

Already in two surface respects one senses difficulty, this even when the claim that S "cannot but be aware that the thought refers to herself[*]" is interpreted as S's merely being *able—actually* able—to recognise that it* has a representation whose content refers, as Musholt puts it, to itself*. Firstly, if being an 'I'-thought consists in containing an aspect or element in virtue of which its own characterisation is built into the very identity of the thought, then one must accept that other-characterisation by means of a third-personally anaphoric sentence cannot capture everything about what is characterised. When S asserts, "I say and believe that I am F," and S✦ asserts, "S says and believes that it* is F," both report an *ontologically* private content. To construe, however, this content as an 'I'-thought is to turn ontological privacy into an epistemic one. Or, to put things in a manner derived from Perry's interpretation of Castañeda,[15] the sentence "S says and believes that it* is F" has become equivalent to "S says and believes of S that it is F via *ego*(S)," where '*ego*(S)' is singular term referring to that distinctive first-personal element in virtue of which the content of

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2015, p. 121, italics added) Here the terms 'first-person concept' and 'self-concept' are *de facto* identified—as is, incidentally, confirmed by the index entry for the former on p. 206.

13 As one may put it, the awareness expressed by S's self-ascribing is always already inherent to what S self-ascribes.

14 That is, to have actualised or realised self-consciousness *qua ability* to think 'I'-thoughts.

15 See Perry 1983, esp. p. 89f.

both S's locution and its belief is an 'I'-thought and which renders them self-conscious.[16]

Secondly, because not all uses of the asterisked third-person pronoun can plausibly be understood to report a content such that the referent of the pronoun is "aware that the [content] refers to herself[*]", one must bifurcate the class of representations *de se*, that is, of all forms of representation whose content requires for its individuation by another use of the asterisked third-person pronoun, into those which do and those do not possess an element in content expressed by the pronoun. In this way, one can ensure that not all representation *de se* is an 'I'-thinking. When the small pug sees a large pit bull charging aggressively towards it*, there is no element in content marked by the asterisked third-person pronoun used in attributing to the pug its perceptual experience. Both Perry and, following him, Musholt make this bifurcating move.[17]

Evidently, this move constitutes the embrace of a property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception for at least some forms of representation *de se*. As such, consideration of it may be deferred until Chapter Six, in which the general conception is examined. Suffice for the moment to say that if one accepts this kind of account, then one must allow that some forms of representation *de se*, because they do not possess an element in their content requiring for its perspicuous characterisation the asterisked third-person pronoun, lack what Musholt understands by "nonaccidental self-reference" (Musholt 2015, p. 21), namely, a reference to the subject *as subject* which, because it is a feature of content, *cannot but be* a reference

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16 One could, of course, put things in a specifically Fregean way, namely, by saying that the sentence "S believes that it* is F" becomes equivalent to the sentence "S believes *ego*(S)+sense(F)," where 'F' denotes (*bedeutet*) the property of being F; 'sense(*x*)' is a function mapping *x* onto the sense which denotes *x* in direct speech; '*ego*(*x*)' a function mapping *x* onto whatever specifically first-personal sense is expressed by *x*'s wielding the first-person pronoun in direct speech at a *t* and *l*; and finally '…+…' the unity of these senses in a whole 'thought', i.e., content. At this point, of course, semantic innocence has been lost since '*ego*(S)+sense(F)', which denotes (*bedeutet*) what S believes, involves no reference to either S itself or F-ness.

17 See Perry 1986 and Musholt 2015, esp. pp. 56-61. Perry makes this move once he has recognised that his original "obvious solution," the doctrine of belief by acceptance, fails. Recanati also follows Perry—see Recanati 2007.

by this subject itself, i.e., a *non-accidental self*-reference. With this, however, it becomes enigmatic why such non-first-personal, non-self-conscious representations *de se* should possess the kind of 'non-accidental reference' they *do* possess, the fact, namely, that they require for their *perspicuous characterisation* reference to their subject as subject. Furthermore, when Musholt embraces that first-personal element in content which imparts "nonaccidental self-reference" merely to *some* forms of representation *de se*, i.e., when she introduces self-concepts,[18] she does not deal with the problem of epistemic privacy created thereby. Nor indeed does her source Perry.[19]

Yet these twin problems of bifurcation and epistemic privacy are merely surface manifestations of the real difficulty, which is the incoherence inherent in the very idea of an 'I'-thought, understood as a content containing a distinctively first-personal element, whether an 'I'-guise, a self- or first-person concept, a self-notion, or an original mode of givenness of oneself to oneself (as oneself*). By pushing a feature of the locution, individuation and ascription of content down to the level of content itself, one cannot but render 'I'-awareness, self-consciousness, etc., groundless in the sense that the subject possessed of it cannot really *know* that what it* is aware or conscious of is it* itself—this because it cannot know who in the world it* is, that is, know of anything in the world that it is it*. One must therefore not push *first*-personalness, hence self-consciousness, into content. Relatedly, one must acknowledge that the first-personally indexical sentence "I say and believe that I am F", which S deploys for purposes of perspicuous *self*-ascription, is just one mode alongside the third-personally anaphoric sentence "S says and believes that it* is F" deployed by S✦. Both perspicuously capture the very same phenomena, admittedly from what one may call different perspectives. To build a feature of one of these so-

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[18] See Musholt 2015, p. 46, and elsewhere. On p. 62 she effectively, if not quite as explicitly as on p. 121, identifies the self-concept with "the first-person concept."

[19] In Perry 1983 Perry acknowledges epistemic privacy as a problem arising for Castañeda but not as one arising for him. This essay was written, however, before he had turned to his doctrine of notions and ideas, in particular, to his doctrine of self-notions. He appears never to address the issue of whether the problem arises for self-notions.

called perspectives into content is, however, to conflate perspective with what it is a perspective on, thereby generating groundlessness and in its wake the aforementioned surface problems.

Recourse to first-personal elements in content does have, however, one signal merit: as we shall see in the next section, it makes what Musholt calls "The Problem of Self-Consciousness"[20] go away. By this problem Musholt means something very traditional, that regress, namely, for which Johann Friedrich Herbart (1776-1841), Kant's successor in Königsberg, had already argued and which has been expounded by many thinkers since then, from Paul Natorp to Dieter Henrich.[21] This regress is said to arise for a conception of self-consciousness which gets this much right: it does not seek to "incorporate the indexical element into" content. Admittedly, it construes self-consciousness as 'coming from the outside' in a higher-order act in which the subject cognises an *impersonal* content as represented[22] or locuted by it*. Thereby it rules out precisely the kind of element in content which would permit such a higher-order act. Just this intimates its paradoxical, indeed, more accurately described, its absurd character. Importantly, its conception of content as fundamentally impersonal entails, although as we shall see, it is not entailed by, that conception of content which leads so many to assume that if either the first-person pronoun or the asterisked third-person pronoun mark an element in content, this latter must be first-personal, hence entail self-consciousness: the doctrine of propositions as depicted in Chapter Three. One may therefore see the absurdity to which this 'higher-order' conception is subject and the groundlessness of first-personal elements in content as mirror-images of one another since both presuppose the doctrine of propositions.

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20 See the title of Chapter One in Musholt 2015, p. 1.
21 See Christensen 2007b.
22 In such and such a representational mode, of course.

Section II: The Traditional Problem of Self-Consciousness

According to Musholt, "(o)ne … misguided way" of conceiving self-consciousness

> … is to think of it in terms of the subject taking itself as an intentional object of perception or reflection. This way of thinking about self-consciousness goes back to what might be called the traditional model of epistemology. According to this model, which arguably dates back to Descartes, all knowledge is knowledge of objects. Accordingly, self-consciousness, too, must be explained in terms of knowledge of a particular type of object. So the model posits that in self-consciousness, the subject takes itself as the object of reflection or (inner) perception to gain self-consciousness. (Musholt 2015, p. 3)

As she indicates on p. 4, what Musholt means by this "misguided way" derives from the Heidelberg School of Dieter Henrich, Ulrich Pothast and Manfred Frank,[23] who all speak of the subject-object or reflection model of self-consciousness. What, however, is the subject-object model and why is it misguided?

Musholt writes that, on the subject-object model, for a subject to be self-conscious is for it to take itself "as the object of reflection *or* (inner) perception." (Musholt 2015, p. 3; italics added) Her use of the logical connective 'or' appears to be not strictly disjunctive: "reflection" and "(inner) perception" are not two completely separate items, rather the latter is a *particular kind* of the former, indeed the *paradigmatic* kind. For she goes on to claim that Sydney Shoemaker, who has criticised the model in a manner similar to the Heidelberg School, "targets the "inner-perception" model … in particular." (Musholt 2015, p. 4) Self-consciousness cannot be "reflection" because reflection is "knowledge of a particular type of object" (Musholt 2015, p. 3) of which type objects of perceptual experience are the paradigm. The claim thus appears to be that "we cannot explain … how self-consciousness is possible … as long as we conceive of self-consciousness as a [representational] relation between a subject and an object" (Musholt 2015, p. 4) of the kind exemplified by perceptual

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[23] The founding document of the Heidelberg School is Henrich 1967. But see also Pothast 1971, Frank 1991 and Frank 2015.

experience. Self-consciousness is misconstrued when thought of as a form of representation whose perspicuous characterisation involves reference of the kind required for perspicuous characterisation of perceptual experience.

It seems, then, that the subject-object model makes at least three distinguishable moves. It assumes, firstly, that perceptual experience is a form of *reflection*. In other words, it is genuinely representational, to the point where it, no less than belief and desire, has satisfaction conditions—in its case, of course, conditions of veridicality. Perceptual experience thus has a truth-apt content. The model then assumes, secondly, that the way all representation represents is best exemplified by perceptual experience. The kind of aboutness exemplified by perceptual experience becomes exemplary. Thirdly and finally, the model assumes that self-consciousness is similarly reflection. So self-consciousness is not only a representation of something as something, it is so in a manner best exemplified by perceptual experience. It thus 'has an object' in the same way as perceptual experience.

These assumptions are evident in Musholt's source not just for her understanding of the subject-object model but also for her critique thereof, the Heidelberg School. Manfred Frank claims that

> (s)elf-consciousness cannot be understood as >objectual< consciousness[24] [>gegenständliches< Bewusstsein], such as we have of external objects. Perceptual consciousness is objectual in this sense … . *Such objectual consciousness we also call—**in contrast to self-consciousness**—»intentional« or »representational« because it directs itself towards something which is usually not it itself.* (Frank 2015, p. 28; my translation; italics and bolding added)[25]

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[24] Frank uses the term 'consciousness' in a traditional German manner rather different from how it is used in recent analytic discussion of the problem of consciousness. For him, consciousness is not a property or feature of certain representations but a certain kind of representation itself, that kind, namely, whose instances are consciously possessed or undergone.

[25] Elsewhere Frank writes, "Intentionality commits us to a clear and actualised subject-object distinction." (Frank 2015, p. 72; my translation) This only possesses the non-trivial meaning Frank clearly intends it to have if understood as maintaining that something x is intentional just in case x is a representation with a content C such that if y is something referred to in a perspicuous linguistic articulation of C, one cannot recognise on the basis of this linguistic articulation that y is the subject of x.

The decisive move lies in the italicised sentence. Here, Frank contrasts self-consciousness with, hence distinguishes it from, anything "»intentional« or »representational«" on the grounds that the latter can only ever be directed at, or a consciousness of, something in the manner of perceptual experience, for which reason this object is "usually," i.e. paradigmatically "not it itself," i.e., not the subject of consciousness or representation. So even on those occasions on which this object is identical with the subject, knowledge of this identity is merely 'accidental'. More precisely put, such knowledge is not something the subject can acquire simply by cognising the "»intentional« or »representational«" relation, i.e., by cognising its representational content; rather, it must be acquired independently.

Clearly, Frank takes the subject-object model to assume that all representation is ">objectual< consciousness." An "»intentional« or »representational«" consciousness of something as thus and so only ever "directs itself towards" something conceived of as an *object*, that is, as "something which is usually not [the subject of representation] itself." More precisely put, it is only ever *about* something *x in such a way* that the subject of representation, in cognising the representation, hence the content thereof, as its*, does not *eo ipso* identify *x* as itself*. Consequently, the only possible *substituenda* for general adverbial phrase 'thus and so' are 'an *F*', 'the *F*', 'the G which is H' and 'N', 'N' being a name. With this, the model has excluded from the outset the idea of a content only perspicuously characterised by use either of the first-person pronoun, when, namely, the characteriser is and knows itself* to be the subject whose content is being characterised; or of the asterisked third-person. It thus rules out both 'I'-thoughts as Musholt understands them and contents *de se* as they are understood here.

Given this understanding of what an "»intentional« or »representational«" consciousness is, it is not surprising that self-consciousness becomes paradoxical as soon as one attempts to construe it as "»intentional« or »representational«." For to conceive self-consciousness as

> a relation between a subject and [something conceived according to the model of perceptual experience as] an object leads into a regress. … (F)or a subject to take itself as an object of its self-reflection, it needs to perform an identity judgement. In other words, to know that the object of my self-reflection is in fact myself, I need to self-identify. But [if self-consciousness is a self-reflection, as the subject-object model maintains,] this act of self-recognition in turn relies on another act of self-recognition, and so [on] ad infinitum. (Musholt 2015, p. 4)

The argument here would seem to be the following: if self-consciousness is understood as self-reflection and this latter itself understood as contentful in the manner of perceptual experience, then self-consciousness can never guarantee that in undergoing an episode of it a subject *eo ipso* knows that what it* is reflecting on is it*, even when this object happens to be it. So in order to secure the requisite "nonaccidental self-reference" (Musholt 2015, p. 21), something further is needed, an identity judging, namely, in which the subject judges that what it* is reflecting on is it*. Regress arises, however, when, in order to maintain the subject-object model, one applies the model to this identity judging itself, thereby construing *it* as self-reflection. As one might put the point, one never actually arrives at the identity judging needed.

Now according to Frank, what traps the subject-object model in this alleged regress is the assumption that representation is "»intentional« or »representational«." *Prima facie*, this claim is itself puzzling. Surely self-consciousness *is* an awareness, even a consciousness, *of* something, hence to this extent *about* something. Indeed, at least according to Musholt, self-consciousness is (at least a capacity for) "*explicit self-representation*" (Musholt 2015, p. 26) involving a self-concept, which literally *is*, to put things in her terms, the subject's reference to, or thought of, something, namely, itself, as something, namely, itself*.[26] So for her the subject *is* an 'object' at least in

[26] As seen in Chapter Four, Castañeda thinks similarly. So, too, do all those who cash this element as a thinking on the subject's part of something as something, in particular, 'as itself', or as they should rather say, as itself*, hence in "the first-person way" or "in the way that we think of ourselves when we use the word "I"," etc.

the sense that it is a referent, indeed, according to Musholt and many others, not just of the linguistic expression of self-consciousness, but of self-consciousness itself.

What is one to make of all this? Let us begin by asking what it could mean to take self-consciousness to be reflection, hence ">objectual<," *in a manner best exemplified by perceptual experience*. This is presumably to construe self-consciousness as *about* something in the manner of perceptual experience. So how is perceptual experience about what it is about? Consider once again the small pug's seeing a large pit bull charging aggressively towards it*. In the perspicuous characterisation of this experience there is clearly reference both to a large pit bull and to the small pug. Yet intuitively the pug's perceptual experience is about, indeed only about, the pit bull. In particular, it is not about the small pug. We must therefore distinguish between aboutness and reference—between a referent of (a perspicuous characterisation of) perceptual experience which is what it is about, hence constitutes something perceived; and whatever other referents thereof which are not what it is about,[27] hence not perceived.

Evidently, once this distinction is made, we need not fear that the pug is perceiving itself. More importantly, we also see why self-consciousness cannot be anything like perceptual experience: what a subject S's perceptual experience is about, i.e., what is perceived, hence the *object* of S's perceptual experience, is always an F, the F or N, perceived, of course, as thus and so, often, indeed, as in the example, as standing in some relation *R* to it*, S. This clearly entails that the object of S's perceptual experience is only ever accidentally identical with S. So were self-consciousness a form of 'inner' perception anything like 'outer' perception, it would have to be a consciousness of something only ever accidentally identical with the subject whose self-consciousness it is. Self-consciousness would not possess a defining feature of it,

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[27] Similarly, the phrase 'the former Prime Minister of Australia' possesses reference both to a certain individual and to a certain country but it is only about the former, as is demonstrated by its use in the sentence "The former Prime Minister of Australia is a marketing man."

hence would not be self-consciousness. This is a straightforward *reductio ad absurdum*. The paradox or problem of (the subject-object model of) self-consciousness consists more in outright absurdity than regress.

It would seem, then, the argument to regress is a bad or at least roundabout way of making a good point: lurking unspoken in the assumption that all representation is reflection or "›objectual‹" in a sense best exemplified by perceptual experience is a highly restrictive conception of content, one indeed *stronger* than that embodied by the doctrine of propositions discussed in Chapter Three. The subject-object model not only assumes that the only possible *substituenda* for the general adverbial phrase 'thus and so' are 'an *F*', 'the *F*', 'the G which is H' and 'N', it also assumes that these values of the phrase contain neither indexical nor asterisked expressions. Regress now obviously arises when one attempts to apply the model consistently to the pug's perceptual experience: one attempts to find some term consistent with the model which is co-referential with the pronoun 'it*', only to realise that this does not work, and so one tries again … and again … and again. The most fundamental explanation of the model's ills is that it has in effect turned the conditionals contained in clauses a) and b) of the doctrine's third tenet into biconditionals, thereby reducing whatever contents are possible to impersonal ones.

The subject-object model thus has no room even for those indexical contents which Perry calls "propositions of limited accessibility." (Perry 1979, p. 14/p. 37) So it has no room specifically for those contents which Musholt and others call 'I'-thoughts. Crucially, it has no room for the content of the pug's perceptual experience *when this is characterised properly*. In other words, the model distorts even perceptual experience itself. What the pug perceives is, after all, a large pit bull charging aggressively towards *it**. Note that the point here *precedes* whatever account one will eventually give of what the asterisked third-person pronoun does, either in general or in this particular case. The problem with the subject-object model is really quite straightforward: it allows itself only such elements in content as are expressed by the

phrases ‘an *F*’, ‘the *F*’, ‘the G which is H’ or ‘N’, *understood, however, as purged of all constituents which would allow them to contribute to the expression or individuation of a personal content*.

In fact, because the problem with the subject-object model is so straightforward, it might seem that one could solve it simply by retreating to the doctrine of propositions—in effect, by restoring to the third tenet its conditionals. Then, however, the fourth tenet will intervene, compelling one to “incorporate the [first-personally] indexical element into” content (Perry 1979, p. 35/p. 12) in order to account for self-consciousness. Note that this compulsion explains the tendency to assume that *if* either the first-person or the asterisked third-person pronoun mark an element in content, this latter must be first-personal. But as Section I has argued, the incorporation of *such* an element renders self-consciousness no less impossible, albeit in a more subtle way, than attempting to understand it in the manner of the subject-object model. So the proper response to the failure of the subject-object model consists not in *retreating to* the doctrine of propositions but in *breaking with* it—this by rejecting its implicit fourth tenet.

Crucially, by breaking with the fourth tenet, precisely because it allows one *not* to build first-personal awareness, self-consciousness, etc., into content, allows one also to acknowledge that the subject-object model got something right when it sought to construe self-consciousness as coming in *some* sense ‘from the outside’. For this break allows one to maintain that both the first-person and the asterisked third-person pronoun mark an element in content which is *necessary* for self-consciousness even as it is not *sufficient* for it. In this way, one can block both groundlessness and whatever regress there truly is. Furthermore, since the element marked by both pronouns could now be the *same* element, one can regard the asterisked third-person pronoun as functioning, wherever it is needed, in exactly the same way in *all* cases. When used in the characterisation of the small pug’s perceptual experience, it would be doing

exactly what it does when used in characterisation of Perry's belief that he* is making a mess. There would be no need to bifurcate the *de se*.

So the appropriate response is to break with the fourth tenet so as to be able to acknowledge that self-consciousness is not to be explained in terms of content but that a distinctive kind of content is necessary for it—that kind of content, namely, which is characterised perfectly perspicuously, hence adequately, both by a 'that'-clause containing the first-person pronoun and by a 'that'-clause containing the asterisked third-person pronoun. For this content is not essentially *first*-personal but essentially *personal*. This requires one to reject, of course, the widespread assumption that if either pronoun marks an element in content, this latter can only be first-personal, hence indexical, an assumption imposed by the doctrine of propositions.

Section III: What *is* Self-Consciousness?

The claim that self-consciousness is the ability to think 'I'-thoughts, understood as how we think of ourselves when we wield the first-person pronoun, suggests that the actualisation of this ability is occurrent. But *what* occurrence? Let us recall what happens to Perry in the supermarket:

> Finally it dawned on me. I was the shopper I was trying to catch. (Perry 1979, p. 27/p. 3)

The way Perry puts things here suggests that the sentence "*I* am the shopper I am trying to catch!" runs assertorically through his head,[28] in an act of what Musholt calls inner speech.[29] Note that if this is correct, then the example shows inner speech to be neither necessarily voluntary nor necessarily fatuous: the situation wrings Perry's insight from him and it *is* an insight. What dawns on Perry, namely, that he* is the shopper he* is trying to catch, makes sense of his immediately past behaviour. It explains the latter's futility while also pointing to what he needs to do now. Because it

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[28] Certainly the way Perry puts things *can* be so understood and this is all that is needed here.
[29] See Musholt 2015, p. 137 and p. 142.

does this, the dawning of it imparts to him the belief that he* is the one making a mess, which in turn yields the belief enabling him to deal successfully with the fact that someone is making a mess, the belief, namely, that he* is making a mess. Thereupon he re-arranges the items in his shopping trolley.

So what is inner speech? This is a topic of much philosophical and psychological inquiry, hence cannot be dealt with properly here. Nonetheless, the case of Perry in the supermarket suggests something one might make as an opening move within this inquiry—crucially a move only possible if one conceives the *de se* as recommended here. In this spirit, then, that is, simply as demonstrating what this conception allows one to do, let us propose that inner speech is one's imagining oneself*[30] speaking. More specifically, explicitly first-personal, hence self-conscious thinking consists in one's imagining oneself* uttering some first-personal sentence in order to say something with it—typically, of course, in some illocutionary intent.[31] This certainly reconstructs at least one good sense in which a subject can think of itself in "the first-person way" (Castañeda 1987a, p. 150), hence think of itself 'as itself'. To say something by means of a sentence in, say, assertoric intent, is, after all, paradigmatically to know that one* is referring to such and such an entity or entities and predicating such and such a property or relation of them in order to locute assertorically a content true in virtue of how they are. So to assert a *first-personal* sentence is paradigmatically to know that one* is predicating such and such a property or relation of *oneself** in order to locute assertorically a content true in virtue of how *one** is. It thus manifests a capacity for self-ascription, not just of one's assertion itself, but of much presupposed by assertion as a condition of its non-defective

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[30] In a personal communication of June 23rd, 2025, Markos Valaris has objected to this claim in a way which, however, can be and is already at least implicitly accommodated by the account given here of the distinctively personal representation marked by the asterisked third-person pronoun. Since the objection is important, its refutation instructive, it is dealt with explicitly in Appendix II to Chapter Five.

[31] See in this connection Morin 2005, who similarly links self-consciousness to inner speech. Implicit in the proposal here is the claim that one can only coherently spell this link out, which, as Morin points out, many others have postulated, if one endorses the thesis of content inherently *de se*.

performance. Let us say, then, that a subject S thinks the 'I'-thought "I am F" just in case S imagines itself* saying, presumably but not necessarily in order to assert, that it* is F. This is certainly *a* form of explicitly first-personal awareness, hence of actual self-consciousness—of "explicit self-representation." (Musholt 2015, p. 137 and p. 142)

Note four crucial features of this account. Firstly, it *positively presupposes* that forms of representation *de se* are possible which are not *eo ipso de me since only so does the account avoid* circularity. In other words, it presupposes C.3, the third corollary of the thesis of content inherently *de se*. Secondly, it maintains that when a subject S is thinking some so-called 'I'-thought, S is merely *imagining itself** tokening the first-person pronoun, hence not actually doing so. Thereby the account resolves the first of the two difficulties encountered in Section I. Thirdly, in characterising (at least one form of) first-personal, hence emphatically self-conscious thinking as inner speech, it presupposes linguistic competence. This is plausible, explaining as it does why a non-linguistic being such as the small pug cannot think to itself, "I am F." It thus explains why one finds postulation of an *original* 'I'-awareness so discomfiting: the very label of such an original awareness suggests an essential connection to the first-person pronoun 'I' yet somehow it is supposed to precede the latter. In addition, one can readily explain the intuition that thinking to oneself takes place in some language or other, that it is indeed, as Plato observed, a dialogue of the soul with itself. Fourthly and perhaps most importantly, by construing (at least one form of) self-consciousness as an *imagining* oneself* speaking, the account creates a conceptual link between the discursive and what Kant would call *das Anschauliche*. Imagining in the sense intended here is not imagining in the sense of *conceiving* such and such to be the case. Rather, it is a kind of imagining which implicates a capacity for viscerally experiencing *what it is like for* such and such to be the case, which in turn implicates the notion of affective perceptual experience. As one may put it, it is not an imagining-*that*, as when one imagines *that* there is, in some

distant corner of the universe, a Twin Earth, but rather an imagining-*how-it-is-for-one**[32]—how it is for one* to play the Hammerklavier sonata[33] or to see such and such a mountain range stretching left and right before one*.[34] It is thus a kind of imagining which implicates a how-it-is-*with*-one* when one thus plays or sees, something a subject can capture, if it is at all able to, only in some subsequent act, as when it hums how it* played or draws how the mountain range appeared to it*.[35]

Yet precisely the bond created to linguistic competence, hence language, might invite two subtly interrelated objections. Firstly, one might object that the account of inner speech just given is incoherent because its fundamental presupposition is question-begging. As both Anscombe[36] originally and Bermúdez more recently have

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32 With this, one is committing oneself to a philosophically significant thesis, one already implicit in the characterisation of the small pug, not as seeing *that* a large pit bull is charging aggressively towards it* but rather as simply seeing a large pit bull charging aggressively towards it*: *not all contents are individuated by 'that'-clauses, this because not all contents are, as one says, propositions.* In other words, not all representations are representations-that. There are reasons for maintaining this which have nothing directly to do with the thesis of content inherently *de se* but rather both with the perception of motion and change; and, more generally, with how conceptual contents latch onto the world. In particular, one must break with the propositional prejudice if one wishes to account for how perceptual experience can so bring the perceiving subject into the world that it can behave purposively with regard to entities within and in the world. See in this connection Christensen 2000 and 2008.

33 Peacocke speaks of the same kind of imagination in Peacocke 1999, using Op. 57 rather than 106 as his example. He goes on to claim, however, that "(f)or this kind of imagining, only someone who knows how to play the *Appassionata* sonata can imagine, from the inside, playing it. This last species of imagining is distinct from imagining moving one's hands on the keyboard in any old fashion and hearing the sounds of the *Appassionata* come out. Merely to suppositionally imagine that one is playing that sonata does not require any knowledge of how to play it." (Peacocke 1999, p. 212) This needs qualification or clarification: for this kind of imagining, one does not need to know how to play the *Appassionata well* but one does need *some* knowledge, i.e., some practical ability, perhaps derived from piano lessons as a child, to replicate (more or less) the kinds of movement one's hands would make were one able to play it well. Peacocke is certainly right that what he calls suppositional imagination is not the kind of imagination at issue here since suppositional imagination is the kind operative when one *supposes* there to be a Twin Earth in some distant corner of the universe. Peacocke does not himself deploy his account of imagination in an account of self-consciousness because he thinks, in line with the argument of Anscombe and Bermúdez, that because his account involves the (S)-use of the third-person pronoun, it presupposes the first-person pronoun, hence first-person or self-concepts.

34 Thereby the account shows itself to be decidedly anti-Cartesian. It is, after all, essential to Descartes' conception of the self-conscious self that it be able self-consciously to think of things as thus and so independently of perception and therefore imagination in the sense intended here.

35 Imagination in this sense (*Einbildungskraft*) is or implicates "a universal process (*Verfahren*) … of providing a concept (*Begriff*) with its depiction (*Bild*)." (Kant 1781-87/1976, B 179-180/A 139, my translation)

36 See Anscombe 1975, pp. 47-48.

argued, the asterisked third-person pronoun *presupposes* the first-person pronoun, whose use expresses self-consciousness. So a fundamental presupposition of the account, namely, that the asterisked third-person pronoun can be used to explicate self-consciousness *via* inner speech is false. Secondly, one might argue that while inner speech is doubtless a form of self-consciousness, it is only one form. So even if the account explicated inner speech, it would not explicate *all* self-consciousness. Nor *could* it claim to do so because even if *explicit* self-consciousness—what Musholt calls explicit self-representation—were inner speech as explicated here, or at least the capacity for it, it could not be the only form. For explicit self-consciousness, precisely when it is as explicated here, presupposes a more primitive form of self-consciousness—what Musholt calls "prereflective self-consciousness."[37] Let us deal now with the second objection, leaving the first for the next section.

"The call for a prereflective self-consciousness … reverberates through much of the … literature." (Musholt 2015, p. 5) Maurice Merleau-Ponty, Jean-Paul Sartre, Manfred Frank of the Heidelberg School, more latterly, Dan Zahavi and Musholt herself all take the classic argument against the subject-object model to show that underpinning self-consciousness *qua* explicit self-representation, hence as just provisionally explicated, is a *pre*-, hence *non*-reflexive, a *pre*-, hence *non*-intentional form of self-awareness. Already one wants to ask whether this is not to posit a non-reflective form of reflection, a non-intentional form of intentionality, hence a contradiction in terms. Yet there is a deeper because logically prior problem: the inference to such a primitive self-awareness is invalid.

Let us begin with how Musholt makes the inference. She seems to take the classic argument directly to entail that self-consciousness presupposes some such primordial self-awareness,[38] as if it alone entitled one to assert the latter as a condition of the

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[37] See Musholt 2015, esp. pp. 5-7.

[38] See Musholt 2015, § 1.3, pp. 5-7. For Musholt, this primordiality consists in the absence of any element in content whose linguistic expression is a reference to the subject of the awareness. Self-awareness primordial in this sense she calls self-related information.

possibility of the former. It is, however, at least unclear how the argument could do this. It is, after all, simply an argument against a certain philosophical conception of self-consciousness *qua* explicitly first-personal thinking, something already evident in how Musholt formulates its conclusion: if self-consciousness is a self-reflection, then it involves an "act of self-recognition" which "in turn relies on another act of self-recognition, and so [on] ad infinitum." (Musholt 2015, p. 4) From this one may only infer that the subject-object model is false. One may draw no inference as to the conditions under which the phenomenon the model would explicate is possible.

In the case of Frank and the Heidelberg School, the matter is less straightforward because more obscure. The School certainly seems to regard the classic argument as intimating the need for some primordial form of self-awareness as a presupposition of explicit self-consciousness. Yet bound into its version of the argument is a further and quite separate move, one not clearly distinguished from the move Musholt rightly isolates in and as her account of the argument. This move, once clearly distinguished, shows itself to be the claim that some primordial form of self-awareness is a condition of the possibility of *consciousness*. By consciousness the Heidelberg School means any form of representation possessed or undergone consciously. So its appeal to a primordial form of self-awareness appears to be motivated by the idea that one needs such self-awareness in order to account for the character of certain representations *as conscious*. If this is so, then the Heidelberg School shows itself to be one more adherent to a long tradition of maintaining that *consciousness entails self-consciousness*,[39] alongside the so-called higher-order theory of consciousness defended by David Rosenthal[40] and the same-order theory deriving from Brentano and

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[39] This is arguably what the *later* Heidegger means and is objecting to when he writes, "Where does [the focus on] consciousness begin in philosophy? With Descartes. Every consciousness of something is at the same time self-consciousness, whereby the self that is conscious of an object is not necessarily conscious of itself." (Heidegger 1987, p. 284; my translation) The later Heidegger is here rejecting the focus, hence rejecting his earlier, proto-Sartrean view. Note that this later position would appear to be consistent with his earlier work *Sein und Zeit*, in which case his earlier endorsement of what is in effect a pre-reflexive self-awareness is an inheritance from his teacher Husserl inessential to the earlier work and which he only later sees to be mistaken.

[40] See, e.g., Rosenthal 2012.

defended by Uriah Kriegel.[41] In fact, the Heidelberg School would appear to belong to the camp to which Jean-Paul Sartre, the early Heidegger and, more recently, Dan Zahavi belong, a camp described by the latter as the phenomenological one.[42]

It is a good question why one should think, why indeed so many do think, that the character of certain representations as conscious must be construed as some kind of self-awareness of them on the part of their subject. Here, however, is not the place to argue against this view,[43] so let the following observations suffice:

(1) Since the classic argument against the traditional subject-object model does not license any inference to a pre-reflective or pre-intentional self-awareness, it provides no reason for postulating what is *prima facie* a non-representational kind of representation;

(2) While the question of what accounts for the character of certain forms of representation, in particular, perception and proprioception, as conscious, must be answered, it is not obvious that an answer to it must involve appeal to any kind of self-awareness,[44] in which case the question itself provides no reason for postulating what is *prima facie* a non-representational kind of representation;

(3) The very fact that the notion of pre-reflective or pre-representational self-awareness verges on an oxymoron suggests that one should avoid answering this or any other question by appeal to it. In fact, one should insist that at best it is a way of seeing through a glass but darkly the thesis of content inherently *de se*;[45]

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41 See Brentano 1874/1973 and Kriegel 2003.

42 See Zahavi 2004, 2007 and 2009.

43 An account of the conscious character of consciously possessed or undergone representations which does not construe it as self-awareness is sketched in Christensen 2015a and 2018.

44 Castañeda *rejects* what Hart describes as "the "Fichtean thesis" … that all consciousness is self-consciousness." (Hart 1999, p. 25) But he only rejects the thesis because he understands it to mean by self-consciousness an *actual* episode of what Musholt calls "explicit self-representation." (Musholt 2015, p. 47) That this is so is shown Castañeda's endorsement of what he calls the "anti-Fichtean thesis" that "(e)pisodes of reflective thinking not only rest on episodes of non-reflective thinking, but characteristically they," i.e., episodes of reflective (hence presumably also of non-reflective) thinking, "do not give rise to reflective thinking upon themselves." "Fichte erred," he goes on to say, "in holding that all (episodes of) consciousness are [*actual*] (episodes of) self-consciousness." (Castañeda 1989, p. 65)

45 Interestingly, Musholt observes the following: "(S)ome authors have argued that the notions of pre-reflective self-consciousness or the sense of "mineness" have to be taken as primitive and cannot be

(4) Should it be possible to account for the conscious character of certain representations without appeal to the idea that consciousness entails self-consciousness *in any sense whatsoever*, then inner speech as explicated here is all the self-consciousness there is. On the one hand, there are diverse forms of representation, locution and illocution, in particular, representation, locution and illocution *de se*. On the other, there are certain beings capable of such representation which also possess a capacity for explicitly self-conscious thinking *qua* imagining oneself* locuting, paradigmatically in the performance of some illocutionary act. Amongst such explicitly self-conscious thinkings will be certain distinctively first-personal, hence emphatically self-conscious ones. Just this latter is the case when circumstances wring from Perry the insight that he* is making a mess, which consists in his imagining himself* asserting the sentence "I am making a mess."

The account of explicitly self-conscious, in particular emphatically first-personal thinking given here obviously assumes that imagining is not *eo ipso* whimsical since otherwise it would not be able to capture the causal role of Perry's mental judgement, which is clearly serious. That, however, imagining is not necessarily voluntary or playful is equally obvious: an apparition of someone I dearly love being hit by a car might befall me and I, stricken by fear, might irrationally rush to the phone to ring up the hospital. Since this is clearly possible, there is no reason why involuntary imaginings of oneself* speaking cannot motivate *rationally*. It suddenly dawns on Perry that he* is making a mess—*arationally*, of course, because it happens he knows not how. Yet this dawning is not *irrational* because what he imagines himself* asserting makes sense of the situation to him*, i.e., is immediately recognised by him* to explain, given its truth, the failure of his* behaviour thus far. And so Perry accepts

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further analysed. But why not take [her own] non-self-representationalist account to provide precisely what is claimed to be impossible according to these authors, that is, to provide an analysis of the sense of "mineness"?" (Musholt 2015, p. 85) Here something similar is countenanced, except, of course, that the conception of the *de se* articulated by the thesis of content inherently *de se* replaces Musholt's "non-self-representationalist account." And when this is done, one may dispense with terms such as "pre-reflective self-consciousness" and the like, which are *prima facie* oxymorons.

it, thereby forming the belief responsible for his revised behaviour, the belief, namely, that he* is making a mess.[46]

Section IV: Anscombe and Bermúdez on the Asterisked Third-Person Pronoun

Let us now turn to the first of the two objections raised in the preceding section, that, namely, the account given in it of inner speech as at least *a* form of self-consciousness begs the question because the asterisked third-person pronoun *presupposes* the first-person pronoun, whose use expresses self-consciousness. If this objection is correct, then the account *falsely* assumes that the asterisked third-person pronoun can be used to explicate inner speech.

Ultimately, this objection derives from Anscombe, who writes that "we are inclined to think that "It's the word each one uses in speaking of himself" explains what "I" names, or explains "I" as a 'referring expression'." (Anscombe 1975, p. 47) She then points out that this explanatory claim is imprecise. For we cannot understand the third-person reflexive pronoun occurring in it as just another singular term alongside many others which happen to refer to the referent of the first-person pronoun when wielded by the referent of the reflexive pronoun. What we should more precisely be "inclined to think" is that the first-person pronoun is the word "each one uses in speaking of *himself**". For we have here what Anscombe calls the indirect use of the third-person reflexive pronoun[47]—her term for what Castañeda calls the (S)-use. She then goes on to claim that this use, i.e., the (S)-use, "is a special one *which can be explained only in terms of the first person*." (Anscombe 1975, p. 48; italics added) From this she concludes that "explanation of the word "I" as 'the word which each of us uses to speak of himself' is hardly an explanation!" (Anscombe 1975, p. 48)

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[46] Note that Perry presumably only forms this belief once he has looked down into his trolley to see whether it contains a leaking bag of sugar. With this, Perry confirms what dawns on him, thereby turning what is at first a hypothesis which, if true, makes sense of his situation into real insight.

[47] See Anscombe 1975, p. 46.

Bermúdez has elaborated this argument. The following, he claims, is "the key to the semantics of the first-person pronoun":

1. "When a person employs a token of 'I', in so doing he refers to himself." (Bermúdez 1998, p. 14)

In other words, it constitutes an at least first approximation to an adequate formulation of the linguistic convention or rule which constitute the word as a means of first-person reference. He describes 1. as a "token-reflexive rule" (Bermúdez 1998, p. 14), which is, strictly speaking, incorrect. Presumably, however, what he is getting at is the fact that one uses a first-person pronoun *according to rule*, so any less rough and ready formulation of the rule must have a reference to the rule built into it, precisely as what one is acting in accordance with. In other words, by 'token-reflexive' Bermúdez means 'self-referential', which self-referentiality may be made explicit as follows:

1✦. When a person employs a token of 'I' in accordance with the rule for the expression 'I',[48] that is, *in accordance with 1✦.*, in so doing he refers to himself.

Yet insufficiency persists. Having pointed out, in a manner similar to Anscombe, that the third-person pronoun reflexive pronoun 'himself' can be employed either directly or indirectly, Bermúdez observes that "in the context of the token-reflexive rule … the indirect reflexive [i.e., the asterisked third-person pronoun] … is required" (Bermúdez 1998, p. 14), if the rule is, as it should, to "rule out the possibility of accidental self-reference." (Bermúdez 1998, p. 17) He thus arrives at the following:

2. "When a person employs a token of 'I', in so doing, he refers to himself*." (Bermúdez 1998, p. 14)

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[48] It is crucial to note that to speak of a person as acting in accordance with a rule *does not* entail that the person is actually aware of him- or herself* as so doing. One can act in accordance with a rule, i.e., follow it, *objectively*. Of course, if one is doing this, one is and must be *able* to become thus aware, that is, actually *able* to think to oneself*, "I am," or, as the case may be, "am not following the rule."

This requires modification in the light of what led from 1. to 1✦., which yields the following as final destination:

2✦. When a person employs a token of 'I' in accordance with the rule for the expression 'I', that is, in accordance with 2✦., in so doing he refers to himself*.

At this point, however, Bermúdez follows Anscombe in maintaining that the (S)-use of a third-person pronoun in an account of the first-person pronoun "creates obvious problems of circularity … ." It does so, he claims,

> because we can only understand how a person can refer to himself* by understanding how a person can refer to himself by employing the first-person pronoun. The indirect reflexive in indirect speech [i.e., the asterisked third-person pronoun] needs to be explained through the first-person of direct speech, which is, of course, 'I'. (Bermúdez 1998, p. 14)

Clearly, this is Anscombe's point and it entails Anscombe's conclusion, namely, that "explanation of the word "I"" in terms of 2 or 2✦ "is hardly an explanation!"

Is, however, the conclusion right? It is true, indeed trivially so, that we can only understand *reference to oneself** by understanding *reference by means of the first-person pronoun* to what is objectively oneself. Reference to something *Y* as oneself*, the subject making this reference, *just is* first-personal reference. But it does not follow from this that in general "(t)he indirect reflexive in indirect speech [i.e., the asterisked third-person pronoun] needs to be explained through the first-person of direct speech ... ." Use of the indirect reflexive, i.e., the asterisked third-person pronoun, occurs in a plethora of linguistic contexts, sometimes to characterise locutions and illocutions in which there is a use of the first-person pronoun, sometimes, however, to characterise representations and to individuate contents in which no use of the first-person pronoun is either actually or potentially involved. In all these cases there is reference to something simply in its capacity as subject—subject of such and such a locution or representation, the one, namely, *the asterisked third-person pronoun* is used to *characterise*. True, when used to characterise locutions and illocutions, the asterisked third-person pronoun will correspond to a use

of the first-person pronoun in what is characterised. So in *this* case we must certainly understand the asterisked third-person pronoun as marking a first-personal reference on the part of its referent. It is, however, a *non sequitur* to generalise from this kind of (S)-use to all (S)-uses.[49] *Pace* Bermúdez and indeed Anscombe herself, use of the asterisked third-person pronoun in formulating the semantic rule governing the first-person pronoun does not engender circularity because this specific use is not its only use and it would only beg the question to maintain that in these other uses the first-person pronoun is presupposed in any sense stronger than that should the referent of the asterisked third-person pronoun be able to *self*-ascribe, it must use a first-person pronoun in its characterisation of the relevant content.

In fact, Anscombe and Bermúdez *have* begged the question. From the outset they have simply assumed that the asterisked third-person pronoun always quasi-indicates an actual first-personal reference, or at least an actual capacity for such reference, on the part of its referent, hence always intimates self-consciousness.[50] Yet as Castañeda has shown in his response to Carl Ginet,[51] we can only understand what it is for a subject S to refer by means of the first-person pronoun as a matter of S's referring to (something, itself, namely, as) *itself**, that is, to S in this latter's capacity simply as the subject of such and such locution—in this particular case, of course, the very locution in which S uses the pronoun to refer to itself*. But this does not entail that our clearly necessary use of the asterisked third-person pronoun in this articulation of our understanding is somehow empty or non-explicatory. In our formulation of the rules 2 and 2✦ we are, of course, using the pronoun to refer to a speaker S as subject—subject of the act of reference S is performing. The very fact, however, that the

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[49] Possibly Bermúdez, like Castañeda, stands under the baleful influence of the general conviction that in representation as in locution there is reference, which leads him to assimilate S's believing that it* is F to S's asserting that it* is F. Since in the latter there is *reference*, indeed *first-personal* reference, to S, so, too, there is such reference in the former. Alternatively put, in the former as in the latter, S is *referring to* (something, namely, S, as) itself*. In no literal sense, however, is the general conviction true.

[50] In other words, from the outset they have simply assumed the falsity of C.2 and C.3., the second and third corollaries of the thesis of content inherently *de se*.

[51] See once again Castañeda 1966, pp. 54-46.

intensional context at issue in these rules is 'S refers to …' entails that S, who, as a *referring* subject paradigmatically knows what it* is referring to, hence knows that what *it** is referring to is *it**, is *also* referring to S as subject—subject of the locution it* is using the word 'I' to accomplish, a locution in which S refers to itself*! We not only may, we must follow our inclination to say that 'I' is "… the word each one uses in speaking of *himself**."

Of course, Castañeda himself assumes that the asterisked third-person pronoun quasi-indicates (at least a capacity for) first-personal reference and just this engenders a tension he can eliminate only in unpalatable fashion. As was seen in Chapter Four, the basis for his assumption is his conviction that in representation as in locution there is some act of referring to or, if one prefers,[52] thinking of something as something. This forces him to construe any representation such that perspicuous individuation of its content by another requires an (S)-use of the third-person pronoun as somehow involving a 'act' on its subject's part of referring to, or of thinking of, something as itself*. Evidently, this ostensible mental 'act' can only be somehow analogous to a wielding of the first-person pronoun. So with this move, Castañeda has conceived both the asterisked third-person and the first-person pronoun as marking a *first-personal* element in the content, which, as Castañeda sees more clearly than most, must be cashed as a non-, hence presumably pre-linguistic 'I'-awareness—as an apperception *pure and original*. Yet there is no need for this move, which, as Section I has argued, is actually incoherent. Once one has seen clearly that in representation there is reference only in the weak sense that perspicuous characterisation thereof requires such and such a reference on the part of the characteriser, one also sees that there is no need to construe the asterisked third-person pronoun or indeed the first-person pronoun as marking anything so dubious.

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[52] One recognises that one cannot speak literally of reference in representation and so adverts to the idea that in representation there is, quite literally, at least a thinking of something—a thinking of it as something, of course. Unfortunately, if "it's an odd idea, that predication in the sense of some sort of cognitive *activity* generally enters into representation …" (Richard 2013, p. 714f.), then it is also an odd idea that a thinking-of literally enters into it.

Concluding Remarks

Self-consciousness only becomes enigmatic when one conceives content in such a way that one is forced to locate it either in content, thereby engendering the groundlessness exposed in Section I; or in a higher-order act while disallowing the kind of content necessary for this act, thereby engendering the absurdities discussed in Section II. Once, however, one renounces these restrictions, which, in the first case, are imposed by the doctrine of propositions in virtue of its implicit fourth tenet, in the second, by an "›objectual‹"[53] conception of content entailing but not entailed by the doctrine, it becomes possible to regard self-consciousness as implicating an element in content merely necessary for "explicit self-representation." (Musholt 2013, p. 47) Self-consciousness can then be understood as a subject's imagining itself* locuting the first-personal sentence determined by a now merely personal content of representation. Thereby one avoids the complementary absurdities entailed by construing this element either as sufficient for self-consciousness—the groundlessness of apperception—or by banishing what is necessary for self-consciousness from content—straightforward absurdity which one can present in the form of a regress. Enigma can then be set aside, as can bifurcation and epistemic privacy.

Nothing said here denies, of course, that in *some* sense self-consciousness is a matter of one's thinking of oneself as oneself*. Yet thinking of oneself as oneself* in any emphatic sense is only ever a matter of undergoing an episode of inner speech in which the sentence involved is first-personal. Apart from this, there is only thinking of oneself as oneself* in that weak, even Pickwickian sense in which to think of oneself as oneself* is to possess or undergo a representation *de se* one is actually able to ascribe to oneself*, either in outer or inner speech. The small pug is therefore not thinking of itself as itself* when it perceives a large pit bull charging aggressively towards it*. Nor in general can it think of anything as itself* since it cannot self-

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[53] That is, *gegenständlich*—see Frank 2015, p. 28, cited above.

ascribe its representations. In this regard, it differs from John Perry, who, having seen at 07.07.79 from where he is in the supermarket a trail of sugar extending then* and thence* and come to believe on this basis that he* is (the one) making a mess then* and there*, can be said to be thinking of himself as himself*.

This suggests something important. In Chapter Four it was pointed out that Castañeda's "general formula" for all reference, namely, "*X refers to Y as Z*" (Castañeda 1999c, p. 258), possesses both a semantic and an epistemic dimension. Thus, when the phrase 'itself', more accurately, 'itself*', serves as the value of '*Z*' in the characterisation of a representation *de se*, "the *as*-moment" on the one hand expresses that the representation has a content such that its perspicuous linguistic characterisation in objective, hence publicly accessible terms requires reference by the characteriser[54] to the subject in its capacity as subject, hence use of the asterisked third-person pronoun. On the other, it intimates something sufficient for identifying the pronoun's referent, identity, namely, with the referent of the subject-term to which the pronoun is anaphorically linked—in effect, with the value of '*X*'. From this it follows that insofar as the subject of a representation *de se* can *self*-ascribe its representations[55] by using a corresponding *first-person* sentence, hence pronoun, it also disposes over some third-personal singular term '*t*' such that it believes that it* satisfies '*t*', which belief enables it to assert sentences involving the apposition "I, *t*, … ."[56] So if a subject can self-ascribe a representation *de se*, it can also *other*-ascribe it by using the asterisked third-person pronoun in the characterisation of content—other-ascribe it on the basis of knowing, of course, that it* is *t*.[57]

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54 Who need not, of course, be the subject itself.

55 As one might also put it, insofar as the subject of a representation can be, and can know itself* to be, its* own characteriser.

56 The term '*t*' is at least the definite description discussed above in Section I as the minimal value of '*X*'.

57 In other words, the subject can ascribe its representation *de se* in a manner at least akin to what Perry calls "the manner of de Gaulle." (Perry 1979, p. 28/p. 4)

This suggests in turn something even more important. If explicitly first-personal self-conscious thinking, that is, imagining oneself* locuting some first-personal sentence, entails awareness of oneself* as the referent of some '*t*', hence as *t*, then self-consciousness is mediated not just by language *but by the world*. In other words, not only does the self-conscious subject dispose over language, and in particular, the first-person pronoun, it is also able to place itself, via language and in particular the pronoun, in the world. For if a subject S believes itself* to satisfy '*t*', hence believes itself* to be *t*, then S always already understands itself* to be somewhere and somewhen in the world. That self-consciousness should in this way be bound up with 'consciousness of objects', in particular, with 'consciousness of oneself* as an object', is very plausible. Before they have mastered the first-person pronoun, children typically use their own names to express what they* like and dislike and possibly also what they* perceive or believe. When the one-and-a-half year-old Joey says, "Joey wants Post Toasties,"[58] he expressses a desire that *he** be given some Post Toasties. This suggests that the ability Joey subsequently acquires to wield the first-person pronoun arises on the basis of a prior capacity for suitably infantile forms of representation *de se*, such as the desire that *he** be given some Post Toasties, the perceptual experience of *his** mother standing in sufficient proximity to the Post Toasties, etc.

Presumably, Joey acquires the ability to use his own name as a proto-first-person pronoun by being addressed sufficiently often for him to acquire the belief, possibly on the basis of how his human brain has been hardwired by evolution, that he* is called 'Joey'. This then enables him eventually to understand the rules 2 and then 2✦ for the first-person pronoun. Plausibly, acquiring this understanding will arise via understanding the second-person—via his coming to understand what is going on when his mother asks, "Joey, would you like some Post Toasties?" If so, then *understanding* the second person would precede *understanding* the first-person, this

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[58] The example is from Perry 1980a, p. 53f.

on the basis of one's *using* one's name in first-person fashion. All in all, one may speculate that grasp of the first-person pronoun arises together with a grasp of the other personal pronouns on the basis of representation *de se*. It emerges together with recognition of *who one*'s others are* and does so as recognition of *who one** *is intersubjectively*, i.e., for these others, which entails recognition of *who one** *is objectively*, i.e., in and for oneself, irrespective of others. And the medium in which this structure of recognition emerges is language, more precisely put, a linguistically-mediated communicative praxis.

This brings us back once again to the question raised in Chapter One as to which mode of characterisation of the *de se* has priority. In German as in English there are two modes of such characterisation, viz., self-characterisation and other-characterisation, as in "Ich glaube, dass ich F bin," as asserted by S, and "S glaubt, dass es* F sei," as asserted by S✦, who may or may not be S. Both assertions characterise the same objective psychological reality, so each is as good as the other as far as assignment of truth conditions and of causal role are concerned. So the content of each is, objectively, hence publicly speaking, exactly the same, namely, that it*, S, is F. Clearly, if the sentences for such self- and other-ascription were not German but the corresponding English ones, then the third-person characterisation would appear twice in the explanation, first as mentioned, then as used. Yet this possibility should not obscure the fact that, like any representation, a representation *de se* is what it is independently of its characterisation. And what it independently, hence objectively is is captured only by the third-personally anaphoric mode of characterisation or ascription.

Nor does this require one to say that both assertions accomplish exactly the same thing, as if the sentences "Ich glaube, dass ich F bin" and "S glaubt, dass es* F sei" were synonymous, which they clearly are not. Each sentence characterises what is objectively one and the same thing *by different means*, or, as one might also put it, *along a different route*. The sentence "Ich glaube, dass ich F bin" expresses the

identity of the believer with what the belief is about via expressing the identity of each with the locuter of the sentence, hence characteriser of the belief. By contrast, the sentence "S glaubt, dass es* F sei" expresses the same identity unmediatedly. Yet both facts are perfectly consistent with the claim that what each sentence asserts as *what is objectively believed* is exactly the same, namely, that it*, S, is F. That this is so is shown by the fact that there is nothing in the causal role attributed by the one which is not also attributed by the other. The difference between the two modes of characterisation is precisely a difference *in how they characterise*, *not in what is characterised*. There certainly is such a thing as the first-person perspective[59] but one needs to understand it correctly. In particular, one needs to appreciate that it is just one perspective alongside others, hence entirely complementary to the so-called third-person perspective, which latter 'gets out how things objectively are', such that act and content become accessible, hence evaluable for other subjects. In this harmless sense, anaphorically third-person characterisation has priority.

Curiously, these points can be confirmed by comparing the way Musholt and Bermúdez characterise the notion of an 'I'-thought. According to Musholt, ""I"-thoughts are such that they nonaccidentally refer to the subject entertaining them," whereby the notion of non-accidental reference is understood from the outset to entail that "in having an "I"-thought the subject cannot but be aware that the thought refers to herself." (Musholt 2015, p. 63) By contrast, Bermúdez defines an 'I'-thought as one "whose content can only be specified directly by means of the first person pronoun 'I' or indirectly by means of the [asterisked third-person personal][60] pronoun 'he*'."

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[59] Stanley writes, "A principal attraction of a view that treats first-person thought as self-ascriptions of properties is the sense that it appears to allow us to evade the extraordinarily difficult task of explaining what it is to take a first-person perspective on the world." (Stanley 2011, p. 88) A principal attraction of the thesis of content inherently *de se* is that it allows us to explain relatively easily what is involved in taking a so-called first-person perspective on the world—this *without* treating so-called first-person thought as the self-ascription of a property.

[60] Here Bermúdez describes the pronoun 'he*' as "the indirect reflexive pronoun." This pronoun is, however, as Castañeda recognises, not reflexive at all even though there are ways of using a genuinely reflexive pronoun to accomplish what it accomplishes. Thus, ordinary English permits one to use the sentence "Perry believes himself to be making a mess" in place of the sentence "Perry believes that he is making a mess." Clearly, the use of either sentence might be such that the

(Bermúdez 1998, p. 4) Now as a matter of brute fact Bermúdez understands an 'I'-thought and its content as Musholt does, namely, as such that in having it, "the subject cannot but be aware that the thought refers to herself." Yet his definition, unlike Musholt's, can be interpreted weakly, such that even the content of the pug's perceptual experience of a large pit bull charging aggressively towards it* becomes an 'I'-thought. Evidently, the thesis of content inherently *de se* could happily speak of 'I'-thoughts and first-person contents in *this* sense, if only then to point out that with just as much and just as little right one could speak of 'it*'-thoughts and contents, i.e., of thoughts and contents *de se*. Bermúdez's definition in fact *under-describes* what he takes an 'I'-thought to be.

These concluding remarks suggest that the account of self-consciousness sketched here is deflationary and in a way it is. Yet in another way it is not. Firstly, it entails that self-consciousness presupposes language in general and the first-person pronoun in particular, which is clearly a substantive claim. Secondly, its appeal to imagination (*Einbildungskraft*) suggests that self-consciousness has both an *occurrent* and an *anschaulichen* character ultimately grounded in perceptual experience. A self-conscious subject infinite in that it is not bound to some form of temporally-structured *Anschauung*, with whatever materiality this implies, would not be possible. With this, we see, lastly, that, notwithstanding its rejection of a pure and original apperception, the account in no way dislodges "the synthetic unity of apperception," i.e., self-conscious subjectivity, from that "highest point to which one must attach all use of the understanding, indeed all logic and, along with it, transcendental philosophy."[61] Quite the contrary: with regard to logic, the account underscores a central implication of the thesis of content inherently *de se*, namely, that the conception of content historically presupposed by logic is too restrictive. And with regard to transcendental philosophy,

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pronoun in it requires an asterisk, in other words, is (S)-used. In such cases, the reflexive pronoun is indeed indirect, but then so, too, is the personal pronoun. Each is used as what is sometimes called a logophor.

61 Kant 1781-87/1976, Anmerkung zu B 134, my translation.

it is itself, as the next chapter will make very evident, an exercise in it. For the argument for the thesis of content inherently *de se* to which the account belongs is precisely a move in an ontology[62] of content and subjectivity conducted in the spirit of what later neo-Kantians called Kant's Copernican Turn.

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62 This use of the word 'ontology' might be queried. It is crucial, however, not to conflate ontology with metaphysics, at least not when the latter is understood as what Kant called, following Baumgarten, *metaphysica specialis* and explicitly distinguished from *metaphysica generalis sive ontologia*—see Kant 1791/1976, p. 590. The distinction ultimately derives from Aristotle's implicit distinction between the study of beings *qua* beings and the study of the first causes and principles of things, in Book IV and Book I of the *Metaphysics* respectively. A descendant of the distinction is to be found in Williams and, following him, Jackson—see Williams 1966 and Jackson 1994. See also footnote 50 in Chapter Seven.

CHAPTER SIX

The Property-Theoretic or Propositionally Functional Conception of Content *de se*

The property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception of content *de se* is in one way close to, in another far removed from, that articulated in the thesis of content inherently *de se*. For it is consistent with all three corollaries of the thesis, in particular, the claim that representation and content *de se* entail no actual use, or actual capacity for the use, of the first-person pronoun (C.2); and that representation and content *de se* do not *eo ipso* entail self-consciousness (C.3).[1] Yet unlike generically Fregean conceptions of the *de se*,[2] it denies that the asterisked third-person pronoun marks an element in content. In other words, the conception rejects T.3, the most definitive component of the thesis.

The property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception is endorsed by many different thinkers, e.g., Brian Loar, David Lewis, Roderick Chisholm, Neil Feit and Jeff Speaks. Moreover, Perry, François Recanati and Musholt partially endorse it since they conceive some forms of representation *de se* in terms recognisably similar to it, those forms, namely, of which it is implausible to say that they involve what

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1 Even if, as a matter of brute fact, some who endorse the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception might deny C.2 and C.3, as is shown by their sharing in the common tendency to characterise representation, illocution, locution and content *de se* in first-personal terms even as the Latin pronoun '*se*' is unambiguously third-personal.

2 Such as that found in Frege himself and endorsed, albeit with significant specific differences, by Castañeda. One must not confuse the generically Fregean conception with the historical Frege's specific way of spelling it out. For all their differences, both Frege and Castañeda embrace the idea that the asterisked third-person pronoun marks an element in content sufficient for self-consciousness (since it accounts for the character of content as first-personal and the character of an 'act' with such content as a 'thinking of oneself as oneself*'). Note that in a way the conception articulated particularly in Perry 1980a also insists on this. True, the elements in what Perry regards as content *qua* what is represented or locuted—what is believed, asserted, desired, enjoined, etc.—are, together with the relevant property or relation, simply the objective realities which determine, depending on how they are, truth or falsity. But the sentence acceptance of which *constitutes* what is represented or locuted *as* what is represented or locuted contains the first-person pronoun. And, as pointed out in Section III of Chapter Three, this is only genuinely explicatory if understood as entailing that the subject is not simply *possibly* but *actually* able to wield the pronoun. In this sense, then, even here the subject of representation or locution is construed as thinking of itself 'as itself*', which is in turn understood as its thinking of itself in "the first-person way." (Castañeda 1987a, p. 150)

Musholt calls "*explicit self-representation*," which latter entails at least the actual capacity for "genuine self-conscious thought." (Musholt 2015, p. 26) Given this diversity of authors, given, too, that there are differences between them, it will not be possible to examine all forms and versions of the conception. Nonetheless, all forms are underwritten by a general idea and the chapter will focus on this. It will begin with an examination of the general idea as outlined in Loar 1976 because, in the general form which Loar gives it, it is common to all advocates of the conception even as they differ considerably in how they spell the idea out. Specifically, what Loar calls "the self-ascriptive belief relation" (Loar 1976, p. 358) will be examined in order to determine whether the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception can deal, not just adequately but at all, with an issue implicit in recent discussion of how it might accommodate the *communication* of contents *de se*.

As we shall see, this issue runs deep. It begins as the question of whether a property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception of representation and content *de se* can accommodate the possibility of a subject's merely entertaining, as one says, such content, that is, knowing it for what it is without having it as a content in any representational mode, this because one is deliberating about the correctness of having it in this or that representational mode.[3] The murky phrase 'entertaining a content' gestures, however, towards the deeper question of whether the conception can accommodate the possibility of communication between *rational*, hence *self-conscious*[4] subjects. Such communication, since it involves the giving and taking of reasons, also involves, at least potentially if not always actually, a hearer *first*

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[3] This intimates that the notion of a subject's entertaining a content operative here is *not* that wielded by Soames. Soames makes clearest what he means by this on pp. 230-232 of King, Soames and Speaks 2014, namely, the *having* of a content as a content in some representational mode.

[4] One might well ask why one should think as so many do, namely, that self-consciousness is a requirement of rationality. Surely, however, the connection is this: to be rational in the fullest sense of the word is to be able to take responsibility for one's representations, illocutions and indeed behaviour generally, in other words, to recognise that *one** has erred in this or that respect and that *one** ought, in whatever sense of 'ought' is applicable, to correct *one*'s* error. For this to be possible one must (be able to) 'know one*'s own mind, speech or deed,' i.e., be self-conscious. Just this points to the *pragmatic* priority and essentiality of the first-person pronoun and perspective.

recognising something as given to it* to be taken as a reason, *then* either taking or rejecting it as such a reason and responding appropriately. So in such communication there is, at least potentially if not always actually, two distinct aspects: first, *understanding*, then *acceptance*, of what is said as a reason for belief or action. Can the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception accommodate these?

Yet neither the understanding nor the acceptance of content is restricted to communication. Rational, hence self-conscious subjects as such are capable of wondering whether there is sufficient reason to believe contents or to make them true. Consequently, such a subject must be able to wonder whether it* is F, whether something F standing in relation R_n to it* is G or whether it* should perform the action A, and the like. The deepest question is thus whether the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception can accommodate the capacity, first, for non-committal understanding of something as a potential reason, then for the acceptance of it as an actual one. In other words, the deepest question is whether the conception is compatible with the very possibility of rational, hence self-conscious subjectivity. Just this shows that addressing the question of the *de se* is indeed, as Chapter Five claimed, an exercise in transcendental philosophy.

The property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception of content faces, however, another problem. David Lewis, arguably the most influential adherent of the conception, does not just appropriate Loar's general idea, he also explicates and extends it—explicates it *in order to* extend it. In the first instance, Lewis recognises that it is unsatisfactory to leave unexplicated, as Loar does, the self-ascriptive relation of a subject S to a property or propositional function in which, according to the general idea, representation *de se* consists. Lewis takes seriously an issue perhaps not seen, certainly not taken seriously enough, either by Loar or, in their own way, Perry and Musholt: recourse to the conception solely in order to account for representation and content *de se* leaves us with two apparently very different kinds of representation and content sitting alongside one another and it is unclear how they relate

conceptually[5] to one another—see Lewis 1979, p. 513f. Lewis thus attempts to explicate the general idea in such a way that it can be extended to all representation and content, whether *de se* or not—see Lewis 1979, p. 514. He adopts first an 'extensionalistic' account of properties (or propositional functions), then, with adaptations, Quine's notion of a centred possible world. This dual move permits explication of the general idea and its extension to all representation and content as such even as it preserves the distinction between what is and is not *de se*.

Neil Feit also endorses extension of the general idea. He rejects, however, Lewis's way of accomplishing it, this precisely because it presupposes an 'extensionalistic' conception of properties or propositional functions. Feit prefers "… a more Platonistic view …" (Feit 2008, p. 18), which, however, creates problems Lewis can avoid. Yet extension of whatever kind creates problems of its own. Unfortunately, an examination of the many issues involved here is not directly relevant to the task of expounding and defending the thesis of content inherently *de se*, so cannot be undertaken here.[6] By contrast, bifurcation of the notion of representation and content *de se* into those which do and those which do not involve an element in content marked by the asterisked third-person pronoun is directly relevant. Those who thus bifurcate do so because they believe that any such element would have to be first-personal, in which case the pronoun would over-attribute self-consciousness were it always to mark an element in content. Section II will therefore examine the bifurcating move, not the least in order to show that the not infrequent embrace[7] of a property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception of content merely for certain low-level cases, e.g., perceptual experience and proprioception, is no more coherent than the embrace of it for full-fledged representation and content *de se*. The main goal must be, however, to show that the idea that, to put things as we shall see

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5 As opposed to genetically.

6 It is, however, undertaken in Appendix I to Chapter Six.

7 Such as one finds in Perry 1986, 1998a and 1998b; Recanati 2007, Part 10, esp. Ch. 34; and Musholt 2015, Ch. 3.

loosely, content, however low-level, could be either a property or a propositional function is false. The main task must therefore be critique of the general idea itself, to be undertaken in Section I.

Section I: Loar's Self-Ascriptive Belief Relation

Lewis cites Loar's suggestion that one analyse "certain exceptional beliefs as self-ascription of properties (or "propositional functions")." (Lewis 1979, footnote 4, p. 519) These exceptional beliefs are precisely beliefs *de se*, i.e., ones with contents *de se*, as is shown by Loar's example of Watson, who, having seen "himself through some sort of mirror device" and concluded that "he is seeing a burglar," "… believes of Watson that he is a burglar, but he does not believe himself[*] to be a burglar." (Loar 1976, p. 358) Loar now goes on, first to label such beliefs self-ascriptive, then to suggest understanding the label as follows:

> If Cynthia believes that she[*] has the flu, then what is true is: B* (Cynthia, *y has the flu*). (Loar 1976, p. 358)[8]

In effect, Loar is suggesting an interpretation of sentences such as "Cynthia believes that she* has the flu" (and, of course, their first-personal counterparts) according to which the representation they attribute is a relation of their subject not to a proposition but to a propositional function or, equivalently, at least for current purposes, a property. Cynthia stands, not in a relation of belief to a proposition,[9] but in a relation of belief*, i.e., B*(*x*, *y is F*), to the propositional function or property '*y has the flu*'. As Loar puts it, Cynthia "… is related by the self-ascriptive belief relation to that propositional function." (Loar 1976, p. 358)

Evidently, Loar introduces "the self-ascriptive belief relation" by appeal to a sentence of the form "S believes that it* is F." He starts with something we ordinarily

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8 Perhaps Loar's use of the asterisk here reflects the influence of Castañeda.

9 At least not if by a proposition one means something more or less Fregean. Cynthia can be regarded, of course, as standing in an entirely derivative relation to a proposition in the Russellian sense, i.e., to an *n*-tuple whose members are Cynthia, the property of having the flu as well as the time and arguably location of belief, or rather, of B*(*x*, *y is F*).

understand, namely, Cynthia's believing that she* has the flu and the kind of sentence used to characterise it, in order to introduce something we do not ordinarily understand, viz., the two-place relation B*(*x*, *y has the flu*). At this point, it might seem that Loar is stipulatively defining the relation B*(*x*, *y is F*) to take subjects of belief S and properties F or propositional functions '*y is F*' as its arguments and to hold just in case S believes that he*, she* or it* is F. This in turn might lead one to ask what good his suggestion could serve. Surely its *prima facie* stipulative nature entails that it presupposes, hence cannot elucidate, the notion of belief *de se*?[10]

Loar and those who follow him would presumably respond to this objection as follows: his suggestion is to be understood as the postulation of a hypothesis as to how belief *de se* not only can but must be understood, given the success of a larger theoretical agenda. That belief *de se* is not merely stipulated to be but genuinely explicated by the so-called self-ascriptive belief relation is shown by the success of the agenda. So what is the agenda? For Loar it is to provide what he regards as a Fregean answer to the question of how singular terms refer. In particular, he seeks to show that "the function of a singular term is to introduce" what he calls "an individual concept into what is meant or expressed on its particular uses." (Loar 1976, p. 354) "(E)very normal utterance of a singular term" stands in "appropriate relation" to an individual concept such that "an object is referred to only if it satisfies the individual concept." (Loar 1976, p. 355)

An individual concept thus appears to be some individuating characterisation of the referent of a singular term expressed by the latter on the occasion of its utterance, i.e., use. This is not to claim that the characterisation constitutes the *meaning* of the singular term, for according to Loar this need not be so. Consider the singular term 'the daughter of the reporter' in the sentence "'The daughter of the reporter is a geologist'" (Loar 1976, p. 365). The individual concept expressed on the occasion of

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[10] Jason Stanley appears to argue along these lines against the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception of the *de se*—see Stanley 2011, pp. 88-89.

its use by this complex singular term may in fact be perspicuously articulated by another more complex and crucially also relational singular term, e.g., ‘the daughter of the reporter whom we see there’—see Loar 1976, p. 365. Singular terms do not map mechanically on to the individual concepts which pick out their referents, thereby enabling them to refer. What individual concept is expressed is a contextual, hence occasional matter. Crucially, it is also a relational matter, in particular, a relation of the utterance, hence the utterer, to the referent, even when, as in the example, the relation is quite complex. For in the example the relation is mediated by a relation of the referent to some other item, the reporter, namely, which itself stands in such and such relation to the utterance and its utterer.

This relation of referent to utterance and utterer creates a problem, however. Reference is something under the rational control of the referrer. The latter thus typically knows, or at least claims to know, what it* is referring to. In order to secure the possibility of this, the relational component of an individual concept introduces what the referrer itself would typically express by means of the first-person pronoun, another by means of the asterisked third-person pronoun. In Loar’s example, the referent of the singular term ‘the daughter of the reporter’, on the hypothetically envisaged occasion of its use, is also the daughter of someone “we see there,” as the referrer S and its conversation partner S✦ would put it. As another might put it, this referent is the daughter of the person the referrer S sees there*, possibly in front of it*, whom S also assumes S✦ similarly to see there*, presumably in front of S, which situation is mutually known to S and S✦. Loar gestures towards this when he writes,

> The objects of my beliefs and utterances are often individuated for me by virtue of relations in which they uniquely stand to me. So, in a sense, beliefs about them are beliefs about myself … . (Loar 1976, p. 357)

He then concludes that “understanding the nature of the individuating conceptions I have of other objects requires some understanding of the nature of my beliefs about myself. (Loar 1976, p. 357) With this, he arrives at the problem:

> Having a belief about oneself clearly does not require having a purely qualitative individuating conception of oneself: one need only imagine the early stages of amnesia to see that. Nor is my believing myself to be such and such simply a matter of having a *de re* belief about myself. (Loar 1976, pp. 357-358)

In other words, in order to ensure the character of reference as under the rational control of the referrer, at least some individuating conceptions must be such that their perspicuous linguistic expression involves a reference to the utterer, one, however, *not* enabled by such an individuating conception, since otherwise a vicious regress would ensue.

It now becomes clear why precisely at this point Loar turns first to his example of Watson, then to his suggestion that one understand belief *de se* as "the self-ascriptive belief[*] relation." In referring to the daughter of the reporter, S is perceptually related to a person standing in front of S whom S sees there and whom S knows to be both the reporter and, let us allow, A. So at time *t* and *l* S perceives A standing then* and (over) there*,[11] hence presumably believes A to be standing then* and there*, in front of it*. Consequently, if we allow that S's perceptual experience is also self-ascriptive,[12] what is true according to Loar is both that P*(S, *t*, *l*, *A is standing at y and z in front of x*); and that B*(S, *t*, *l*, *A is standing at y and z in front of x*)—*y*, *z* and *x* being, of course, variables ranging over times, locations and subjects while the expression '*A is standing at y and z in front of x*' connotes a propositional function.

Note now that in these self-ascriptive reformulations, reference to S is accomplished in a fashion entirely concordant with Loar's more or less Fregean conception of it, for it is accomplished by whatever individual concept is expressed on the occasion by the singular term 'S'. Insofar as this term is understood as a name, the individual concept will be that of being the individual or person called 'S' since in the

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[11] *Prima facie*, if the asterisked third-person pronoun can and should be treated in Loar's way, then so, too, should the asterisked adverbs of time and place.

[12] This could end up following trivially, if, namely, Loar should conceive of perceptual experience as just a very low-level form of belief.

case of a name N "(t)he individual concept … essential to what is meant … has the form *the F called N*." (Loar 1976, p. 370) So when S's representations are understood in Loar's self-ascriptive fashion, they show themselves to be contentful in such a fashion that their perspicuous linguistic expression unproblematically involves a Fregean reference to S. One now need not conclude that not all reference is enabled by an individual concept expressed by the use of a term, which conclusion is the threat *prima facie* presented to a Fregean conception by both the first-person and the asterisked third-person pronoun.[13] Note that this way of averting the threat does not entail that these pronouns can no longer be regarded as themselves referring although it perhaps now becomes mysterious why one so regards them.[14]

Thus, if Loar's account of how singular terms in general refer is true, as would be evidenced by successful contribution to "a semantical theory for a language" (Loar 1976, p. 353), then so, too, is his account of belief *de se* in terms of "the self-ascriptive belief relation" B*(*x*, *y is F*). But what exactly is this relation? And how does the idea generalise, as it surely must. There is, after all, not only belief *de se* but as just seen, presumably also perception *de se*. Indeed, there is also desire *de se*, as when Fido the small pug desires that it* not be attacked by the large pit bull charging aggressively towards it*: D*(Fido, *y* is not attacked by the large pit bull charging aggressively towards *y*). These questions become pressing once one realises that the general self-ascriptive idea, hence the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception of content *de se*, cannot be justified *solely* by appeal to its capacity to avert a threat to an otherwise successful, more or less Fregean semantics of singular terms. This is no more true of the more or less Fregean semantic theory Loar envisages than it is of the main competitor to such a theory, namely, possible world semantics. When,

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[13] See Appendix II to Chapter Six for an account of how more precisely this threat is averted, hence of how more precisely these pronouns present a threat.

[14] As one might put the point, while it does not entail that they are not referential, it also does not entail that they are, hence leaves their apparently referential character unexplained, which in turn raises the question of why they should be there, indeed, why they should be conventionally required to be there, at all.

for example, it is suggested that if necessarily 2+2 = 4, what is true is that in all possible worlds 2+2 = 4, one may insist, indeed many actually have insisted, that more be said about what a possible world is. One does not rest content, and many have not rested content, either with whatever initial spelling out is provided by the adjective 'possible' and the noun 'world', or with the powerful formal machinery one can develop out of the suggestion by appeal to a well-understood set theory. One acknowledges that the notion of a possible world must be further elaborated since *prima facie* it involves all sorts of problematic ontological commitments.

Something similar applies in the case of the self-ascriptive belief relation. True, one has the symbolism 'B*(Cynthia, *y* has the flu)', a pre-theoretical understanding of properties and functions as applying to individuals, and the hypothesis that if the symbolism is understood as a sentence necessarily equivalent in what it expresses to what is expressed by the sentence "Cynthia believes that she* has the flu," key goals of "a [more or less Fregean] semantical theory for a language" (Loar 1976, p. 353) can be accomplished. But more must be said about what "the self-ascriptive belief relation" is since however neatly it might solve a problem for Loar's envisaged "semantical theory," there might be some difficulty lurking within it, just as within the notion of a possible world there is the problem of how strongly we are to understand claims that *there are* such things. No doubt whatever problem there might be for "the self-ascriptive belief relation" is more subtle, consisting presumably in failure to accommodate something one expects representation and content *de se* to be able to do. Might there be something one expects them to enable which, when they are conceived self-ascriptively, they cannot? Only by saying more can one answer this question.

Now at least part of what more is required consists in providing some account of *how* the self-ascriptive relation B*(*x*, *y is F*), when supplied with appropriate arguments, might constitute a cognitive representation perspicuously characterisable in those ordinary everyday terms which employ the asterisked third-person pronoun.

How might B*(Cynthia, *y has the flu*) make it the case that the sentence "Cynthia believes that she* has the flu" expresses a distinctive truth—one such that perspicuous characterisation requires the kind of reference accomplished by the asterisked third-person or, as the case may be, the first-person pronoun? There is surely only one way. One must say, not just of Cynthia's belief, but also of the small pug's seeing a large pit bull charging aggressively towards it* and its desire that it* not be attacked by the large pit bull charging aggressively towards it*, that "the essential self-relatedness [expressed by either the asterisked third-person or the first-person pronoun] is provided by a fact that is *external* to the content of experience itself, namely, by the mode of presentation." (Musholt 2015, p. 80) In other words, one must allow that sometimes *representational mode*, not "a self-referring component" (Musholt 2015, p. 80) within representation itself, can determine that ordinary, everyday perspicuous characterisation of content by means of a 'that'-clause requires use of either the first-person or the asterisked third-person pronoun. Perhaps the defining feature and accomplishment of a distinctively *self-ascriptive* representational mode R*(*x*, *y is F*) is that *it* renders the subject *qua* subject constitutive of the identity of content *qua* what is individuated by the appropriate 'that'-clause. If so, we can explain why, in the case of such representational modes, use of either the first-person or the asterisked third-person pronoun is required for ordinary, everyday perspicuous characterisation by means of a 'that'-clause.

At this point, a problem arises. Peter Pagin argues that if one attempts to account in this way for the fact, indeed, the necessity, of either the first-person or the asterisked third-person pronoun in ordinary, everyday perspicuous characterisation by means of a 'that'-clause, one encounters a serious problem which "comes to light when considering communication" although it does not concern, as Pagin doubtless realises, communication alone. He first characterises the alleged accomplishment of the cognitively self-ascriptive representational mode B*(*x*, *y is F*): it ensures that the subject of an instance of B*, i.e., the value of '*x*', "is not represented … . Rather, it is

the *belief-mode* [more accurately put, the *B*-mode*], or *belief- force* [once again, more accurately put, the *B*-force*], in the form of self-ascription, that makes the connection" (Pagin 2016, p. 275) between the subject *qua* subject and the subject *qua* what is referred to in the 'that'-clause one would ordinarily use in order to characterise the representation perspicuously—a 'that'-clause containing the first-person or asterisked third-person pronoun, of course. He then indicates the problem: this conception of how the subject *qua* subject becomes constitutive of the identity of content "means that a subject cannot merely *entertain* the … thought [i.e., content] that she[*] has a certain property; what she entertains is just the content of the representation of the *property*." According to Pagin,

> (t)his does not matter for *belief* [i.e., *B**], which by definition *has* force. But it does matter for communication, because the hearer does not automatically *believe* the speaker: typically we first *understand*, then perhaps form a new belief. (Pagin 2016, p. 275)

The problem lying at the heart of any property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception is therefore this: how can a subject S grasp something as what one would ordinarily describe as the content that it*, S, is F, i.e., *without* instantiating the self-ascriptive belief relation B*(*x*, *y is F*)? Most generally put, how can a subject S understand something as what one would ordinarily describe as the content that it*, S, is F *without* instantiating some self-ascriptive relation or other—say, the self-ascriptive perception relation P*(*x*, *y is F*), the self-ascriptive desire relation D*(*x*, *y is F*), or whatever other such relations there might be? Any version of the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception, however it is conceived more specifically, must assume that the self-ascriptive representational or illocutionary relation of a subject to a property or propositional function constitutes the whole representation or illocution as the representation or illocution it is, possessed of a certain representational or illocutionary force. Yet it must also explain—for how else is one to explain it?—the character of such representation or illocution *de se* as *personal*, the fact, namely, that it requires for its ordinary, everyday perspicuous

characterisation by means of a 'that'-clause use of either the first-person or the asterisked third-person pronoun. One and the same thing, the self-ascriptive representational or illocutionary relation, accounts for both.

It now immediately follows that a subject S cannot entertain what one would ordinarily describe as the content that it*, S, is F without standing in some self-ascriptive representational or illocutionary relation. As applied specifically to Loar's self-ascriptive *belief* relation, S cannot entertain the content that it* is F, i.e., wonder whether it* is F, without believing that it* is F. By making *any* self-ascriptive representational or illocutionary relation responsible *both* for representation or illocution *de se* as a whole; *and* for character as having (what one would ordinarily, pre-theoretically describe as) a content *de se*, one collapses the grasping or understanding of content and the acceptance of it—in the case of the self-ascriptive *belief* relation, acceptance of content as true, then, on this basis, as a reason for belief and action. Yet any adequate account of representation, illocution, locution and content *de se* must enable, not collapse, this distinction.

Musholt constitutes a good example of commitment to the idea that at least in some cases one can speak of a self-ascriptive representational relation which plays this dual role. She gives an extended account[15] of how the modes of perception and bodily experience so set their subject S in relation to a property or propositional function that thereby a form of representation about S is constituted of which one may truly assert such sentences as "S sees a tree then* and there*," hence "S believes that a tree is in front of it* then* and there*," "S sees a large truck hurtling then* and thence* towards it*," etc. Moreover, in elaborating this account, Musholt mentions others as precedents for the idea, *inter alia* Perry and, in particular, Recanati. The latter, she says, endorses a view "similar to the view defended here" since according to Recanati

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[15] See Musholt 2015, § 3.4.1, pp. 55-67.

> experiential states such as those involved in perception and bodily experience [proprioception and the like] are self-less in the sense that they do not represent the self. *Rather, the specific relation that the content of these states bears to the subject is provided by the experiential mode*. (Musholt 2015, p. 82; italics added)

Yet how could experiential mode possibly play this role—the role, that is, of ensuring that the subject[16] of representation or illocution, in its capacity as the subject of representation or illocution, is constitutive of the identity of content, such that content *qua* what is individuated by a 'that'-clause requires either the first-person or the asterisked third-person pronoun? Implicitly, Pagin is asking this question. Indeed, implicitly he is also asking whether one can, on the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception, still distinguish in any coherent fashion between mode and content at all.

Let us take the latter question first. Consider the following passages:

> Lewis argues that the contents of knowledge and belief are sometimes properties. To have a property as the content of one's belief is to *self-ascribe* the property. (Torre 2016, p. 9)

> (T)he content of a bodily experience need not contain an explicitly self-referring component for bodily experience to fulfill its functional role. Rather, the content of the bodily experience consists in the property alone, without containing a component that refers to the subject role (cf. Recanati, 2007, 2012) Likewise, that visual perception is necessarily subject relative is not part of the explicit content of perception; rather, it is implicit in the sense that the agent-relative roles of the objects that are being perceived are necessarily relative to the perceiving subject and not just any subject. (Musholt 2015, p. 100)

> The theory of content that I shall be defending is not new. It was developed by Roderick Chisholm and David Lewis (independently) in the late 1970's. According to this theory, the content of my belief that I am left-handed is not a proposition; it is a *property*. In particular, it is the property *being left-handed*. (Feit 2008, p. iii)

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[16] And, for that matter, the time and the location of representation in the case of representation or illocution *de nunc* and *de hic* respectively.

Here Torre, Musholt and Feit all unambiguously state that according to Lewis and Recanati, indeed according to Musholt and Feit themselves, the content of a representation can sometimes be a property rather than a proposition.[17]

When, however, S believes that it*, *S*, is F and S✦ believes that it*, *S*✦, is F, the same property or propositional function is involved yet content in the sense of what one would ordinarily describe as what is represented is different.[18] So content as standardly understood, i.e., understood as what accounts for causal role and is individuated by a 'that'-clause, cannot be simply identical with a property or propositional function. Torre, Musholt and Feit should have made clear from the outset that in speaking thus, they are using the word 'content' non-standardly. In particular, they should have explained that they are using the word to connote what one is related to by the self-ascriptive mode B*(*x*, *y is F*) or by whatever other self-ascriptive modes there might be, say, the perceptually self-ascriptive mode P*(*x*, *y is F*), the conatively self-ascriptive mode D*(*x*, *y is F*) or indeed the assertorically self-ascriptive mode A*(*x*, *y is F*). This kind of contentfulness *explains*, they should have said, contentfulness in the aforementioned standard sense.

Appreciation that Torre, Musholt and Feit are speaking too casually yields further insight: if one speaks as they do, then not only can one not mean by content what explains causal role, one also cannot speak of mode or force in the standard sense. Precisely for this reason, Loar writes, not 'Believes(*x*, *y is F*)', which is solecistic, but 'B*(*x*, *y is F*)', which is neologistic: short of the definition by which it was introduced, one has no idea what 'B*(*x*, *y is F*)' means.[19] Nor will it do to fall back

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[17] In Section II below we shall see Perry to say the same kind of thing.

[18] This is not to deny that there is an ordinary sense—*another* ordinary sense, of course—in which S and S✦ 'believe the same.' Both beliefs obviously have the same *type* of content in the sense of what is believed, so in this different but related sense they 'believe the same'.

[19] This only underscores the fact that unless one extends, in the manner of Lewis and Feit, the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception to all forms of representation and locution as such, one confronts an inexplicable dualism in kinds of content. It now becomes all the more crucial to explain just how a subject can so relate to a content in this non-standard sense that thereby a form of representation is constituted with content in a more everyday sense, in particular,

upon stipulation-*cum*-hypothesis-redeemed-by-theoretical-success. This only works if there is no undeniable feature of representation *de se* rendered impossible by the property-theoretic or propositionally functional idea. Yet Pagin is arguing that there *is* such a feature. In fact, his complaint is the following: *because* "the connection between the content and the [subject] is not representational," that is, *because* "the [subject] is not represented … in the content of the thought," there is nothing left but "the ... *mode*, or ... *force*, in the form of self-ascription" to make "the connection" and this will not do. (Pagin 2016, p. 275) For even if in some way one still can speak of " … *mode*, or … *force*, in the form of self-ascription," this must occur wherever self-ascription is. So the general idea itself leaves only one thing left for the subject to entertain *without* standing in the relation B*(x, y *is* F), namely, the property self-ascribed, or as Pagin perhaps more accurately puts it, "the representation of the *property*." This is precisely why Torre, Musholt and Feit speak as they do—wrongly, as we now see.

Crucially, *pace* Pagin, "this does … matter for belief" and it matters precisely because belief has, as Pagin puts it, "by definition … force." (Pagin 2016, p. 275) In fact, it matters for belief in *exactly* the same way in which it matters for communication. Even for a believing, not just a communicating subject, it must be possible not simply to "automatically believe" but to understand what he or she believes without *eo ipso* believing it. Only then can a potential believer entertain a content in the sense of considering whether he* or she* has sufficient reason for believing it. So this content cannot be merely the property ascribed but rather content in the aforementioned standard sense, i.e., that which constitutes difference in causal role between beliefs, hence requires for its perspicuous individuation 'that'-clauses involving different references even as the property ascribed is the same. Entertaining something in the sense implicated in the rational acquisition of belief requires that

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with content *qua* what is individuated by a 'that'-clause involving either the first-person or the asterisked third-person pronoun.

what is entertained be a content in this quotidian sense. And since a belief can only be acquired and possessed rationally if one is able to reflect on *one's** content, thereby coming to know what it is *one** taking as a candidate for *one's** rational belief, the attribution of representations and, for that matter, locutions and illocutions to oneself as *one*'s own* similarly requires that what is entertained be a content in the everyday sense.[20] Only content in this sense is content a subject can relate to it without representing or illocuting it. And such relation to such a content is required both for the rational acquisition of belief and for knowledge of belief as one*'s own.

This point may be generalised to non-cognitive forms of representation since these, too, must be capable of both rational acquisition and self-attribution. For ultimately, the point Pagin seeks to make does not turn on the fact that belief or any other kind of representation or illocution "… *has* force." (Pagin 2016, p. 275) Rather, it turns on *how* representation or illocution has, as Pagin puts it, force, namely, in such a way that one maintains a clear distinction between ascription of a property F to something *a* in the sense of believing or asserting that *a* is F; and ascription of a property F to something *a* in the sense of having as a content of belief or assertion something whose perspicuous expression requires predicating '… is F', hence derivatively F-ness, of *a*. In other words, for rationality and self-attribution to be possible, one must insist on a distinction between self-ascription in a representational or illocutionary sense—as one might put it, self-ascription at the level of mode—; and self-ascription in a predicative sense—self-ascription at the level of content. *De facto*, the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception obliterates this distinction.[21]

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[20] At this point one sees why the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception of content could not be embraced by theorists of communication and rationality such as Apel and Habermas. See in this connection Apel 1981 and Habermas 1982.

[21] One might think that the inability of the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception to accommodate the entertaining of content, hence essentially self-conscious deliberation thereupon, need not present a problem for those who bifurcate the class of representations *de se* into those which count as "*explicit self-representation*," which entails at least capacity for "genuine self-conscious thought," (Musholt 2015, p. 26); and those which do not thus count. After all, beings like the small pug are not able to deliberate, hence have no need to entertain content. So surely for their representations *de se* the property-theoretic or propositionally functional account is adequate.

But surely, one might object, the entertaining of a thought is itself a representational mode. So why not claim that what Loar and others have done for belief and desire can also be done for it? Why not suggest taking the notion of entertaining to be such that when Cynthia entertains the thought that she* has the flu, what is true is E*(Cynthia, *y has the flu*)? Clearly, even if the entertaining of a thought is in some sense a representational mode, this suggestion is simple-minded. When one speaks, say, in connection with communication, of entertaining a thought, i.e., a content, what is at issue is consideration of whether the content proffered to one for acceptance as true is true. Thus, when in this sense Cynthia entertains the content that she* has the flu, she is considering whether she* has sufficient reason for believing it. What, therefore, one needs to suggest is that when Cynthia entertains the content that she* has the flu, what is true is E*(Cynthia, *y has sufficient reason for believing that she* has the flu*). This revised formulation of the self-ascriptive entertaining relation immediately shows the asterisked third-person pronoun to be indispensable. One cannot suggest, for example, that what is true is that E*(Cynthia, *z has sufficient reason for B*(Cynthia, y has the flu*)). For this would entail that Cynthia, in believing rationally and self-consciously that she* has the flu, such that she has this belief under her rational control, hence could ascribe it to herself*, also believed that she* is Cynthia. Needless to say, this entailment is invalid and the only way to block it would be to deny that when Cynthia believes that she* has the flu, what is true is B*(Cynthia, *y has the flu*). Thereby, however, one would have undermined "the self-ascriptive belief relation" entirely. It immediately follows that Cynthia cannot know that the belief up for her rational consideration is belief that *she** has the flu *if* either the belief itself or the entertaining of its content is understood in terms of the

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This thought grounds in a serious misunderstanding of the argument presented here. The argument in effect shows that the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception cannot accommodate the deliberatability-upon, hence entertainability of content, irrespective of whether the subject whose content it is is actually able to deliberate upon, hence entertain it or not. All contents, however, irrespective of who or what has them, need to be deliberatable-upon, hence entertainable, and so they must possess mode-independent predicative structure. That there are beings who cannot exploit the entertainability of their own contents is orthogonal to the issue.

property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception. The self-ascriptive entertaining relation E*(*x*, *y has sufficient reason for believing that p*) only confirms what its introduction was meant to refute.

One must therefore conclude that the general idea of a self-ascriptive representational or illocutionary relation upon which all property-theoretic or propositionally functional accounts rest is confused. It conflates self-ascription in a sense entailing some kind of representational or illocutionary force with self-ascription in a sense presupposed by the latter, namely, the *predicative* ascription of a property to the subject of representation or illocution in this latter's capacity as subject. Insofar as one means by such predicative ascription quite literally an act of predication, one is speaking of the combining of a predicate expressing a property or propositional function with either the first-person or the asterisked third-person pronoun. Insofar as one means the psychological or illocutionary reality perspicuously characterised by the whole ascriptive sentence in which this complex of predicate and pronoun is embedded, one is speaking of a content whose structure requires this linguistic complex, hence the appropriate pronoun, for its perspicuous characterisation. And it requires this complex because the complex reflects the structure of the content attributed (in whatever representational or illocutionary mode).

If, however, self-ascription in the representational or illocutionary sense presupposes even as it differs from self-ascription in a predicative sense, then the pronouns must be taken as referring *in virtue of an element in content*. This permits one then to take this element as explaining why each pronoun, each in its different but interconnected way, refers. Yet neither brings any individual concept, hence Fregean sense with it, at least not as Loar conceives such sense. There are therefore contents whose perspicuous characterisation requires expressions which do not behave in the putatively Fregean manner envisaged by Loar. Indeed, they do not behave in

conformity to any standard model of reference, whether of the kind advocated by Loar or not. How can this be possible? This question will be addressed in Chapter Seven.

Section II: Perceptual Content and the Asterisk

As already noted, both Musholt and Perry embrace a bifurcated account of what the asterisked third-person pronoun accomplishes. Consider all psychological representations for whose perspicuous characterisation the asterisked third-person pronoun is appropriate. According to Musholt and Perry, sometimes it will correspond to, hence express an element in the content of said representation, something essentially first-personal in virtue of which the content to which the element belongs counts as an 'I'-thought, the representation with this content as an explicit self-representation. Musholt calls this element a self-concept, Perry a self-notion. On other occasions, however, the asterisked third-person pronoun, even though it remains possible, indeed mandatory, does not mark an element in content. In such cases, the representation at issue is, as Musholt puts it, "… "self-less …"" (Musholt 2015, p. 47), which means, as Perry puts it, that "(t)here is no need for a self-referring component … , no idea or representation of ourselves" (Perry 1986b, p. 182), in content. These forms of representation will be, on the one hand, *all* those of which non- and pre-linguistic beings such as non-human animals and infants are capable; and, on the other, perceptual representations as such, whether or not the subject thereof is linguistic, concept-wielding or self-conscious.

Musholt goes on to claim that 'selfless' forms of representation, such as perceptual experience and, for that matter, proprioception can be explicated "in terms of affordances provided by the environment" (Musholt 2015 p. 37), hence in some more or less Gibsonian manner.[22] Now it is not clear how well this sits with her

[22] See esp. pp. 47-50. On p. 47 Musholt mentions Gibson and on p. 48 she uses the word 'affordance'. Given how the notion of 'selflessness' has just been defined, the claim that perceptual experience and other low-level forms of representation can be explicated in terms of affordances, hence in more or less Gibsonian manner, entails that a representation thus explicable is 'selfless'. It is, however, not obviously incoherent to deny that the converse holds, i.e., to hold that one can embrace 'selfless' representations without being Gibsonian. This would appear to be Perry's

characterisation of perceptual experience as representational, hence as structured in terms of mode and content.[23] Nor is this situation improved by her construal of the content of perceptual experience and the like as non-conceptual.[24] For even if the content of perceptual experience is non-conceptual, it is still content, so perceptual experience is still understood as structured in terms of mode and content, hence as a form of *representation*. Such an understanding of perceptual experience would be possible if, as Musholt claims, "content can be understood as a form of procedural representation or knowledge-how." (Musholt 2015, p. 40) But surely it cannot be thus understood. Content, whether conceptual or non-conceptual, cannot simply *be* a know-how, however conceived, whether as a general skill or as an ability or disposition to behave in some specific way with regard to specific items in the environment. *Prima facie*, it is solecistic to speak of a procedure, of a knowing-how, as a possible content of representation. Considerable explanation and further elaboration is therefore needed before we can accept that "content can be understood as a form of procedural representation or knowledge-how."

In any case, "to experience a sound as coming from behind" is surely one thing, "to be in a position [i.e., presumably able] to locate its origin" (Musholt 2015, pp. 37-38) another. In other words, no experience simply *is* an ability or disposition. Whatever behaviour might in some sense count as the locating of a sound as coming from behind—say, turning around to face in the direction of the sound, moving towards or, as the case may be, away from it, etc.—cannot be literally identified with the psychological reality, the experience, driving it. For one only knows what behaviour

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position in Perry 1986b. Admittedly, even here Perry briefly mentions Gibson—see p. 119—and his later writings suggest a certain Gibsonianism, e.g., Perry 2002b, in which he speaks of "epistemic/pragmatic relations"—see pp. 197-202.

23 "The content of a mental state needs to be distinguished both from its vehicle (i.e., the mental state itself) and from its intentional object or objects (i.e., the aspect or aspects of the world that are being represented) … ." (Musholt 2015, p. 29)

24 "(I)t is necessary to posit forms of nonconceptual representation to account for the nature of perceptual experience and for the existence of intentional behaviour in creatures that do not possess conceptual abilities, and to provide a rough outline of potential ways of specifying the content of these representations." (Musholt 2015, p. 42)

counts on the occasion as thus locating a sound if one knows the psychological reality driving it, i.e., knows the behaver to have experienced, better, to have *perceived*, a sound as coming from behind. Nor may one say that "to experience a sound as coming from behind … is *to take oneself* to be in a particular position to locate its origin" (Musholt 2015, pp. 37-38; italics added), for what does "take oneself" mean here?[25] That one forms the belief that one* is in a position to locate the origin of the sound? This cannot literally *be* the experience since not even we self-conscious human subjects, much less the small pug, need form any such belief when experiencing a sound as coming from behind.

The fact that no know-how or behavioural procedure, no disposition or ability to behave, can be identified with either the experience itself of a sound as coming from behind or with the content thereof has led others sympathetic to Gibson and the notion of affordance, e.g., Dreyfus,[26] not to an anti-*conceptualist* account of perceptual and proprioceptive *content* according to which the latter is know-how but to an anti-*representationalist* account of perception and proprioception as such. Perception and proprioception are, they insist, not representational at all, so much so that even describing them as items with content becomes suspect. It is true that "a conceptual connection exists between the content of experience and an organism's abilities for intentional action …" (Musholt 2015, p. 39) but this does not license the conclusion "that nonconceptual content can be understood as a form of procedural representation

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[25] One might object that this is too quick. Why, one might ask, cannot the experiencing of a sound as coming from behind be a matter of experiencing, or being aware of, certain sensorimotor possibilities in relation to the (apparent) source of the sound? The very formulation of this objection shows what is wrong with it: the experience of a sound as coming from behind surely cannot be the experience or even the mere awareness *of certain, indeed any sensorimotor possibilities*, whether in relation to the (apparent) source of a sound or not. For this implies that in experiencing the sound, the subject of experience (also?) becomes aware of the sensorimotor possibilities rendered appropriate and/or possible by the fact that a sound is coming from behind. More generally put, it implies that in experiencing *X*, a subject becomes aware of its experiencing of *X*. Not only does this insinuate far too much self-awareness than anything of which the pug would be capable, it also insinuates "(w)hat Castañeda understands by the Fichtean thesis," namely, "that all consciousness [i.e., conscious representation] is [*actual*] self-consciousness … ." (Hart 1999, p. 25) This is phenomenologically false and looks viciously regressive.

[26] See, e.g., Dreyfus 1991.

or knowledge-how." (Musholt 2015, p. 40) Content, whether conceptual or not, can no more be *identified* with general skill or specific ability than it can be identified, in classic behaviourist fashion, with disposition, this for the very same reason: if the identification is to be sufficient, the *identificans* must be characterised in a manner which presupposes the *identificandum*, in which case it is circular. As already seen in the critique of Perry's early account of belief as the acceptance of a sentence, all such abilities and dispositions *presuppose* the relevant form of representation in all its contentfulness.

Last but not least, Musholt goes on to claim that

> the nonconceptual content of perception provides the subject with a form of knowing-how (e.g., "knowing-how-to-interact-with-the-tree-in-front"), not with a form of knowing-that (e.g., "that there is a tree in front"). While the latter is truth evaluable, the former is not. (Musholt 2015, p. 61)

Yet it surely cannot be denied that perceptual experience can be right or wrong, depending both on what its content and how the world are. So in this sense the content of perceptual experience *is* evaluable—evaluable in a manner very close to, *prima facie* even a form of, truth-evaluability. When S sees at *t* and *l* either a tree standing then* and (over) there*, or, as Musholt wants to say, a tree standing in front, S undergoes at *t* and *l* an experience with a content in some sense veridical, hence in some possibly only derivative sense true, if and only if there is a tree then* and (over) there* or, let us for the moment grant, simply in front. Irrespective of which formulation one prefers, S's perceptual experience is truth-evaluable, even if only derivatively—truth evaluable in a way no know-how is.[27]

At the very least, then, it is incumbent upon Musholt to give an account of the veridicality and non-veridicality of perceptual experience, in other words, of that

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[27] Note, incidentally, how its not mattering which of these two formulations one prefers illustrates a point made initially, namely, that one must distinguish between a Gibsonian account of perceptual experience in terms of affordances; and the only claim of relevance here, the claim, namely, that perceptual experience is "self-less," i.e., contains no element in its content which 'represents' the subject.

distinctively perceptual kind of evaluability which one articulates using the aforementioned kind of biconditional. Furthermore, given that she regards the content of perceptual experience as non-conceptual, she must also show how non-conceptual content can possess such evaluability. Yet this is still not to show how *know-how* could be evaluable in an appropriately biconditional, truth-like way, i.e., evaluable with respect to how some aspect of the world is. Know-how is simply not evaluable in this sense, in which case it is not a possible content. That this is so is indirectly intimated by Musholt herself: "the content of perception," which she takes to be non-conceptual, "*provides* the subject with a form of knowing-how (e.g., "knowing-how-to-interact-with-the-tree-in-front") … ." (Musholt 2015, p. 61; italics added) No doubt in some sense the content of perception thus provides, but not in a sense which would entail identity with what it provides.

Precisely for these reasons, those who endorse the idea of non-conceptual content sometimes take images rather than abilities or dispositions to behave as their model. Yet while this move permits retention of the idea of content, hence of representation itself, it confronts an arguably decisive problem. Images do not, at least not in and of themselves, possess the right kind of evaluability, namely, evaluability with respect to how some *specific* or, perhaps better, some *individual* aspect of the world is. A picture of a man dressed in an early nineteenth century French military uniform with his arm in his waistcoat is not *eo ipso* a picture of Napoleon. Only certain *external* causal relations, some, of course, social, psychological and historical, make it this; in and of itself, the picture depicts merely a *type* of individual. Yet representations and their contents are *in and of themselves* about *this* rather than *that* bit of reality, however type-identical the bits may be.[28]

The concern here, however, is neither with non-conceptualist accounts of certain kinds of content nor with non-representationalist accounts of what might appear to be

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[28] Perhaps Evans can be read as making this kind of point when he writes that "the content of [a] photograph can be represented by [an] *open* sentence … ." (Evans 1982, p. 125; italics added)

certain kinds of representation.[29] Rather, concern lies solely with the claim that at least some forms of representation are "self-less" in that they contain no element in their content whose linguistic expression is a reference to the subject. Viewed simply as making this claim, it is tempting to understand both Musholt's and Perry's views as simply an application of the general property-theoretic or propositionally functional idea, as articulated by Loar. If this were straightforwardly so, then one could dispense with it quickly: the critique given in Section I of the general idea would also apply to them. Unfortunately, this is not quite so. Their kind of view does not map simply onto the general idea. In fact, setting it in relation to the latter is a task more complex than it first seems.

In the same essay in which he speaks of there being at least sometimes no need for a self-referring component or a representation of ourselves in content, Perry argues that at least sometimes a more elegant account of purposive behaviour is achieved if the contents of the representations, in particular, the beliefs, driving it are taken to be "propositional functions, rather than complete propositions … ." (Perry 1986b, p. 179) Note that this is not *eo ipso* to embrace Loar's general idea since Loar never speaks of propositional functions as even sometimes the contents *of belief*. Rather, the propositional function expressed by '*y* is F' is taken as an element in the 'content' of B*(*x*, *y is F*), this latter being that in terms of which certain kinds of belief are *as a whole* explicated. Loar does this for an obvious reason: the sentential function '*y* is F' does not articulate anything believable. Now Perry bases his claim that sometimes contents are "propositional functions, rather than complete propositions …" on another of those plastic examples he is so uniquely able to devise, the Z-landers, namely, and their discourse about the weather.[30] Yet the claim *misinterprets* the example upon which it is based. More accurate interpretation of the example would yield the conclusion that contents of belief and assertion are sometimes true or false

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[29] Arguably, Heidegger has a better account of what Gibson and others are seeing through a glass but darkly when they speak of affordances—see Christensen 2007a.

[30] See Perry 1986b, pp. 176-178.

only *relative to something*, which latter is not represented in content. In particular, it would yield the conclusion that Z-land does not need to be represented in content because Z-lander belief and assertion about the weather stand in systematic, indeed invariant relation to Z-land, such that the truth or falsity of content is always relative to it. From this, however, it does not follow, as Section II of Chapter Three has already pointed out, that sometimes the contents of belief and assertion are *incomplete*, hence "propositional functions, rather than complete propositions."

This line of thought can be extended. No doubt it would be wrong to say that when a subject S asserts, "I see a tree," the relevant perceptual experience is invariably a matter of S's seeing at *t* and *l* a tree standing then* *in front of it**. Yet it would be equally wrong to say that perspicuous characterisation requires reference to nothing but the tree. Both the temporal and spatial position of the tree *vis-à-vis* S needs somehow to be factored into characterisation of S's perceptual experience if such characterisation is to be perspicuous. There is really only one way to do this, in particular, to do this in a way which avoids reference to S itself: one must say that S perceives at *t* and *l* a tree standing *then* and (over) there**—the asterisked adverbs 'then*' and '(over) there*' capturing the character of S's experience as such that were S to reflect at $t^{\star}$ upon the experience it* underwent at, or perhaps rather across, *t*, it would recognise the tree to be standing then* at some location, say, to its* right, slightly above it*, more or less in front of it*, and so on. Doubtless this diffuse field of information becomes articulated or, as Musholt would put it,[31] *conceptualised*, in such reflection, hence is itself originally, i.e., as a feature of perceptual content, non-conceptual. Even so, S's perceptual experience at *t* and *l* is itself essentially and inherently such as to be veridical if and only if there is a tree standing then* and (over) there*, hence possesses a content which is to this extent *also* conceptual. This suggests two important conclusions: firstly, *perceptual* representational content is neither simply conceptual nor simply non-conceptual but always a functional unity of

[31] See, e.g., Musholt 2015, p. 59.

Begriff und Anschauung; and secondly, that only as such a unity can perceptual representation play its distinctively perceptual causal role.[32]

There is thus a sense in which Musholt is right. At least in *this kind of* perceptual experience there is no reference in (the perspicuous characterisation of) content to the perceiving subject. Yet it does not follow from this that there is never such reference in (the perspicuous characterisation of) any perceptual experience at all. Consider once again the small pug, which at *t* and *l* sees a large pit bull charging aggressively towards it*. It surely makes no sense to claim that use of the asterisked third-person pronoun is gratuitous here, as if the sentence "The small pug sees at *t* and *l* a large pit bull charging aggressively towards" were just as good or even made sense. Only if the small pug is referred to does one capture the fact that the small pug is the target of the pit bull's aggression. And the only way to capture this fact in its relevance for the generation and explanation of the pug's behaviour is to refer to the pug by means of the asterisked third-person pronoun. Even if some perceptual experiences are "self-less" in the sense just conceded, not all are, nor can they be.

To appreciate this is to see that the following passage from Musholt needs revision. She begins with Campbell's account

> of [what he calls] egocentric spatial representation. As Campbell puts it, "The egocentric frame used in vision employs monadic spatial notions, such as 'to the right,' 'to the left,' 'above,' 'in front,' and so on, rather than relational notions, such as 'to my right,' 'above me,' 'in front of me,' and so on." (Campbell, 1994, p. 119). So we should not think that the content of visual experience itself already employs the first-person. Rather, it provides the organism with "monadic," but implicitly self-related information that, once conceptualized, can provide the basis for first-personal thought. (Musholt 2015, p. 59)

Certainly we should not think that the perspicuous characterisation of the content of a perceptual experience must *always* employ either the first-person pronoun or the

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[32] For a further elaboration and justification of this claim, which displays affinity to the conception of perceptual experience articulated in Peacocke 1992, see Christensen 2000 and 2008.

asterisked third-person pronoun; S's seeing a tree then* and (over) there* shows there to be cases in which use of either pronoun would be inaccurate. Yet *some* perceptual experiences[33] are such that perspicuous characterisation involves, depending on who is undertaking it, either the first-person pronoun or asterisked third-person pronoun. Moreover, other-characterisations involving the asterisked third-person pronoun and/or the asterisked adverbs of time and place enjoy a certain privilege *vis-à-vis* self-characterisations involving the counterpart indexicals: the former characterise content, hence perceptual experience *as it objectively, hence intersubjectively is*. As such, they characterise content as it must be if it and that of which it is content are to be evaluable—evaluable not just by others but even by their own subjects. For the very possibility of *self*-evaluation requires a subject to know what objectively, hence intersubjectively the content of its* representation is. The subject must thus know, or at least claim to know, at least something of who and what it* objectively, hence intersubjectively is.

Concluding Diagnosis

At the heart of property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception of content lies the thought that in some cases at least one may collapse two senses of the word 'ascription': on the one hand, ascription in a sense primarily appropriate at the level of assertion; and on the other, ascription in a sense appropriate at the level of linguistic predication.[34] Let us grant that, provided one is careful, both senses of ascription may be extended to the representational level of belief and other kinds of representation. Even so, the underlying thought is wrong. It is an essential feature of representation, illocution and its content that it be entertainable, at least possibly if not actually, by its subject, so these two senses of the word 'ascription' must not be collapsed, not even

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[33] Typically ones in which movement or change concerning the subject is perceived—perceived precisely in its *relevance for the subject*.

[34] In other, slightly more general words, it confuses ascription at the illocutionary level with ascription at the level of what Austin would call the locutionary, Searle the propositional act—see Austin 1962, Lecture VIII, and Searle 1968.

in merely some cases. Only so is content such that a subject might be able to reflect on the wisdom of undertaking what Searle calls commitment to it.[35] In order, however, to secure the possibility of such entertainability, ascription in the second sense must not be tied so closely to ascription in the first sense that it entails the latter. Yet this is what the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception does.

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[35] See Searle 1969, esp. Ch. 3.4.

CHAPTER SEVEN

Taking the *De Se* Literally

In this chapter a crucial issue will be addressed: what does it mean to say, on the conception advanced here, that the asterisked third-person[1] expresses an element in content? As repeatedly emphasised, the thesis is Fregean at least to the extent that it endorses the notion of sense as what accounts for the reference of a singular term as used on such and such an occasion with such and such a general linguistic meaning. The crucial issue thus becomes that of showing what the sense of the asterisked third-person pronoun is—showing it in such a way that thereby one makes clear how a content *de se* genuinely possesses an element in content corresponding to the pronoun in virtue of which it is predicatively structured in just the same way as the content picked out by the clause 'that Perry is making a mess'.

Section I: Giving the Asterisked Third-Person Pronoun a Fregean Sense

Gareth Evans writes that "the heart of a semantic theory for a language constructed on Fregean lines will be a *theory of reference*" which enables an account of "… the interrelations between Fregean concepts of sense and reference … ." (Evans 1981, p. 293) One way of understanding this is to take it as the claim that a Fregean semantic theory for a language not only works with the notion of sense, it also accepts that the senses specifically of singular terms consist in their possession of reference, i.e., referential properties, which may differ even as they determine the same referent. Evans then goes on to say that

> (s)uch a theory will proceed by discerning structure in the complex expressions of the language, and assigning references to those expressions upon the basis of assignments of references to their parts. A Fregean theory … will observe the principle of … compositionality: the reference of a complex expression is a function of the reference of its parts. (Evans 1981, p. 293)

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[1] And indeed, although they will not be explicitly discussed here, asterisked adverbs of time and place. See Appendix I to Chapter Seven for a discussion.

"(A) semantic theory for a language … constructed on Fregean lines" will thus contain, firstly, certain basic principles which determine when certain basic expressions, as used by a speaker S at a time *t* and location *l*, either refer to something[2]; or predicate something of something; or express something true, given the truth or falsity of what is expressed by its component sentences. Secondly, it will contain principles permitting derivation from these basic principles of the truth conditions of what is expressed by whole sentences.

Evans uses two examples in order to illustrate what he understands by the kind of basic principle relevant for singular terms, in particular, names:

(2) The [referent][3] of 'Hesperus' = Hesperus

(3) The [referent] of 'Hesperus' = Phosphorus (Evans 1981, p. 295)

Since Hesperus is Phosphorus, the one is true if and only if the other is. But "only (2) can occur in a theory of reference," hence in what Evans understands by a Fregean semantic theory, because only it "identifies the [referent] of the name in a way which *shows*, or *displays*, its sense" (Evans 1981, p. 295), i.e., *shows how* it has the referent it has. In other words, only (2) counts as articulating what the name 'Hesperus' refers to in a way which reflects one's understanding of the term itself, hence in a way which perspicuously articulates the *reference* possessed by the singular term 'Hesperus' on the occasion of its use—its property of referring to Hesperus the planet, whatever else this planet might be called, e.g., 'Phosporus'; and whatever else might be called 'Hesperus', e.g., the titan or perhaps the dog next door. In fact, one only understands (3) *because* one understands (2) and also knows that Phosphorus is

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[2] Possibly only within some restricted domain, but surely also possibly to anything that is—within the domain of all things, as it were. In other words, there seems to be no reason why the domain must be restricted.

[3] Evans has in fact written 'reference' here. We are, however, distinguishing between the property a singular term possesses on the occasion of its use which constitutes its referring to an object *o*; and the object referred to by the term in virtue of possessing, on the occasion, this property, namely, *o* itself. The referential property is the reference while *o* is the referent. Clearly, on this understanding of the term 'reference' it makes no sense to say that the *reference* of 'Hesperus' is Hesperus.

Hesperus. In this sense, only (2) *shows*, as Evans puts it, rather than presupposes the sense, hence the reference the term accomplishes on the occasion.

This point can be deepened by recalling something upon which the tradition of speech act theory insists: reference is primarily and originally a matter of a subject's making some device conventionally appointed for this purpose refer. It is thus that property of an expression as uttered by a speaker S at a time *t* and arguably also location *l* which constitutes realisation of an intention on S's part to refer then* and there* to such and such. As a result of S's uttering such and such a singular term with such and such a linguistic meaning at *t* and *l* in this intention, the expression comes to possess, as used by S at *t* and *l* in this intention, the property of having something *x* as referent just in case *x* is such and such an individual.[4] We may formulate this property as follows:

(2✦) 'Hesperus', as uttered by S at *t* and *l* in the intention that it, as uttered by it* then* and there*,[5] refer to *x* if and only if *x* is Hesperus the planet, refers to *x* if and only if *x* is Hesperus the planet[6]

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4 Of course, since possession of this referential property constitutes the success of S's intention at *t* and *l* thus to refer, S must know, at least ideally or paradigmatically, who or what this individual is since otherwise S could not intend, at least not completely rationally, that the term have, as uttered by it* then* and there*, such and such a reference.

5 One might ask whether ordinary speakers have intentions like this. That in some sense S needs to have some kind of intention to refer to Hesperus is surely plausible; S is, after all, not uttering the term 'Hesperus' in the manner of a parrot. True, that this intention has the specific form it is given here is a theoretical imputation—one, however, motivated by the fact that it reconstructs the character of reference as something which can succeed or fail and the possibility that S is intending to refer even though it knows there to be no referent. The decisive point is this: S is genuinely *saying* something and so *intending* to say what it says. It thus intends whatever reference is implicated in its saying what it says in the same way in which S, when it intends to leave the room in the usual way, namely, by opening the door, intends to open the door. S might, of course, intentionally utter the sentence "The rain in Spain falls mainly on the plain" in full awareness of linguistic meaning. Does S intend to say what it and its sentence say, hence intend that either it or its sentence refer to Spain? Only in the sense that S knows that it could thus intend. This both reflects and intimates the fact that in saying something, S is typically, if not always, doing so for sake of performing some illocutionary act, here understood to consist, not in having any effect on another, not even "an illocutionary effect *IE*" (Searle 1969, p. 47), but in making some at least typically evaluable claim—in the case of assertion, a claim to truth, in the case of an imperative, to legitimacy, and so on.

6 As Section IV of Chapter Five has pointed out, there is in such general principles a certain self-referentiality, one one could capture by adding to (2✦) the phrase 'in accordance with (2✦)'. Since, however, this is not relevant here, let us keep things shorter by leaving it out.

As something instituted on the occasion in virtue of both convention and intention, any instance of (2✦) is, as it were, definitionally true. So it is true all possible worlds. Moreover, Evan's (2) follows directly from it, whereas his (3) only follows given (2✦) and the further fact that Hesperus is Phosphorus. Just this explains why (2) does while (3) does not play a role in showing how a sub-sentential expression contributes to what is expressed by a sentence or perspicuously individuated by a 'that'-clause containing it.[7]

Now this chapter is not seeking to engage in semantic theory of either the Evansian or any other variety. Rather, it is seeking to use what Evans says about the notion of "a semantic theory constructed on Fregean lines" to derive a recognisably Fregean notion of the sense of a singular term—a notion which, while not necessarily one to which Evans himself would subscribe, nonetheless permits application to an (S)-used, hence asterisked third-person pronoun. To this end, let us distinguish between general linguistic meaning—the fact that 'Perry' is an expression in English used to name, hence refer to, various individuals—and the possession of *specific* referential properties—the fact that on a specific occasion of its use the expression refers to John Perry, the author of "Frege on Demonstratives," etc.[8] The sense of an expression such as 'Perry' may now be defined as possession of just such a specific referential

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[7] Thus, the sentence "Hesperus is hot," as said by S at *t* and *l*, expresses a truth if and only if the referent of 'Hesperus', as uttered by S at *t* and *l* in such and such a locutionary intent, bears the property to which the predicate '… is hot' is assigned. So given (2✦), one may derive first (2), then, by means of (2), that the sentence "Hesperus is hot," as said by S at *t* and *l*, expresses a truth if and only if Hesperus the planet bears the property to which the predicate '… is hot' is assigned. One applies, of course, a similar procedure to the predicate-expression and so arrives at an assignment of truth conditions: the sentence "Hesperus is hot," as said by S at *t* and *l*, expresses a truth if and only if Hesperus the planet is hot.

[8] It must be admitted that this conception of the sense of the expression 'Perry' (as used on such and such an occasion) reflects a conception of proper names which goes against that aspect of Kripkean and post-Kripkean orthodoxy according to which the reference of names is fixed language-wide by diverse causal and historical facts such that when used by a speaker on an occasion, they always refer to the same thing regardless of the speaker's particular intentions and beliefs. Yet it is consistent with another, indeed arguably the decisive aspect of this orthodoxy, the claim, namely, that names are not covert definite descriptions but refer rigidly. That a proper name is not a covert definite description, hence as wielded on an occasion refers to its referent even in worlds in which the latter does not satisfy whatever description one might in the actual world use to specify what one's referent, hence reference is, is accepted here.

property. It is, after all, possibly, indeed actually, the case that many individuals are called 'Perry'. On the one occasion it might (be used to) refer to something *x* if and only if *x* is John Perry, author of "Frege on Demonstratives," on another, to refer to something *x* if and only if *x* is John Perry, local greengrocer. Clearly, if one understands the sense of an expression in this way, namely, as the possession of specific referential properties, then sense always implicates a specific context of utterance. By contrast, linguistic meaning is not thus bound since it is the property possessed by the expression 'Perry' of being usable by different speakers at different times and locations to impart to a token of it a specific sense—a sense *of a kind* one can now only characterise as reference to *a certain kind of* individual, namely, one named 'Perry'.[9] This latter is what one must *at least* understand in order to determine what specific referential property the term has on an occasion of its use, that is, as uttered by such and such a speaker at such and such a time and location in order to refer to such and such an individual—John Perry, author of "Frege on Demonstratives" rather than John Perry, local greengrocer.

At this point, one might object that there are in fact *two* names here, the one distinguishable from the other by supplying it with an index, say, 'John Perry$_{19}$', the name borne by the author of "Frege on Demonstratives," and 'John Perry$_{25}$', the name borne by the local green grocer. As one might also put the point, for each John Perry there is a distinct name 'John Perry$_n$', '*n*' being a numeral for some distinct natural

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[9] It is crucial to appreciate that this is *not* to say that the general linguistic meaning of the expression 'Perry' is the property of referring, as uttered by some S at a *t* and *l* in the intention that it thus refer, to something *x* if and only if *x* is called or named 'Perry'. This not only conflates the general capacity of the expression to refer with concrete reference accomplished by it on an occasion; it may also run the risk of tacitly equating the *sense* of the term 'Perry' on an occasion with the *sense* of the term 'the individual called or named 'Perry' who is the author of "Frege on Demonstratives," "The Problem of the Essential Indexical," etc. In short, it may run the risk of insinuating tacit commitment to a naïve descriptivism according to which the sense of a proper name is a covert and possibly very complex definite description. There is no such commitment here, which is not to deny that in order to wield a proper name successfully, the speaker must claim to know *something*, however minimal, about what or who its referent is. The general linguistic meaning of the name 'Perry' is its character as a device for engendering concrete reference to certain individuals—those, obviously, called 'Perry', either because they have been thus baptised or because the name has just accreted to them over time.

number. For names no meaningful distinction can be drawn between linguistic meaning and sense *qua* referential property. Yet in two interrelated respects this objection is incorrect. Firstly, what it understands by a name is not what is ordinarily, i.e., pre-theoretically, understood thereby. Secondly and more importantly, a name as ordinarily understood is essentially *bestowable*, such that one can intend to make it the case that the name applies to such and such and individual, as when parents name their newborn child. There is, however, no one enumeration of names of the form 'N_n', '*n*' being a numeral denoting a natural number, nor is it realistically possible for parents to enumerate all bearers of the names 'N_n', in order to bestow, say, the ostensible name 'N_{103}' upon their child.[10] No instance of 'N_n' is a name in the quotidian sense, but only 'N' itself.

In summary, then, the sense of the name 'Hesperus' at a *t* and *l* is the *context-specific referential property* articulated by (2✦), as imparted to it at a *t* and *l* by an intention on a speaker S's part to exploit general linguistic meaning so as to impart the property to the name as used by it* then* and there*.[11] Evidently, on this account of sense,[12] two complementary notions are implicated in the possession of it: on the one hand, general linguistic meaning, on the other, an intention on the part of a user S to apply this linguistic meaning, in other words, to make it the case that the name 'Hesperus', as used, i.e., said by it* then* and there*, refers to something *x* if and only if *x* is Hesperus the planet, neither Hesperus the titan nor Hesperus the dog next door. In general, an expression always has sense not just in virtue of linguistic meaning but also in virtue of the context of discourse and the intentions for the sake of realising which the term is uttered. We who are reflecting on these matters make certain assumptions about typical speakers and their typical intentions and so recognise that

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[10] And how would names be possible in a linguistic practice which possessed either no notion or only a limited notion of number?

[11] This can be seen as a way of reading Evans's claim that—since "sense is," as he puts it, "a way of thinking of [the referent]," hence precisely the possession of a certain kind of reference, i.e., referential property—"we should not expect to be given the sense of an expression save in the course of being given the reference of that expression." (Evans 1981, p. 294)

[12] No claim is made here, of course, that *Evans* would endorse this account.

the term ‘Hesperus’, as used on the right-hand side of the biconditional—as used by us, of course—refers to the planet rather than the titan or the dog.[13]

This possible difference in who or what ‘Hesperus’ refers to on an occasion has a further important implication: general linguistic meaning only works to secure possession of specific referential properties, hence sense, *not just* given an intention to apply said meaning, indeed *not just* given a linguistic practice of using the name to refer to individuals called ‘Hesperus’ without which the term could not have its linguistic meaning, *but also* given a body of mutual knowledge (or at least belief) as to who or what is named ‘Hesperus’, a body of mutual knowledge which enables both the imparting and the understanding of sense.[14] Not every participant in the linguistic practice will be party to all aspects of such mutual knowledge (or belief) and not every participant will be party to exactly the same aspects. But as long as all participants are party to sufficiently many overlapping aspects, it will be possible to recognise, given normal context sensitivity, that, in part in virtue of its general linguistic meaning, the term, as uttered by this particular S at this particular *t* and *l* for such and such discursive purposes, refers to *x* if and only if *x* is Hesperus the planet. Such recognition is part of the understanding needed for communication.

Given, therefore, that background of convention, intention and mutual knowledge (or belief) which makes it possible, (2✦) does indeed, as Evans puts it, *display*—display *to us theorists*—what it is to use the term ‘Hesperus’, in the manner appropriate to it, given that it is a proper name. To use the term in literal accordance with its meaning is to utter the expression in the context of mutual knowledge (or

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[13] Note how this nicely clarifies Evans’s requirement that “we … not think of the theory of sense as a separate tier, additional to and independent of the theory of reference.” (Evans 1981, p. 294)

[14] Let us stress once again that such appeal both to intention and to mutual knowledge (or at least belief) does not *eo ipso* commit one to any naïve descriptivism according to which the sense of a proper name is a (possibly very complex) definite description. It would presumably do so were one to understand the account given here to construe *linguistic meaning* as the property of referring to *x* if and only if *x* is called, i.e., named ‘Perry’, ‘Hesperus’, etc. But this is not how the account either does or can understand linguistic meaning, which is the *capacity for* a certain kind of referential property, i.e., sense, hence not an *actual* referential property or sense itself.

belief) about what individuals are called ‘Hesperus’ in the intention that one of these be the referent on the occasion. (2✦) thus performs a non-trivial job: we who are reflecting on these matters understand it as showing, against an assumed background of a linguistic practice and concomitant mutual knowledge (or belief), the sense of the term ‘Hesperus’ on any given occasion—this even though formulation of this sense involves appeal to the notions of reference and naming itself.[15] For the formulation enables us to derive (2), with which we can concretely demonstrate how the term contributes to determining what is expressed by whole sentences containing it. Moreover, since those competent in the language exhibit understanding of this determination in their linguistic practice, we may take the demonstration to which (2✦) leads us as depicting something involved in how they understand complex expressions, in particular, whole sentences, containing the name.

It is crucial to appreciate the constitutive role played in this account by intention since otherwise there might seem to be a problem. Famously, Cicero is identical with Tully, so the referential property of referring, as uttered by S at *t* and *l*, to *x* if and only if *x* is Cicero *just is* the property of referring, as uttered by S✦ at *t*✦ and *l*✦, to Tully. One cannot, therefore, naively identify the sense possessed by the name ‘Cicero’ as used by S at *t* and *l* with the relevant referential property *simpliciter* because then this sense would be the same as that possessed by the name ‘Tully’ as used by S✦ at *t*✦ and *l*✦. Difference in sense is, however, secured by the intentions involved in imparting it. The sense the name ‘Cicero’ possesses as used by S at *t* and *l* is possession of the relevant referential property *as a result of* S’s intention at *t* and *l* that ‘Cicero’, as used by it* then* and there* refer to *x* if and only if *x* is Cicero. Because this intention is not of the same type as the corresponding intention had by S✦ at *t*✦ and *l*✦ with regard

[15] Note that in his characterisation of his basic principle (2) Evans also helps himself to the notion of reference.

to ‘Tully’, conditions of identity for senses are as they should be, namely, tighter than they are for properties.[16]

Clearly, this kind of account can be readily extended to encompass definite descriptions when these are used attributively. Furthermore, the crucial role played within it by intentions to apply linguistic meaning against a background context of possibly quite local and restricted mutual knowledge (or belief) permits one to derive a plausible account of how definite descriptions can sometimes be used and understood *referentially*, sometimes indeed *deliberately* so, as when one continues to refer to the man in the dock as Smith’s murderer even when one believes that he is innocent. Thereby one sees how the account can be deployed in an explanation of the process by which definite descriptions like ‘the Morning Star’ and ‘the Evening Star’ can end up as quasi-names more or less on a par with ‘Phosphorus’ and ‘Hesperus’.

What, then, is the sense possessed by the first-person pronoun, as used by some S at a *t* and *l*? The first-person pronoun differs from the name ‘Hesperus’ in that variability in reference, hence sense, is built into its linguistic meaning *qua* general principle specifying what kind of referential property, hence sense, a term possesses from use to use. As with other indexical expressions and unlike names, variation from use to use according to one and the same linguistic meaning is built into its linguistic meaning. So what general principle accurately captures the linguistic meaning of the pronoun, such that, as instantiated to a specific S, *t* and *l*, it captures the concrete referential property, the sense, the expression possesses on the occasion—at <S, *t*, *l*>, as one might put it? It cannot be the following:

> ‘I’, as uttered by an S at a *t* and *l* in the intention that it refer to something *x* if and only if *x* is S, refers to something *x* if and only if *x* is S.

For this entails that S can use ‘I’ non-defectively only if S knows that what it* is referring to, and is intending to refer to, is S, as opposed to knowing that what it* is

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[16] The same applies, of course, to another famous pair of extensionally equivalent expressions, this time from a different semantic category, viz., ‘renate’ and ‘cordate’.

referring to, and is intending to refer to, is, say, S✦. Relatedly, it entails that S can use 'I' correctly even if S does not know or believe that what it* is referring to, and is intending to refer to, is it*, that is, does not know that 'I', as uttered by it* then* and there*, refers to it*. In other words, this formulation is in one way too strong, in another, too weak. In effect, it assimilates the kind of reference accomplished by the first-person pronoun to that accomplished by a use on S's part of any singular term which just happens to refer to S.

The following is closer to what we sense to be correct:

> 'I', as uttered by an S at a *t* and *l* in the intention that it refer to something *x* if and only if *x* is the utterer of 'I' at *t* and *l*, refers to something *x* if and only if *x* is the utterer of 'I' at *t* and *l*

Even so, it is still inaccurate. S surely does not intend that 'I' refer at *t* and *l*, but rather then* and there*, even though these are, as it happens, *t* and *l*. Moreover, why should S at *t* and *l* be *the* utterer of 'I' at *t* and *l*? Perhaps another subject S✦ is an utterer of 'I' at *t* and *l*. In this case there would be no one utterer of 'I' at *t* and *l* and so the right-hand side of the biconditional would be false. Neither S's nor S✦'s utterance would possess the desired referential property, hence sense.

At this point one might resort to something token-reflexive:

> 'I', as uttered by an S at a *t* and *l* in the intention that it refer to something *x* if and only if *x* is the speaker uttering then* and there* *this* token of 'I', refers to something *x* if and only if *x* is the subject uttering then* and there* *this* token of 'I'

Yet for familiar reasons this is also not correct. The speaker uttering then* and there* *this* token of 'I' need not be S itself yet in first-personal reference S paradigmatically knows that it* is the speaker uttering then* and there* *this* token of 'I'. In order to ensure this feature of first-personal reference, one must insist that S's token of 'I' only

refers to the speaker uttering then* and there* *in virtue of having been produced by it* so as to refer to it**.[17]

No wonder, then, that "we are inclined to think [that the first-person pronoun] is the word each one uses when he speaks knowingly and intentionally … of himself[*]"! (Anscombe 1975, p. 47) As Castañeda realised,[18] we must say something like the following:

> 'I', as uttered by an S at a *t* and *l* in the intention that it, as uttered by it* then* and there*, refer to something *x* if and only if *x* is it*, refers to something *x* if and only if *x* is it*[19]

The asterisk attached to the third-person pronoun makes clear that we have here an 'S'-use, one in which the pronoun is subordinated to the intensional context expressed by the phrase 'uttered by an S at *t* and *l* … in the intention that …'. We now have a general principle which, when instantiated to a particular S, *t* and *l*, captures a genuinely first-personal referential property, hence a genuinely first-personal sense.[20]

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[17] This simply restates the classic argument against the token-reflexive analysis of the first-person pronoun. As much as its demonstratively indexical component may be so interpreted as permit the analysis to track the use of the first-person pronoun, the very need for disambiguating interpretation shows that the pronoun is not *synonymous* with 'the subject of *this* act of uttering 'I' at *t* and *l*'. The sense determined by the linguistic meaning of the pronoun on the occasion of its use is therefore not identical with that determined by the meaning of the demonstratively indexical definite description on the occasion of its use.

[18] This argument for the necessity of the asterisked third-person pronoun in any adequate formulation of the general principle articulating the linguistic meaning of the first-person pronoun is really just a development of the argument deployed by Castañeda against Carl Ginet on pp. 45-46 of Castañeda 1966 and discussed in Section III of Chapter Four.

[19] It is worth commenting on the fact that asterisked expressions, including the asterisked third-person pronoun, are used here. The asterisk is indeed a technical device, one which is operating here in the meta-language of the theorist. But in whatever language it is deployed, whether the theorist's meta-language, as here, or in the object-language, the asterisk serves merely to indicate that, e.g., the pronoun to which it is attached is (S)-used. And this latter is the solely relevant semantic phenomenon—a phenomenon assumed to occur in the object-language we theorists are explicating. There is therefore no reason to think that use of the asterisk somehow detracts from, or indeed in any way impacts upon, the 'modesty' of what is said here. If, like Evans, one may help oneself to the notion of reference, one may help oneself to that kind of reference which is the (S)-use.

[20] Evidently, grasping this sense entails knowing what the term 'I', as uttered by S at *t* and *l* in accordance with its linguistic meaning, hence with the appropriate intention to apply said meaning, refers to, namely, S itself. Knowing the latter thus constitutes what is required for identifying something as S's referent. It is the intelligibility, hence accessibility, of S's reference.

What, then, about the sense possessed on an occasion of its use by the asterisked third-person pronoun itself? In fact, given all of the above, it becomes easy to answer this decisive question. Its sense may be identified with the referential property determined by the following biconditional—only, of course, as imparted at some *t* and *l* by an intention on some S's part that the pronoun, as wielded by it* then* and there*, possess this property:

> 'it*', as uttered by an S at *t* and *l*, refers to something *x* if and only if *x* is the referent of a singular term τ or occurs in the range of a quantifier expression $Q(\chi)$ such that
>
> (a) S intends that the pronoun, as used by it* then* and there*, refer to something *x* if and only if *x* is the referent of τ or occurs in the range of $Q(\chi)$; and
>
> (b) S intends (a) *because* (i) τ or χ constitutes the subject-term of a sentence consisting of a hyper-intensional context which governs the clause containing the pronoun.[21]

Here, linguistic meaning is capacity for a particular kind of anaphoric deployment, the (S)-use, namely—something evident in the fact that were one to remove condition (b)[22] from the above, one would arrive at the sense possessed by a third-person pronoun on an occasion of its anaphoric deployment *in general*, as in "Jack loves Jill and she loves him."[23] This shows in turn that at the end of the day, the (S)-use is just

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[21] Note that this account of the semantics of the asterisked third-person pronoun can be seen as explicating what it is for S to refer by means of the pronoun to something *x* in this latter's capacity simply as subject—subject, of course, of the representation or locution characterised by *s*. Note, too, that the account applies to *all* uses of the pronoun, including ones other than in such straightforwardly other-ascriptive sentences as "Perry believes that he* is making a mess." The account thus also applies to uses of the pronoun in sentences such as "What Perry believes is that he* is making a mess," "If Anscombe believed that she* could have prevented Perry from making a mess, she would have," and indeed "That he* should making a mess caused Perry great embarrassment." In the latter, the hyper-intensional context *C* is merely implicit, at best contained in some other part of the discourse to which the locution belongs.

[22] And, of course, replace ''it*'' by ''it''.

[23] In this latter case, the anaphoric use of the pronoun is lazy, hence eliminable. The sentence "Jack loves Jill and Jill loves Jack" is therefore semantically identical with this sentence, differing only from it in respects concerning neither the truth value of content nor the contribution content makes to the causal role of what has it as content. This causal role can, of course, differ but this is a contribution made not by content itself but by the means of its expression, i.e., by the sentence

one more case of the anaphoric use of pronouns,[24] albeit a non-lazy, i.e., ineliminable one. And the anaphoric use is, of course, itself just one of several ways in which pronouns can be used. So here as in all cases of a pronoun's use the referent is never a sense, hence never a first-personal sense, however this latter is conceived. Rather, the referent is always the kind of thing to which all anaphorically deployed pronouns refer, whether deployed within an explicit or merely implicit hyper-intensional context[25] or not.

This account of how the asterisked third-person pronoun has sense can be straightforwardly extended to both the asterisked adverb of time 'then*' and the asterisked adverb of place 'there*'.[26] So let us turn to another issue, one which might appear pressing at this point. To regard a term deployed within a hyper-intensional context as behaving in the same way as it does without it is to attribute to its use what is standardly called *semantic innocence*. So to regard the asterisked third-person pronoun as behaving in the same general way as do all anaphorically used pronouns is to attribute to its use a pronoun-specific semantic innocence.[27] Furthermore, if one

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itself. This latter may impart to the whole speech act of asserting it diverse emotive or aesthetic aspects which impact upon causal role. Note that one can similarly explain the respects in which "Jack loves Jill" and "Jill is loved by Jack" are both the same and different.

24 This underscores a point made previously, namely, that the asterisk is not part of the meaning of what it is attached to, but simply a device introduced so to speak from outside, in particular, by philosophers, in order to disambiguate the use to which the pronoun is put, as, namely, an (S)-use. The asterisk could, of course, *become* a part of linguistic meaning: one could imagine a process of conventionalisation setting in whereby the biconditional articulating its referential properties as used by a particular S at a particular *t* and *l* becomes a general principle—a general principle only true, of course, because underpinned by a linguistic practice of using the asterisked third-person pronoun in accordance with it. Alternatively, one could imagine special pronouns emerging in order to enable the (S)-use and indeed some actual languages possess such dedicated pronouns—see Huang 2013.

25 A hyper-intensional context is explicit both in a use of the sentence "Perry believes that he* is making a mess" and in a use of the sentence "What Perry believes is that he* is making a mess." It is merely implicit in a use of the sentence "That he* should be making a mess caused Perry great embarrassment."

26 See Appendix I to Chapter Seven for a sketch of how such extension would proceed.

27 A parallel innocence is displayed by the expression used by the referent of the asterisked third-person pronoun in an act of *self*-ascription, namely, the first-person pronoun. When Perry *self*-ascribes the belief he has at 07.07.79 in the supermarket that he* is making a mess (then* and there*), he uses the sentence "I believe (here and now) that I am making a mess (here and now)." In thus deploying this sentence, Perry is using the *second* occurrences of the pronoun and the adverbs just as in their first occurrences, hence completely innocently. In no way do the former refer to anything other than what the latter refer to and they do so in exactly the same way.

must insist on semantic innocence in the case of the asterisked third-person pronoun,[28] then one can insist on it generally, that is, when *any* term is deployed in the characterisation of content. Frege, however, rejected semantic innocence, which raises the following three questions: First, how can the thesis of content inherently *de se*, indeed any conception of content, claim to be Fregean while rejecting this aspect of the historical Frege's doctrine? Second, why did Frege deny semantic innocence? And third, was he right to do so?

The first of these questions is easily answered: the heart of a Fregean conception of content is commitment to the notion of sense as determining reference, that is, the referent or, more precisely because more generally put, the *Bedeutung*—what is often called semantic value—in a way relevant for causal role. This does not require one to follow Frege in his counter-intuitive denial of semantic innocence, something clearly recognised by David Chalmers,[29] who sees himself as providing precisely a *Fregean* account. It is harder, however, to answer the second and third questions. In the first instance, Frege rejected semantic innocence in order to explain the failure of the substitutivity of co-referential expressions in hyper-intensional contexts. As Stanley points out,

> Frege's account of the meaning of propositional attitude constructions explains this [failure], because according to this account, "Hesperus" and "Phosphorus", within the scope of a propositional attitude verb, refer to their ordinary senses, rather than the object Venus. Therefore, within the scope of a propositional attitude verb, "Hesperus" and "Phosphorus" do not … have the same referent. (Stanley 2011, p. 104)

Clearly, one must be able to explain failure of substitutivity, so if one can only explain it by denying semantic innocence, then any conception of the *de se*[30] which blocks denial, such as the one advanced here, is in trouble. Yet it is possible to explain

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28 And, *mutatis mutandis*, the asterisked adverbs.
29 See Chalmers 2011, p. 521.
30 And, for that matter, of the *de nunc* and the *de hic*.

such failure without such denial. Substitution, understood literally and non-derivatively, is an operation carried out on a sentence with which content is expressed. As such, it is the passage from one sentence to another according to whether the truth value of what is expressed is preserved, not whether the latter's character as determining such and such a causal role for whatever has it as content is also preserved. Since these are distinct properties of what is expressed, there can be no guarantee that in passing from one sentence to another, therein preserving the former, one will also preserve the latter. It is thus not surprising that substitutivity of co-referential terms fails when the sentences at issue report the contents of representations or locutions and illocutions.

Crucially, this explanation does not require one to deny that sub-sentential components always function in the same way irrespective of whether the sentence in which they occur is used to *report* the content of a representation or locution or to *locute* this content itself. When a sentence is used to report the content of a representation or locution, as when the sentence "*a* is F" is embedded in such sentences as "S believes that *a* is F" or "What S asserted was that *a* is F," etc., the user of the embedding sentence is, of course, not concerned to *illocute* this content; typically, the user is concerned merely to report the causal role, hence also the truth conditions, determined by content. And sometimes the user is concerned merely to report truth conditions alone, in which case a sentence might be used which does not depict content *perspicuously*. But from none of this does it follow that the user is not referring and predicating just as if the sentence were not embedded.[31]

This reveals something important regarding the interpretation of Frege: he does not deny semantic innocence primarily in order to explain failure of substitutivity but rather deploys an *independently motivated* denial as his explanation. What, then, is the independent motivation? The most fundamental explanatory ground for this lies in

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[31] And so there is no longer any need to distinguish, in the manner recommended by Peacocke on p. 191 of Peacocke 1981, between employing a sense and referring to it.

Frege's conviction that his distinction between sense and reference, between *Sinn* and *Bedeutung*, applies beyond the case for which he initially develops it, viz., singular terms, to other linguistic expressions, *in particular, to whole sentences*. Thereby Frege assimilates the latter to the former: just as the job of a singular term is to determine something as its *Bedeutung*, its semantic value—in this case, the term's referent—, in a manner determined by its *Sinn*, i.e., sense, so, too, the job of a whole sentence is to determine a *Bedeutung*—in this case, a truth value, either *das Wahre* or *das Falsche*—in a manner determined by *its Sinn*, which is now an entire *Gedanke*, i.e., 'thought', or proposition.[32] This then enables Frege to put a particular spin on the notion of sentential compositionality, i.e., the principle that the meaning of a whole sentence is a function of the meanings of its parts—the singular terms, variables, predicates, quantifiers and/or logical connectives—which make it up. Such compositionality now becomes the claim that the *Bedeutung* of a whole sentence is a function of the *Bedeutungen* of its parts. With this, Frege has in effect *nolens volens* reduced the way in which sentences can be complexes of other sentences to truth-functionality. The *Bedeutung* of a sentence is, after all, a truth value, hence the only thing a sentence can supply as argument to the compositional function if *Bedeutung* is the principle of composition.

Unfortunately, if in general *Bedeutung*, hence specifically for complexes of sentences truth-functionality, is the principle of composition, then it becomes mysterious how hyper-intensional contexts, which form non-truth-functional sentential complexes, can be compositional. At this point, it seems that compositionality simply does not get a grip on sentences consisting in, or even merely implicating, hyper-intensional contexts, such as those of the form "S believes that *a* is F" or "What S desires is that *a* be F" and the like. In other words, the lesson taught by failure in these cases of the principle "that the truth value of a sentence remains

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[32] This is what Stanley is getting at when he speaks of Frege's "method of the name relation." (Stanley 2011, p. 105)

unchanged when we replace one expression in it with a co-referential [*gleich**bedeutenden***] one …" (Frege 1892/1980, p. 50; my translation) seems to be that *if* complexes of sentences are compositional in the sense that their *Bedeutung* is a function of the *Bedeutungen* of their sentential parts, then sentences involving hyper-intensional contexts are not compositional, which is clearly false. Frege now has a serious problem: the compositionality not just of such sentences *but of sentences in general* has become a riddle.

Yet Frege does not walk the move back which engenders the riddle, his application, namely, of the sense/reference schema to sentences. Rather, he claims that "(e)xceptions are … to be expected" when, as is the case with hyper-intensional contexts,

> … [a] contained sentence is in either *oratio recta* or *oratio obliqua*. For as we have seen, the reference [*Bedeutung*] of the words is in this case not the usual one. (Frege 1892/1980, p. 51; my translation)

So as embedded in the sentence "S believes that *a* is F," the sentence "*a* is F" is not functioning normally. In particular, it does not have its usual *Bedeutung*, i.e., a truth value, so its components '*a*' and '… is F' also do not have their usual *Bedeutungen*. Rather, both the whole and its parts have as their *Bedeutungen*—what, in effect, they are referring to—what would normally be their respective senses. In this way, Frege can block the conclusion that substitutivity *salva veritate* of *gleich**bedeutenden*** expressions *fails* in the case of hyper-intensional contexts. What might at first *seem* to be exceptions are not really such because one is not really substituting co-referential expressions; there is no *failure* of substitutivity, merely *misapplication* of it. So in this way Frege can save his conviction that the sense/reference schema applies across the board, in particular, to sentences, thereby saving his understanding of compositionality as a matter of *Bedeutung*, i.e., semantic value.

Yet denial of semantic innocence is not just implausible, it is false. In particular, it is false because it embodies a distorted conception of how 'that'-clauses function. The

determination to apply universally the sense/reference schema insinuates that the relation between an embedding sentence "S believes that *a* is F" and the embedded sentence "*a* is F" is similar to that between the sentence "*a* is F" and the singular term '*a*' contained in it. Belief, however, indeed any representation or locution whose content is perspicuously captured by a 'that'-clause, is picked out in terms of content, hence precisely by means of a 'that'-clause. And according to that doctrine of propositions of which Frege, precisely because he applies the sense/reference schema to whole sentences, is the paradigmatic representative, the clause functions to *refer to* this content. If, however, a 'that'-clause *primarily* referred to a content,[33] then, in order to understand it in a manner which realised that coordination of behaviour between speakers and hearers which it is the defining point of language and its use to realise, one would have to be able independently to know what the clause referred to. In other words, one would have to be able independently to recognise the content referred to by the clause for what it is in order then to set it in relation to the 'that'-clause (or the sentence contained therein) as what the latter referred to. Analogously, in order to understand a use of the name 'Hesperus', one must know what it names, which entails knowing that it refers to something *x* if and only if *x* is Hesperus—Hesperus the planet, neither Hesperus the titan nor Hesperus the dog next door. And one can have access to any one of these three Hesperuses, distinguishing them from one another, without knowing that across different uses 'Hesperus' can refer to any one of them. In this sense, one's access to the referent is independent.

No such independent access is, however, possible in the case of the content referred to by a 'that'-clause. For one can only know this content for the content it is precisely by appeal to a 'that'-clause. This just is one's original access to it. More precisely put, one can only know the content referred to by a 'that'-clause through understanding the embedded sentence as enabling the clause, as wielded by some S at

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[33] Alternatively, if the word 'that' in a 'that'-clause were an operator which turned the embedded sentence into something referring to a content.

some *t* and *l*, to individuate the content *that such and such*. So if either a 'that'-clause or the embedded sentence it contains *primarily* referred to content, then one could only understand what either referred to if one had always already understood what it referred to. This is a vicious infinite regress, indeed, an ungroundedness. So a 'that'-clause cannot be *primarily* either a singular term referring to a content or, alternatively, an operator turning the embedded sentence into such a singular term.[34] In fact, as will be elaborated in Chapter Eight, a 'that'-clause must be understood as primarily individuating a content by *display*, not by reference. That is, it picks out a content by displaying a sentence able to serve as the right-hand side of a biconditional so specifying how the world must be for satisfaction[35] that thereby contribution to the causal role of what has the content is captured. This immediately entails that a sentence must always involve the same reference and predication, whether embedded in a 'that'-clause or not.

Frege was therefore wrong to deny semantic innocence. From the outset, he should have taken the failure of hyper-intensional contexts to conform to the principle of substitutivity *salva veritate* as showing that compositionality cannot be understood in terms of *Bedeutung*. "A Fregean theory" must rather understand by "compositionality" the principle that "the reference," *that is, the semantic property rather than the semantic value, the* ***Sinn*** *rather than the* ***Bedeutung***, "of a complex expression is a function of the reference of its parts." (Evans 1981, p. 293) Chalmers describes compositionality in terms of *Sinn* as "compositionality in a broader sense" than what he calls "*extensional compositionality*," i.e., composition in terms of *Bedeutung*. He recognises that if one is "(t)o maintain semantic innocence on a broadly Fregean account," "one must deny" the latter, hence accept that "the

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[34] The adverb 'primarily' is to be taken seriously because, as will be elaborated in Chapter Eight, there can and must be a sense in which 'that'-clauses and, in particular, terms such as 'what John Perry believed on 07.07.79 in the supermarket' do refer to a content. Yet 'that'-clauses refer only derivatively or secondarily, this precisely on the basis of their primary function of *displaying* a content.

[35] That is, for the satisfaction of any representation or illocution with the content as its content.

meaning," i.e., *Sinn*, "of a complex expression is determined by the meaning," i.e., the *Sinne*, of its parts." (Chalmers 2011, p. 622) What it means thus to understand compositionality will be illustrated in the next section. In the meantime, let it suffice to note that denial of semantic innocence is simply a way of resisting this conclusion—a resistance presumably motivated by Frege's interpretation of concepts (*Begriffe*) and sentential complexes on the model of the mathematical function.

Section II: Construing the Asterisked Third-Person Pronoun as marking an Element in Content

Yet it has still not been definitively explained how personal contents can be literally *de se*, such that their characterisation in terms of the asterisked third-person pronoun may be construed as capturing how they 'really' are, without a hint of anything first-personal or self-conscious about them. This requires one to say more about what it means to describe the asterisked third-person pronoun and, for the matter, the first-person pronoun as marking an element in content. So let us now deploy the resources developed in the previous section to paint a more detailed picture of content *de se*.

Consider once again what was seen in the previous section to underlie Evans's basic principle (2):

(2✦) 'Hesperus', as uttered by S at *t* and *l* in the intention that it, as uttered by it* then* and there*, refer to *x* if and only if *x* is Hesperus the planet, refers to *x* if and only if *x* is Hesperus the planet

As argued above, (2✦) articulates, as instantiated to concrete values of 'S', '*t*' and '*l*', the sense the name 'Hesperus' has in the context of locution <S, *t*, *l*>. But how does this sense, this concrete referential property possessed by the expression at <S, *t*, *l*>, 'contribute'[36] to content? The imparting of such referential properties to an expression

[36] As Stanley puts it—see, e.g., Stanley 2011, p. 83. This figure of speech is, however, potentially misleading, when, namely, one takes it to imply that somehow either the expression itself or the act of uttering it literally inserts something into content. This makes no more sense, indeed arguably less so, than the idea that belief and the like involve component mental acts of referring and predicating. Here the verb 'to contribute' is indeed used to speak of the role the elements of content play *vis-à-vis* the whole content. But the contribution at issue is contribution to truth aptitude, not

as uttered on an occasion transpires at the locutionary level of saying something, which in turn typically transpires for the sake of doing something at the illocutionary level. So what comes first, as far as the ontology of speech-acting is concerned, is the illocutionary act, which is individuated in terms of mode and content: S *asserts* that Hesperus is a planet, *therein saying* (i.e., locuting or expressing the content) that Hesperus is a planet *by uttering* the sentence "Hesperus is a planet"—all this, of course, with the relevant intentions and within the relevant linguistic practice. So what Austin would call the rhetic act[37] of uttering the name 'Hesperus' in order that it have the aforementioned referential property is subordinate to the overall illocutionary goal of asserting that Hesperus is a planet.

In asking, therefore, how the expression 'Hesperus', as uttered in the context <S, *t*, *l*>, hence possessed of the specific referential property of referring in this context to *x* if and only if *x* is Hesperus the planet, 'contributes' to content, one is in fact *presupposing* the notion of content *qua* what is perspicuously expressed by a whole sentence in the performance of a locutionary, hence typically illocutionary act. This property is, after all, a *referential* one, that is, one whose function is quite literally to contribute, along with the properties imparted to other linguistic components as uttered, to the *expression* of a truth-apt content, defined as what is perspicuously expressed on the occasion by a whole sentence, hence individuated by a corresponding 'that'-clause. This has a crucial consequence: the structure realising syntax serves as *that by slotting into which* the expression, as uttered in the context <S, *t*, *l*>, expresses such and such an element in content.[38] In other words, that the

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existence. One uses the verb misleadingly if one takes the elements of content to contribute to the existence of content, which is precisely what one does when one construes the elements as literally inserted into content.

37 "The rhetic act is the performance of an act of using … vocables with a certain more-or-less definite sense and reference." (Austin 1962, Lecture VIII, p. 95)

38 There can, of course, be a language Inglish, identical to English except that syntax is inverted: what a speaker of English typically accomplishes by saying, "Jack loves Jill," a speaker of Inglish typically accomplishes by saying, "Jill loves Jack." But given that the relevant sense in which a sentence in any language has parts is precisely that of serving either to accomplish reference to such and such or to predicate such and such of such and such, all for the sake of expressing such and such a truth-apt content—reference to Jack, reference to Jill and predication of former as loving the

expression ‘Hesperus’, as uttered in the context <S, *t*, *l*>, should possess the aforementioned referential property, i.e., sense, presupposes S’s understanding of it as potentially slotting into a whole sentence for the sake of performing some locution and ultimately illocution about Hesperus. The slot is, as it were, already there and already understood for what it is, namely, as referential.

Thus, the rhetic act of applying the linguistic meaning of a component term in the context <S, *t*, *l*>, thereby determining the sense the term has on the occasion, is subordinate to syntactic structure, whose own function is to determine how *linguistic components* must be combined so as to locute something true or false. In no way, then, is there a literal combining of any sense with other senses—as if, for example, the *sense* of the proper name ‘Hesperus’ were literally joined to the *sense* of the predicate-expression ‘… is a planet’. Only the *expression* of sense is literally joined to anything—joined, of course, to other expressions of sense, that is, other sub-*sentential* parts. In this sense, what is primarily[39] predicated of what are linguistic items. Predication is primarily the predicative concatenation of singular terms or quantified variables with a predicate expression for the sake of expressing, that is, saying, something true or false. A content in this truth-apt sense[40] is thus not something *assembled* but rather expressed by what is literally assembled, namely, a whole

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latter, hence of the latter as being loved by the former, all for the sake of saying that Jack loves Jill—, in both English and Inglish the syntactical structure of sentences enables the parts thereof to perform their subsentential functions on the occasion. This in turn presupposes the function of the whole sentence, that, namely, of expressing a truth-apt content. Only in the context of a sentence do words have either their general linguistic meanings or the occasional semantic properties enabled by both linguistic meaning and linguistic context.

39 This qualification is necessary because one can go on to specify *derivative* senses of predication and reference, as when one speaks of predicating *a property* of some object or of *a belief’s* referring to, or containing a reference to, some object.

40 This qualification is necessary in order to leave room for the idea that some contents are *not* propositional, hence not expressed by whole sentences. Perhaps one does not do phenomenological justice to the small pug’s seeing of a large pit bull charging aggressively towards it* by construing the content thereof as perspicuously individuated as the content it is by a ‘that’-clause. Thus to construe the pug’s perceptual experience and indeed perceptual experience in general is to destroy its character as the perceiving of an event *as the latter unfolds over time*. Thereby one denies its character as itself ‘taking time’ and so atomises it, which in turn prevents one from accounting adequately for how perceptual experience shapes behaviour. For a related discussion, see Christensen 2000 and 2008.

sentence.[41] Consequently, use of the name ‘Hesperus’ need contribute nothing more than specification of what entity exists if reference succeeds; the contribution made by its sense is thus entirely captured by (2✦), understood, of course, as instantiated to a particular S, *t* and *l*. The whole sentence takes care of the rest, that is, ensures that that there is something expressed, i.e., said or locuted, and that this content is one true if and only if Hesperus the planet, i.e., Venus, is thus and so—a planet, hot, uninhabitable, etc.

All this applies to the asterisked third-person pronoun. It, too, has a sense as locuted in the context <S✦, *t*✦, *l*✦>, which context is, we may assume, also a distinctive context of assertion, one, namely, of attribution: S✦ is attributing at *t*✦ and *l*✦ a content to S at *t* and *l*—naturally as one represented or (il)locuted by S at *t* and *l*. The pronoun possesses, after all, the referential property specified above. So here as in the other cases what this referential property contributes to the expression of the content of S✦’s attribution is indicated by the right-hand side of the relevant referential biconditional, end of story. Of course, in this case, general linguistic meaning is such that sense is determined in more complex fashion: not only are speaker’s intentions involved, these intentions are also not simply intentions to apply linguistic meanings in a context of locution to certain entities. The general linguistic meanings of the asterisked third-person pronoun are those it possesses as a pronoun, which include capacity for anaphoric use, of which the (S)-use is one. And whenever a pronoun is used anaphorically, application to a context for the sake of imparting to it a sense involves a certain ‘spontaneity’ since what term in the wider *linguistic* context it is subordinated to is determined solely by what its user wants to say. In other words, the relevant sense-imparting intention is not *simply* an intention to apply a rule.

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[41] So what has ontological priority are the senses expressed *by whole sentences as uttered*, in other words, *whole contents*; contents do not have parts in the assemblable, disassemblable and re-assemblable manner of what expresses them.

Let us now illustrate how this conception both of sense in general and of the sense possessed by an (S)-used third-person pronoun impacts upon the issues of compositionality and semantic innocence raised in the previous section. What does it mean to understand compositionality in terms of *Sinn* rather than *Bedeutung*? And how, given the conception of *Sinn* developed here, is the (S)-used third-person pronoun wielded and interpreted? Let us imagine that the German speaker S locutes at *t* and *l*, in assertoric intent, the sentence "Holmes meint, dass ihn Watson bewundert"—a locution in which the accusative pronoun 'ihn' is (S)-used. Let us imagine, too, how a German hearer S✦ would, at some *t*✦ and *l*✦, interpret S's utterance to the point where S✦ recognises what S says. On the one hand, S✦ would recognise the sentence uttered by S to determine, in virtue of its syntax, a certain order relevant for determining whole sentence sense, namely, <the name 'Holmes', an instance of the predicate expression '*x* meint, dass *p*', <an instance of the accusative third-person pronoun 'ihn', the name 'Watson', an instance of the predicate expression '*x* bewundert *y*'>>. On the other hand, S✦ would recognise that the singular terms 'Holmes', 'Watson' and 'ihn' refer, as uttered by S then* and there*, to something actual *x* if and only if *x* is, respectively, Sherlock Holmes, Dr. Watson, and the subject of the belief or mental judgement reported, namely, Sherlock Holmes himself. S✦ would also recognise that '*x* meint, dass *p*' and '*x* bewundert *y*', as uttered by S then* and there*, express, respectively, something true of *x* and a content picked out by the clause 'that *p*' if and only if *x* believes the content; and something true of *x* and *y* if and only if *x* admires *y*.

On this basis S✦ would then recognise at *t*✦ and *l*✦ that the expressions 'dass', 'Watson', '*x* bewundert *y*' and 'ihn' combine, as wielded by S then✦ and there✦, to form a 'that'-clause picking out the content that Dr. Watson admires *it**, the individual referred to by the singular term of the (hyper-)intensional context to which the pronoun is anaphorically linked, namely, Holmes. S✦ recognises the clause to accomplish this by displaying a sentence which, in the context of locution, expresses

something true if and only if Watson admires it* or rather him*, the subject depicted by some (hyper-)intensional context as representing or locuting, i.e., Holmes. Lastly, S✦ also recognises that the clause is itself combined with the term 'Holmes' and the (hyper-)intensional context-building predicate expression '*x* meint, dass *p*', hence determines, as wielded by S on the occasion, that the whole sentence in which it is embedded has a *Sinn* consisting in expression of the entire 'thought' that Sherlock Holmes believes that Dr. Watson admires him*. With this, S✦ has recognised at *t*✦ and *l*✦ both that S says at *t* and *l* that Sherlock Holmes believes that Dr. Watson admires him*; and that what S says at *t* and *l* is that Sherlock Holmes believes that Dr. Watson admires him*.[42]

Note four features of this surely plausible account of S✦'s interpretation. Firstly, semantic innocence has been preserved, this precisely because S✦ has taken, and taken S to be taking, *Sinn*, not *Bedeutung*, as the principle of composition. Secondly, although the example assumes S to be, and to be understood by S✦ to be, characterising Holmes's belief *perspicuously*, room is left for the possibility that this is not so. It is, after all, conceivable that Holmes should not know Watson as Watson. Yet even in this case, S✦ can recover *some* claim about what Holmes believes: if not that Dr. Watson admires him*, then at least that Holmes believes of (someone known to S and S✦ as) Watson that this latter admires him*, Holmes. Thirdly, at no point have the *Sinne* involved been construed as themselves elements in content, but rather only as properties of elements *in sentences*, properties which enable the latter to express and to pick out contents. This aspect of the account will be elaborated further in Chapter Eight. Fourthly and in the current context most importantly, the asterisked third-person pronoun is functioning in the same *general* way as would any singular term S might wield, and be understood by S✦ as wielding, in its place. So if any singular term marks an element in content, the pronoun does also.

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[42] This account can be readily adapted in order to deal with the first-person, i.e., the case in which the German speaker Sherlock Holmes locutes at *t* and *l*, in assertoric intent, the sentence "Ich meine, dass mich Watson bewundert."

But what does all this reveal about the concept of content *de se* as it applies to representation? Once again it must be insisted that representational states and events do not literally refer or predicate, i.e., do not contain 'acts' of reference and predication. "Surely it's an odd idea, that [either reference or] predication in the sense of some sort of cognitive *activity* generally enters into representation." (Richard 2013, p. 714f.) One must not think of either representational states or even representational events as if they were literally composed of mental occurrences of reference and predication, not the least because this would falsely assimilate states to events, compelling one to construe the former at best as dispositions to the latter, as if belief, for example, were simply disposition to mental judgement. Representations refer and predicate only in a derivative sense; to speak thus is always only shorthand for describing representations as such that their perspicuous linguistic characterisation involves said reference and predication.

Once, however, this is conceded, application to representation of the conception of the *de se* advocated here falls into place. To say that such and such a representation of a subject S has a content *de se* is simply to say that it has a content such that perspicuous characterisation thereof by a subject S✦—a characterisation which captures the causal role imparted to representation by content—requires use of the asterisked third-person pronoun. The pronoun thus marks or expresses an element in content in the way in which any other singular term does: the pronoun is required as an essential component in the perspicuous characterisation of content. Of course, should the referent of the pronoun *self*-ascribe the representation *de se* at issue, it can use the first-person pronoun in place of the asterisked third-person pronoun. Indeed, it *must* use the former pronoun *if* this has already been used in the place which would be occupied by the singular term to which the asterisked third-person pronoun were anaphorically linked. Yet it does not follow from this that content itself is first-personal. It is, of course, *de se*. But nothing forces one to regard it as *de me* and indeed, on pain of the groundlessness revealed in Chapter Five, one must not so

regard it. For indeed this groundlessness reveals there to be no such thing as content *de me*. Less dramatically put, it reveals there to be content *de me* only in a capacity sense. The referent of the asterisked third-person pronoun might, after all, be capable of self-ascribing its content *de se*, indeed, content *de se* might itself implicate this capacity—if, namely, other aspects of it were such that only a subject capable of self-ascription, hence self-conscious, could have it as a content. No doubt only a subject capable of self-ascription, hence self-conscious, can believe that it* is a millionaire. But nothing about the element in content marked by either the asterisked third-person pronoun or the first-person pronoun entails capacity to self-ascribe either this belief or anything else.

In this sense, then, both the asterisked third-person and the first-person pronoun always express an element in content which is *not* first-personal, hence not *sufficient*[43] for self-consciousness, thinking of oneself 'as oneself', in "the first-person way" (Castañeda 1987a, p. 150) or "in the way that we think of ourselves when we use the word "I"" (Perry 1980a, p.538/p. 51). Crucially, once this point is appreciated, it becomes possible to give the asterisked third-person pronoun a certain ontological priority. As already pointed out, the sentences "S believes that it* is F," as asserted by S✦, and "I believe that I am F," as asserted by S, perspicuously characterise *one and the same thing*. And what is this one and the same thing? Nothing other than S's belief *that it* is F*. Both characterisations are, as one might put it, different 'perspectives' on one and the same thing—on one and the same *content* of belief, not the *objects* thereof—and what makes them this is the fact they express something true just in case S believes (at *t* and *l*) that it* is F (then* and there*). So precisely because the asterisked third-person pronoun must be used in any explanation of how its own use and that of the first-person pronoun connect up with one another, the 'that'-clause containing it may be regarded as articulating the content of S's belief *as it objectively*

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[43] Although, of course, necessary.

is, such that it is potentially evaluable, whether by its own subject or by some other. It remains only to add that these points can be extended to content *de nunc* and *de hic*.

Concluding Remarks

At one point Evans rhetorically asks, "What is so absurd about the idea that there are thoughts [i.e., contents] which one can have only because one occupies a particular position in … time ... ?" (Evans 1981, p. 314) Nothing! But then there is nothing absurd about the idea that there are contents one can have only because one is a particular subject. Both ideas would be rendered absurd if having something as a content of representation or locution were identified with knowing what it is one* has as a content of representation or locution. But such identification is simply wrong. It is noteworthy that here, in formulating his rhetorical question, Evans avoids the equivocal notion of 'grasping a thought' he takes from Frege; he speaks only of *having* a thought as content, which *prima facie* does not entail that one knows it for the content it is.

Unfortunately, Evans does not follow through. As already seen, in order to implement without absurdity the idea of contents one can only ever have because one is a particular subject, one must reject recourse to first-personal elements in content, this because such recourse engenders groundlessness and turns ontological into epistemic privacy. Is there, then, a better way to implement the general idea implicit in Evans's rhetorical question—better precisely because it rejects first-personal elements? There is: the conception of the *de se* advanced here, with all that it entails, in particular, the account just given of *how* the asterisked third-person pronoun refers and *how* it marks an element in content. One cannot speak literally[44] of a sense as contributing something to content. The only literal contribution is that made by sense *qua expression* of an element in content and it is made to the *expression* of a whole content, typically by a whole sentence. So what is contributed is not a way of thinking

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[44] As Stanley at least seems to do—see once again Stanley 2011, p. 83, and footnote 36 above.

of anything, but rather a *way of expressing* an element *qua* inseparable but distinguishable aspect of that whole content a locuting subject is seeking to express. A singular term has, on the occasion of its use and in virtue of its linguistic meaning, a certain referential property, a sense, which enables *it* to contribute to what is accomplished by the whole sentence to which it belongs, namely, expression of a whole content possessed of the property of being true if and only if such and such is the case. In this, the singular term is aided and abetted by other components of the sentence, in particular, by the latter's syntactical structure.

Once the matter is conceived in this way, there is no problem in conceiving how the asterisked third-person pronoun can have a sense, indeed a different sense, from occasion to occasion. Consequently, there is no problem in conceiving how the asterisked third-person pronoun can be just as much a basic constituent of a sentence, hence of a language, as any other kind of singular term. For at the end of the day, this is what the asterisked third-person pronoun is: a singular term like any other—not, of course, *exactly* like any other because it is not a name, nor is it an indexical expression insofar as an indexical expression is defined to be one whose referent is determined by *non-linguistic* context. Crucially, the pronoun is also not a variable, not even in the sentence "There is someone who believes that he* is a millionaire."[45] When one performs existential generalisation on the sentence "The Editor of *Soul* believes that he* is a millionaire," one is doing just what one does when one performs such generalisation on the sentence "The Editor of *Soul* believes that Smith is a millionaire." No doubt this requires one to regard the predicate '*x* believes that he* is a millionaire' as expressing the property of believing that *one** is a millionaire since there can be no property of believing that *it** is a millionaire. The expression 'the property of believing that it* is a millionaire' is ill-formed because 'it*', properly deployed, entails the actual presence, explicit or implicit, of a hyper-intensional

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[45] See the Appendix II to Chapter Seven for a discussion of and argument against the "widely held" view "that the pronoun is functioning as a variable bound by its quantifier antecedent." (King 2006, p. 238)

context. But *prima facie* there is nothing wrong with the property of believing that *one** is a millionaire.

Let us end with three final points. Firstly, on the account of it given above, the asterisked third-person pronoun does have, as uttered on such and such an occasion, what Perry calls a completing sense.[46] Moreover, the account can be extended to asterisked adverbs of time and space. All these expressions thus have completing senses quite innocuously. Just how innocuous is evidenced by the account given above of proper names, which also have a sense, namely, the appropriately nominal referential property described above. The kind of sense distinctive of something as a proper name must be distinguished, of course, from the kind of sense possessed by a definite description such as 'the King of France'. The sense of the latter may be characterised as the property of referring to something *x* (on such and such an occasion) if and only if *x* is the King of France, which, although similar in form to that possessed by the proper name 'Perry', is interpreted by a hearer in a different way. For in its case linguistic meaning is a function of the linguistic meaning of component parts and so a hearer adverts to these in order to determine what the referent is or at least would be should it exist.[47]

Secondly, the claim that the asterisked third-person pronoun and, *mutatis mutandis*, the asterisked adverbs of time and place have, as uttered on an occasion, completing senses might prompt an objection whose refutation is instructive. When S sincerely and literally asserts, at *t* and *l*, the sentence "I am F (here and now)," S expresses the content that it* is F (then* and there*). And according to the conception advanced here, S's sentence does, *pace* Perry, 'identify' a 'proposition'. In other words, the clause 'that it* is F then* and there*' unproblematically individuates a content,

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46 See Perry 1977, p. 5/p. 479.

47 Given that this account preserves a difference between proper names and definite descriptions; given, too, that, in the case of the former, sense is quite thin: one may see the account sketched here as splitting the difference between what some have regarded as the standardly Fregean account of proper names and a Millian or Russellian one.

namely, that it*, S, is F then*, *t*, and there*, *l*.[48] But when *S self*-ascribes its belief, hence individuates the content of its belief (as its*), it does not use this clause but rather the clause 'that I am F here and now' in an assertion of the sentence "I believe that I am F here and now." Is there not a difference here? Surely S's self-ascription expresses that the fact that S's belief and its content are *its**, whereas the third-personal report, using the asterisked third-person pronoun and asterisked adverbs of time and place, does not. The latter therefore fails to capture something about the belief which the former does not, precisely, its first-personally perspectival character.

There is confusion here. The sentences "I believe here and now that I am F here and now," as uttered by S at *t* and *l*, and "S believes[49] at *t* and *l* that it* is F then* and there*," as uttered by anyone at any *t* and *l*, are, as it was put above, two 'perspectives' *on the same thing*. Equally clearly, this one and same thing is not some underlying substance-one-knows-not-what. There is a clear answer to the question as to what S's belief and its content are. The first is belief at *t* and *l* that it* is F then* and there*, the second the content that it* is F then* and there*. It is also clear why there is this ready answer: as pointed out repeatedly, what connects the two 'perspectives' is the fact that each of them expresses a truth if and only if S believes at *t* and *l* that it* is F then* and there*. True, in this explanation one of the two 'perspectives' is both used and mentioned, that is, used to characterise what it, now mentioned, accomplishes. But this is only because it is the 'perspective' available to *a subject in general*, whether S or not, and at *any* time or place. In this innocuous sense, it is that perspective which captures the phenomenon as it 'really' is.[50] To this extent, then, the

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48 It must be recalled that in the clause 'that it*, S, is F then*, *t*, and there*, *l*', the terms 'S', '*t*' and '*l*' are being used appositionally. They do *not* express elements in content, but are used merely to indicate that they are the terms whose reference determines the referent of the asterisked expressions.

49 Clearly, the verb 'believes' is functioning tenselessly here, as does the verb 'equals' in the sentence "2 plus 2 equals 4."

50 What it 'really' is in an ontological rather than a strictly metaphysical sense! Unfortunately, there is a tendency to use the adjectives 'ontological' and 'metaphysical' as if they were synonymous when they are not, at least not if by metaphysics one means what Kant, following Baumgarten, called *metaphysica specialis* and contrasted with *metaphysica generalis sive ontologia*—see, e.g., Kant 1791/1976, p. 590. This distinction ultimately derives from Aristotle's implicit distinction between

asterisked third-person pronoun perspicuously expresses an element in content in a way the first-person pronoun does not.

Yet this is *not* to deny either that in its own way the first-person pronoun also perspicuously expresses an element, indeed the very same element, in content; or that when contained in the appropriate 'that'-clause, it contributes in its own way to displaying content.[51] Indeed, it is not to deny that there is something very special about the first-person 'perspective'. S's self-ascriptive use of the sentence "I believe here and now that I am F here and now" obviously expresses the fact that S's belief and its content are *its** in a way any perspicuous third-personal report of S's belief and its content, using as it must the asterisked third-person pronoun and asterisked adverbs of time and place, cannot. To this extent, S's first-personal report expresses a first-personally perspectival character in a way no third-personal report can. And this first-personally perspectival character has an essential practical significance: it expresses S's capacity *to take responsibility for its belief*, this precisely because it expresses S's knowledge of its belief and the content thereof as its*. But this is a feature of neither its belief nor content themselves. So the third-personal report does *not* fail to capture something essential *about S's belief and its content*, namely, an allegedly distinctive first-personal perspectival character captured only by S's *self*-ascription, i.e., by S's first-person report. For it is this self-ascribing, not what is self-ascribed, which embodies the first-person perspective and implicates knowledge on S's part that the belief and content ascribed are its*.

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the study of beings *qua* beings and the study of the first principles and ultimate causes of all things, in Book IV and Book I of the *Metaphysics* respectively. A descendant of the distinction is to be found in both Williams and, following him, Jackson—see Williams 1966 and Jackson 1994. See also footnote 62 in Chapter Five.

51 So while the conception of the *de se* advanced here does not deny that there is, in some sense, a 'first-person perspective', it does not understand the notion in quite the manner in which it is more standardly understood. For it understands the perspective at issue to be one *on the content rather than the objects of belief*. Stanley writes that "(a) principal attraction of a view that treats first-person thought as self-ascriptions of properties is the sense that it appears to allow us to evade the extraordinarily difficult task of explaining what it is to take a first-person perspective on the world." (Stanley 2011, p. 88) The thesis of content inherently *de se* shows that, in the more standard sense intended by Stanley, there is no such perspective and so no such task.

Thirdly, the account given here does not appeal to the nascently psychologistic notion of ways of thinking or, for that matter, modes of presentation. As such, it does not confront the issue of how ways of thinking, modes of presentation and the like can 'combine' with predicate senses to constitute the thinking of a whole content. If one thinks of representational states and events as composed of 'ways of thinking' or of any other kind of component sub-act, then not only must one obscure the difference between state and event, one encounters in particularly trenchant form a problem to be addressed in Chapter Eight, the problem, namely, of the unity of content. The unity of a content—what binds its elements into a whole—must be sufficiently internal to its elements to enable a genuinely *predicative* unity. Yet as we shall see in Chapter Eight, there is no way in which a conception of content as consisting of mental sub-acts of reference and predication could ever accommodate such unity. The putative elements are just too external to one another, hence to the whole they would unify. Implicit in such talk of ways of thinking is a tendency to assimilate the content of a representational state or event to use of the sentence which would perspicuously express this content. The locutionary use of this sentence certainly does involve sub-acts of reference and predication. It quite literally combines certain parts into a whole. But it does not follow from this that the content thereby characterised is also the result of combining parts into a whole.

If, however, this is so, then the question of just what kind of thing a content is becomes pressing. All the more pressing does this question become once one agrees with Evans that there is nothing absurd in the idea of content one can only ever have as a content of representation, locution or illocution if one occupies such and such position in time or, for that matter, space, or is such and such a subject. This question will also be addressed in Chapter Eight, where it will be argued that one must embrace something approximating to what Keller calls "'Primitivism'," according to which contents "… are *sui generis*, fine-grained … abstract entities" which are "*un*structured" in the sense that their unity is not a structure external to them.

Consequently, they "… are not set-theoretic constructions, nor are they composed of objects, properties, or relations (or the modes-of-presentation thereof) … " (Keller 2013, p. 658) since they are not *literally* composed of anything at all.

CHAPTER EIGHT

On the Unity and Nature of Content

The chapter preceding has argued that the thesis of content inherently *de se* must reject any suggestion that contents are complexes *literally* composed of anything, whether senses (Frege), referents and properties or relations (Russell), guises (Castañeda), mental acts (Soames and Evans[1]) or meaningful linguistic expressions (King).[2] Rather, it is committed to a conception of contents in general as "… *sui generis*, fine-grained, abstract entities" (Keller 2013, p. 658) which are, to use Keller's word, "*un*structured." (Keller 2013, p. 658) The thesis is thus committed to (some version of) what she calls "'Primitivism'" (Keller 2013, p. 658) about content.

Now Keller does not explicitly clarify what in general she understands by structure. As we shall see below, however, the criticisms she makes of standard accounts of so-called structured propositions suggest that by it she understands something of which there can be instances which lack the defining property of propositions, i.e., contents, namely, truth-aptitude.[3] Yet structure need not, indeed as we shall see, must not, be understood this restrictively. Within any content one can distinguish features such that if two contents differ in respect of the features, they are different—different possibly in truth value but certainly in the causal role they impart

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1 At least in Evans 1982. In this work Evans writes that he would "explain the sense in which thoughts are structured, not in terms of their being composed of several distinct *elements,* but in terms of their being a complex of the exercise of several distinct conceptual *abilities*." (Evans 1982, pp. 100-101) It is, however, questionable whether the content of a representational *state* could be composed of the *exercises* of anything. Surely only the *acquiring* of a belief, hence not the belief itself, is the exercise of a conceptual ability—in which case the *content* of belief could not be composed of such exercises.

2 Nor are they 'composed of', i.e., complexes whose elements are, such things as possible worlds (Lewis and Stalnaker).

3 This is perhaps just a little too strict: if there should be contents for whose perspicuous characterisation a 'that'-clause is not appropriate, as is arguably the case when the small pug perceives a large pit bull charging aggressively towards it*, then one would have to conceive the defining property of content more subtly, namely, as *determination of*, rather than simply *being*, something truth-apt. One could then say that by structure Keller understands something of which there can be instances which lack the defining property of content, viz., determination of something truth-apt involving the same elements. Given that the pug perceives what it perceives, namely, a large pit bull charging aggressively towards it*, it is at least possible that the pug should form the belief that a large pit bull is charging aggressively towards it*, which has a truth-apt content.

to what has them as contents. This surely entitles one to describe the features thus distinguished as aspects of structure, admittedly of structure in a sense weaker than that presupposed by Keller when she speaks of a conception of content as unstructured. These features make a distinctive contribution to the truth value and causal role of what possesses them, thereby contributing to the identity of the latter. Moreover, structure in this weaker sense *itself* contributes to truth value, more precisely put, to truth *aptitude*: it is structure such that any instance of it must be truth-apt, hence be a content, and so is essential to what it structures. Yet in some sense it is still structure, even constituency. To this extent, then, one may speak of elements in content.

Keller herself recognises the possibility of understanding structure and constituency less restrictively. For this reason, she concludes her discussion by distinguishing between what she calls heavy- and light-weight senses of constituency,[4] the former being the sense she presupposes, the latter in effect the sense just specified. Yet she claims that light-weight constituency, which she abbreviates as constituency$_L$, lacks "the purported explanatory potential of its heavyweight cousin" (Keller 2013, p. 671), this because it makes no claim about "the "inner nature" of propositions" (Keller 2013, p. 670) i.e., contents.[5] Evidently, the conception of content *de se*[6] advanced here must reject this since it entails that contents only have constituents in the sense just specified, hence requires constituency$_L$, yet makes claims about "the "inner nature" of propositions." The notion of content must therefore be further elaborated so as to provide an account thereof which, while presupposing only constituency$_L$, rebuts Keller's claim. Section I provides resources for this task while the task itself is undertaken in Section II.

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4 See Keller 2013, § 4, pp. 669-672.

5 In effect, Keller appears to assume that one can have genuinely informative things to say about what contents internally or intrinsically are if *and only if* they are structured in a manner entailing heavy-weight constituency.

6 And, for that matter, a comparable conception of content *de nunc* and *de hic*.

Section I: The Unity of Content

Keller discusses and ultimately rejects what she treats as three competing conceptions of how contents are structured, the set-theoretic, the mereological and the hylomorphic. These conceptions differ from one another in how the relation constitutive of something as an element in content is conceived. In other words, each is the application to content of a different way in which something can be complex in the following very general sense: *x* is a complex just in case there are items *y*, *z*, … standing in a relation *R* to *x* which is *definitive of x*, that is, makes *x* the kind of complex it is. The items *y*, *z*, … are then elements in *x* in the very general sense in which the notion is understood here. In the case of the set-theoretic conception, *R* is set membership, so *x* is some kind of set. In the case of the mereological conception, it is the part-whole relation, so *x* is some kind of aggregate whose elements can exist without being elements in the aggregate of which they are elements.

What, however, is *R* according to hylomorphism? First one must specify what hylomorphism is. Keller takes Mark Johnston's account as her point of departure, not the least because Johnston claims that a hylomorphic conception of unity *in general* permits one to understand the way in which propositions, i.e., contents, are unities of their elements. He thus understands the term 'hylomorphism' to connote a certain conception of complexity in general whose value for *R* he then specifies in a manner appropriate for those hylomporphic complexes which are contents. As for the general conception itself, Johnston associates it with a "long and daedal tradition" of thinking about complexity "stretching (at least) from Aristotle to Francisco Suarez." (Johnston 2006, p. 659) This tradition begins with reflection on certain kinds of kind, those, namely, whose linguistic expression is, at least in the first instance, a simple common noun, i.e., a noun capable of taking an indefinite article before it, without qualification or addition. Such kinds are, to use Aristotle's own examples, 'a man' or 'a god', but include 'a dog', 'a hammer' 'a stone' and 'a mountain'. In the tradition of mediaeval Scholasticism, which drew much of its inspiration from Aristotle, a kind of this kind

was called the *quidditas* of something, literally, its whatness—a term of art deriving from the Latin for 'what', namely, '*quid*', and coined in order to capture Aristotle's notion of

> the 'what'" of a thing, understood as "the substance" or real essence of the thing. For … when we say *what* it is, we do not say 'white' or 'hot' or 'three cubits long', but 'a man' or 'a god'. (Aristotle, *Metaphysics*, Book VII, 1028a14-18, in McKeon 1941, p. 783)

The Scholastics contrasted the *quidditas* of a thing with its *haecceitas*, literally, its 'thisness'. So the *quidditas* of a thing is indeed, as Aristotle's use of the common nouns 'man' and 'god' intimates, precisely a *kind* of thing, hence something different things can hold in common. In particular, it is *not* an 'individual concept', however this latter is conceived—presumably, of course, as some kind of definite description. Yet neither is a *quidditas simply* a kind. As Aristotle's examples intimate, a *quidditas* is something whose linguistic expression is a noun phrase taking the indefinite article. The terms 'granite', 'water' and, to use another Aristotelian example, 'bronze' do not, therefore, count as *themselves* expressing *quidditates* since one may say neither 'a granite' nor 'a water'. One may, however, speak of a bronze and just this points to what motivates the term 'hylomorphism'.[7] For by *a* bronze one means something *made of* bronze, hence something with a *quidditas* functioning as *morphé* or form which *in-forms* the bronze *qua hylé* or stuff out of which the bronze is made.[8] Thus, the terms 'granite', 'water' and 'bronze' do not *themselves* express *quidditates* because the kind of kind they articulate constitutes the matter which diverse *quidditates* in-form. As the meaning of the noun phrase 'a bronze' itself indicates, such mass terms are not answers to the question of what a thing is, but answers to the question as to what it is made of. Yet mass terms can be used in answers to the former question, provided, however, that they are prefixed with such phrases as 'lump of',

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7 A term coined, however, only as late as the 19th century—see Ainsworth 2016.

8 See, e.g., Aristotle, *Metaphysics*, Book VII, 1029a1-6, especially the claim "By the matter I mean, for instance, the bronze, by the shape the pattern of its form and by the compound of these the statue, the concrete whole."

'ingot of', etc. The phrases 'lump of granite', 'puddle of water', 'ingot of bronze' and even 'cup of tea' then express *quidditates*, understood as the common identity or universal one specifies in answer to the question, "What is this?"

The noun phrases 'list', hence 'set' or '*n*-tuple', and 'heap', hence 'aggregrate', can, of course, be used in answer to this question: "What is this? A list of the things we need to buy," or again, "A heap of stones with which to build a retaining wall." With this, we see that hylomorphism neither is nor entails any specific kind of value for *R* but rather constitutes a way of thinking about what *any R* is, namely, a relation between *what* a complex item *x* is—its *quidditas*, the kind which makes it *what* it is—and certain elements *y* of *x* such that each *y* constitutes something possessed by *x* without which *x* not only could not *be*, but crucially also could not *behave as*, a typical instance of its *quidditas*. The *quidditas* of an entity is thus not *primarily* a collection of essential properties and relations, but rather a typical pattern, precisely a *form*, of interaction with other entities which manifests itself in the essential properties to which we appeal in recognising an entity to be of such and such a *quidditas*. Some of these typical patterns of interaction are patterns of self-sustainment, as in the case of the kinds 'man', 'dog' and even 'god'. Meanwhile, others are functionally-defined roles in the self-sustainment of other entities, e.g., the kinds 'hammer' and, as Keller herself intimates,[9] according to Aristotle, 'syllable' and 'geometric shape'. Finally, some are simply typical patterns of active and passive affectability, e.g., the kinds 'stone' and 'mountain', but also 'lump of granite', 'puddle of water' and 'ingot of bronze'. What, however, all of these *quidditates* have in common is the fact that any instance of them possesses elements in the sense that all are so organised as to enable realisation of the typical pattern of interaction. Hylomorphism is indeed a claim about *R in general*: *R* is always the character of some *quidditas* as determining for any instance *x* of it an *organisation* of elements *y*—in the

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[9] See Keller 2013, p. 665.

case of organic *quidditates*, quite literally an *organ-isation*, such that *y* is an *organ* of *x*.

This understanding of hylomorphism as a conception of any unifying *R* in general comes out in Johnston's characterisation of it. Hylomorphism, he writes,

> is the idea that each complex item admits of a real definition, or statement of its essence, in terms of its matter, understood as parts or components, and its form, understood as a principle of unity. (Johnston 2006, p. 658)

It seems that a real definition specifies how a complex entity's "essence", i.e., its *quidditas*, so relates to what Johnston calls its "matter" or "parts," we its elements, that thereby it articulates not just that the entity falls under the kind but *how* it does so. In other words, it genuinely pins the *quidditas* of a complex entity down, this by spelling out the value of *R* determined by the *quidditas*. So a real definition accomplishes more than a merely nominal definition, which simply lists essential properties and relations, that is, properties and relations each necessary and together sufficient for being of the kind.[10] For it specifies how a complex item 'hangs together', in particular, across time, as it interacts with other entities—precisely its form.

So what, on the hylomorphic conception, is the value of *R* for contents—what Johnston calls propositions? He notes that "(t)he whole force of the problem" of the unity of content rests "on the idea of "a "*nonarbitrary*" bearer of truth value." (Johnston 2006, p. 683; italics added) In other words, that around which those complexes which are contents are organised—propositional complexity—is truth-aptitude, i.e., the property of being true if and only if such and such is the case.

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[10] A nominal definition is thus presumably something one can wield when identifying something as of the kind. Classification can no doubt proceed in this 'checklist' (and presumably Lockean) fashion when one is honing one's skills in botanical identification. But perhaps this is precisely *not* the way ordinary perceptual classification and expert botanical identification proceed. Perhaps one simply recognises some perspectively conditioned holistic gestalt, an *eidos* or prototype which constitutes how the entity being classified at *t* and *l* shows itself at *t* and *l* for what it is overall. This difficult issue cannot be investigated here.

Evidently, truth-aptitude is a kind of organisation quite distinct from self-sustainability, serviceability or affectability, so in *this* sense, contents are for Johnston *sui generis*, such that anything which possesses their kind of unity must itself be a content. Implicit in the thought that content embodies some specific form of hylomorphic unity is recognition that any adequate account of its unity must capture and explain the fact that contents *essentially* possess the property of being true if and only if such and such is the case, hence either of being actually true or of being actually false, given how the world is. So any adequate account of how a basic atomic content such as that Othello loves Desdemona is unified must show how the elements unified in it contribute to its specific truth-aptitude, and only thereby, hence only secondarily, to its existence.

This points directly to why neither set-theoretic nor mereological accounts of the unity of content will do. Let us assume that the content, the proposition, that Othello loves Desdemona is Russellian, say, the *n*-tuple <Othello, the relation of *x*'s loving *y*, Desdemona>. Evidently, this *n*-tuple is *not* intrinsically truth-apt, as is shown by the fact that there are all sorts of other *n*-tuples which are not in the least truth-apt. And it is also shown by the fact that there are five permutations of this *n*-tuple with which one could with just as much and just as little right identify the content that Othello loves Desdemona. One can, of course, simply *stipulate* that the *n*-tuple <Othello, the relation of *x*'s loving *y*, Desdemona> is the 'right' one; this might be useful in some theoretical contexts. Yet nothing is a content *by stipulation*. So neither this *n*-tuple nor any of its permutations is, in and of itself, the 'proposition'. Clearly, the same applies to mereologically unified complexes—what Johnston calls a "mereological sum." (Johnston 2006, p. 682)[11]

[11] As Johnston puts the point, while "(w)e can *introduce* a sense in which certain *n*-tuples might be called "true" or called "false" … ," no set-theoretic entity, nor indeed any "mereological sum," "could be true or be false, without the stipulation of some … convention for assigning truth and falsity." (Johnston 2006, p. 682)

In fact, the problem of multiple permutations is but a surface manifestation of the real difficulty: elements in an atomic content such as that Othello loves Desdemona are simply not elements in the way in which *anything*, whether Desdemona herself or even the sense of an expression referring to her, is an element either in an *n*-tuple or in a "mereological sum." Precisely because he recognised this, Frege spoke of what he took elements in content to be, senses, namely, as *complete* or *incomplete*. The metaphor of completeness and incompleteness constitutes Frege's recognition of the fact that elements in content must possess the capacity to contribute to truth-aptitude *intrinsically*; they are by nature such as to facilitate it. The metaphor thus reflects his appreciation that one would never solve the problem of the unity of content unless one conceived of the elements in content as inherently suited to fit together in truth-apt wholes, that is, to belong together in such a way that the whole bears the property of being true if and only if such and such is the case. In order to determine the appropriate value for *R*, one must first conceive the elements appropriately, namely, as always already entailing capacity for standing in this particular value of *R* to one another.

This has an important implication, one which, as we shall see below, Johnston explicitly recognises: that there is a predicate expression such as '*x* is hot', possessed of such and such a sense, *presupposes* that there *is* some full truth-apt sense, i.e., whole content, which is expressed by inserting a singular term into the empty position syntactically guaranteed to be contained in the predicate expression in order to express something true of the referent of the singular term if and only if this latter is hot. This is what it is for both the sense of the predicate expression and the predicate expression itself to be incomplete. Indeed, the predicate *expression* is only *literally* incomplete—only has, as one says, an empty place in it—, *because* its sense is incomplete. Conversely, the singular term 'Hume' and its sense are complete in that the existence of the latter *presupposes* that of a full truth-apt sense, i.e., whole content, expressed by insertion of the term into the empty position syntactically guaranteed to

be contained in a predicate expression whose sense determines that the whole content is true of Hume if and only if Hume bears the property determined by said predicate sense. This is what it is for both the sense of the term and the term itself to be complete. And so the inherent completeness or incompleteness of an element in content just is the particular way it contributes to the truth-aptitude of the whole content, which latter cannot but be *non-arbitrarily* truth-apt and such that its existence precedes, i.e., *is presupposed by*, that of its elements.[12]

How, then, does Johnston specify the value of *R*? Hylomorphic complexity allows for, as it were, different 'species', each 'species' being characterised by a different kind of organisation of its elements, e.g., self-sustainability, serviceability and affectability. Moreover, set-theoretic and mereological values of *R*

> do not themselves explain how the wholes that they generate are capable of truth and falsity. So the wholes in question are not the sorts of things that are intrinsically capable of being true or false; that is, capable of being true or false without further convention. … That is why sums and sets and sequences are none of them propositions. (Johnston 2006, p. 683)

So Johnston, too, concludes that the unity of an atomic content such as that Othello loves Desdemona must be *sui generis*, i.e., such that something only exhibits it if it is itself a content. Precisely on this basis, he then identifies what he takes the value of *R* to be in the case of content. All that is required, he claims, for the content, the proposition, that Othello loves Desdemona to exist is that the property of *x*'s loving *y* be *predicated* in the right way, i.e., in the appropriate order. Johnston expressly declares that he wishes to leave open the question of what predication operates on, i.e., what this relation takes as arguments. Thus, simply for the sake of illustrating his point, Johnston says that we may think of the content both locuted on an occasion by

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[12] This shows, incidentally, that it is wrong to regard the completeness of singular terms and of the senses they express, as opposed to the incompleteness of predicate expressions and the senses they express, as entailing that the former are indifferent to their unity in, respectively, whole sentences and contents in a way the latter are not. This is to conflate a property of singular terms and their senses with a property of their referents.

the sentence "*a* is F" and picked out on an occasion by the 'that'-clause 'that *a* is F' "as a complex item built up from *F*-ness and *a*." And so "we can identify the proposition [i.e., content] that *a* is *F* as the predication of *F*-ness of *a*." We could, however, at least as far as his argument here is concerned, think of this content as being built up "by way of the relation of being predicated of" from the senses which have *F*-ness and *a* as their *Bedeutungen*. (Johnston 2006, p. 685) Either way, at least in the case of an atomic content, *x*'s being predicated of *y* is the value of *R*.

Evidently, by construing *R* as predication, one both ensures that a complex unified by it is non-arbitrarily truth-apt in some specific way; and at least assumes that an element thus unified contributes, hence is able, in and of itself, to contribute, in some specific way to such non-arbitrary truth-aptitude. Yet recourse to the notion of predication creates two difficulties, or rather, one single difficulty with two interconnected aspects. Firstly, to cash the unity of at least atomic[13] content in terms of predication, i.e., to construe this unity as predicative, is to construe the elements of content as literally constituents, that is, as constituents in a heavyweight sense. Thus, speaking of "the proposition [i.e., the content] that Aristotle liked dogs" and the items it implicates as elements, *whatever these items might be*,[14] Johnston writes that "we want this proposition to exist and have those items *as constituents* whether or not Aristotle liked dogs." (Johnston 2006, pp. 683-684; italics added) Then, a page later, he speaks of this content as "*being built up from*" (Johnston 2006, p. 685; italics added) its constituents—this once again whatever one might take the elements to be. This is clear commitment to constituency in the literal, hence heavy-weight sense.[15] Secondly, as soon as one adverts to predication as the value of *R* appropriate for contents, one encounters "an obvious hitch," namely, "that … predication … may

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[13] Johnston never asks, hence explains, how predication can unify contents implicating the logical connectives.

[14] "(W)e may think of the name 'Aristotle' as contributing the item Aristotle … or alternatively, a mode of presentation of that item [i.e., a sense] … to the proposition expressed by" the sentence "Aristotle liked dogs." (Johnston 2006, p. 683)

[15] What one might call, in a manner derived from Keller, constituency$_H$—see Keller 2013, p. 671.

seem to be" some kind of act, e.g., "the act of judging that *a* is *F*." (Johnston 2006, p. 684)

Since Johnston himself recognises the "obvious hitch," we must start with it. Johnston seeks to overcome it by appeal to "an act-object ambiguity (or better polysemy) in the use of the term 'predication', rather like the act-object ambiguity in the use of the term 'explanation'." (Johnston 2006, p. 684) He does not make clear, however, how this is supposed to work in overcoming the hitch. Nor is this surprising because appeal to the act/product, better, the process/product distinction does not address the issue. The "obvious hitch" arises not simply because or when predication is conceived as an act, but also because and when it is conceived as a product. A product is, after all, always a product of something, which latter can surely only be some process, presumably in this case, an act. So whether predication is understood as the result of an act or as the act itself, the insinuation of an act remains. The reason for this lies in the notion of predication itself, which, strictly understood, is precisely an act. To conceive the relevant value of *R* for (atomic) content as predication is always already to think of content as produced in, indeed as built up by, some act of predication. It is thus always already to think of content as possessed of constituents in the heavyweight sense—precisely as "built up from" items literally brought together predicatively. This returns us to the first difficulty, which has now shown itself indeed to be just the first aspect of one difficulty alongside a second.

At this point, we must recall why the set-theoretic and mereological conceptions of the unity of content failed: both misconstrued what it is to be an *element in content*, which is defined in its very being by capacity to contribute in such and such a specific way to diverse truth-aptitudes. Just this entails that no element in content can be a constituent in the literal, that is to say, heavyweight sense presupposed most obviously by mereological complexity but also, more subtly, by the set-theoretic kind. Of both these kinds of unity there can instances which are not truth-apt, hence not contents, so their kind of unity is insufficiently internal both to what is unified and

what it is unified in. By contrast, the unity of content is so internal to both that elements only exist as thus unified, unlike elements in an aggregrate; and complexes of elements cannot possess any arbitrary number or kinds of item as elements, unlike sets. Only because it is complex in this more demanding sense is a content "a "nonarbitrary" bearer of truth value." (Johnston 2006, p. 683) And so elements in content are only ever distinguishable but inseparable aspects thereof.

Now Johnston would appear to acknowledge all or at least most of these points. He seeks, he says, to be an "objectivist about predication", i.e., about content, hence seeks to construe the latter "as existing anyway, and not as the outcome of judgements." Indeed, he allows that "predicability guarantees predication," such that "(w)henever *F*-ness is predicable of *a*, then there will be something that is the predication of *F*-ness of *a*." (Johnston 2006, p. 684) But his appeal to predication as the value of *R* appropriate for contents creates the aforementioned difficulty with its two aforementioned aspects, to which Johnston has no real answer. And as already intimated, the reason for this lies in the notion of predication itself, not in any objectivism or subjectivism about predication, whatever these may be precisely. More accurately put, the difficulty lies in the overly direct way in which Johnston wields the notion of predication. Because predication cannot but insinuate a predicative act, however much, indeed precisely when it insinuates a predicative product, it cannot be the value of *R* appropriate for contents *when it is understood as operating directly on elements in content themselves*, as if the latter were the arguments fed into it.

How predication might be less directly understood, hence what Johnston might be gesturing towards when he speaks of it, will be explored in the next section. Crucially, in this exploration hylomorphism will play a decisive role, this, however, only because and insofar as it "picks up a strand … from the long and daedal tradition stretching (at least) from Aristotle to Francisco Suarez" (Johnston 2006, p. 659) which Johnston ignores. For by picking this strand up one can set the notion of predication in right relation to the notion of content, such that one is not compelled to construe the

latter as "built up from" elements by the former. Thereby one can both avoid construing contents as having constituents in a heavy-weight sense and allow predication legitimately to insinuate some kind of act. Most importantly, one can respond to Keller's claim that the merely light-weight sense in which one must regard elements in content as constituents lacks "the purported explanatory potential of its heavyweight cousin." (Keller 2013, p. 671) Thereby one shows that constituency$_L$ in no way blocks substantive claims about "the "inner nature" of propositions" (Keller 2013, p. 670), i.e., contents. So let us conclude this section by identifying the relevant strand.

The kinds of *quidditas* which Aristotle preferentially used to illustrate the unity of form and matter were *organically natural* and *artefactual* kinds, such as being a man or being a dog; and being a statue or being a hammer. And at least arguably he did not see the *quidditas* of, e.g., doghood as *simply* a collection of properties and relations possessed essentially by an individual dog. Rather, doghood constituted *what* an individual dog is in a sense which underlies whatever characterisability the kind has as a collection of essential properties and relations, i.e., whatever *nominal* essence, hence *nominal* definability, it possesses. In particular, doghood entails the character of any instance of it as interacting with other things in certain typical and regular, even lawful ways. It thus is or correlates with a general pattern of behaviour with regard to other things, precisely a *form*, and only as such is it something a self-conscious subject can itself relate rationally to, either in theory (cognition) or in practice (action). The underlying idea here is that if one wishes to understand what an ordinary, everyday empirical kind is, then one must specify how instances of it typically, indeed paradigmatically, interact with other things across time.[16]

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[16] This account of the kind of kind of which doghood is an instance derives directly from Husserl and his account of "empirically typical generality"—see Husserl (1939/1985), § 83, pp. 388-401. It is worth noting that Husserl would regard his account as something "the long and daedal tradition stretching (at least) from Aristotle to Francisco Suarez" (Johnston 2006, p. 659) had seen through a glass but darkly.

Crucially, the notion of how instances of such an empirical kind typically interact with other things across time has a double meaning. Firstly, it connotes how they as a rule get about the world in a sense which connotes 'what most do'. It thus constitutes that by understanding which one possesses a necessary condition for dealing practically with instances of the kind. Secondly, it connotes how instances as a rule get about the world in a sense which implicates an evaluative standard for them. A three-legged dog is still a dog but its missing fourth leg means not only that it cannot realise the typical pattern of interaction fully, it also *fails* to do so. It only realises the general pattern as an outlier, i.e., as an instance whose recognition as an instance implicates recognition of failure to conform in such and such respects. As one may put the point, it does not fully *actualise* the general pattern of interaction with regard to other things which is implicated in doghood. It is clear what gives an organically natural kind this evaluative character: the more an instance has the *potential* to conform to the pattern, the more likely it will survive. Something similar applies in the case of artefactual kinds: the kind either is or correlates with an artefactual role and the better an instance can play this role, the more it will avoid being discarded.[17]

Thus, as it applies to organically natural entities such as an individual dog, a 'whatness' determines a typical spatial arrangement *at* a time of various entities (legs, teeth, muscles, etc.)[18] from the outset understood as working together to enable this spatial arrangement at a time to display a pattern of behaviour across time approximating *more or less closely* to the typical pattern which is or correlates with the 'whatness'. So entities composite in this sense possess elements individuated from the outset as items *more or less effectively enabling* what has them as elements to instantiate[19] that typical behavioural trajectory which is or correlates with its

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[17] So a kind is not merely what a certain class has in common; it also implicates what is *representative*, precisely *paradigmatic*, of the class.

[18] This spatial arrangement of such elements at a time is the 'whatness', the form, *as it shows itself to perception at a time*. In this sense at least, it is the *eidos*.

[19] More or less fully, i.e., to a greater or lesser degree!

whatness.[20] In other words, the elements are individuated in terms of their character as contributing *more or less effectively* towards the potential of what has them as elements for actualising such and such a 'whatness'—for it truly to be what it is.[21] They are individuated in terms of their character as contributing towards the aptitude of the complex to which they belong to be a *paradigmatic* instance of its kind. Concomitantly, its being an instance of the kind implicates its own approximation to the paradigm case. The kind has become an evaluative standard for its instances. Of course, Aristotle and his Scholastic followers applied the doctrine of hylomorphism well beyond the organically natural and the artefactual as standardly understood. In particular, as Keller points out,[22] Aristotle applied it to both syllables and geometric shapes, presumably because he was thinking of them as kinds of artefact. Syllables actually written or spoken, and even geometric shapes actually drawn, are, after all, *means* of communication and proof respectively. So they can be seen as instantiating, more or less paradigmatically, artefactual kinds in an at least extended sense. Indeed, the tradition of hylomorphism goes further: the notion is also applied to the *inorganically* natural—to, for example, stonehood and even granitehood.

Might, then, hylomorphism, once this evaluative strand is restored to it, help in understanding what it means to describe content and its unity as 'predicative'? On this understanding of it, whatever displays hylomorphic unity is something apt to realise, *more or less effectively*, such and such a 'whatness'. Moreover, it is this in virtue of its elements contributing *more or less effectively* to what this aptitude paradigmatically is.[23] At this point hylomorphic complexity might well seem to have something in

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[20] In addition, one might think of this 'whatness', this form, as entailing that what bears it possesses something driving it along the trajectory. This is the *teleological* dimension traditionally possessed by the doctrine of hylomorphism, as manifest in Aristotle's doctrine of *final* causes—see, e.g., *Physics*, Book II, 194b24-195a3, in McKeon 1941, p. 240f.; and *Metaphysics*, Book V, 1013a 24-35, in McKeon 1941, p. 752. This pre-modern idea was strenuously resisted by the likes of Descartes and Galileo; its renunciation is a hallmark of modernity.

[21] As Hegel would put it, they are individuated as realising more or less fully their Concept (*Begriff*).

[22] See Keller 2013, p. 665.

[23] This is the basis upon which one may say that a hand cut off is not fully a hand: from the outset, even the hand cut off is individuated as once belonging to a body, nay, a full human being, to whose functioning it more or less adequately contributed. Since it is and is individuated as no longer thus

common with the complexity of content. Contents are, after all, essentially *truth*-apt and their elements are individuated in terms of their contribution to truth-aptitude. So perhaps the unity of content is a variant of the hylomorphic kind, that variant, namely, in which the relevant 'whatness', viz., being a content, determines an 'alethic' rather than natural pattern of behaviour: preservation of truth value across inferences. A content C_m is, after all, essentially such that certain contents C_n, C_o, … follow from it, given contents C_a, C_b, … . Might this not constitute a sense in which contents can be wielded more or less adequately in inferences, the extent, namely, to which these inferences preserve truth value? So might not contents be hylomorphic unities in this sense?

This is just a little too quick. One cannot apply the idea of hylomorphism to content in this way because it involves two mistakes both grounding in the following point: while the kind marked by such labels as 'content', 'proposition', etc. does in some sense determine an 'alethic' pattern of behaviour, this is not the behaviour of any instance of it but rather of the subject wielding it. It is the subject and its inferential acts and processes which more or less adequately track truth value, thereby tracing out inferential relations between contents. This points to a second mistake: inferring subjects can certainly engage in the truth-value preserving behaviour of inference and they can do this more or less validly, hence more or less successfully. Yet this is only so because of what inferring subjects wield and upon which they operate when inferring, namely, items capable of truth and falsity. It is thus question-begging to regard *contents* as themselves hylomorphic unities in any comparable sense.

There is, however, a third and more profound mistake. A hand cut off may well be no longer fully a hand and certainly it is no longer a functioning hand. But it can still be cut off, i.e., removed from the body to which it belongs. In other words,

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contributing, it is and is individuated as no longer fully actual as a hand. In this sense, it is no longer fully a hand.

hylomorphism remains committed to heavy-weight constituency. By contrast, elements in content cannot be literally removed from content. Just this is what Johnston is gesturing towards when he makes such claims as that "predicability guarantees predication," such that "(w)henever *F*-ness is predicable of *a*, then there will be something that is the predication of *F*-ness of *a*." (Johnston 2006, p. 684) Elements in content cannot slotted in and out, as, given sufficiently advanced surgical techniques, hands could be. At this point, hylomorphism might seem to be a dead end and all conceptions of unity exhausted. Yet lack of all internal differentiation, hence unstructuredness in literally every sense of the word, cannot be right.

> (T)here must be a sense in which thoughts [i.e., contents] are structured. The thought that John is happy has something in common with the thought that Harry is happy, and the thought that John is happy has something in common with the thought that John is sad. (Evans 1982, p. 100)

Perhaps, however, hylomorphism only seems a dead end because one has been naively attempting to apply it directly to the notion of content itself, as if the noun phrases 'a content' and 'a proposition' could be seen simply as expressing so many *quidditates* more alongside the phrases 'a man', 'a god', 'a dog', 'a hammer', 'a stone' and 'a mountain'. The task then seems to be one of finding some value for *R* which applies to *elements in content* in the way values of *R* for organisms and artefacts apply to their elements. Perhaps, however, hylomorphism is useful when deployed not directly in order to answer the question of the unity of content, but in order to answer a clearly prior question: what *are* contents anyway? Perhaps in answering the latter, this in a way which draws upon the notion of hylomorphism, the former gets answered *en passant*. The insufficiently internal character of the set-theoretic and mereological conceptions already suggests that one can only account for the unity of content as part and parcel of addressing the issue of what the elements in content, hence content itself are. And this is an issue particularly thorny for the thesis of content inherently *de se* issue because, as we shall see in the next section, it must allow that contents are distinct from the sentences which, as locuted by an S at a *t* and

l, express them. In other words, it is committed to so-called "intensional entities." (Ludwig and Ray 1998, p. 141) Perhaps the notion of hylomorphism, when applied in the right way, such that one can meaningfully bring its evaluative strand to bear, enables one to render such commitment tolerable.

Section II: The Nature of Content

Keller's intimation[24] that Aristotle regarded syllables as hylomorphic unities suggests that while contents are not hylomorphic unities, sentences as locuted by speakers at times and locations are. A sentence is, after all, an artefact and Aristotle certainly thought that artefacts display such unity. Of course, what determines the character of an artefact as such a unity is its *use*. So what is a sentence used for? Most generally, it is used for saying something, typically in the performance of an illocutionary act evaluable by others. It is thus a means of expressing a content, i.e., of performing a locutionary act.

Crucially, precisely because a sentence has this function, it has another, that, namely, of determining a 'that'-clause[25] which, to borrow Perry's term once again,[26] individuates a content. The latter function is complementary to the former because illocution is, at least typically and ideally,[27] under the rational control of the illocuting subject S, which must therefore be able to (rationally claim to) know *what* it is illocuting, hence locuting. Since, however, one can only (rationally claim to) know something if it is possible for another to (rationally claim to) know it, this very same

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24 See Keller 2013, p. 665.

25 Strictly speaking, this is true only of a language like English. The claim needs to be refined in order to accommodate languages such as German, in which there is, at least often, use of the subjunctive rather than the indicative in 'that'-clauses, hence use of a different sentence. Indeed, it needs to be refined even further in order to accommodate languages which do not use 'that'-clauses at all, e.g., Latin. One would have to say something along the following lines: "Precisely because a sentence is a means of expressing a content, i.e., performing a locutionary act, typically in the performance of an illocutionary act, it also has the function of syntactically or grammatically determining a corresponding means of picking out a content."

26 See Perry 1979, p. 30/p. 6.

27 This qualification not only wards off any suspicion of verificationism, it also allows for the possibility that some illocutions do not stand under the rational control of their speaker because the latter is in some way deficient in rationality.

thing, S's illocution, hence locution, is ideally, that is to say, paradigmatically, *open to* evaluation by others. Implicit in the notion of content is not simply the 'first-person perspective' of S itself but also the 'third-person perspective of another', which S must itself be able to 'take'. Contents are by nature publicly accessible, even if this implicates different 'perspectives', as manifest in the difference between "I believe (here and now) that I am making a mess (here and now)" and "Perry believes (at 07.07.79 in the supermarket) that he* is making a mess (then* and there*)."[28]

So S's act of uttering a sentence at *t* and *l* in the intention of saying something is indeed an instance of a kind which determines how well the act accomplishes, given the expressions employed, what instances of the kind ideally accomplish. In particular, S's act is inherently subject to a standard of saying something *perspicuously*, such that, when contained in a 'that'-clause, either S's sentence itself or a sentence systematically related to it by linguistic meaning and context perspicuously captures what is expressed.[29] Obviously, not all instances need conform to the standard. In the first instance, one can unintentionally 'misexpress' a content in various ways, for example, through malapropism or solecism. Then again, one can do so intentionally, through irony, metaphor[30] or even simply laziness. Indeed, contents sometimes *must* be characterised imperspicuously, as when John asserts, "Jack thinks that Jill has been very rude," knowing full well that Jack does not know of Jill that she

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[28] Consequently, with regard to such *personal* contents the locuting subject S must know of some S✦ that it* is S✦ since only then can S know what its content is *publicly*, i.e., for others. And only if S can know what its content is publicly, i.e., for others, can S know what it is for it* itself.

[29] Alternatively put, it is a standard of saying something perspicuously, such that when either the sentence used itself or a sentence systematically related to it by linguistic meaning occurs as the right-hand side of biconditional specifying truth conditions for what is expressed, the biconditional also specifies causal role, i.e., that aspect of the total causal role of the locution *which is imparted by content*. For the *means of expression* of content can impact upon total role through, for example, its voice, active or passive, or its mood, subjunctive or indicative, or indeed even its aesthetic quality. That a clear distinction between the contribution made by what is expressed and the contribution made by what expresses it is possible, that, therefore, one can coherently distinguish the one from the other, is shown by the fact that what is expressed, i.e., content, can also be represented, which evidently involves no expression of it.

[30] These are deliberate forms of mismatch between what a sentence as uttered by a speaker S at *t* and *l* literally expresses (or, as contained in a 'that'-clause, individuates); and what S intends it at *t* and *l* to express (or individuate).

is Jill. This could be pragmatically necessary, given that John is trying to tell Jane what Jack thinks of someone known to Jane as Jill. Yet all this *presupposes* the character of locutions as subject to the aforementioned standard because without it illocutions, hence the behaviour to which they lead, could not stand under the rational control of either speakers themselves or their interpreters. Moreover, just like the hand of a human body, the parts of a sentence locuted, i.e., its sub-sentential expressions, are only fully what they are in their rhetic deployment, hence in the performance of a whole act of saying something. Sentences deployed as artefacts of locution, i.e., deployed for the sake of saying something, are indeed hylomorphic unities, this in a sense implicating that evaluative strand which Johnston leaves behind him.

Just this provides resources for responding to those who would argue that light-weight structure, i.e., constituency$_L$, "lacks … the purported explanatory potential of its heavyweight cousin … ." When Keller claims that someone who resorts to constituency$_L$ can "have no pretensions to giving an account of the nature of propositions …" (Keller 2013, pp. 671-672), what she means by such an account is not simply an explanation of how the defining property of propositions, viz., truth-aptitude, derives from their character as such and such a unity of such and such elements. This, after all, can be explained simply by showing how sub-sentential *expressions* are predicatively unified into items which *express* truth-apt contents, namely, whole sentences. In the latter enterprise, a heavy-weight notion of constituency is clearly both operative and required but it applies, not to contents, but to what expresses contents. This neither licenses nor requires any inference to the conclusion that contents themselves have constituents in the same heavy-weight sense.

In fact, what drives the felt need for a conception of content whose unity is stronger than that of constituency$_L$ is concern to give "an account of the nature of propositions …" in quite a strong sense. Notoriously, Frege argued that contents are denizens of a third realm beyond space and time. So one possible motivation for the

complaint that constituency$_L$ is too lightweight is fear that it will not allow one so to account for "the nature of propositions" that one can avoid this Platonising move. Clearly, if contents are just variants of set-theoretic or mereological complexity, then not only has one admitted no new kind of complexity of which there is no already developed independent account, one has also—provided, of course, that one can identify sufficiently non-Platonic candidates for the elements in such complexes—avoided the Platonising move entirely. Yet it has been argued here that subsumption of contents under any notion of complexity already independently understood, such that there can be instances of it which lack the defining property of content, viz., truth-aptitude, will not succeed. Contents must have their own kind of unity, hence to this extent structure. This is at least part of what it means to describe them as *sui generis*. One no longer has at least one elegant means of avoiding the Platonising move.

Surely, however, one can avoid the move *even as* one construes contents as *sui generis*, hence admits no more than constituency$_L$. This would yield a weaker "account of the nature of propositions," but an account nonetheless. As seen above, sentences deployed in locution are individual instances of a certain 'whatness', namely, being an expression of content. Moreover, they do not indifferently fall under this 'whatness' since every instance *x* of it implicates an instance *y* which expresses perspicuously what *x* expresses. Crucially, although *x* may be *y*, it need not be. In this sense, its 'whatness' implicates perspicuous expression as an inherent standard for its instances—as what they paradigmatically accomplish.[31] In fact, implication of perspicuous expression as a standard is a condition of the very possibility of evaluability, which property the illocutions typically enabled by such expression must as a rule possess if they are to stand under the rational control both of their own subject and of others.

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[31] This must be understood properly: it is obviously false that *each and every* locution, i.e., *each and every* locuter, must aim at perspicuous expression. As pointed out above, often the intentions driving locution not only do not thus aim, they positively seek the contrary.

Note now that this *explains* why one speaks, in ordinary, everyday discourse, of *there being* something a speaker says. In thus speaking, one is gesturing towards the character of illocutions, which are performed precisely by saying *something*, such that *there is* something said by a speaker, as subject to assessment according to how the world is. A locution specifies how the world must be if the illocution for the sake of which it is typically undertaken is to pass muster, such that others can correctly accept it as a reason for belief or action. The defining point of locution is thus to determine something as such a standard for an illocution containing it and the defining function of content is to serve as such a standard. The task thus now becomes that of explaining how the contentfulness of a locution consists in its determining such and such as how the world must be if a possible illocution is to pass muster *without* construing contents as "intensional entities" *in the Fregean sense*.

In principle, one can construe content *qua* what a locution sets as a standard for a possible illocution in one of three ways. Firstly, one might construe it as *different from* the sentence as uttered by S at *t* and *l* in locutionary intent, such that it just *is* the character of a possible illocution as conforming to how the world is if and only if such and such is the case. The being of content would then be exhausted in this functional character or role. Secondly, one might construe it as not merely *different from* but also *independent of* the latter. Thirdly, one might construe apparent existential commitment to "intensional entities" as *entirely apparent*. In other words, one might insist that S's saying at *t* and *l* that *p consists in*, i.e., is *to be analysed as*, S's uttering at *t* and *l* a sentence itself true if and only if *p*. When Frege insists that one must acknowledge a third realm of contents beyond space and time, he is embracing the second option. So the first option is only an alternative to the second and third if one can specify how content can, indeed must be distinct from the sentence as uttered by an S at a *t* and *l* without being independent of it. An account which fulfils this requirement is what will be understood by the aforementioned weaker "account of the nature of propositions."

How, then, might one conceive of what is said, paradigmatically in the performance of an illocutionary act, as not simply identical with the sentence as uttered by S at *t* and *l* in locutionary intent yet also not independent of it, so that it only *is* in the performance of the locutionary act? Precisely at this point the idea that a sentence as deployed by some S at a *t* and *l* in locutionary intent is a hylomorphic unity proves its worth. As intimated above, such deployment is governed by a standard of perspicuous expression, namely, how well it expresses, in objective, hence in principle universally accessible terms, what is said, as this is determined on the occasion. S's deployment thus determines there to be some 'that'-clause which, as appropriately applied, i.e., interpreted by a speaker S✦ at a *t*✦ and *l*✦, would pick out what is said by S at *t* and *l* in objective, hence in principle universally accessible terms. More precisely put, it determines some such clause as *displaying* a sentence which, as appropriately interpreted by S✦ at *t*✦ and *l*✦, constitutes the right-hand side of a biconditional specifying how the world must be for the illocutionary act S is at least potentially performing at *t* and *l* to be satisfied. The sentence deployed *by S* is obviously already available in S's language. But if an equivalent to that deployed *by S*✦ is not available to S, it must become so through rational extension of the linguistic resources S already possesses, as S works hermeneutically towards pinning down what *it* itself* said. For the very nature of illocution for the sake of which a speaker S at a *t* and *l* typically says something requires both sentences; only so is illocution evaluable by S itself.

Content is thus nothing more than this objective standard of evaluation for what has it as content. It just is how the world must be if an illocution with it as content is to be satisfied. This evaluative character so ties the very being of content to its locution that Fregean independence is incoherent. More precisely put, content is tied ontologically both to a sentence which expresses and a 'that'-clause which individuates it in objective, hence publicly accessible terms. Just this explains why, as was pointed out in Section I, elements in content condition one another, i.e., are

unified with one another, in a sense which can only be cashed in terms of the means of their possible expression. Precisely because content *just is* the standard of perspicuous expression, hence of individuation by a 'that'-clause, built into locution, the very identity of elements in content is tied to such means. Content is not therefore independent of some locution and possible illocution of it even as it is and must be distinct from them.[32] And locution is quite literally a building up of "a complex item … from" (Johnston 2006, p. 684) constituents in a heavyweight sense. Moreover, since locution is quite literally and originally 'predication', more accurately put, unification of sentential parts according to contribution to truth-aptitude, so, too, *in a sense one now sees to be derivative*, is content. In one way, then, Johnston is right to construe the unity of content as 'predicative'. Yet in another he is wrong: one need not, indeed must not be "objectivist about predication" (Johnston 2006, p. 684) because content is precisely a 'product'—this, however, only derivatively since it is what is expressed or picked out by something genuinely a product.

One might object that while this account of content entails that it is not independent of what expresses and what individuates it, it does not show that it is distinct from it, hence does not rule out the third option, which one might call *sententialism*. This objection fails to note, however, the necessity and significance of the italicised qualification 'as appropriately applied, i.e., interpreted' used above in describing what a 'that'-clause accomplishes. When S says at some *t* and *l* by means of the sentence *s* that John Perry is making a mess in order to assert this impersonal content,[33] S's act does not simply determine there to be a 'that'-clause which, as brutely uttered by anything, whether a speaker S✦ or a parrot, displays a sentence *s*✦

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[32] Which dependent being is both intimated by and itself explains the fact that there is no access to content except through some such sentence.

[33] S need not, of course, be *asserting* this content. S could be saying that John Perry is making a mess as part of a performance on stage or in order to practise English pronunciation. Indeed, there is a sense, admittedly not quite the same sense, in which S says that John Perry is making a mess when S asserts that if John Perry is making a mess, he will be very embarrassed. Here S is in some sense expressing the content that John Perry is making a mess, albeit only as part of locuting a content whose perspicuous expression properly contains a sentence with which S could say that John Perry is making a mess.

as the right-hand side of a biconditional specifying when the world is as required for assertoric satisfaction.[34] For this does not capture the distinction between the biconditional whose perspicuous expression involves, on the right-hand side, reference to John Perry the philosopher from that which involves reference to John Perry the green grocer. Rather, S's act determines there to be a 'that'-clause displaying a sentence $s^{\spadesuit}$ which, *as used by a speaker* $S^{\spadesuit}$ *at* $\mathbf{t}^{\spadesuit}$ *and* $\mathbf{l}^{\spadesuit}$ *to refer to Perry the philosopher and to predicate the property of making a mess (at* $\mathbf{t}$ *and* $\mathbf{l}$*) of him*, specifies that what the world must contribute towards satisfaction is that John Perry, i.e., the philosopher, not the green grocer, is making a mess. In other words, one must understand the sentence $s^{\spadesuit}$ as genuinely *used* by $S^{\spadesuit}$—used in order to refer to something x and predicate something y of x so as to pick out[35] something as said by S at t and l by means of S's sentence s.

Clearly, what goes for $S^{\spadesuit}$ and $s^{\spadesuit}$ goes for S and s themselves. For the sentence s and its components to acquire sense, they must be *applied* by S on the occasion to something. S is not just uttering but locuting, that is, uttering s in order to refer to something, predicate something of it and so express something truth-apt thereby. What S says at t and l is thus not primarily s itself, nor is this sentence what is primarily truth-apt, not even as thus deployed. Saying that p is never simply, hence primarily a matter of uttering at t and l a *sentence* true if and only if p. From the outset it is already (primarily) a matter of saying something *by means of* a sentence, something true if and only if p. In order to understand how 'that'-clauses function, one needs the notion of sentences as *used* by an S at some t and l in order to express something true or false rather than being themselves true or false. The truth and falsity

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[34] One might object that mere biconditionals are too weak to account for assertoric satisfaction. Thus, what is expressed by the sentence "Fred is a cordate" is true if and only if what is expressed by "Fred is a renate" is true yet Fred's being a renate is not a condition of satisfaction of an assertion of the sentence "Fred has a heart." This objection extensionalistically understates what is being claimed here. The biconditional at issue here is understood from the outset to be expressive of when what is said is true or false without any help from extraneous equivalences to the effect that all cordates are, in the actual world, also renates.

[35] To whatever degree of perspicuousness is contextually required and possibly in entirely objective, hence generally accessible terms, say, for purposes of evaluation.

of what is said is prior to whatever truth and falsity one might stipulate the means of saying it to possess. It remains only to add that this account of how 'that'-clauses function can be extended straightforwardly from locution to representation. When S represents at *t* and *l* that John Perry is making a mess, S's representational state or event determines there to be a 'that'-clause displaying a sentence $s^{\star}$ which, as applied, i.e., interpreted, by a speaker $S^{\star}$ at $t^{\star}$ and $l^{\star}$ to refer to such and such entities and to predicate such and such of them, serves as the right-hand side of a biconditional specifying how the world must be for S's representation at *t* and *l* to be satisfied.

One might perhaps now object that if content is distinct from what expresses it, it *must* be independent of the latter. After all, two asserters S and $S^{\star}$ can have *the very same thing* as the content of their distinct and independent assertions. Precisely this thought motivates the first tenet of the doctrine of propositions according to which representations and illocutions are relations to a content of representation or illocution comparable to the relation between Jack and Jill when the former loves the latter. So how can content not be independent—independent in a manner at least comparable to the way Jill is independent of Jack? Of course, content cannot be independent in *exactly* the same way as Jill is of Jack since it cannot be a spatiotemporal entity. One is thus compelled to understand the *relatum* of which the first tenet speaks as *non-spatiotemporally* independent. Content has become *platonistically* abstract.

If there is a (non-rotund) room, then undoubtedly there is a corner of said room. Yet this does not render corners independent of, as opposed to merely distinct from, the rooms of which they are corners. Moreover, a room's having something as a corner is a relation. Why can one not think of content similarly, that is, as ineluctably a content *of something*, just as a corner is ineluctably a corner *of something*? True, two numerically distinct but qualitatively identical rooms can only share the same *type* of corner, not the very same corner, whereas two numerically distinct but qualitatively

identical locutions can share the very same content.[36] But this is arguably only so because a corner is *mereologically* related to the room of which it is a corner. If, however, content is understood as suggested here, namely, as *exhausted* by the character of a locution as subject to a standard of how well it realises locutionary 'whatness', then a functional relation serves in place of a mereological one. Just this permits one to say that two spatiotemporally, hence numerically distinct locutions can share the very same content, indeed be relations to one and the same thing even as one insists that there is no content without the locution.[37]

Consider, for example, distinct, indeed spatiotemporally independent performances of Beethoven's Op. 111. Everyday language permits one to say, surely literally, that there is some one thing of which they are performances, indeed relations to one and the same thing. It is, of course, possible to regard the sonata itself as a Platonic form existing beyond space and time but this is implausible: how could Beethoven ever have 'grasped' the sonata in a compositional act and how could this act have cost him so much labour? Indeed, how could Op. 111 have been there before Beethoven 'grasped' it? It cannot be identified with its standard stave-and-clef notation, not even as 'uttered', i.e., played, by a subject S at some t and l.[38] Indeed, it cannot be identified with the common character of *any* notation, which is character as a set of instructions for depressing keys, thereby producing certain sounds, all governed, of

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[36] Of course, the corner of a room can continue to exist even as the room to which it belongs is destroyed around it. In this sense, the corner is, like Jill, spatiotemporally independent. Yet even as the room to which it belongs is destroyed around it, the corner of the room still depends ontologically on the latter in the sense that its very existence at a time t *as the corner of a room* entails the actual existence of the room at a time $t^{\blacklozenge}$ either identical with or earlier than t. In this regard, the corner left standing after the room around it has been destroyed does not differ from the severed hand.

[37] What, incidentally, will this account say about locutions which are not merely numerically but qualitatively distinct, as when S locutes at t and l the sentence "Jack loves Jill" while $S^{\blacklozenge}$ locutes at $t^{\blacklozenge}$ and $l^{\blacklozenge}$ the sentence "Jill is loved by Jack"? The senses possessed by the singular terms and the predicate expressions in these sentences are clearly the same and this suffices to determine that both the causal role and the truth conditionality of *what is said*, as opposed to the manner of saying it, are the same. So what is said is the same, notwithstanding whatever differences in the causal role of the saying of it are induced by the difference in voice. See in this connection footnote 29.

[38] If only because the sonata could exist without a score in any literal sense, if, for example, its current practice of performance had arisen through an audience's recalling an initial performance and passing it down by memory and imitation.

course, by the constitutive goal[39] of doing something, indeed producing something, typically capable of inducing such and such aesthetic effects.[40] Importantly, the very identity of the sonata implicates a whole complex web of social relations between certain kinds of clearly empirical subjects with certain kinds of physiological abilities and psychological sensibilities. It is thus at least plausible to say that the sonata exists only in a practice of performance,[41] as that one thing to which individual performers are related in their individual performances. Op. 111 thus suggests that when function of perspicuous expression serves in the place of mereological containment, two spatiotemporally, hence numerically distinct locutions can be relations to one and the same thing even as one insists that there is no content without some bearer of content, such that content is *essentially* content, always the content *of something*.[42]

Representation might seem to constitute a problem. One should not, however, expect representation to be contentful in exactly the same way as locution and illocution. For while there can be (possible) illocutionary content without

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[39] One does not understand what chess is unless one understands that it is an activity governed by the constitutive goal of winning, hence by an understanding of what counts as winning at chess, namely, checkmate. And winning is a notion which implicates all sorts of quite material, because social and psychological phenomena well beyond the existence of chess *qua* set of strict rules and heuristic principles one could feed into a computer—see Searle 1969, § 2.5, pp. 33-42, esp. footnote 1, p. 34. So, too, with musical and other kinds of artistic performance.

[40] This intimates *why* it cannot be identified with any such set, i.e., with any notation (even as it implicates the *possibility* of some such set): the instructions are defined by their character as governed by the constitutive goal *of performing Op. 111*, indeed performing it *well*.

[41] Hence in the social practices of a certain kind of physiologically and psychologically constituted subject, practices therefore implicated in its being the sonata it is.

[42] Note an important consequence of this conception of content as inherently content, in particular, of locution. If the notion of content is inseparably linked to that of locution, that is, if content is essentially something sayable more or less perspicuously by such and such a sentence, then one has allowed for the following possibility: given that as a rule a locution is performed only as part of a full illocutionary act standing under the rational control of its speaker S, hence involves a predicatively structured sentence *s*, there is always, quite trivially, a 'that'-clause available to S and its communication partners which characterises content in *some* perspicuity, either 'that *s*' or, allowing for indexical values of '*s*', 'that $s^{\blacklozenge}$'. It is, however, possible that, given S's intentions, neither this clause nor any other in the language characterises content in *complete* perspicuity. Thus, this conception of how content stands to the locution of it has room for the idea that speakers and their communication partners can see through a glass but darkly what is said. It then becomes a potential task for them all to home in on what S has said, thereby instituting both new conceptual abilities and the vocabulary for them.

illocutionary mode,[43] there cannot be representational content without representational mode. Yet even so S's belief that *p* has as its content that *p*, a content in virtue of which it itself is true if and only if *p*. This suggests the following account of how belief and other forms of representation whose perspicuous characterisation requires use of a 'that'-clause can be relations to a content. In the first instance, they are such that the *ascriber* S✦ must select, hence relate itself to, a sentence which, as wielded in a 'that'-clause, permits it to individuate what is represented. In the second instance, while S✦ must use such 'objectifying' phrases as 'What is objectively required for satisfaction', etc., in such at least apparent claims of identity as that "What is objectively required for satisfaction is that *p*," this does not commit S✦ to construing S as standing to the content of its belief in the way Jack stands to Jill when he loves her, as if S and its content were similarly independent of one another. Use of such 'objectifying' phrases is consistent with S's standing to its content in the way S stands to Op. 111 when S performs it. Indeed, as argued above, construing the relationality of S's belief on this model better captures the functional role of content, which is to constitute the character of representation as only non-defectively had or undergone if the world is objectively a certain way—in the case of S's belief, only if *p*.

Insofar, then, as the first tenet of the traditional doctrine of propositions assumes a notion of relation akin to *x*'s loving *y*, which permits *y* to exist independently of the relation, it is false. There is, however, no need to understand the notion of relation this restrictively. Both representation and locution, hence illocution, can be a relation of its subject to a content in the sense best illustrated by the relation of a performer of Op. 111 to Op. 111 itself, which is the relation of the former's performing the latter more or less well. Clearly, it is *the whole point* of the sonata to stand in this relation; that is, as it were, what it is there for and it shows this point in what it is. Similarly, it is the whole point of content to impart to that of which it is content the latter's evaluable

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[43] As when one simply *says* that the rain in Spain falls mainly on the plain or expresses the content that *a* is F as part of asserting the content that if *a* is F, then *b* is G.

character. Precisely for this reason it is "a "*nonarbitrary*" bearer of truth value" (Johnston 2006, p. 683; italics added); truth-aptitude is what it needs in order to play its role and, since its whole being exhausts itself in this role, it has truth-aptitude non-arbitrarily. And precisely because the whole being and point of non-arbitrarily true or false content consists in making possible states and events defined by the evaluable character, *by the standard*, of being satisfied only if such and such is the case, a content, like Op. 111, makes *the subject* of such states and events stand in a relation to it which is itself subject to standards of evaluation. In the case of locution, this relation of the *subject* to content is that of locuting it more or less well. In the case of illocution, it is that of illocuting it more or less non-defectively. Finally, in the case of representation, it is the relation of representing it more or less adequately, that is, in non-defective fashion, such that as a rule the interests of the representing subject are served.

This suggests one final and subtle critical point: if content needs to be *non-arbitrarily* truth-apt because its whole being consists in making possible states and events which are defined by their character as subject to the evaluative standard of being satisfied only if such and such is the case, then we have an explanation, and not just a gut intuition, as to why those conceptions of content fail which appeal to principles of unity of which there can be non-truth-apt instances, whether *n*-tuples of referents and properties or relations predicated; centred or uncentred sets of possible worlds; or indeed "functions from possibilities of some sort (scenarios, or epistemically possible worlds) to extensions." (Chalmers 2011, p. 598) Clearly there are *n*-tuples, sets of possible worlds and functions which have nothing to do with truth-aptitude and Johnston rightly sees this as showing that such things could not be contents.[44] We can, however, now deepen this point: the reason why this is so, that is, the reason why *non-arbitrary* truth-aptitude is required, is that only as such could content make possible states and events, hence subjects thereof, subject to the

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[44] See Johnston 2006, p. 683.

evaluative standards definitive of locution, illocution and representation. Not only are *n*-tuples, sets of possible worlds, functions and the like at best truth-apt, hence contents, only by stipulation; they are this because they are constitutionally unable to accomplish the full role of content. In principle, this kind of thing may not be identified with content.

Concluding Remarks

The account given in Section II of the nature of content permits a diagnosis of both the second platonist and the third sententialist or nominalist ways of understanding content. Each of these is, in its own way, something to which one is forced by failure to appreciate the hylomorphic character of the expression of content. In particular, both rest on failure to understand properly the character of locutions, hence illocutions, as subject to a standard of perspicuous expression to which they may not fully conform. This failure leaves room for the platonistically inclined to interpret the distinctness of content from its expression, hence from the sentence expressing it, as entailing independence, hence existence in a Fregean third realm. Meanwhile, the nominalistically inclined rightly recoil from this but wrongly all the way back to the means of expression itself. To understand locution hylomorphically is, however, to see that content is a standard of perspicuous expression for a sentence as uttered by S at *t* and *l* in locutionary, hence typically also illocutionary intent. It thus cannot simply *be* the latter.[45]

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[45] This point is further reinforced by the fact that there are degrees of perspicuity with which a sentence as uttered by S at *t* and *l* expresses what it expresses. A locution is brought about, and is intended by its subject S to be brought about, as in principle *understandable* by (certain) others. This presupposes that S and whatever other interpreters there are understand the sentence as uttered by it* then* and there* to be (putatively) *such and such a locution*, i.e., *a saying of such and such*. It is thus incoherent to define what it is for a sentence *s*, as uttered by S at *t* and *l*, to express (more or less perspicuously) the content that *p* as simply *consisting in* its being, as uttered by S at *t* and *l*, true if and only if *p*. It is just another way of claiming this to point out that sententialism distorts the ontology of locution. A locution of the sentence "Perry is making a mess" by S at 07.07.79 in the supermarket has content in *two* interdependent senses: what is *actually* said, e.g., that Perry the philosopher is making a mess; and what is *ideally*, i.e., *most perspicuously* said, namely, that Perry the philosopher is making a mess then* and there*. Sententialism cannot capture both senses but only the latter. This is not to deny that sentences as uttered can be true or false in a derivative sense. It is clearly possibly to *stipulate* that sentences as uttered are true or false, depending on whether

Fortunately, when such unavoidable 'objectifying' turns of phrase as 'What S says', 'What is expressed by the sentence *s*, as uttered by S at *t* and *l*', 'Fermat's last theorem' and 'What the 'that'-clause 'that *s*✦' individuates', etc. are understood properly, one sees that to reject the nominalist third option does not impose the Platonist second. To think otherwise is to infer paralogistically from distinct to independent existence. The "intensional entities" which contents are do not and cannot exist indifferently to what expresses them, hence independently of sentences and language. Although not themselves physical or psychological items, they are tied by their nature as standards to certain social and psychological, hence physiological and physical items. So they do not and cannot inhabit a realm beyond space and time. They play, of course, no role in explanation if by this one means explanation in the language of physics and/or some other natural science. Yet contents are, in their own way, efficacious, hence real: they impart causal capacities to items both social and linguistic as well as psychological and physical, items which play a role in the generation of purposive behaviour. So they can be mentioned in, indeed referred to, in the ordinary, everyday explanation thereof. In particular, they are presupposed by the character of illocutionary acts as evaluable not just in terms of satisfaction, hence justifiability,[46] but also, more originally, in terms of the perspicuity of their expression. Contents thus essentially possess not just truth-aptitude but also expressibility and public accessibility, this, of course, only ever in a public language.

Just this intimates an important point. For all the caution one must exercise in allowing that such 'objectifying' turns of phrase as 'What S says', 'What is expressed by the sentence *s*, as uttered by S at *t* and *l*', 'Fermat's last theorem', 'What the 'that'-

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what they express is true or false. But this only shows that such sentential truth and falsity is not primary but itself presupposes that sentences as uttered by speakers at times and locations *express something truth-apt*—express it *more or less perspicuously*, such that the causal role of what has what is expressed as its content is *more or less perspicuously* captured.

[46] More precisely put, evaluable *as a rule* in terms of satisfaction, hence justifiability, this because they are performed by means of locutions with truth-apt contents only ever *as a rule* evaluable as true or false. There is no commitment here to the 'verificationist' claim that all contents, hence all (assertoric) illocutions are *actually* truth-evaluable.

clause 'that $s^{\blacklozenge}$' individuates', etc. refer, one must nonetheless do so. What Perry believed on 07.07.79 in the supermarket is that he* is making a mess (then* and there*), which has all the appearance of a claim to identity. This appearance must be taken seriously since there is no other way to take it.[47] Crucially, nothing said either here or in Chapter Seven denies this. Yet such 'objectifying' turns of phrase refer to contents only secondarily. In such sentences as "John Perry believes on 07.07.79 in the supermarket that he* is making a mess (then* and there*)," the 'that'-clause is not *primarily* functioning as a singular term. While the clause and its user can and must be said to refer to what Perry believes—only so can one go on to make the aforementioned claim of identity—, this does not license the conclusion that Perry's belief instantiates an ostensible relation of *x*'s believing (at some *t* and *l*) *y* on a par with the relation of *x*'s loving (at some *t* and *l*) *y*. What the clause is primarily and originally doing is displaying a sentence such that, as interpreted, it picks out how the world must be if Perry's belief is satisfied, hence its content true. In doing this, it implicitly shows that content *could not* be independent in the manner of the beloved since thus to conceive it would distort its functional role.

So the 'that'-clauses in which such 'objectifying' phrases as 'What S says', 'What John Perry believed at 07.07.79 in the supermarket', 'Fermat's last theorem', etc. are grounded, namely, 'that *p*', 'that he* is making a mess then* and there*' and 'that there is no integer *n* greater than 2 such that $x^n+y^n = z^n$',[48] can only refer in way which *presupposes* their function of displaying content. What such a clause primarily does is quite literally to display an appropriately applied sentence which, as thus applied, constitutes the right-hand side of a biconditional sentence articulating, in a way which

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[47] Moltmann observes that 'that'-clauses "do not appear to act as singular terms referring to propositions." (Moltmann 2013, p. 680) This claim is incautious because such clauses do appear to act as singular terms in claims of identity such as that what Perry believed on 07.07.79 in the supermarket is that he* is making a mess then* and there*. Presumably, however, Moltmann is thinking of the *primary use* of such clauses, namely, in ascriptions or attributions of representation or locution. In such contexts, 'that'-clauses are not functioning as singular terms, at least not primarily.

[48] One cannot know what Fermat's last theorem *is* except by, indeed except as, knowing it to be the content, the proposition, that there is no integer *n* greater than 2 such that $x^n+y^n = z^n$.

captures causal role, how the world must be for satisfaction. In this way, it displays that necessary condition of satisfaction for which a representing or illocuting subject is not itself responsible, i.e., which can fail to hold even when all representational or illocutionary mechanisms are functioning normally and as they should, hence as is also required for satisfaction. Precisely because a 'that'-clause does this, there is an understanding of it which is prior to, yet inseparable from, an understanding of it as referring. For its referent, hence the referent of all 'objectifying' turns of phrase to which the clause can be linked in claims of identity, does not exist independently of the representations or locutions, hence illocutions, which possess it as content.[49] To conceive this referent otherwise is to misconceive its function, hence what it is, and so one is led to a false ontology of what possesses it as content.

Michael Nelson argues that "we should conceive of propositions as contingently existing objects … " (Nelson 2013, p. 776), thereby claiming for *all* contents something which the thesis of content inherently *de se* claims for *some* contents. For according to the thesis there are contents C such that for all subjects $S^{\star}$, times $t^{\star}$ and locations $l^{\star}$, $S^{\star}$ has C as the content of a locution or representation at $t^{\star}$ and/or at $l^{\star}$ only if $S^{\star}$ is the particular subject S, $t^{\star}$ the particular time t and/or $l^{\star}$ the particular location l. In particular, the thesis insists on distinctively *personal* representations and locutions, that is, representations and locutions with *personal* contents, which are dependent for their existence on the clearly contingent existence of their subject. It would therefore be at least inelegant were the thesis not to follow Nelson in regarding even impersonal contents as contingent existents. The thesis thus insists that *all* contents exist only given the representations and locutions, hence illocutions, of

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[49] One might therefore describe this as an Aristotelian conception of content. As seen above, it no more encounters difficulties in accounting for how two subjects can represent or illocute the same thing than does an Aristotelian conception of universals encounter difficulties in accounting for how two objects can bear the same property. That a property should exist only *in rebus* and not *ante res* does not entail that only one thing can bear it. Similarly, that content should exist only *in dicentibus vel repraesentionibus* does not entail that only one subject can have it as a content—this notwithstanding the fact that there are contents, namely personal contents, which only one subject can have as content.

which they are contents.[50] Representational or locutionary content, perhaps better, representational or locutionary *contentfulness*, is simply character as requiring the world to be thus and so for satisfaction, hence requiring such and such an interpreted 'that'-clause for perspicuous characterisation. This is just another way of saying that contents are always contents *of* something, in which case they are all dependent existents. Meanwhile, some contents—those *de se* and, as we may also allow, *de nunc* and/or *de hic*—are more strongly dependent in that their existence presupposes that of items in the relevant contexts of representation or locution. In this sense, they are subject-, time- and/or place-dependent.

This permits a final observation: in the discussion of this chapter no clear distinction has been made between the relation of content *to representation or locution*, i.e., to what has it as content; and the relation of content *to the subject of representation or locution*. Yet these are distinct if mutually dependent relations. What should the thesis of content inherently *de se* say more precisely about the latter? According to the first tenet of the doctrine of propositions, representation and locution *just are* relations of their subject to a proposition, i.e., a content. Moreover, as was pointed out in Chapter Three, this tenet can be specified in a distinctively Fregean direction by regarding the 'that'-clauses which individuate contents as doing so *by* referring to them. It has been argued here that this move is false: while there is and must be a sense in which 'that'-clauses refer to contents, this is a derivative feature of them which presupposes their defining function of displaying how the world must be for satisfaction. If, however, this is so, then a similar conclusion must be drawn with

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[50] Nelson's claim that "(i)f a proposition does not exist in a possibility [i.e., a possible world], … then it is hardly true in that possibility [i.e., in that world] … ." (Nelson 2013, p. 777) is surely not correct, not even when one accepts his Russellian conception of the propositions expressed by sentences such as "Obama was once POTUS" or "Obama does not exist." Certainly, a *Fregean* conception must distinguish clearly between the existence of a content and its truth or falsity. What S believes in believing that it* is F only exists in those worlds in which S exists as believing it (or desiring it, intending it, etc.). But this does not entail that the content of S's belief lacks truth value in a world $w^{\star}$ in which S, hence S's content, do not exist; in any such world it is simply false. Because it distinguishes clearly between (contingent) existence and (contingent) truth and falsity, the generically Fregean position advanced here does not confront the problems with which Nelson grapples in Nelson 2013.

regard to the first tenet itself. In some sense it is both possible and indeed necessary to construe representation and locution as instances of the general pattern *R*(*x*,*y*)—instances in which terms referring to subjects replace '*x*', 'that'-clauses referring to contents replace '*y*' and intensional contexts replace '*R*' itself. But this sense is entirely derivative—derivative upon the character of representation or locution, hence illocution, as *contentful*, i.e., possessed of the aforementioned functional property. A subject is related to a content *by* its representing or its locuting, so the latter cannot simply *be* this relation. One must not be misled by an enthusiasm for reference into thinking that it is since otherwise one will end in an enigmatic Platonism or an incoherent nominalism.

CONCLUSION

Ontological Observations and (Anti-)Metaphysical Speculations

According to the thesis of content inherently *de se*, the third-person pronoun, when it is (S)-used, hence deserves an asterisk,[1] *primitively* articulates an element in content. It is not to be explained away, in particular, not in terms of the first-person pronoun, as if the element it articulates were intrinsically first-personal—some original givenness of its referent to itself, presumably 'as itself', some 'I'-guise, or some self-notion or self-concept, etc. The first-person pronoun can, of course, be used to perspicuously characterise such content, but so, too, can the (S)-used third-person pronoun, even when its user is its referent; the latter mode of characterisation leaves nothing out *of content* which the former places *in it*. Moreover, the (S)-used third-person pronoun explains how it and the first-person pronoun relate to one another, that is, why the indexically first-personal mode of characterisation expresses a truth if and only if the anaphorically third-personal does.[2] In this sense, it reveals a content personal in the sense specified in Section II of Chapter One as it *objectively* is, hence for subjects irrespective of who, when and where they are. In this sense, it captures such content as it 'really' is.

It is therefore incorrect to describe the content perspicuously captured by use of the first-person pronoun in sentences of the form "I believe that I am F" as itself first-personal, hence indexical, rather than personal. The term ''I'-thought' is at best misleading, as is the common philosophical practice of characterising personal contents *oratio recta* so as to be able to use the first-person pronoun in their characterisation. The same will apply, of course, *mutatis mutandis*, to what might be called 'now'- and 'here'-thoughts. No content is itself indexical, but only the means of its expression and one form of its perspicuous characterisation. The asterisked third-

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1 Or when it is that third-person pronoun which linguistic convention has specifically appointed for this use.

2 That is, why "I believe that I am F," as asserted by S at *t* and *l*, expresses a truth if and only if "S believes at *t* and *l* that it*is F," as uttered by S✦ at *t*✦ and *l*✦, does.

person pronoun and, *mutatis mutandis*, asterisked adverbs of time and place, are thus linguistic primitives alongside indexicals, names[3] and variables. More precisely put, their use is a primitive form of reference alongside that accomplished by the latter.

Prima facie, the claim that the kind of reference accomplished by asterisked pronouns and adverbs is just as primitive as that accomplished, in one way or another, by indexicals, names and variables is very plausible, so much so that the philosophically unschooled would regard it as obvious. This throws up a question surprisingly difficult to answer, why, namely, the philosophically schooled have *not* found it obvious, hence not so much as countenanced the thesis of content inherently *de se*. What covert assumptions make the thesis appear to be so much a non-starter that it has not appeared as a starter at all? The investigation will conclude with a speculative and insufficiently grounded attempt to answer this question. In other words, it will now speculate as to what metaphysical convictions have led to the doctrine of propositions described in Chapter Three, thereby engendering the problem of the essential indexical discussed across Chapters One to Three and blocking the ontology of content sketched across Chapters Seven and Eight.

Section I: The Transcendental Analytic of the *De Se*

Let us, however, first recall that occlusion of the thesis has not been inconsequential. It has, for example, left one having to choose between building self-consciousness into content, thereby rendering it groundless, or keeping it out at the cost of rendering content impersonal, thereby engendering paradox. That there really is an impasse here is evident in the very terms coined in an effort to find a way out. This is most easily seen in the case of those who build self-consciousness into content in the shape of so-called self-concepts, e.g., Musholt and Peacocke. A concept is, after all, something which by definition can apply to several different things yet by definition a self-concept cannot. This situation is obviously not improved by speaking, as does

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[3] When these latter are used as such. Individual names or constants are, after all, sometimes *not* used as such: Shylock rejoices, prematurely, of course, "A Daniel come to judgement! Yea, a Daniel!"

eventually Perry, of self-notions. No doubt one can have notion of something in some sense entailing that the perspicuous linguistic expression thereof refers in definitely definitional fashion to a single individual, as when one has a notion of who killed JFK. But all such notions do not refer rigidly to their referent, unlike a self-notion and its cousin, the self-concept. In any case, notions or concepts of some single individual in this sense, precisely because they are expressed by definite descriptions, do not address the problem which the introduction of first-personal elements in content is meant to solve. They are therefore not what those who speak of such elements mean. Nor is the situation essentially different with talk of 'I'-guises (Castañeda) and of ways in which a subject S is given to itself as itself* (Frege). Quite apart from the fact that both guises and ways of givenness, sometimes called modes of presentation, are more obscure than concepts or notions, *prima facie* they can apply, no less than concepts or notions, to multiple individuals. Smith can wear the same guise as Jones and be given or presented in the same way as Jones.

Of course, however one labels the idea of a first-person element in content, as soon as one attempts to spell it out, one ends up describing such an element as consisting in, or implicating, a subject's thinking of what is objectively itself 'as itself'—more accurately, of course, as *itself**. This is muddled in at least two ways. Firstly, as Chapter Four has pointed out, one can make sense of the idea that when a subject S believes of something *a* that it is F, S is 'thinking of *a* as something', say, as *a*, or as *b*, or as the G that is H, etc. But one can only do so by understanding S's believing of *a* that it is F as a matter of S believing, say, that *a* is F; or that *b* is F; or that the G that is H is F … , the terms '*a*', '*b*', 'the G that is H', … all being understood as referring to *a*. The point, however, of claiming that when S believes that it* is F, S is 'thinking of S as itself' is *to resist* having to say anything analogous. One wants precisely *not* to say that this is similarly a matter of S's believing that it* is F, no more, no less. One now confronts the unenviable task of finding some other terms with which to explain what it is for S to 'think of S as itself' and so one adverts to such turns of phrase as

S's 'thinking of S' in "the first-person way" (Castañeda 1987a, p. 150) or "in the way that we think of ourselves when we use the word "I."" (Perry 1980a, p.538/p. 51) This in turn opens the door to self-concepts, self-notions, first-person concept, 'I'-guises, givennesses of something to oneself as oneself*, 'I'-ideas (Evans), and the like, all understood as first-personal elements in content, hence ultimately as some form of not further analysable 'I'-awareness and so, in this sense at least, as a pure and original apperception.

Secondly, as the first point in fact already intimates, it makes no sense to assume that the notion of S's thinking of something *a* as either *a* or *b* or the G that is H, etc., can be deployed *in explication of* S's having or undergoing a representation requiring for its perspicuous characterisation a 'that'-clause containing the terms '*a*' or '*b*' or 'the G that is H', etc. For one thing, the assumption entails some 'mental act' on S's part for which there is no phenomenological evidence and which undermines whatever character S's representation has as a persistent state. For another thing, when applied specifically to S's thinking of *a* as itself, or rather, itself*, the 'mental act' it forces one to posit—precisely a pure and original apperception—is not only incoherent but renders the content to which it belongs epistemically private. When another subject S✦ characterises S as thinking of what is objectively itself, S, as itself*, S✦ cannot truly 'grasp' what S represents. S✦ can only characterise S *de re* as representing by means of its distinctively first-personal element in content. This is all one can say if one is resolved to turn on its head the claim that S's thinking of something, namely, itself, as itself* consists in, hence is explicated by, S's representing that it* is thus and so. Thereby one denies an essential feature of content, namely, public accessibility-for-the-sake-of-public-evaluability.

It remains only to add that the substantive point made in Perry 1979 has nothing to do with *first*-personalness, hence self-consciousness. As was shown in Chapter One, Perry is really arguing for the essentially personal character of at least some of the intentional states and expressions implicated in the generation, hence mentioned in the

complete explanation, of purposive behaviour. Not only can his argument for what is in effect C. 1, the first corollary of the thesis of content inherently *de se*, be formulated so as to avoid Perry's own misleading first-personal presentation of it; one can also eliminate the first-personal, that is, the self-conscious character of the agents whose representations and behaviour are at issue in the argument. Perry himself need not have been main character in his argument, nor need the protagonists in the reconstruction provided in Chapter One have been philosophers rather than, say, dogs. (S)-use of the third-person pronoun suffices entirely for perspicuous characterisation of the relevant representations.

As was seen in Chapter Five, if one assumes that the personalness of certain forms of representation can only be a *first*-personalness, one encounters either the groundlessness of a *pure and original* apperception (because in attempting rightly to locate personalness in content, one has taken first-personalness with it); or the traditional problem of self-consciousness (because in attempting rightly to locate first-personalness outside of content, one has taken personalness with it, leaving only impersonal content behind). So the impasse arises because one has persistently failed to distinguish first-personalness and personalness from one another, i.e., failed to recognise that the (S)-use of the third-person pronoun is not just ineliminable but ineliminable *because it captures the essence of the* ***de se***. This observation returns us to the question of why, historically speaking, both those who have located self-consciousness beyond content and those who have located it within it have not countenanced the conception of the *de se* advocated here. This is a complicated matter since invisibility of the *de se* has been engendered, or so we will now speculate, by at least three progressively deeper motivations.

Section II: Towards a Transcendental Dialectic of the *De Se*

Why the philosophical inclination not to take sentences of the form 'it* is F' as basic pre-philosophical data on a par with sentences of the form "*a* is F," "The G which is H is F," "Something is F," "Everything is F," and "If *a* is F, then *a* is G"? In other

words, why is one inclined to assume by default that all contents are in principle individuatable only by sentences of the latter form—as if the class of contents corresponded to a class of sentences consisting solely of predicates, quantifiers, variables and/or singular terms whose locutionary use involves no reference relying on other reference within the wider linguistic context? The proximate reason is that one is assuming the traditional doctrine of propositions, up to and including its implicit fourth tenet. For as Chapter Three has shown, this doctrine turns such sentences as "I am F" and such clauses as 'that I am F' into Cinderellas, this by driving the asterisked counterparts with which one third-personally characterises what they express out of the house. So why insist on this tenet?

One reason for this insistence might be that it seems to be required within at least much formal semantics, which proceeds by "discerning structure in the complex expressions of [a] language, and assigning references to those expressions upon the basis of assignments of references to their parts." (Evans 1981, p. 293) The thesis of content inherently *de se* entails, however, that "the reference of a complex expression is" not always *solely* "a function of the reference of its parts" (Evans 1981, p. 293) but is sometimes determined by expressions which are not themselves parts. A second and deeper reason might be what one might call the assumption that contents are mathematical. When Frege declares[4] that concepts are functions whose value is a truth value, he places himself in a line of thought extending from Leibniz into the present according to which notions at home in mathematics can be used not merely heuristically in order to describe certain aspects and behaviours of contents but to characterise what contents are.[5] The thesis of content inherently *de se* must reject this

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4 In Frege 1891/1980, p. 28.

5 This claim is entailed by, but does not entail, his conviction that mathematics is itself a form of logic. This intimates an interesting feature of Frege's logicism, namely, that in order to get the hypothesis that mathematics is a form of logic up and running, he must always have already assimilated logic to mathematics.

assumption since it takes the (S)-use of the third-person pronoun as primitive,[6] which entails that there are sentences incapable of being construed as being or expressing functions from such and such entities to truth values, in strict analogy to the way in which $2^2 = 4$ is a function from 2 to 4. Thereby the thesis aligns itself with the traditions of speech act theory, the later Wittgenstein and Oxford 'ordinary language' philosophy.

Yet perhaps there is a third and deepest reason. In his treatise on light, written in 1633, Descartes signals the need to move from thinking of representations on the model of images, which resemble their causes, to thinking of them on the model of sentences, which do not.[7] What is Descartes getting at? And does what he is getting at place restrictions on the class of sentences one can use to model representation, more precisely put, to model the content thereof? It would be to read Descartes too strongly to claim that he is recommending that we regard representations as having sentences as their contents, as if he were anticipating the hypothesis of a language of thought. Nor is he recommending merely that we think of representations as conceptual in the way locutions involving sentences are, rather than as non-conceptual, in the way images are. No, Descartes would appear to be recommending a way of thinking about representations and the subject thereof which permits scientific investigation of them, in particular, investigation able to show how such entities occur in nature as he conceives it.

The key here lies in Descartes' contrast between images which do, and sentences which do not, *resemble their causes*. When Descartes speaks of images as resembling their causes, he is insinuating that an image, precisely because it is an image, stands in

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6 In any language powerful enough to permit those whose language it is to explain and justify purposive behaviour, in particular, *their** purposive behaviour, hence to ascribe to themselves* the representations driving it.

7 See Descartes 1998, Ch. 1, pp. 3-4. Many thanks to Stephen Gaukroger for this reference (in a personal communication of November 7th, 2020). This passage shows, incidentally, that a central claim of Rorty 1979 is wrong, at least as an interpretation of Descartes. It is also wrong as an interpretation of mid- to late-19th century German neo-Kantianism—see Christensen 1999.

some identity-constituting relation to certain entities within the world, those, namely, of which it is an image and which are its causes.[8] Crucially, these entities will be depicted in the image as ordinary everyday *perceptual* entities within or in the world—to one degree or another *as* ordinary everyday entities showing themselves in perceptual experience.[9] This is not true of sentences. With this, we glimpse both what Descartes is getting at when he recommends the switch from images to sentences and why he recommends it. We are to think of representational contents as *sentence-like* in the sense that we are to take representing a content as analogous to illocuting it by means of the appropriate sentence. And we should do this, Descartes thinks, because he wants us to conceive of representations themselves as constituting a domain whose members the subject thereof can pick out as its* and characterise without presupposing any identity-constituting relation either of the representation itself or its subject to entities beyond the domain.

But why does Descartes want us to think of representations, contents and their subject in this way? In the first instance, because he thinks that this lays the ontological foundations for a psychophysical research programme which tracks how what goes on inside the domain of representations interacts with what goes on outside, 'outside' being understood as external reality couched not in quotidian terms, but in the language of natural science—of what Descartes would call natural philosophy. The external causes and effects of what goes on within the domain of representation will thus be hidden from the subject of representation, not ones it can simply read off its representations by perusing them. So in the first instance, Descartes is recommending sentences over images as the model for representational content

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[8] Presumably, Descartes is thinking of images as only being of some particular thing *x* rather than some other particular thing *y even when* ***x*** *and* ***y*** *are identical with respect to the properties and relations of them depicted in the image*. What makes an image an image of *x* rather than *y* is that *x* and not *y* is implicated in the genesis of the image, i.e., in the causal relations which have brought the image about.

[9] Even an image of a molecule, such as one might find in a chemistry textbook, depicts what it depicts *as if it were* an ordinary everyday perceptual item—as if it actually were that composite of little coloured balls glued together which serves in the chemistry classroom as a physical *model* of it.

because he sees this as enabling one to conceive the subject and its domain of representation as it needs to be conceived if psychophysical inquiry is to be possible.

Note now what Descartes' recommendation comes to as far as the notion of content itself is concerned. If representing a content is like illocuting it by means of a sentence, then the sentences which model contents are those with which one could perform a full illocutionary act. This immediately excludes sentences involving asterisked expressions, in particular, the asterisked third-person pronoun since these cannot themselves be used to illocute but merely to characterise, as embedded in an intensional context, a content. Descartes is therefore proposing, or is at least committed to proposing, that all contents are either impersonal *or indexical*. With this, Descartes has bequeathed us the idea of the subject as a domain of representations whose contents are either impersonal or indexical, which latter are, precisely because they are indexical, both only truly accessible to the subject of the domain itself and items of which the subject is, as with the corresponding illocutionary acts, aware as its*.[10]

Now Descartes conceived the external reality in which this subject is embedded and with which it interacts as 'nature' in the sense he took to be inherent to the Galilean kind of natural philosophy of which he was such a keen advocate. This external reality is not *simply* the world as it is for natural science, i.e., empirical reality as described in the language of natural science, but a totality or system of interacting entities closed under the kind of causal relation ascertained by natural science—for him, simply a mechanistically conceived physics. So all causal relations, including those in which the subject stands, are of a kind ascertainable by (some) natural science.[11] Nothing in nature can interact with items in nature without being natural in exactly the same way. Thereby this metaphysics of nature generates the task of

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[10] Therewith Descartes lays the foundations for the idea of introspection, either one's own or another's, as what guides psychophysical inquiry since the testimony of introspection provides access to how the things are on the inside which one is investigating.

[11] Which does not entail that each and every such causal relation actually is thus ascertainable.

explaining how the subject and its representations can find a place in nature thus conceived. This in turn renders compelling the idea of a psychophysical research programme grounded in Descartes' conception of the subject since this is given over precisely to showing through its success how the subject and its representations finds a place in nature thus conceived. Thereby this conception of the agenda to be served by psychophysical inquiry makes compelling the ontology of both external and internal reality which underpins it. So might not this idea of psychophysical inquiry as essentially regulated by the idea of confirming through its success a decidedly modern metaphysics of nature generate an unspoken consensus according to which the *de se* is simply the external manifestation of what is in reality *de me*? This would explain why one has not so much as countenanced the suggestion that clauses of the form 'it* is F (then* and there*)' primitively characterise content—why one has persistently sought either to deny the *de se* in favour of the impersonal or to assimilate it to the *de me*.

This observation will invite the protest that the consensus is neither surprising nor questionable if the suggestion should inhibit, perhaps even compromise, one crucial way of showing how the subject and its domain of representations occur in Descartes' nature. For how can one seriously challenge the modern metaphysics of nature which has forged Cartesian conceptions, first, of world, subject and representation, then of how the relation between them is to be investigated, and finally, what the ultimate goal of such investigation is? One may grant the failure of attempts to demonstrate *a priori*, e.g., by some kind of identity theory, how, given this metaphysics, the subject can be in the world. Even so, is not natural science itself, as Descartes himself believed, inherently committed to the goal of total explanation, whose accomplishment would demonstrate precisely this? And in any case, must one not contradict some fundamental natural scientific law if one refuses to construe the world as Descartes' nature? It is in fact not obvious that natural science either has in fact or must have that goal of total explanation as which an inherent commitment to the modern metaphysics of nature would manifest itself. Moreover, C. D. Broad showed

long ago that arguments to the effect that denial of this metaphysics contradicts some fundamental law, e.g., a principle of conservation, however formulated, are invalid.[12] In any case, if it is problematic to suggest that there are causal relations in nature not of a kind ascertained by *some* natural science, then it is equally problematic to maintain that there are causal relations in nature not of a kind ascertained by *some one* natural science. In other words, the protest threatens to compel the conclusion that the only acceptable metaphysics of nature is a physicalist one, such as that embraced by Descartes himself.

Nor would rejection of *modern*, that is to say, *Cartesian* naturalism require one to reject all naturalism as such. Another kind of naturalism is possible, one which so little encourages supernatural entities that Descartes regarded his metaphysics as superior to it precisely because his metaphysics entailed that if there is a soul non-natural in his sense of the word 'natural', then it is *super*natural, just as Christian orthodoxy maintains.[13] This is the naturalism of Aristotle, which, defined as it is by a pluralistic conception of the first causes and principles of all things, entails that there is no complete causal account of empirical reality. Needless to say, one need not embrace this naturalism in its teleological entirety but only to the extent that it permits one to maintain that not all causal relations in nature are of a kind ascertained by (some) natural science. One may thus reject what so many early moderns were so concerned to reject, the pre-modern idea, namely, that inquiry into empirical reality requires appeal to *causae finalis*.

There is not space to pursue this thought further here. Let it suffice, then, to propose three progressively deeper hypotheses as to why so many seem determined

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[12] See Broad 1925. For a brief account of the kind of argument Broad gives, see Christensen 2008-2014, Lecture 12, § 3.

[13] So Galilean natural philosophy, more precisely put, the metaphysics of nature which Descartes regards as underpinning Galilean natural science, prevents one from thinking of the soul in pre-modern, Aristotelian terms as the mere form of the body. Those most distinguished and learned gentlemen of the Sorbonne should acknowledge Galileo's, not Aristotle's natural philosophy, as the true friend of the Christian religion. See in this connection Gaukroger 1995 and Christensen 2008-2014.

not to regard sentences of the form ‘it* is F’ as pre-philosophical data on a par with sentences of the form “*a* is F,” “The G which is H is F,” “Something is F,” “If anything is F, then it is G,” and “Everything is F”: commitment, firstly, to the idea of a formal semantic theory, secondly, to the idea of the logical as mathematical and, thirdly, to a conception of the subject, its representations and their contents encouraged by the idea that empirical reality is nature in a distinctively modern sense, namely, a system or totality closed under the kind of causal relation uncovered by some natural science. The second is built into the first while the third is independent. All three are, however, commonly met in the one person, so much so that one may regard them as definitive of the contemporary analytic mainstream, a tradition founded by Frege and Russell but grounded in Descartes and Leibniz. Yet all three are contestable—contestable without undermining either systematic reflection on the nature of subjectivity, representation, language and content or the possibility of natural science. As for the doctrine of propositions, this requires revision in the manner already suggested in Chapter Three and elaborated across Chapters Seven and Eight. Not only must one drop the doctrine’s implicit fourth tenet, but one must also insist that a ‘that’-clause refers only derivatively to a content. For originally a ‘that’-clause *displays* content, this by literally displaying an interpreted sentence which constitutes the right-hand side of a biconditional articulating how the world must be if a representation or illocution whose perspicuous characterisation requires use of it is to be satisfied.

Appendix to the Introduction

Does Evans Understand 'I'-Ideas Minimally?

In a personal communication of October 8th, 2024, Markos Valaris has argued that Evans embraces, or could at least be read as embracing, what Valaris describes as a "minimal "self-notion" view." This would be a conception of the asterisked third-person pronoun as marking an element in content which, while legitimately describable as a self-notion, is nonetheless *not* first-personal in the sense which leads Musholt and others to claim that the subject of a representation containing such a notion as an element in its content "cannot but be aware that the thought refers to herself" (Musholt 2015, p. 63)—as herself*, of course, hence in "the first-person way" (Castañeda 1987a, p. 150) or "the way that we think of ourselves when we use the word "I."" (Perry 1980a, p.538/p. 51) If this is right, then Evans does *not* assume that if the pronoun marks an element in content at all, then this latter is first-personal.

It is not completely clear that this is right as an account of Evans, who, after all, describes such putatively minimal self-notions as "'*I*'-Ideas." (Evans 1982, p. 208; italics added) Let us grant, however, that it is right. It then becomes incumbent upon Evans to explain how this can be a *self*-notion *without* possessing the aforementioned first-personal character. According to Valaris, Evans meets, or at least could meet, this obligation as follows: First, one specifies that "(t)o possess such a minimal self-notion is," as with all notions or ideas, "to possess a certain set of dispositions," which "will include both dispositions to form other beliefs, and dispositions to engage in action." One then insists that beliefs containing a minimal self-notion as an element in their content will take effect, i.e., play a causal role, in a way which legitimates characterisation of this element as a *self*-notion. They will not be like such beliefs as that Anthony Albanese is Prime Minister of Australia but rather "have distinctive links to action … ." Let us use the example discussed in Section II of Chapter One: François is about to be attacked by a bear, so François climbs into a nearby tree while Dilip, who is observing, calls for help. François recognises that *he** is about to be

attacked by a bear and this belief is distinctive because it "will engage [François's] tree-climbing abilities directly, in a way that another belief," for example, belief that François is about to be attacked by a bear, "might not." The former belief, which requires for its perspicuous characterisation use of the asterisked third-person pronoun, moves François *directly* to climb into a nearby tree, whereas the latter can only do this insofar as François believes in addition that he* is François, thereby acquiring, of course, the belief that *he** is about to be attacked. This is, it would seem, is *just what it means* for François's belief to implicate a self-notion as an element in its content. If, however, this is so, then there is no need to regard this element as possessing any first-personal character entailing that François "cannot but be aware that the thought refers to" himself as himself*, hence in "the first-person way," etc.

Evidently, this conception of a minimal, i.e., non-first-personal self-notion relies critically on the suggestion that "(t)o possess … a minimal self-notion," indeed presumably to possess *any* notion, whether of oneself or of anything else, "is to possess a certain set of dispositions." All hands can agree that contents involving different notions or, if one prefers, different concepts, as elements in them will determine different causal roles for the representations which possess them as contents. If, however, the suggestion is genuinely to explicate the difference between contents which do and contents which do not contain minimal self-notions as elements, thereby explicating the difference between notions which are and notions which are not self-notions, then it must be understood as insisting on something stronger: possession of "a minimal self-notion," indeed of any notion, can be *analysed* or at least *explicated*[1] as the possession of "a certain set of dispositions."

Unfortunately, this stronger claim is false: any representation only determines, in virtue of its content, this rather than that set of dispositions "to form other beliefs ... and to engage in action," given a whole lot of other representations which constitute

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[1] Let us note that whatever difference there might be between analysis and explication is not relevant here.

the subject's understanding of and conative or affective stance towards its current situation. If, for example, François should happen to believe that bears are no more dangerous than beagles, he will presumably be disposed neither to believe that he should climb into the tree nearby nor to engage his abilities to do so. He might similarly lack these dispositions should he have a fear of heights or appreciate that bears are in fact good tree-climbers themselves. In this case, François's other beliefs and desires might combine with his belief that he* is about to be attacked by a bear to dispose him to take refuge in the solid hikers' hut standing at some remove from the tree. What this widely acknowledged point about the holistic character of representation shows is that the individuation and attribution of François's dispositions either to further represent or to engage in purposive behaviour rests on individuation and attribution of the representations, in particular, the beliefs, giving rise to them. Consequently, if all representations, in particular, all beliefs could be analysed or even merely explicated in terms of dispositions, then that background of representation, in particular, of belief would be absent against which dispositions are individuated and attributed. One can therefore neither analyse nor even merely explicate representations, in particular, beliefs, and the contents thereof in terms of the dispositions they give rise to. The notion of a disposition to behave presupposes that of representations giving rise to and, for that matter, rationalising dispositions.

This objection to the general idea of either analysing or explicating either contents themselves or their components in terms of dispositions applies straightforwardly to whatever self-notion, minimal or not, is marked by the asterisked third-person pronoun. When François believes that he* is about to be attacked by a bear and so forms the disposition to climb into a nearby tree, this disposition is only perspicuously characterised, hence attributed, if understood from the outset as a disposition *to behave appropriately in the light of François's beliefs about and desires in his current situation*: François is disposed to climb into the tree in order to save himself,

indeed, *himself**,[2] from something François *believes* to be attacking *him**, which François *believes* to be a bear, hence strongly *desires* not to attack *him**—beliefs which could, of course, be false. Precisely in order to accommodate the possibility of dispositions formed erroneously or injudiciously, one must mention the representations involved in the generation of dispositions in the characterisation of these dispositions themselves. It follows that one cannot appeal to the dispositions doubtless induced by François's belief in order to analyse or explicate either its contents or the elements thereof. Such appeal yields no real account of a self-notion at all, whether minimal or not.

Clearly, the argument here is not that no sense can be given to a "minimal "self-notion" view," but rather that the appeal to disposition and the distinctively immediate way in which representations containing such notions cause, first disposition, then behaviour, fails to do so. Moreover, the reason for this failure is quite general. As already pointed out, contents and whatever notions they contain as elements can certainly be mapped onto dispositions to further representation, including further representation involving the relevant self-notion, and onto dispositions to behaviour. They cannot, however, be *analysed or even explicated* in terms of such dispositions. For any such putative analysis or explication would involve such a mapping and so would presuppose individuation and attribution of the representation, hence the content, up for analysis or explication (and indeed of many other representations as well). It would thus avail itself in its putative *analysans* or *explicans* of precisely the unanalysed *analysandum* or the unexplicated *explicandum*.

In the course of defending the general idea that the asterisked third-person pronoun might mark an element in content which, while legitimately describable as a self-notion, is *not* first-personal in any sense entailing that the subject of a representation involving it "cannot but be aware that the thought refers to herself" as herself*, hence

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[2] For all the standard reasons, the asterisked third-person pronoun must be deployed here: François believes the bear to be attacking *him**, not, say, the author of diverse articles on mental indexicality.

in "the first-person way," etc., Valaris notes that Musholt, Perry, Castañeda, Soames and, in his own way, Frege speak of ""representing oneself as oneself"" and of ""self-consciousness" or "self-awareness" in relation to the *de se*." He suggests, however, that

> in most cases, this is loose or merely programmatic talk, which these authors use just to distinguish the *de se* from other phenomena. Very few of these people actually go into any serious detail about *what they mean* by "thinking of oneself as oneself" or having a "self-notion". In those cases at least, it is uncharitable to saddle them with a heavy-duty notion of self-awareness (one that requires language, concepts, or however else you want to spell that out).

It is only all too true that few give any real account of "*what they mean* by "thinking of oneself as oneself" or having a "self-notion"." It is equally true that all too many use such locutions simply in order to gesture at the phenomenon meant by talk of the *de se*. So to this extent at least, such talk of ""representing oneself as oneself"" and of "self-consciousness" or "self-awareness"" is indeed programmatic, even loose. Yet all that the argument for the thesis of content inherently *de se* requires is that those who advert to such locutions mean them seriously and literally—that they mean it when they cash, however loosely and programmatically, talk of ""representing oneself as oneself"" in terms of one's thinking of oneself in "the first-person way" (Castañeda 1987a, p. 150) or "in the way that we think of ourselves when we use the word "I"," (Perry 1980a, p.538/p. 51), etc. Certainly Musholt means what she says when she speaks of a self-notion or rather, to use her preferred term, a self-concept and describes it as entailing that the subject of a representation containing it as an element in content "cannot but be aware that the thought refers to herself" (Musholt 2015, p. 63) as herself*, hence first-personal fashion. This, she thinks, is a genuine self-awareness so to this extent at least she is, *pace* Valaris, embracing a heavy-duty notion of it. Whether it is a heavy-duty in any other sense, e.g., a sense according to which it requires language, concepts, etc., is a further question still entirely open.

What, then, is one to say about the idea of a *minimal* self-notion? In the Concluding Chapter it is argued that the very idea of self-notions or self-concepts is borderline oxymoronic and this criticism will also apply to any cut-down version of the idea. In fact, it will apply more so because it is hard to see how the prefix 'self-' can be legimately applied to a putative self-notion or self-concept if not in virtue of the latter's putative first-personal character. Much better, then, to say that a "minimal "self-notion" view" is an unstable position on its way towards embrace of the thesis of content inherently *de se*.

Appendix to Chapter Two

On the Incoherence in How Cappelen and Dever solve "the Selection Problem"

In at least four respects, Cappelen and Dever's solution to the so-called Selection Problem is incoherent:

1. Cappelen and Dever claim that in the case of François and Dilip (and, for that matter, anyone else who happens to hold the beliefs these two agents hold) the one can be rationally motivated to do what the other does without actually doing it. Yet the story they tell of action-inventories, matching and the like entails that the intention to do what the other does finds no matching actionable content, hence, as Cappelen and Dever themselves say (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p.50), does not motivate anything. So the one's doing what the other does is *not* rationally motivated. Is this not an outright contradiction which can only be avoided by allowing that while beliefs and desires can motivate an action, the intention they cause can fail to do so?

2. An intention is surely a motivation to, alternatively put, a psychological driver of, behaviour of which distinctively self-conscious beings like François and Dilip could be aware. It is, however, phenomenologically and intuitively clear that neither François nor Dilip have anything driving each to do what the other does in any sense which would involve each being either actually or potentially aware of himself* as having this driver.

3. According to Cappelen and Dever belief and desire combine to generate intentions to act which then "hit the "action center," ... a big switchboard with a bunch of available actions" in order to determine whether the potential actions which the intentions constitute "are among the things that can be done." (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 51) Clearly, the actions available in the action inventory or action centre cannot be themselves determined by the agent's actual belief and desire since they are that with which the intentions to act generated by the agent's belief and desire are compared in order to determine whether they can be realised. If, however, this is so, then for any action of making it the case that a is F which is in the action centre, if $b = a$, then the action of making it the case that b is F is also in the action centre. Moreover,

these must be *different* actions since, according to Cappelen and Dever, to act is to make it the case that such and such a proposition is true and the proposition *that a is F* is not the proposition *that b is F*. Now there are infinitely many co-referential terms of the form "The object at the spatial point <*x*, *y*, *z*>" since there are infinitely many frames of reference for spatial points. Given this, however, and the fact that potential actions in the action centre must be in it independently of the agent's beliefs, desires and intentions to act, there must be infinitely many actions in the action inventory or action centre of making it the case that the object at <*x*, *y*, *z*> is F. But there can be no process of sorting through an infinite number of possible actions in order to determine whether an intention to act generated by belief and desire is "among the things that can be done." (Cappelen and Dever 2013, p. 51)

4. What hits "the "action center" and is compared with "a bunch of available actions" in order to determine whether it can be done is an intention to act. So on this picture of them, intentions are formed *prior* to determining whether they can be realised. Surely, however, one only forms an intention, at least self-consciously, if one believes that one can act upon it, or at least if one does not believe that one cannot act upon it. There is no further question to be resolved once intentions have been formed; it remains only to act. Naturally, one could discover that one cannot in fact do what one intended to do. But one discovers this by doing and failing, which cannot be what Cappelen and Dever mean by the matching process since this latter cannot *be* failed behaviour, but rather what leads to it.

Appendix I to Chapter Three

Ninan on the Third Tenet of the Doctrine of Propositions

Ninan formulates the third tenet of the doctrine of propositions rather differently from how it has been formulated in Chapter Three (and also more specifically, namely, with regard to belief only): "(I)f a rational agent could have a belief he could express by saying, "Hesperus is bright" without having a belief he could express by saying, "Phosphorus is bright," these two beliefs have different contents." (Ninan 2016, p. 92) He does so on the grounds that to formulate the third tenet as is done here "would render the doctrine of propositions incompatible with (e.g.) the possible worlds theory of attitudes [that is, of representations and locutions], something" he does not "wish to do at the outset." (Ninan 2016, note 12, p. 90) There is, however, nothing wrong with any such incompatibility if one's goal is as here, namely, to reconstruct Perry's argument in Perry 1979. For Perry formulates the doctrine of propositions as he does because he has Frege and Fregeans in mind, whose ontology of content implicates a conception of sameness of content more demanding than that implicit in "the possible worlds theory." And in any case, Ninan's formulation is itself, at least when properly spelt out, incompatible with "the possible worlds theory of attitudes."

The job of the third tenet is, after all, to specify some sufficiently rich sense in which contents are the same. Perry intimates this when he speaks of accommodating the putative intuition that "(p)ropositions must not only have the same truth-value, and concern the same objects and relations, but also involve the same concepts." (Perry 1979, p. 30/p. 6) This putative intuition clearly favours a Fregean conception of content and so the formulation to which one is led by it implies a Fregean notion of sameness of content, not the weaker one implicit in "the possible worlds theory." Crucially, as is shown precisely by what is adopted in Chapter Three as the third tenet, the requisite formulation need not consist in the specification of a condition both necessary *and sufficient* for sameness of content. It must, however, provide at least a necessary condition.

Just this entails, however, that the formulation provided by Ninan can only do what it is required to do when elaborated in a way which makes it incompatible with "the possible worlds theory." When Ninan speaks of a rational agent's, hence a rational subject's having "a belief he could express by saying, "Hesperus is bright" without having a belief he could express by saying, "Phosphorus is bright," …" he can only mean a having of either belief *at the same time* since otherwise the job of the third tenet is not done. One must, however, allow that a rational subject S which has *at* ***t*** a belief it "could express by saying, "Hesperus is bright,"" would not necessarily have *at* ***t*** the belief it could express by saying "Hesperus is bright and *NT*," where '*NT*' stands in for some sentence expressing a necessary truth. For S may not have yet undertaken the inference showing that the one belief and its content are true if and only if the other and its content are. So on Ninan's formulation of it, the third tenet entails that the contents of these two beliefs are different. Meanwhile, "the possible worlds theory" must maintain that they are the same. Ninan's formulation of the third tenet is indeed incompatible with the latter.

These considerations show there to be something awry not just in Ninan's formulation but also and primarily in the concern driving it, the concern, namely, to ensure compatibility with "the possible worlds theory." The doctrine of propositions, hence the third tenet, does not have to be compatible with "the possible worlds theory" in order for a problem of the essential indexical to arise not just for the more or less Fregean theory Perry has in mind when speaking of the doctrine of propositions but precisely for "the possible worlds theory". True, the former assumes that contents are items composed of what Perry calls conceptual ingredients[1] while the latter assumes that they are sets of possible worlds in which such and such is the case. Yet both *de facto* assume that content is always impersonal (at least insofar as it is publicly accessible), hence cannot acknowledge that not all content can be. So neither so much as glimpses what is actually better described as the problem of essential

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[1] See Perry 1979, p. 30/p. 7.

personalness—this notwithstanding the fact that the Fregean theory conceives content in such a way that it is committed to a stronger conception of the sameness of content.

With this, one sees that when it comes to correct formulation of the third tenet, the issue is not whether it has or has not been formulated in a way which excludes either one or the other or both of the Fregean and possible world theories. The issue is rather how to formulate it in a way which, while plausibly reflecting pre-philosophical intuitions about the sameness of content, contributes towards identifying a problem for standard theories of content—standard in that they all *de facto* show themselves to have no room for (publicly accessible) personal content. From this perspective, whether a rational subject's belief that Hesperus is bright does or does not have the same content as this same subject's belief that Hesperus is bright and *NT* is irrelevant. The issue is rather whether the doctrine of propositions to which the third tenet belongs can admit (publicly accessible) personal contents and this is a question which also arises for "the possible worlds theory" even though it conceives sameness of content more weakly.

Appendix II to Chapter Three

Ninan on Perry's Problem of the Essential Indexical

As does the thesis of content inherently *de se*, Ninan maintains, against the likes of Cappelen and Dever, that representations *de se* "raise a distinctive problem for standard ways of thinking about propositions and attitudes," i.e., about contents and representations or locutions. And he, too, argues that in order to identify the problem, "we need to expand Perry's doctrine of propositions." This, he claims, consists in adding two claims to the doctrine which articulate "two … theoretical roles … the contents of attitudes are normally thought to play." According to Ninan, representations *de se* possess "certain features" which render the two claims inconsistent with one another. (Ninan 2016, p. 99) In other words, the doctrine imposes theoretical understandings of two important phenomena in which "the contents of attitudes" play a role, understandings, however, which are inconsistent with one another. The phenomena at issue are, on the one hand, agreement about something reached between two or more subjects as a result of their communicating with one another; and, on the other, the ordinary, everyday explanation and prediction of purposive behaviour. Ninan labels these theoretical understandings AGREEMENT and EXPLANATION respectively—see Ninan 2016, p. 100 and p. 102.

Dealing adequately with Ninan's account of "the problem of *de se* attitudes" is not easy because his argument and presentation are at times difficult to understand. Moreover, it is hard to see how AGREEMENT and EXPLANATION could genuinely be *tenets* of the doctrine of propositions, which consists, after all, in a number of conditions necessary for being a content, which neither AGREEMENT nor EXPLANATION are. Rather, they are at best how one must think of what is pre-philosophically understood by agreement and explanation when one takes content to conform to (some version of) the doctrine. In addition and most importantly, it seems that what permits the doctrine to turn agreement into AGREEMENT, explanation into EXPLANATION, is precisely that implicit fourth tenet without which, according to

the argument of Chapter Three, there is no problem of the essential indexical. So whatever inconsistency there is between AGREEMENT and EXPLANATION arises because the doctrine of propositions already involves a commitment sufficient for generating Perry's problem. The detour through AGREEMENT, EXPLANATION and their inconsistency is redundant.

In fact, Ninan's shaky start leads him to a revision of the doctrine of propositions so generically similarly to Perry's that he himself feels compelled to rebut the objection that his account is simply "a notational variant of Perry's theory." (Ninan 2016, p. 116) The generic similarity is, however, undeniable: Ninan modifies the first tenet by construing representation, hence presumably locution and illocution, not as a relation of the subject to one single thing, but as an interlocking complex of two relations to different things, the one accounting for causal role of a representation, the other for truth conditions. So just like Perry, he, too, in effect negates what is component T.2 of the thesis of content inherently *de se*.

Now in Perry 1979 negation of T.2 is adumbrated as an appropriation of Kaplan's distinction between character and content; as Perry himself observes, his "two-tiered structure of belief states and propositions was suggested by David Kaplan's system of characters and contents (1979)." (Perry 1979, p. 40, footnote 13[1]) The general idea is then spelt out in Perry 1980a as the doctrine of belief, more generally, of representation, by acceptance of a sentence. Crucially, for Perry the relation responsible for the truth conditional aspect of a representation is a relation to a Russellian proposition, in which case when S believes at *t* that it* is in danger then* and S✦ believes that S is in danger at *t*, both S and S✦ will be related to the same thing, namely, <S, *t*, the property of being in danger>.

Ninan alleges, however, that this creates problems for understanding agreement and so he rejects it—see Ninan 2016, p. 116. To this extent, he is right to claim that he

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[1] See p. 21, note 6, of the original version of Perry's paper for a slightly different formulation.

is not offering simply "a notational variant of Perry's theory." Yet his rejection of Perry's account of the second relation obliges Ninan to spell out how he sees it, thereby explaining how precisely what he is proposing is not simply a notational variant. Ninan passes on this obligation, declaring it to be a task for the future—see Ninan 2016, pp. 116-117—, which is surely unsatisfactory. One could just as legitimately take this omission to indicate that something is wrong with the general idea endorsed by both Ninan and Perry, namely, that "... a satisfactory theory … ought to assign two content-like entities to each *de se* attitude." (Ninan 2016, p. 117) Perhaps the real task for the future consists, not in determining what the second of the content-like entities is, but in coming to terms with recognition that no kind of two-tiered structure can be right. The argument here is that this starts with acknowledging first component T.2 of the thesis of content inherently *de se*, then the thesis itself, before returning to the doctrine of propositions *without* its implicit fourth tenet.

Appendix III to Chapter Three

Feldman's Critique of Perry on "Relativized Propositions"

In Feldman 1980 Richard Feldman attempts to defend the putative solution discussed in Section II of Chapter Three against Perry.[1] According to Feldman, "Perry takes the doctrine of indexed [that is to say, relativised] propositions to entail that we do not simply believe such propositions, but rather believe that they are true at some index," i.e., an *n*-tuple of items determined by belief as that at which the proposition is true. He then points out that

> we need not understand the doctrine [of relativised propositions] in that way. ... (W)e ordinarily do not believe that indexed [i.e., relativised] propositions are true at some index. We simply believe them. (Feldman 1980, p. 82)

Evidently, Feldman is right to maintain that when we believe something, what we ordinarily believe is not that the proposition expressed by such and such a sentence on such and such an occasion is true at some index. Indeed, Feldman's point may be strengthened: it is wrong, indeed incoherent, to insinuate, as Perry clearly does, that the higher-order belief, which at least self-conscious believers will be able to form, *just is* the ground floor one. Perry seems to commit himself to both false claims when he speaks of his believing "a certain proposition, *that I am making a mess was true*—true for me" and of the other shopper's equally believing "*that I am making a mess was true* for John Perry." (Perry 1979, p. 36/p. 14)

In the light, however, of the account given above of Perry's argument, one sees that his speaking this way is forced upon him by the assumption that relativisation of the *truth and falsity* of content to the point where literally everything to which there is reference in (a perspicuous characterisation of) content is thrust into the index at which the content is true nonetheless still yields a content individuatable by a 'that'-clause, in which case a subject's relation to this 'content' is still the relevant

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[1] What Feldman argues has been elaborated by Recanati—see Recanati 2007, esp. Chapter 35.

illocutionary or representational mode. Perry recognises that because its final step must eliminate that reference which constitutes, or rather reflects, aboutness, total relativisation must yield a mere propositional function or property as 'content'. This recognition then combines with inchoate appreciation that predicative unity is needed to lead Perry to restore such unity at a meta-level. Precisely for this reason, Perry speaks of his believing the proposition *that I am making a mess* (which is supposedly in reality simply a propositional function) *to be true* "for me"; and of the other shopper's believing it to be true for "that person I now see there, pushing a shopping trolley around in the supermarket, whom I know to be John Perry," etc. Of course, to speak thus is immediately to betray that the problem is not solved at all. For in order to deploy the notion of being-true-for-something in a manner which captures *oratio obliqua* the character of both Perry's belief and his assertion as *de se*, Perry has had to use the first-person pronoun while another would have had to use its asterisked third-person counterpart.

Yet Feldman himself makes a mistake not dissimilar to Perry's. We certainly do not "ordinarily … believe that indexed [i.e., relativised] propositions are true at some index." Feldman, however, puts things badly when he says "(w)e simply believe them." For as we have seen, Perry's relativised 'propositions' have been so radically relativised that they lose predicative unity, hence are not contents in the standard sense at all. So one cannot regard them as what the relevant 'that'-clause individuates. Rather, they are that by standing in a relation of application to which we may be said to believe that such and such is the case. Evidently, Feldman should have said what Brian Loar says.[2] For this reason, nothing Feldman argues really challenges Perry's main conclusion, namely, that a solution to the problem of the essential indexical has nothing to do with the second tenet. For ultimately, whatever the solution might be, it has nothing to do with the notion of truth but rather with that of content.

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[2] See Chapter Six.

Appendix I to Chapter Four

Kapitan and Castañeda on Whether and How the Asterisked Third-Person Pronoun is Referential

Castañeda writes that he is seeking to study "the uses of 'he (him, his)' and 'she (her, hers)' in which the pronoun *refers to* the object of a person's knowledge, beliefs, thoughts, assertions, about himself." (Castañeda 1966, p. 36; italics added) Later in the same essay he writes, "Doubtless, in the sentence 'X believes that he* is *Φ*' the token of 'he*' does refer to the person X." (Castañeda 1966, p. 53) So at least in this article he accepts that its use is genuinely and not merely apparently referential. His student Kapitan, however, gives a rather less straightforward account of Castañeda's position on these issues. According to Kapitan, while Castañeda maintained throughout that "(q)uasi-indicators [of which the asterisked third-person pronoun is, of course, an example] are referential mechanisms," he also "wavered on" the claim that "(q)uasi-indicators are singular referring terms." (Kapitan 1998, p. 186) Kapitan himself contends that "(q)uasi-indicators are devices for depicting indexical reference," hence "not themselves singular referring terms." (Kapitan 1998, p. 204) It is hardly clear what Kapitan's claims come to, nor indeed that Castañeda ever wavered as alleged, as opposed to maintaining that sometimes quasi-indicators refer in the manner of bound variables rather than of singular terms.

In any case, Kapitan's own argument for why quasi-indicators such as the asterisked third-person pronoun are not singular referring terms is bad. He gives two reasons: "First, quasi-indicators with quantifier antecedents are variables …, not singular referring terms. Second, even those with singular antecedents do not reproduce the … indexical references [of the individual referred to by the singular antecedent] but, instead, merely *depict* them … ." (Kapitan 1998, p. 186) With regard to the first reason: it is at the very least not clear and, crucially, not entailed by either syntax or semantics that in a sentence such as "All drivers believe that they* drive well" the asterisked third-person pronoun 'they*' is a variable. This sentence may be

interpreted as synonymous with the slightly more formal sentence "For all *x*, if *x* is a driver, then *x* believes that it* drives well." This reformulation leaves one room to regard the expression '*x*' in its three occurrences as the only variable involved. There is nothing ungrammatical or unintelligible about this. Moreover, it captures the behaviour of the original sentence perfectly well. It makes clear, for example, that the relevant instantiations are such sentences as "If Perry is a driver, then Perry believes that he* drives well," and not "If Perry is a driver, then Perry believes that Perry drives well." With regard to the second reason: this appears to be a *non sequitur*. Why should one think that an expression's not reproducing, whatever this means, but merely depicting an indexical reference entailed either that it did not refer at all or that it did not refer in a manner at least approximating to that of a more standard singular term? Certainly, at no point does Castañeda appear to endorse Kapitan's inference. It is perfectly consistent with his position to allow both that the asterisked third-person pronoun refers and that it does so in a manner at least approximating to that of a more standard singular term *even as* it quasi-indicates a first-person reference on the part of its referent.

Admittedly, Castañeda did, as a matter of brute fact, regard the asterisked third-person pronoun as a variable precisely when its antecedent is a quantifier. He writes that when Privatus informs his friend Gaston that the Editor of *Soul* knows that he* is a millionaire,

> (i)t is immediately clear that Privatus' use of 'he himself' or 'he*' is not a quantifier or a variable referring back to a quantifier. Hence Privatus' use of 'he*' is not an instance of use (C). But as P.T. Geach pointed out to me, 'he*' can *also* be an instance of use (C) [in which case it is a variable]. It plays this role [as a variable] in "Someone thinks that he* is a genius." (Castañeda 1966, p. 38; see also Castañeda 1967a, p. 74)

Against Geach, hence also against Castañeda, one has only to point out that nothing syntactic or semantic *obliges* one to regard the pronoun 'he*' in the quantified sentence as a variable. Indeed, one wants to ask why, if "(i)t is immediately clear that

Privatus' use of 'he himself' or 'he*' is not a quantifier or a variable referring back to a quantifier," it is not also immediately clear that 'he*' in "Someone thinks that he* is a genius" is similarly not a variable. In Appendix II to Chapter Seven it is explicitly argued that 'he*' is never a variable—certainly not, as Castañeda recognises, when its antecedent is a name or nominally deployed definite description like 'the Morning Star', but also not when its antecedent is a straightforwardly quantified expression such as 'All drivers' or 'Some drivers'.

Appendix II to Chapter Four

Guises as One Possible Response to the Alleged Paradox of Reference

How a Castañedian guise differs from a Fregean sense, hence to this extent what a guise is, is best understood by construing each as the rejection of a different premise in what Castañeda calls "The Paradox of Reference" (Castañeda 1987b, p. 183). Let 'MS' abbreviate 'the Morning Star'. Then according to Castañeda we may derive from the following three assumptions and four theses the conclusion that a subject S believes the contradiction that (MS = MS & MS ≠ MS) and so, since S is assumed to be rational, hence to believe that not (MS = MS & MS ≠ MS), the paradox that S both does and does not believe something:

Assumption 1. S believes that (MS = MS & Venus ≠ MS)

Assumption 2. Venus = MS

Assumption 3. S does not believe that (MS = MS & MS ≠ MS)

T. 1. For all *x* and *y* and for all properties F, if *x* = *y*, then F*x* if and only if F*y*

T. 2. The "sentential matrix" (Castañeda 1987b, p. 183) 'S believes that (MS = MS & *x* ≠ MS)' corresponds to or expresses a property true of an individual *i* if and only if *i* is denoted by a singular term substituted for the expression '*x*' such that the resulting full sentence expresses a truth

T. 3. The expression '=' is understood normally, i.e., as expressing genuine or strict identity

T. 4. The singular terms 'MS' and 'Venus' retain their respective referents throughout, i.e., whatever 'MS' denotes in the one assumption, it denotes in the others; similarly for the singular term 'Venus'[1]

S's belief in the contradiction is meant to arise because the property corresponding to or expressed by 'S believes that (MS = MS & *x* ≠ MS)' applies to Venus, hence by T.1 applies to MS and so the sentence "S believes that (MS = MS & MS ≠ MS)"

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[1] This is based on Castañeda's presentation in Castañeda 1987b, p. 183. Crucially, this presentation is not only convoluted, it is also defective, precisely with regard to the formulation of the second thesis: the variable '*x*' has been left out! Clearly, this is merely a typographical error.

expresses a truth, in which case, by semantic descent, S believes that MS = MS & MS ≠ MS. So since nothing is absurd in the assumptions and if the derivation is valid, we must reject at least one of the theses. According to Castañeda, Frege rejects T.4 while he, not the least out of a legitimate desire to preserve so-called semantic innocence, rejects T.3. The singular referring terms 'MS' and 'Venus' *never* refer simply to the unadorned planet Venus, they refer primarily and respectively to guises of the planet, namely, to Venus-*as*-MS and to Venus-*as*-Venus; only thereby, i.e., in mediated fashion, do they refer to the planet unadorned. Alternatively but perfectly equivalently put, they refer to MS-*as*-MS and MS-*as*-Venus. Clearly, if this is so, then the expression '=' in the sentence "Venus = MS" does not express genuine or strict identity.

This argument shows how seriously, that is, how *explanatorily*, Castañeda is taking "the *as* moment" in "the general formula" for all reference "*X refers to Y as Z*." (Castañeda 1999c, p. 258) The singular referring terms 'MS' and 'Venus' refer primarily and respectively to Venus-as-MS and to Venus-as-Venus, which are neither linguistic meanings, Fregean senses nor anything psychological. It seems that they, hence guises generally, are Meinongian. It is hard, however, to say much more about them. They are clearly not pairs of an individual and an identity property, as if they could be understood as <Venus, the property of being identical with MS> and <Venus, the property of being identical with Venus> respectively. For what then would an *I*-guise be?[2] But whatever guises are, the decisive point for Castañeda is that they are not *genuinely* or *strictly* identical with one another, but rather 'the same' only

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[2] It cannot be the pair consisting of the speaker or thinker and the property of being identical with latter, or the property of being a self, whatever this might be. Nor could it be the pair consisting of the speaker and the property of being the subject of *this* representation or illocution since this property is only truly individuated in terms of the *content* of said representation or illocution, hence presupposes the content allegedly constituted by the putative guise. In any case, if ordinary, everyday objects are syntheses or systems of guises, then they are arguably something like set-theoretic unions of guises. So if guises were themselves *n*-tuples containing ordinary, everyday objects, then a vicious infinite regress arises. All this shows how unclear the very idea of guises and of ordinary everyday objects as syntheses, systems or unities of guises is. From the outset "Guise Theory" is no *less* puzzling that Frege's doctrine of sense and the problems unique to it make it in fact *more* puzzling, hence, *pace* Castañeda, *less* preferable.

in the weaker sense that they are co-substantiated in the same reality. One must renounce T.3 rather than T.4, as Frege did.[3] In this sense, "Guise Theory is an alternative to Frege's Sense/Referent solution to the paradox of reference." (Castañeda 1987b, p. 191)

Castañeda claims that "to most of us" the fourth thesis, which entails semantic innocence, "seems *so* obvious and unquestionable" (Castañeda 1987b, p. 184) that Frege was wrong to reject it. He is clearly right. His implicit assumption, however, that the third thesis is not just as obvious and unquestionable is neither obvious nor unquestionable. To this extent, "Guise Theory" is no more inherently plausible than "Frege's Sense/Referent solution." Indeed, *prima facie*, it is *less* plausible since a theory distinguished by its "throwing Frege's first referents," i.e., ordinary everyday objects, "out of the semantic connection" (Castañeda 1989, p. 83) is not at all obvious or unquestionable.

The crucial question is, however, whether Castañeda's derivation of paradox is valid and this it surely is not. The property at issue in the second thesis is the property of being an individual *i* such that S believes of *i* that the sentential matrix '(MS = MS & $x \neq$ MS)' is true of *i*. Only if T.2 is understood as picking out this property is it at all true or even plausible. Given this reading of it, however, one simply cannot derive the conclusion that S believes that (MS = MS & MS ≠ MS) from the three assumptions and four theses. Perhaps there is a way of understanding the sentence "S believes that (MS = MS & MS ≠ MS)" such that it follows from Castañeda's assumptions and theses that this sentence expresses a truth. But if there is such a way, it will be one which does *not* entitle one to descend from the claim that it expresses a truth to the conclusion that S believes that (MS = MS and MS ≠ MS).

We thus see that there is no paradox of reference, hence no need to reject any of the four theses. We also see that Frege's denial of T.4, i.e., of semantic innocence, has

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[3] See Castañeda 1987b, p. 184.

nothing to do with any alleged Paradox of Reference. Finally, we see how true it is that, for current purposes, there is no need to distinguish between Castañeda's and Frege's conceptions of content since for these purposes the differences between them are not relevant. There are precedents for not distinguishing between them: in his account of Castañeda on 'he' and 'I', Perry interprets the latter as postulating

> a realm of *special senses* … . Each person's special sense has, for him, the psychological role one associates with *I*." (Perry 1983, p. 81)

Obviously, Castañeda would rightly and does in fact object to this as an interpretation of him. But precisely where he thus objects, he also says that his guises are "analogous to Frege's senses" (Castañeda 1983, p. 314; see also Castañeda 1989, p. 83) and this much is all that is needed here.

In fact, in one of his last essays the affinity to, but also the distance from, Frege is striking: "(W)hat," Castañeda asks, "is the *presentational representation* with which one harpoons ONEself" when "one thinks of ONEself as *one*SELF"? "Evidently," he answers, "it is what a use of the first-person pronoun reveals" its speaker to be "presented with," namely, "an *I*." (Castañeda 1999c, p. 264; 'presentational representation' italicised) There is, of course, a difference to Frege: Castañeda says here that the presentational representation with which reference is accomplished is what is 'revealed' by a use of the first-person pronoun, which is an 'I'. So the presentational representation appears to be some kind of aspect or feature *of the referent in the everyday sense*, i.e., the user of the pronoun. As one might put it, it is the speaker-as-'I', hence -as-subject. Moreover, since it is what the speaker is "presented with," it is in some non-standard sense itself a referent. All this is a consequence of guise theory and is clearly something Frege would not say—surely rightly since it is at best odd to suggest that "an *I*" or anything else one might be "presented with" could simply *be* "the presentational representation with which one harpoons" it.

Appendix I to Chapter Five

Musholt on Characterisation "from the Inside" and on Reference to the Subject in the Characterisation of Perceptual Experience

In a personal communication of November 11th, 2022, Musholt makes a useful objection to an earlier version of Section II, which contained an argument beginning with the claim that "(t)o model self-consciousness on perceptual experience is to construe it as *about* something in the manner of perceptual experience" and ends with the dual conclusion that there is no obstacle to either (a) conceiving self-consciousness as "a relation between a subject and an object" (Musholt 2015, p. 4)—object *qua* referent, of course—, hence as a representation; or (b) maintaining that in the perspicuous linguistic characterisation of some kinds of perceptual experience and of self-consciousness there can be the *same kind* of reference to the subject grounded in the *same kind* of element in content. In the earlier version of the section, an complex example was used, one about whose treatment Musholt expresses an important concern.

The text containing the example read as follows:[1]

> To model self-consciousness on perceptual experience is to construe it as *about* something in the way in which perceptual experience is *about* something. So how is perceptual experience about what it is about? Let us assume that a subject S sees *a* man, or perhaps *the* next-door neighbour, or perhaps even John Perry skulking in the garden—this latter being the garden of S's house, or perhaps simply the house in which S currently finds itself. We may certainly say that in these three cases S's perceptual experience, while certainly about *a* man, or about *the* next-door neighbour or about John Perry, is not about the garden, the house *or indeed S itself*. Yet perspicuous characterisation of it involves reference to all three. *We must distinguish, in a way the subject-object model and indeed the argument against it do not, between aboutness and reference*. This obviously permits us to say that S's perceptual experience is about one thing only, the individual skulking in the garden. Crucially, in so doing, it also

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[1] The passage first occurs, in rather less elaborate form, in Christensen 2021.

> permits us to say that although perspicuous characterisation of S's perceptual experience involves reference to S, in no sense is S also perceiving itself.

To which Musholt responds:

> Yes, but perspicuous characterisation by whom? Clearly, by someone other than S. However, what I am trying to get at is a characterisation from the inside, as it were. And here, I think, no reference to S would be necessary (or even appropriate)—rather, the reference would be only to the man, not to S. Of course, the man is perceived in relation to S. But he would precisely not be perceived *as* being in relation to S. Rather, the subject remains implicit (in the sense of being part of the mode rather than the content of experience). As Evans puts it: "For what we are aware of, when we know that we see a tree, is *nothing but a tree*." (Evans 1982, p. 231) If, on the basis of this experience, S then forms the first-personal thought "I see a man", they would, of course, introduce a reference to themselves—thereby forming a thought that is also about themselves. But in doing so they would only make explicit what was implicit in their experience (namely its subjective character)—which is a crucial difference to them forming a thought about a perceptual object of their experience.[2]

In response to what Musholt argues, two initial and relatively incidental observations may be made, simply in order to get them out of the way. Firstly, the passage to which Musholt is responding does not actually state or commit itself to the claim that "reference to S" is necessary. It states merely that if one distinguishes between aboutness and reference, it becomes *possible* to maintain both that a perspicuous characterisation of content involves reference to S and that S does not perceive itself. This suffices to show that there being reference to S does not entail the falsehood that S perceives itself along with what one would normally and pre-philosophically regard as perceived, hence as an object of perceptual experience. To distinguish between aboutness and reference is merely to block inference from there being reference to *x*, either in the perspicuous characterisation of perceptual experience, or, as Musholt would allow, in perceptual experience itself, to the conclusion that the experience is about *x*, hence that *x* is something perceived.

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[2] Musholt expands on this point in Cahen and Musholt 2017.

Secondly, it is *prima facie* questionable to maintain that while there might be a mode of perspicuous characterisation in which reference to the subject of perceptual experience can or even must be involved, namely, other-characterisation, there is a mode of characterisation "from the inside," viz., self-characterisation, in which no such reference is involved. Surely if reference is required in the one mode, it is required in the other—not necessarily the same kind of reference, of course.

The crucial issue is, however, whether at least in some cases of perceptual experience, there not only can but must be, in whatever mode of perspicuous characterisation, reference to the perceiving subject S. At this point, it must be acknowledged that the original example justifies the protest that "… no reference to S would be necessary (or even appropriate) … ." When *this* case is more accurately characterised than was originally done, one sees that Musholt is right: there is no reference to the subject, indeed no reference to the subject in *whatever* mode of characterisation, whether "from the inside" i.e., self-characterisation, or 'from the outside', i.e., other-characterisation. For S's perceptual experience, even when characterised 'from the outside', i.e., by a subject S✦ which does not identify with S, is more accurately captured as a matter of S's seeing at *t* in S's house, or at least the house in which S is currently located, *a* man (or *the* next-door neighbour or John Perry) skulking *then** in the garden (over) *there**. In other words, while S's perceptual experience is such as to require S✦ to use asterisked expressions in order to characterise it perspicuously, it does not require S✦ to use the asterisked third-person *pronoun*. In this sense, there is no reference to S.

Precisely for this reason, let us take a different kind of example. Consider the case of the small pug which sees at *t* and *l* a large pit bull charging aggressively *towards it** (then* and thence*[3]). We are now dealing with a perceptual experience in which

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[3] A good case could be made for the need to include in this characterisation the asterisked adverb of place 'thence', which captures the clearly perceived character of the pit bull's charge as coming in a certain direction from out of a certain indeterminate place belonging to the location *l*. But let us not worry about this here, except perhaps to note that this entails that extended notion of 'here', i.e., of

reference to the subject, indeed reference by means of the asterisked third-person pronoun, is clearly necessary: that the large pit bull is charging aggressively *towards it**, the small pug, and towards nothing else, is clearly causally relevant, indeed decisive. This *is* a case in which reference to the subject 'from the outside' is essential—essential to perspicuous *other*-characterisation. And so, too, it is a case in which reference to the subject "from the inside," were the pug thus willing and able, would also be essential—essential to perspicuous *self*-characterisation.

It would seem, then, that Musholt is concluding from something correct to something false. For she draws from the correct observation that perspicuous characterisation of S's perceptual experience, which is simply of *a* man (or *the* next-door neighbour or John Perry) skulking *then** in the garden (over) *there**, involves no reference to S by means of the asterisked third-person pronoun (or anything else) the false conclusion that *in general* no such reference to the subject is involved. She is led to this by her endorsement of Evans, who explicitly claims that, when we see a tree, "what we are aware of," i.e., what we perceive,[4] i.e., what our perceptual experience is about, "is nothing but a tree." (Evans 1982, p. 231) Note that the original example of S, although poorly chosen, given the purpose for which it was chosen, shows there to be both something right and something wrong in Evans's claim. There is indeed, as Musholt points out, no reference *to the perceiving subject* in a perspicuous characterisation of this perceptual experience, whether from the inside or from the outside. Nonetheless, there is reference, either indexical or anaphoric, depending on the mode of characterisation, to both the time and, in a very subtle way which cannot be further elaborated here,[5] the location of perceptual experience. Furthermore, there

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the location of representation or locution, towards which Evans gestures in Evans 1982, § 6.3, esp. p. 153. At this point in his text, Evans rightly rejects the suggestion that 'here' can be *explained* as 'where I am' (even though necessarily it is 'where I am'). See footnote 5 to Appendix I.

4 And most definitely *not* what we are aware of "when *we know that* we see a tree"! (Evans 1982, p. 231; italics added)

5 Any such further elaboration could both profit from, and facilitate clarification of, Heidegger's account of *die Räumlichkeit des In-der-Welt-seins*—see Heidegger 1979, § 23, pp. 104-110. See also Evans 1982, pp. 222-223, and footnote 3 to Appendix I.

would appear to be, as is shown by the case of the small pug, *some* cases in which there is and must be reference to the subject. Another such case would be S's perceiving at *t* while on the road *l* a truck hurtling towards it* then* and thence*, as S attempts to traverse *l*, a location S, of course, shares with the truck. This example also suggests that one would go too far were one to say, apparently with Musholt, that neither the pug nor S perceive what its perceptual experience is about as in relation to it*. One would fail to capture causal role completely were one not to mention such relatedness to the subject *qua* subject in the characterisation of content.

Nor is it possible to accommodate the required reference to the subject by doing what Musholt suggests in the passage cited above, namely, construing such reference as deriving from perceptual mode. Her idea here is, to put things somewhat crudely, that, in the case of the pug, the property of a large pit bull's charging aggressively towards *x* and, in the case of S, the property of a truck's hurtling rapidly towards *x*, combines with the fact that each subject is perceiving to deliver that relatedness to the subject which legitimates reference to the subject in its capacity as subject in both other- and self-characterisation. This view of (at least certain kinds of) perceptual experience is endorsed not just by Musholt but by others, presumably, for example, by Evans. Since, however, the view is plausibly interpreted as a property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception, it must be left to Chapter Six, which deals with the general idea underpinning all property-theoretic or propositionally functional conceptions, to explain why the view fails.

Appendix II to Chapter Five

On Imagining Speaking and Imagining Oneself* Speaking

In a personal communication of June 25th, 2025, Markos Valaris has objected that one can plausibly imagine speaking without imagining *oneself** doing so. One just *says* it in one's head. To imagine *oneself** speaking is, he argues, to take a rather detached point of view in one's imagination. Such a detached point of view, such a detached form of imagination, may well be possible but it would not seem to be the basic case. Although a response to this objection is already implicit in Chapter Five, the objection is clearly important, hence deserves a full and explicit response.

English certainly permits one to speak merely of imagining saying something, indeed, more generally, it permits one to speak merely of imagining doing anything. Equally, however, it permits one to speak of imagining *oneself** saying or doing it. And for any of this to be possible, forms of *characterisation de se* must be possible which do not implicate the *de me*—this however one ultimately interprets the reflexive pronoun 'oneself*', whether in the manner of the thesis of content inherently *de se* or in the manner apparently implicit in what Valaris argues, which consists in construing imagining speaking as 'self-less'. Presumably, on this alternative view, the reflexive pronoun one *could* use in perspicuous characterisation serves merely to emphasise or to clarify who, objectively speaking, is engaging in the activity imagined, but it does not correspond to anything in content. In *this* sense, the imagining at issue is 'self-less'.

Now Chapter Six will argue that the general idea of 'selfless' representations whose perspicuous characterisation nonetheless requires use of either the asterisked third-person pronoun or the first-person pronoun in the specification of (at least apparent) content is false. So let us just assume that this specific argument is sound and that in general the thesis of content inherently *de se* is true. Then there are forms of *representation de se* which, while not *eo ipso de me*, nonetheless possess a content whose perspicuous characterisation requires use of one or the other pronoun *because*

the pronoun captures an element in said content. This would render it false to claim that S's imagining *itself* X*-ing is any more detached, whatever this means, than S's imagining *X*-ing. So this suggests that Valaris's objection tacitly rests on denial of the claim that the *de se is* not *eo ipso de me*. In other words, Valaris is tacitly assuming from the outset something denied by the thesis of content inherently *de se*, namely, that asterisked third-person pronouns marks something inherently *de me*.

In fact, one must suspect that when one attempts to spell out what it might mean to describe S's imagining itself* *X*-ing as detached, one will end up construing it as S's *conceiving that* it* is *X*-ing. But this is not the kind of imagining at issue here because this latter is what Peacocke calls 'suppositional' imagining.[1] Suppositional imagining presumably does involve the *de me*, at least *qua* actual capacity to become aware, both that one* is imagining, i.e., conceiving, that *p*; and that what one* is imagining is that *p*. But as Peacocke point outs, there is another kind of imagining, as when one imagines oneself* playing Beethoven's Op. 57. It is this kind of imagining which is intended by the claim that inner speech is S's imagining itself* speaking. It remains only to point out that, perhaps *pace* Valaris, a case can be made for construing precisely a subject's merely imagining X-ing as *of the detached suppositional kind*. Certainly, S's assertion of the sentence "I can imagine *X*-ing" can be understood as the assertion that it*, S, finds it conceivable that it* should *X*.

It must be admitted, of course, that one could go in the other direction, i.e., interpret S's assertion of the sentence "I can imagine *myself* doing that" as articulating a merely suppositional imagining. But this only reinforces the point that, whether the reflexive pronoun is used or not, the verb 'to imagine' is open to interpretation as of *either* kind. Either way, one must remain alive to the different possibilities of interpretation, that is, to the potentially different kinds of imagining characterised, either with or without help from the reflexive pronoun. And given how the (S)-use of

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[1] See Peacocke 1999, p. 212.

any third-person pronoun is understood here, namely, as not entailing anything *de me*, the reflexive pronoun can be used just as readily to depict the non-detached, non-suppositional kind as the detached, suppositional kind. There is therefore no reason to assume that S's imagining itself* speaking involves more detachment, disengagement or supposition than S's imagining speaking. Similarly, S's imagining itself* playing Op. 57 is no less detached and engaged than S's simply imagining playing it. Of course, since both speaking and piano-playing are possible only for subjects capable of self-consciousness, self-ascription and the like, S is able to self-ascribe its imagining and what it is imagining. But this is not a consequence simply of S's undergoing a representational event whose perspicuous characterisation requires the asterisked third-person reflexive pronoun.

Note one advantage of interpreting things in the manner recommended here: one can explicitly accommodate the fact that when S imagines *X*-ing, S is not merely imagining of S that it is *X*-ing—S's imagining characterised *de re*—but imagining *itself** doing the *X*-ing. It must be possible to characterise S's imagining not just *de re* but, as it were, *de dicto*, i.e., to characterise in such a way that S can genuinely *know* what it is imagining as what *it** is imagining. In particular, one must provide an account of what it is to know this which does not entail either such falsehoods as that S believes that it* is S; or such falsehoods as that what it is imagining is merely some mere type of deed, some mere property of *X*-ing, which innumerable others could perform or instantiate. There is a general point implicit here which reflects the argument of Chapter Six: the kind of imagining at issue here must be an imagining *something* ***Y*** *X*-ing since otherwise the 'entertaining' of its content by its subject would not be possible. In this regard, it is irrelevant that when *Y* is the imagining subject itself, some languages permit one to leave reference to *Y* out when characterising—this whether the reference left out would have to be indexically first-personal or anaphorically third-personal. As the point might be put, S can only imagine *something*, whether S✦ or itself*, playing Op. 57, this precisely when it is *not*

imagining in the 'suppositional' sense in which it might imagine, i.e., conceive, *that* there is a Twin Earth, *that* one* is living on Twin Earth, etc.[2]

[2] Note, too, that in neither case is one committing oneself to the view that S's content is perspicuously captured by a 'that'-clause. Here as in the case of at least one kind of perceiving it is possible to maintain that content is simply S✦'s playing Op. 57 or oneself* doing so. Of course, whether this view is right, either in the case of some imaginings or in the case of some perceivings, requires argument not provided here.

Appendix I to Chapter Six

On Generalising the Self-Ascriptive Belief Relation

If one wishes to understand the nature and the limits of David Lewis's conception of content, one must understand at what point in his development of it Loar's general idea intervenes.[1] In his paper of 1979 Lewis moves from the general to the particular: first, he sketches a property-theoretic conception of representation and content *in general*, only then applying Loar's suggestion to the *de se* in order to motivate the claim that the property theoretic conception is the right way to think about content in general. It seems, then, that a capacity to deal satisfactorily with the *de se* serves as a primary justification for the general conception.

Lewis begins with the general and surely correct claim that we need a single, uniform conception of content:

> In attempting to systematize what we know about the causal roles of attitudes, we find it necessary to refer to the logical relations among the objects of the attitudes. Those relations will be hard to describe if [contents] are miscellaneous. Uniform [contents] … facilitate systematic common-sense psychology (Lewis 1979, p. 514)

Traditionally, of course, contents have been understood to be propositions and in much formal semantics one has attempted to make propositions both theoretically tractable and philosophically palatable by identifying them with sets of possible worlds. The proposition that Perry is making a mess at 7 pm on 07.07.79 in the supermarket becomes the set of possible worlds in which Perry is making a mess at 7 pm on 07.07.79 in the supermarket. There are familiar objections to this identification, for example, that contents necessarily true will end up the same, as will contents c and $c^{\star}$ such that $c^{\star}$ is c conjoined with a necessary truth. Clearly, they are not the same, as is shown by the fact that a subject can know a single necessary truth without knowing

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[1] Lewis explicitly acknowledges Loar's suggestion as a precedent for his own conception of content—see Lewis 1979, footnote 4, p. 519. Lewis prefers to speak of properties rather than of propositional functions but this difference is not relevant here.

all, or indeed know *c* without knowing *c*✦. Lewis speculates that "this problem cuts across the issues I want to discuss" and so ignores it. (Lewis 1979, p. 514)

He then points out that

> to any set of worlds whatever, there corresponds the property of inhabiting some world in that set. [So] to any proposition there corresponds the property of inhabiting some world where that proposition holds. (Lewis 1979, p. 516)

Trivially, any inhabitant of a world in the set which constitutes the proposition that *p* will possess the property of inhabiting a world in which *p*, so there is "a one-one correspondence between all propositions" (Lewis 1979, p. 516) and such properties. With this, Lewis makes his first and most central move: it seems that with just as much and just as little right we may take the content of an 'attitude' to be, not the set of possible worlds in which such and such is the case, but the property standing in one-to-one correspondence to it. As he himself puts it, "when propositional objects of attitudes will do, property objects also will do." So "(w)henever it would be right to assign a proposition as the object of an attitude," he will "simply assign the corresponding property."

> Since the correspondence is one-one, no information is lost and no surplus information is added. The attitude is equally well characterized either way. And since it is easy to go back and forth, there can be no significant difference in convenience. (Lewis 1979, p. 516)

So is there any reason for moving beyond even-handedness and taking the content of an 'attitude' to be this property *rather than* the set of possible worlds, i.e., the proposition as standardly understood within "a possible worlds frame-work" (Perry 1979, p. 35/p. 13)? Lewis claims that there is: "Sometimes property objects will do and propositional objects won't" (Lewis 1979, p. 516) and not conversely. There are, he maintains, 'attitudes', i.e., representations,[2] whose perspicuous characterisation requires use of a 'that'-clause such that no proposition in the standard sense is

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[2] The point can be extended, of course, to illocutions.

individuated by the clause. Furthermore, in these cases, properties can be taken as that in relation to which the 'attitude' consists. So if for those other kinds of 'attitude' for which a propositional content *can* be identified we take, not the proposition but the property corresponding to it as that in relation to which it consists, we ensure that the contents of all 'attitudes' whose perspicuous characterisation requires use of 'that'-clause are of the same type. "(O)nce we switch from propositional objects to the corresponding properties" (Lewis 1979, p. 516), *all* representations and illocutions for whose perspicuous characterisation a 'that'-clause is required become relations of their subject to a property, not just some subset thereof which, because its members resist the assignment of propositional objects, can only be accommodated by regarding them as relations to properties. Thereby we ensure "the categorial uniformity of objects" (Lewis 1979, p. 517), i.e., contents.

Needless to say, the representations (and, *mutatis mutandis*, illocutions) which according to Lewis resist assignment of propositional objects as standardly conceived within the "possible-worlds framework" (Perry 1979, p. 35/p. 13) are those *de se*. At this point, Loar's general idea intervenes. Using the kinds of example found in Perry 1977 and 1979 and his own example of the two gods, Lewis argues that "(w)e can and we do have beliefs … whereby we self-ascribe properties," in particular, properties which do *not* correspond to propositions, standardly conceived. These are beliefs "whereby we identify ourselves as members of subpopulations whose boundaries don't follow the borders of the worlds …" (Lewis 1979, p. 518), that is, beliefs through which we locate ourselves not as in a world in which such and such is the case but rather as at such and such time and location, or again, as such and such an individual. In such cases, we stand in relation not to a proposition but to a property, which relation is self-ascription. Lewis now mobilises the thought with which he began, namely, that we can similarly regard even those representations for which a propositional content can be identified. Given that to each proposition there corresponds the property of inhabiting a world in which the proposition is true, we

may take this property to be what the subject of an 'attitude' is self-ascriptively related to, thereby constituting the latter as the representation it is. Nothing seems to be lost and we have gained uniformity in the objects of belief and of all other 'attitudes' for whose perspicuous characterisation a 'that'-clause is required.

Consider, however, the following naïve argument: Let us allow that Loar's idea can be extended in the manner intimated by Lewis to Cynthia's belief that *John* has the flu. Surely this can only mean that when Cynthia believes that John has the flu, what is true is: B*(Cynthia, *y inhabits a world in which John has the flu*). Then, however, Cynthia believes that John has the flu just in case Cynthia believes that she* inhabits a world in which John has the flu. It now seems that Cynthia's belief that John has the flu is about Cynthia—about her in just the same way as her belief that she* has the flu is about Cynthia. Evidently, this is false. So if the two clearly different sentences "Cynthia believes that John has the flu" and "Cynthia believes that she* inhabits a world in which John has the flu" ascribe the same belief, the latter cannot have the sense standardly accorded to sentences of the form "S believes that it* is F." Insofar as Cynthia's belief that she* has the flu and her belief that John has the flu are both self-ascriptions of properties, they cannot be self-ascriptions in the same sense. The claim "that the *de se* subsumes the *de dicto*" (Lewis 1979, p. 521) is false.

Lewis would respond to this argument as follows. By a property he means "the set of exactly those possible beings, actual or not, that have the property in question" (Lewis 1979, p. 515) and he is proceeding from an understanding of propositions as sets of possible worlds. Precisely this extensionalistic conception of properties and propositions permits him to tweak both notions in such a way that the naïve argument is defused. In this, appeal to Quine's notion of a *centred* possible world[3] plays a decisive role: Lewis proposes that one conceive of contents *qua* what is individuated

[3] See Lewis 1979, p. 531ff.

by a 'that'-clause as sets of *centred* possible worlds, that is, as sets of pairs <*C*, *W*> such that *W* is a possible world and *C* a so-called *centre* or *index*. A centre or index "is either a space-time point, i.e. a pair <*l*, *t*> of a location and a time, or else, as is more common in current discussions, a pair <*I*, *t*> of an individual [person] and a time."[4] (Pagin 2016, p. 273) Clearly, one could understand the notion of a centre or index to comprehend all three, i.e., an individual, a time and a location. Thereby the centre or index *C* becomes the triple <*I*, *t*, *l*>.

Note, firstly, that given how Lewis has initially characterised a property, namely, as the set {<*x*, *t*, *l*, *W*> : *x* is F at *t* and *l* in *W*}, it can be construed as a set of centred possible worlds. For one has only to re-construe it as the of course now different set {<<*x*, *t*, *l*>, *W*> : *x* is F at *t* and *l* in *W*}.[5] Note, however, secondly, that a proposition as standardly understood within "a possible-worlds framework" (Perry 1979, p. 35/p. 13) may also be re-construed as a set of centred possible worlds. For one may tweak this standard notion of a proposition by assigning it a centre or index. The proposition that *p* then becomes the set of *centred* worlds {<<*I*, *t*, *l*>, *W* : *p* in *W*>},[6] Consequently, the set {<<*I*, *t*, *l*>, *W* : *I* is F at *t* and *l* in *W*>} is now a proposition, the terms '*I*' , '*t*' and '*l*' being understood, of course, as referring to an individual subject, time and location respectively. Since, however, it is identical with the set {<<*I*, *t*, *l*>, *W*> : *I* is F at *t* and *l* in *W*}, it is also a subset of the *property* {<<*x*, *t*, *l*>, *W*> : *x* is F at *t* and *l* in *W*}. *Certain* propositions have become subsets of properties, those subsets, namely, involving one and the same centre or index. Given this, however, one can treat *all* propositions in this way. For the set {<<*I*, *t*, *l*>, *W* : *p* in *W*>} is identical with

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4 Lewis himself speaks of "pairs of a world and a designated space-time point therein." (Lewis 1979, p. 531)

5 In effect, one is now thinking of what Plato would call participation, others rather inaccurately predication, as a relation between indices and possible worlds.

6 Pagin writes, "Terminologically, in (1979) Lewis distinguishes between propositions, conceived of as sets of ordinary worlds, and sets of centered worlds, which correspond to properties, but the contemporary discussion regards the idea of a set of centered worlds as an alternative conception of what a proposition is." (Pagin 2016, p. 273) And in the note to this passage, Pagin points out that "in later work (e.g. Lewis 2004)" Lewis "also speaks of *egocentric propositions*." (Pagin 2016, p. 306)

{<<*I*, *t*, *l*>, *W*> : *p* in *W*}, which is itself a subset of {<<*x*, *t*, *l*>, *W*> : *p* in *W*}. And this latter one may regard as a property, given how Lewis has conceived properties. *All* propositions have become subsets of properties, those subsets, namely, involving a centre or index <*I*, *t*, *l*>.[7]

Lewis may therefore say that when Cynthia believes at t_c and l_c that she* has the flu (then* and there*), she self-ascribes in at least quasi-Loarian fashion the property {<<*x*, *t*, *l*>, *W*> : *x* has the flu at *t* and *l* in *W*}. In so doing, Cynthia locates the pair <<Cynthia, t_c, l_c>, @>, where @ is for Cynthia the actual world, i.e., the world of Cynthia and her belief, in this property. This we may regard as entailing that her self-ascription has the *force* of the representational mode of belief.[8] Meanwhile, content *qua* what is individuated by a 'that'-clause becomes {<<Cynthia, t_c, l_c>, *W*> : Cynthia has the flu at t_c and l_c in *W*}. By contrast, when Cynthia believes at t_c and l_c that *John* has the flu at t_J and l_J, she self-ascribes, once again in quasi-Loarian fashion, the *different* property {<<*x*, *t*, *l*>, *W*> : John has the flu at t_J and l_J in *W*}. In so doing, she locates the same pair <<Cynthia, t_c, l_c >, @> in this latter property, thereby similarly imparting the force of belief. And content *qua* what is individuated by a 'that'-clause becomes {<<Cynthia, t_c, l_c>, *W*> : John has the flu at t_J and l_J in *W*}.

Note now, secondly, something very elegant about this: it permits us to say that Cynthia is doing *exactly the same thing* as she does in the case of her belief *de se*, so

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7 "Terminologically, in (1979) Lewis distinguishes between propositions, conceived of as sets of ordinary worlds, and sets of centered worlds, which correspond to properties, but the contemporary discussion regards the idea of a set of centered worlds as an alternative conception of what a proposition is. Either way, a belief *de se* for Lewis (1979, p. 539) is the *self-ascription* of a property, which is a set of centered worlds. If, and only if, Lewis believes that *he* [i.e., he*] is making a mess at time t, he self-ascribes the set of centered worlds < <*I*, *t*, [*l*]>, *w*> such that *I* is making a mess at *t* [and *l*] in *w*. Thus, the connection between [the] relativized proposition, the set of centered worlds, and the believer, is the believer's act of self-ascribing the set. On this view, ascribing any property to anyone else proceeds via ascribing a property to oneself." (Pagin 2016, pp. 273-274; Pagin in fact means 'the set of centred worlds {<*I*, *t*, [*l*]>, *w*}') One sees clearly here how propositions become a kind of property—and, going hand in hand with this, how, in ascribing a property to anything, one ascribes a property to oneself.

8 It is thus what was called in Chapter Six self-ascription in the representational or illocutionary sense. How this is supposed to work for representational modes *other than belief* is not in the least clear.

her belief about John is also a self-ascription. Yet in each case a different property is self-ascribed, so the difference between Cynthia's believing at t_c and l_c that *she** has the flu (*then** and *there**); and Cynthia's believing at t_c and l_c, not just that John, *but also that Cynthia*, has the flu (at $\boldsymbol{t_c}$ and $\boldsymbol{l_c}$) has been captured! The latter consists in self-ascribing, in a fashion similar to her belief at t_c and l_c that John has the flu at t_J and l_J, the property $\{\langle\langle x, t, l\rangle, W\rangle : \text{Cynthia has the flu at } t_c \text{ and } l_c \text{ in } W\}$, whereas the former consists in self-ascribing the *different* property $\{\langle\langle x, t, l\rangle, W\rangle : x \text{ has the flu at } t \text{ and } l \text{ in } W\}$! Of course, it now follows that when Cynthia both believes at t_c and l_c that *she** has the flu; and believes at t_c and l_c that *Cynthia* has the flu: what she believes *qua* what is individuated by a 'that'-clause is the same. But this is not a disadvantage! Quite the contrary, it captures the difference between the sentence-types 'B*(x, *y is F*)' and 'Believes(x, that p)', i.e., 'x believes that p'. In other words, we have an account of the self-ascriptive belief relation and what it accomplishes.

This intimates that Lewis's talk of inhabiting a world in which p is quite literally a ladder to be thrown away once climbed—thrown away, namely, once one has so clarified the idea of extending Loar's suggestion to *all* contents that one sees it *not* to entail that Cynthia believes that John has the flu just in case B*(Cynthia, *y inhabits a world in which John has the flu*). To lay bare Lewis's formal machinery is to block the naïve argument in its very first move, this by revealing what property Lewis actually means when he speaks of inhabiting a world in which p. This is *not* the property $\{\langle\langle x, t, l\rangle, W\rangle : x \text{ inhabits } W \text{ at } t \text{ and } l \,\&\, p \text{ in } W\}$. Clearly, cognitive self-ascription of *this* property is belief at t and l that one* inhabits then* and there* a world W such that p in W, a property which evidently will only include centred worlds to which the subject, time and location of belief belong. The property Cynthia actually self-ascribes when she believes at t_c and l_c that John has the flu at t_J and l_J, is, however, $\{\langle\langle x, t, l\rangle, W\rangle : \text{John has the flu at } t_J \text{ and } l_J \text{ in } W\}$, which latter the naïve argument confuses with the clearly different property $\{\langle\langle x, t, l\rangle, W\rangle : x \text{ inhabits } W \text{ at } t \text{ and } l \,\&\, \text{John has the flu in } W\}$.

There is, however, a sting in the tail of this refutation of the naïve argument: it relies on understanding properties and propositions in Lewis's preferred manner. Consequently, if, like Neil Feit, one rejects this understanding because one takes "a more Platonistic view of properties …" (Feit 2008, p. 18) yet insists on extending Loar's general idea to representation and content as such, one will have trouble dealing with the naïve argument. Because he wants to be "more Platonistic," more precisely put, because he wants, "(b)eyond maintaining that there are such things as properties or attributes …, … to say as little as possible about their nature" (Feit 2008, p. 18), Feit speaks not of inhabiting a world in which *p* but of being such that *p*. Thus, when Cynthia believes that John has the flu, she self-ascribes the property of being such that John has the flu. At the very least, it is not clear what this amounts to and arguably it is solecistic. The phrase '… is such that … ' is surely only able to take as its complement a sentence in which there is reference back to the subject of the phrase, this for the simple reason that the phrase means '… is *so constituted (by a property it possesses)* that *it* … '. If so, then the very meaning of the phrase entails that it *can only* have the 'reflexive' structure '*x* is such that *it*, *x*, is F'.[9] All in all, the neologism '*x* is such that *p*' plays fast and loose with the actual meaning of the phrase from which it is derived. [10] More importantly, it is not clear how one will make a distinction between being such that *p* in a heuristic sense ultimately to be discarded; and being such that *p* in a sense which entails that S's belief that *p* is quite literally belief that it* is such that *p*. Until this is clarified, Feit cannot refute the naïve argument in the way Lewis can. Conversely, if Feit is right to be suspicious of Lewis's less Platonistic views, then the refutation available to Lewis is itself a sleight of hand.

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[9] This is perhaps clearer in German translation: '*x* ist *derart, dass* [of such a kind or constitution that] *es*, *x*, F ist.'

[10] In some critical remarks on Speaks' version of the property theory Soames characterises the property of being such that Amelia talks as "degenerate." (King, Soames and Speaks 2014, p. 226) The account just given of the meaning, hence structure of the phrase explains why the property is degenerate.

Yet there is an even deeper problem, one which afflicts specifically Lewis's account, working as it does within a *centred* possible worlds framework. Let us assume that Cynthia believes at *t* and *l* not merely that she* has the flu but also that *Cynthia* has the flu. She might believe the latter either in virtue of her belief *de se* and the further belief, also *de se*, that she* is Cynthia. She might, however, believe it without realising that she* is Cynthia. Notice now that the sentences which characterise these two beliefs both express the *objective* identity of the context of belief with the *n*-tuple of entities objectively determining truth or falsity. This is, of course, not a necessary feature even of belief *de se*. After all, Cynthia could believe that she* had the flu last week, in which case the time relevant for truth or falsity would not be the same as the time of belief.[11] Only one item in the context of belief *must* be identical with an item thus relevant, viz., Cynthia herself.[12] Notice, however, that the two sentences which, by all ordinary standards, perspicuously characterise Cynthia's two beliefs do not express this objective identity in the same way. The sentence "Cynthia believes that she* has the flu" expresses it *as the identity it is*. It does so, of course, because it contains the asterisked third-person pronoun and, at least potentially, asterisked adverbs of time and place. Thus, the pronoun, because it refers to the subject of belief in its capacity as the subject of belief, enables the whole sentence to express the identity of what the belief is about with the subject of belief in the latter's capacity as the subject of belief. Meanwhile, the (merely implicit) adverbs, because they refer to the time and location of belief in their capacity as the time and location of belief, enable the whole sentence to express the identity of the time and location of what the belief is about with the time and location of the subject of belief in their capacity as the time and location of belief.

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[11] Cynthia could also believe that she* had the flu while in Paris, in which case the location of evaluation would not be the same as the location of belief.

[12] One is tempted to use Musholt's term 'non-accidental reference' but this would be wrong since Musholt reserves this term for those cases of the *de se* which involve what she calls explicit self-representation—see Musholt 2015, p. 9, and pp. 97-114.

Now Lewis's account can clearly accommodate this much, namely, that in each case, belief is such that its perspicuous characterisation expresses the objective identity of the two contexts. Can it, however, capture the difference between them—the difference, namely, that the one is, the other is not such that perspicuous characterisation of it expresses the identity of these contexts *as* this identity? At first, one might think that it can. After all, in each case different properties are involved: when Cynthia believes at t_c and l_c that she* has the flu (then* and there*), she self-ascribes the property $\{<<x, t, l>, W> : x$ has the flu (at t and l) in $W\}$. By contrast, when she believes at t_c and l_c that Cynthia has the flu (at t_c and l_c) she self-ascribes the property $\{<<x, t, l>, W>$: Cynthia has the flu (at t_c and l_c) in $W\}$.

One must, however, be more circumspect. Yes, Lewis's account enables *us*, who are reflecting on Cynthia's beliefs, to recognise both the difference and the sameness between them. But can it permit *Cynthia* to recognise this? Or must it, in order to accommodate the very possibility of Cynthia's being able to recognise this,[13] tacitly presuppose that for which it would account, namely, the ordinary everyday modes of characterisation, as represented by the two sentences "Cynthia believes at t_c and l_c that she* has the flu (then* and there*)" and "Cynthia believes at t_c and l_c that Cynthia has the flu (at t_c and l_c)"? All along, the centre or index implicated in Cynthia's belief at t_c and l_c that *she** has the flu (then* and there*) has been identified with the context of belief, that is, understood as containing as its members all and only items in the context of belief.[14] Cynthia, t and l are, respectively, the subject, time and location of belief while @ is not simply the actual world, it is the world of Cynthia's belief. It is thus the context of belief which Cynthia locates in the relevant property; only for this reason is her ascription *self*-ascription. Yet the same is true of Cynthia's belief at t_c and l_c that *Cynthia* has the flu (at t_c and l_c). Here, too, the centre or index contains as

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[13] Of course, given who and what Cynthia is, she actually is thus able.

[14] Strictly speaking, the context of belief is the *quadruple* <Cynthia, t_c, l_c, @>. So it is neither simply the centre or index <Cynthia, t_c, l_c> nor the *pair* <<Cynthia, t_c, l_c>, @>. Yet these differences are not relevant here. What is relevant is what and in particular who the members of these different n-tuples are and, in particular, how they are individuated.

its members items in the context of belief and it does so for the same reason, namely, to ensure that ascription is self-ascription.[15] Here, too, Cynthia locates the pair <<Cynthia, t_c, l_c>, @> in the relevant property.

Now Cynthia either knows or does not know what we know. So either she knows or does not know that she is locating one and the same pair in two different properties. Lewis would insist that it does not matter which of these possibilities is true; either way, she locates the centre or index in the relevant property. He speaks of a cat wanting "a class of centered worlds that are centered on a cat safely on a roof" and its fearing "a class of centered worlds that are centered … on a cat in the jaws of a dog" (Lewis 1979, p. 532). Since the cat has no understanding of what it* is doing, the same can be true of Cynthia: she need not have any understanding of locating such and such a centre or index in such and such a property. Her believing just is this locating, whether she knows of it or not, hence whether she knows or does not know either (a) the centre or index located or (b) the property in which it is located.[16]

Nonetheless, Cynthia must be *able* to understand this, i.e., *able* to know what we know. Otherwise there will be no difference *for her* between her beliefs, in which case neither of her beliefs could stand under her rational control. So how can she know this on the picture Lewis has painted for us? Obviously, she must know this in the way we do, namely, by knowing that in each case a different property is self-ascribed. But how can she know this? Only as a consequence of knowing herself* as locating such and such a centre or index in such and such a property. So she must know what she* is locating, namely, such and such a centre or index, and she must know what she* is locating it in, namely, such and such a property. Moreover, she must not only know that she* is locating the former in the latter, she must know all these aspects of her locating as the aspects they are. All this, in particular, her knowing that she* is

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[15] It is worth stressing that this reflects an entirely general point, namely, that the centre's or index's containing as its members items in the context of belief, indeed of representation or illocution generally, ensures the ubiquity of the self-ascriptive representational or illocutionary relation.

[16] Here we have an affinity with the thesis of content inherently *de se.*

locating <<Cynthia, t_c, l_c>, @> in such and such a property, is, however, only possible insofar as she recognises that <Cynthia, t_c, l_c> is the context of belief in @ for a belief *of hers**. But this latter she can only know insofar as she knows at t_c and l_c, in @ that <Cynthia, t_c, l_c> is, as one may put it, <she*, then*, there*>! Her capacity to ascribe either belief, hence to distinguish between these beliefs, presupposes this. At this point, we have arrived at a conclusion reached long ago by Frege with regard to belief that the Morning Star is a planet and belief that the Evening Star is a planet: if it is essential to the contents of Cynthia's two beliefs that they be self-ascribable, as it surely is if they are to stand under her rational control, then each, in particular, the centre or index they contain, cannot implicate *simply* the entities Cynthia, t_c, l_c, and @, i.e., cannot *simply* be the *n*-tuple consisting of them. Each content must involve an aspect or feature reflecting the character of the centre or index of her belief *as* the centre or index of *her** belief, i.e., as the context of a belief of *hers**.

Evidently, what is required for the possibility of Cynthia's *self*-ascription of her two beliefs is just as much required by us for our *other*-ascription of them to her. In other words, we encounter here a condition of the possibility of belief ascription, whether (as) one's own, i.e., (as) one*'s belief, or (as) another's. If it is essential to the contents of Cynthia's beliefs that they be ascribable as the contents of belief they are, then these contents cannot implicate or include *simply* the entities Cynthia, t_c, l_c, and @ or any *n*-tuple consisting thereof. Involved in content must also be something reflecting their character as, so to speak, *she**, *then**, *there** and *her* world*, in other words, the character of the centre or index <Cynthia, t_c, l_c,> as the context of a belief *of hers* in her* world*. We need to include in content something akin to Fregean sense. What precisely such an element is, is, of course, contentious. Here, however, it suffices simply to point out both that such an element is needed *and that it is absent from Lewis's account*. For this reason, his account does not genuinely explicate either of Cynthia's beliefs because it cannot reconstruct a property each possesses. At best, it

tacitly presupposes, hence does not explicate those ordinary, everyday ways of characterising Cynthia's two beliefs for which it would account. In particular, it presupposes those ordinary, everyday ways of characterising her belief *de se*, whether the indexical one typically deployed by Cynthia herself or the anaphoric one deployed by a subject who does not identify with her.[17]

In summary: Lewis's picture of belief and of the 'attitudes' more generally is fine-grained enough to capture an objective sameness and difference between Cynthia's two beliefs because while in both the centre or index is the same, in each the property within which the centre or index is located is different. The picture fails, however, to secure the possibility of Cynthia's distinguishing between her two beliefs, this because it is not as fine-grained as the everyday modes of characterisation it purports to explicate. It thus fails to explicate *either* belief as the personal and impersonal belief they respectively are. Consequently, even though it might *seem* to accommodate *our* distinguishing between Cynthia's two beliefs, i.e., *our* cognising their objective sameness and difference, it does not really do so. Appearances to the contrary, it does not secure the possibility of *anyone's* distinguishing between Cynthia's two beliefs. It thus fails as an account not just of these representations, but of representation and, *mutatis mutandis*, illocution generally.

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[17] There is a clear affinity or conceptual connection between this last argument against Lewis and a strand of the argument against Loar in Chapter Six. There it was argued that if the content of Cynthia's belief *de se* were as Loar suggests, then *if* Cynthia knew it as the content of her* belief, she would *eo ipso* know that she* was Cynthia, which is false. Here it has just been argued that if the content of Cynthia's belief *de se* were as Lewis suggests, then *in order* for Cynthia to know it as the content of her* belief, she would have to know that <Cynthia, t_c, l_c> is <her*, then*, there*>, hence similarly that she* is Cynthia, which is false. More generally and completely put, in wielding the asterisked third-person pronoun she would have to know what we know, namely, that Cynthia is the subject, t_c, the time and l_c the location of belief. That she *has* to know this is, however, false.

Appendix II to Chapter Six

How does Recourse to the "Self-Ascriptive Belief Relation" Avert the Threat to Loar's Fregean Account of Singular Terms?

It is worth explaining in some detail how precisely Loar's strategy works to avert the threat posed to a Fregean account of singular terms specifically by the asterisked third-person pronoun and indeed the first-person pronoun. For in fact this strategy is not immediately transparent yet is also very subtle. Crucial to understanding it is appreciation of the fact that Loar's strategy is, in the first instance, a response to a *general* threat, that, namely, posed by the Donellian distinction between the referential and attributive use of singular terms,[1] a response which shows how to incorporate the distinction into a Fregean account of singular terms. The general idea is, to put things perhaps rather crudely, to show that all uses directly referential in Donellan's sense can be understood as a peculiar kind of attributively referential use. This distinctive kind of attributively referential use is one in which a singular term *t* is used is to refer to something *x*, not if and only if *x* satisfies the individual concept *IC* literally expressed by *t*, but rather if and only if *x* satisfies some individual concept $IC^{\star}$ available in the context of communication, i.e., which is mutually believed by speaker and hearer to be satisfied by *x*. For example, when S asserts, "Smith's murderer is insane," the term 'Smith's murderer' refers, not to whoever actually did murder Smith, but, say, to the man (S and S's audience see) there in the dock. So what S in fact asserts is that the man (it* and its* audience see) there in the dock is insane.

At this point, Loar's adoption of a property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception of content *de se* (or perhaps rather, of content-*ascriptions de se*) enters the picture. *Prima facie*, however well Loar's accommodation of the referential use within the Fregean paradigm might work for the directly referential use of singular terms like 'Smith's murderer', *prima facie* it will not work in the case of S's use of

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[1] See Donellan 1966.

the asterisked third-person pronoun ‘she*’ in an assertion of the sentence “Cynthia believes that she* has the flu.” For if we understand the pronoun as used by S to refer to something *x* if and only if *x* satisfies some individual concept *IC*✦ available in the context of communication, i.e., mutually believed by S and its audience to be satisfied by *x*, then S would end up asserting that Cynthia believes that *IC*✦ has the flu. Note, however, that this false conclusion only follows because we have assumed that the content of S’s *assertion* that Cynthia believes that she* has the flu is structurally or ontologically on a par with the content of S’s *assertion* that Cynthia believes that, say, Cynthia, or the woman discussed in Loar 1976, etc., has the flu. And we have made this assumption because we have assumed that Cynthia’s *belief* that she* has the flu is structurally on a par with Cynthia’s *belief* that Cynthia, or again, the woman discussed in Loar 1976, etc., has the flu.

Loar thus rejects this underlying assumption about Cynthia’s belief. When Cynthia believes that she* has the flu, what is the case is in fact that *B**(Cynthia, *x* has the flu)—an account of what is now only loosely called self-ascriptive *belief* because Cynthia is in a state of *B**, not belief. Once this move has been made—once, in effect, we have shifted to a property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception of Cynthia’s believing that she* has the flu—, the term ‘Cynthia’, as used in the sentence “*B**(Cynthia, *x* has the flu)” can be understood in Loar’s modified Fregean fashion *without any Fregean insinuation that Cynthia herself is, as one says, thinking of Cynthia in Fregean terms.* Only the user of the sentence is thus thinking. Note that the thesis of content inherently *de se* makes a similar claim: only the user S of the sentence “Cynthia believes that she* has the flu” ‘thinks of’, or rather, refers to, Cynthia as subject—subject of the representation or locution, here a belief, it* is ascribing. We see here a proximity of the property-theoretic or propositionally functional conception to the thesis even as the specific way in which the former secures proximity to the latter also distances it from it.

Appendix I to Chapter Seven

How do the Demonstrative Adverbs of Time and Place possess Sense?

How might one extend to the demonstrative adverb of time 'now' and the demonstrative adverb of place 'here' the treatment given in Section I of Chapter Seven to the first-person pronoun 'I'? One must take seriously the fact that these are adverbial, not pronominal. Yet the use of either in some sense involves reference to a point in time or space. Let us consider first the demonstrative adverb of time 'now'. Precisely because it is an adverb, this expression is used in a sentence *s* to qualify whatever activity or state is characterised by the use of *s* as a whole, an activity or state of the referent of some nominal or pronominal reference in *s*. Thus, in the sentences "Jack has now arrived" and "Jill is now at work," neither Jack nor Jill are now but only the former's arrival and the latter's presence at work. This is confirmed by the fact that 'now' is more or less equivalent to *the whole phrase* 'at the current time', and not simply to 'the current time'. Similarly, the demonstrative adverb of place, precisely because it is an *adverb*, qualifies what the referent of some nominal or pronominal reference in *s* is doing, namely, where it is doing what it is doing; it does not qualify this referent itself. Yet here, too, just as use of the adverb of time implicates reference to a time, the use of the adverb implicates reference to a location.

Now as with the pronoun 'I', one might at first be tempted to appeal to something like the following:

> 'now', as uttered by some S at a *t* and *l*, refers to *x* if and only if *x* = the time of *this* tokening of it

But this token-reflexive formulation must be rejected for the same reason as in the case of the first-person pronoun: it conflates the being of reference with its intelligibility since it at best articulates what it is to determine, i.e., understand, the reference of 'now' on an occasion of its use. This leaves really only the following:

> 'now', as uttered by some S at a *t* and *l*, refers to *x* if and only if *x* = the time (which is) then*

Here, the asterisked adverb refers to the time of S's uttering, i.e., to *t*.

This carries straightforwardly over to the demonstrative adverb of place 'here'. In its case, we arrive at the following:

> 'here', as uttered by some S at a *t* and *l*, refers to *x* if and only if *x* = the location (which is) there*

The only qualification one might make here is that because the adverb 'there', when used demonstratively by S, is understood to refer to a location *at some remove from* S, there is a tendency to advert, on the right hand side, to the adverb 'here' itself, furnished, however, with an asterisk! What enables and explains this curious asterisked use of 'here' is the fact that when it is used demonstratively, 'here' typically and most fundamentally does not pick out a location at which the subject wielding it literally is, in contrast to all other locations at which the subject can perceive other entities in its vicinity to be. Rather, it tends to pick out this immediate vicinity itself, understood as the joint location of both the subject and the entities in its immediate vicinity. Interestingly, German has, alongside the demonstrative adverbs 'hier' and 'dort', a further adverb with the flexibility to capture this. 'Hier' means 'here', 'dort' means 'there' *while 'da' means that 'here/there' within which both are originally contained*:

> According to its familiar linguistic meaning, the 'Da' intimates 'here' and 'there'. The 'here' of an 'I-here' ['where I am'] always understands itself out of a ready-to-hand 'there' in the sense of a practically engaged Being towards what is there which, in directing itself* towards the latter, both brings it near and sets it at a remove from itself*. (Heidegger 1979, § 28, p. 132; my translation)

Appendix II to Chapter Seven

Is the (S)-used Third-Person Pronoun a Variable?

Jeffrey King observes, at least with regard to such sentences as "There is someone who believes that he* is a millionaire," that "… it is widely held that the [(S)-used] pronoun is functioning as a variable bound by its quantifier antecedent." (King 2006, p. 238) But is this widely held view right? This depends on what one means by a variable and surely, if one understands the notion strictly, in particular, as going hand in hand with notions of generalisation and instantiation, hence substitution, the view is wrong. For in all cases in which an expression is used as a variable bound by a quantifier, the bond between it and the quantifier binding it is a strictly syntactic relation. Precisely for this reason, in a formal language a quantificational bond is syntactically ascertainable from the outset. And in any natural language, if a quantificational bond is not already syntactically ascertainable, only minor tweaking is needed in order to render it such—as, for example, when one rejigs the sentences "All Greeks are mortal," "Any Greek is mortal," "Each Greek is mortal" and "Every Greek is mortal" as "For all *x*, if *x* is a Greek, then *x* is mortal."

It is thus in principle possible to identify a genuinely quantificational bond present in a sentence without understanding the sentence. Just this is, however, not the case with the (S)-used pronoun—this irrespective of whether the pronoun's antecedent is a variable bound by a quantifier, as in the sentence "There is someone who believes that he* is a millionaire"; or a proper name such as 'Smith'; or a definite description such as 'the Editor of *Soul*'. The 'bond' of an (S)-used pronoun to its antecedent is always only *semantically* ascertainable, such that recognising it requires understanding at least something of the sentence and the wider discourse within which it is embedded. True, some natural languages have a pronoun explicitly dedicated to the (S)-use. But it is not necessary that they do so, as is shown by the fact that one can always translate sentences involving it into languages like English and German, which do not possess such a dedicated pronoun.

Nor does use of the asterisk to mark a pronoun as (S)-used contradict the claim that it is not a variable. Quite the converse; that there are languages such as English in which there is no syntactic device for marking the (S)-use, hence languages which, if the use is to be marked, must be given some equivalent to the asterisk, only underscores once more the fact that the (S)-use of a pronoun is only ever semantically, hence not entirely syntactically ascertainable. This shows that the asterisk, as used in the clearly only philosophical English of discussions such as this one, is not part of the meaning of the pronoun to which it is attached, hence not part of the meaning of the whole sentence in which the pronoun is deployed. It serves merely to disambiguate the use of the pronoun as an (S)-use.

In fact, the (S)-used pronoun behaves much more like a proper name than a variable. It is widely accepted, and is accepted here, that the proper name 'Perry' refers rigidly whereas the nominal definite description 'the author of "Frege on Demonstratives"' does not. The same applies to the asterisked third-person pronoun, which is, after all, strictly a counterpart to the first-person pronoun. And when Descartes asserts, "At least I know that I am as thinking," the reference he accomplishes with his use of the first-person pronoun is rigid. Moreover, given the premise that Perry is the author of "Frege on Demonstratives," one may unproblematically infer from "Perry believes that he* is making a mess" to "The author of "Frege on Demonstratives" believes that he* is making a mess" and *vice versa* without misconstruing Perry's belief. The two sentences, used literally, both attribute the same belief, hence attribute the same content as believed by Perry. In these inferences the asterisked third-person pronoun is behaving similarly to how the name 'Anscombe' behaves in the entirely comparable inferences from "Perry believes that Anscombe is making a mess" to "The author of "Frege on Demonstratives" believes that Anscombe is making a mess" and back. It is thus not merely possible to liken (S)-used pronouns to proper names rather than to variables; the logical behaviour of such pronouns suggests that this is the right thing to do, so much so that

one must ask why one would liken the pronoun to a variable rather than a proper name.

Note that the fact that one can existentially generalise from "Perry believes that he* is making a mess" to "There is someone who believes that he* is making a mess" provides no reason for denying for this. Quite the contrary, such generalisation only further supports the claim that the pronoun is functioning more like a proper name. It is, after all, structurally similar to existential generalisation from "Anscombe believes that Perry is making a mess" to "There is someone who believes that Perry is making a mess." Note, too, that however distinctive because ineliminable the (S)-use is, it remains just one more instance of the anaphoric use of pronouns. So if the asterisked third-person pronoun ever functioned as a variable, then, so, too, would the anaphorically deployed pronoun in the sentence "Jack and Jill went up the hill and then they came tumbling down." But in the latter sentence the anaphorically deployed pronoun, however 'lazy' because eliminable, is not functioning as a variable at all. Some deep philosophical commitment must therefore underlie the widely, indeed stubbornly held belief "that the [(S)-used] pronoun is functioning as a variable bound by its quantifier antecedent." (King 2006, p. 238) What this commitment might be is intimated in the Concluding Chapter.

In a conversation of November 6th, 2023, Peter Roeper attempted to refute the claim that if one proceeds simply from how the pronoun behaves, one must conclude that it is more like a proper name than a variable. He did so by appeal to an idea stemming from David Bostock which, he argued, could be used positively to demonstrate that the asterisked third-person pronoun and, by extension, the asterisked adverbs of time and place, function as variables. One has only to introduce what might be called a singular quantifier of the form '(x = …)', in which what occupies the place marked by the dots is some standard singular term. We can then understand "(x = S)(x believes that x* is F)," in which, as it seems, the singular quantifier binds the variable 'x' in all its occurrences, as equivalent to "S believes that it* is F." So the

asterisked third-person pronoun is indeed a (term playing the role of a) variable. More precisely put, the token of the pronoun bearing the asterisk is, like the other tokens, bound by a quantifier, the singular, namely, hence must be a variable. Crucially, this is now demonstrated by the form of the sentence. In other words, the link between the asterisked third-person pronoun and the singular term 'S' has been rendered syntactic, hence syntactically ascertainable.

Surely, however, the introduction of singular quantification and singular quantifiers does not address the issue. The question to be decided is not whether one can extend some kind of quantification to a sentence in which quantification as standardly conceived does not and cannot occur. The relevant question is rather whether the property of being bound by a quantifier—by a quantifier of whatever kind—is exhibited by the asterisked third-person pronoun. Precisely for this reason, one can endorse Bostock's idea of singular quantification while rejecting the claim that the asterisked third-person pronoun is a variable. In other words, one could embrace the idea of singular quantification and singular quantifiers while insisting that the sentence "S believes that it* is F" is to be read, indeed can only be read, as equivalent merely to "(x = S)(x believes that *it** is F)," which continues to treat the anaphoric 'bond' of the pronoun as quite different from the quantificational bond.

In fact, insofar as one accepts Roeper's replacement of the asterisked third-person pronoun 'it*' by the expression 'x*', one has simply begged the question against the claim that the pronoun is not a variable. Whatever merits there might be to the idea of singular quantification, one cannot use it to show that the asterisked third-person pronoun is a variable. This can no more be shown by recourse to singular quantifiers than it can by recourse to standard quantifiers. With just as much and just as little right, one could read "Every Greek believes that he* is mortal" as equivalent to "For all x, if x is a Greek, then x believes that x* is mortal." In short, the recourse to singular quantifiers at most shows how to *extend* the idea that the asterisked third-person pronoun is variable from the case in which the noun phrase to which it is

anaphorically linked involves a standard quantifier to the case in which this noun phrase does not, i.e., is a standard singular term. It thus does not speak to the question at issue, which is whether the asterisked third-person pronoun, at least when the noun phrase to which it is subordinated involves a quantifier, functions as a variable. Instead, from the outset it has assumed an affirmative answer to this question, hence begged it all along.

It remains only to point out that the sentence "For all *x*, if *x* is a Greek, then *x* believes that *x** is mortal" is actually ill-formed, for which reason alone it cannot be equivalent to the sentence "Every Greek believes that he* is mortal." For the token of '*x*' bearing the asterisk does not behave as it should were it really bound by the quantifier, hence really a variable. In particular, it does not behave as do the second and third tokens of '*x*' in the sentence, which are available for universal instantiation. Yet for current purposes this obvious point is not the relevant one. The relevant point is that in claiming equivalence, one is not showing, but simply presupposing, that the asterisked third-person pronoun is a variable. Crucially, this same point applies to Roeper's use of singular quantification. As already pointed out, it shows merely how one might extend the assumption that the asterisked third-person pronoun is a variable to sentences involving proper names and nominally deployed definite descriptions. Whereas the claim being made here is that the assumption itself is wrong—wrong for all sentences in which the asterisked third-person pronoun is deployed.

Ultimately, the reason why the assumption is wrong is very familiar: quantifiers, whether universal, existential or singular, cannot reach into intensional contexts, this precisely because the quantificational bond is a purely syntactical affair, unlike *any* anaphoric link, which is always syntactico-semantic, even when the anaphora is lazy. The quantificational bond is simply not of the same kind as that involved in the use of the asterisked third-person pronoun. In *all* cases, the (S)-use of the third-person pronoun is never what Castañeda called a (C)-use (Castañeda 1966, p. 37), just as he

originally insisted, even in the case of quantified sentences such as "The Editor of *Soul* believes that he* is a millionaire" and "Every Greek believes that he* is mortal."

At this point, one might advert to the case of attributions *de re* in order to defend the view that the asterisked third-person pronoun, particularly when its antecedent is a quantified expression, is a variable. Consider the attributions *de re* "There is someone of whom Castañeda believes that he is a millionaire" or "Of all her colleagues, i.e., of each one of them, Mary believes that he or she is incompetent." These can be read, one might argue, as equivalent to "There is an *x* such that Castañeda believes of *x* that *x* is a millionaire" and "For all *x* such that *x* is a colleague of Mary, Mary believes of *x* that *x* is incompetent" respectively. This surely suggests that quantifiers can reach into intensional contexts and if this is so, then we can extend this treatment to quantified attributions *de se*. The sentences "The Editor of *Soul* believes that he* is a millionaire" and "Every Greek believes that he* is mortal" now become "The Editor of *Soul* believes that *x** is a millionaire" and "Every Greek believes that *x** is mortal," which shows that in both quantified attributions *de re* and quantified attributions *de se* the pronoun is functioning as a variable.

This is clearly a poor argument. That the pronoun is functioning as a variable is no more true in the case of attributions *de re* than it is in the case of attributions *de se*. The first quantified attribution *de re* is equivalent to, not "There is an *x* such that Castañeda believes of *x* that *x* is a millionaire," but "There is an *x* such that Castañeda believes of *x* that *he* is a millionaire." Similarly, the second is equivalent to, not "For all *x* such that *x* is a colleague of Mary, Mary believes of *x* that *x* is incompetent," but "For all *x* such that *x* is a colleague of Mary, Mary believes of *x* that *he or she* is incompetent." In both cases, use of the pronoun *rather than* the variable '*x*' is not only natural but necessary, this because if we regard the quantifier as able to reach into the 'that'-clause, then either we falsely maintain that substitution *salva veritate* is possible or we lose all grip on what role the sententially functional expressions '*x* is a millionaire' and '*x* is incompetent' are playing. Evidently, what explains why we

confront either falsity or unintelligibility is the fact that the quantifier does *not* reach into the 'that'-clause, not even in the case of quantified attributions *de re*. Relatedly, the sententially functional expressions '*x* is a millionaire' and '*x* is incompetent' have the clearly intelligible role they have when they contain the relevant pronoun *because* this latter is not functioning as a variable but rather as a pronoun *linked anaphorically* to the bound variable occurring outside of the relevant intensional context. In short, the reason why it is both natural and necessary to use the pronoun and not a further token of the variable '*x*' is that the pronoun is not a variable.

In summary, the thesis of content inherently *de se* understands the asterisked third-person pronoun as it occurs in sentences of the form "Every G believes that it* is F" more on the model of a name rather than a variable. This is *not* to say that it takes the pronoun simply to *be* a name since its whole point is to insist that the (S)-used pronoun is a linguistic primitive *alongside* names, definite descriptions and variables. There is, after all, a clear difference in logical behaviour between quantified attributions involving the asterisked third-person pronoun and quantified attributions involving names in their respective 'that'-clauses. This difference can be graphically illustrated by assuming, as is commonly done, that belief is literally a relation $R_{\text{BELIEF}}(x,y)$ of a subject to a content and that there are three Greeks only, viz., α, β, and γ. Then the content expressed by the sentence "Every Greek believes that Socrates is mortal" is true if and only if $R_{\text{BELIEF}}(\alpha$, that Socrates is mortal), $R_{\text{BELIEF}}(\beta$, that Socrates is mortal) and $R_{\text{BELIEF}}(\gamma$, that Socrates is mortal), the 'that'-clause individuating in each case the *same* content or proposition.

By contrast, the content expressed by the sentence "Every," or perhaps better, "*Each* Greek believes that he* is mortal" is true if and only if $R_{\text{BELIEF}}(\alpha$, that he* is mortal), $R_{\text{BELIEF}}(\beta$, that he* is mortal) and $R_{\text{BELIEF}}(\gamma$, that he* is mortal), the 'that'-clause now individuating in each case a *different* content. The difference here is not in the least surprising, of course, since in the former case content is impersonal, in the latter personal. Yet this difference has no impact on how either quantified sentence is

to be handled. In particular, in both cases, the relevant sentential functions, namely, '*x* believes that Socrates is mortal' and '*x* believes that he* is mortal' are treated as expressing properties of the individuals α, β and γ. In the one case, this is the property of believing that Socrates is mortal, in the other, the clearly different property of believing that *one** (and not *it**!) is mortal. This clearly important difference in epistemic properties is quite unproblematic, at least in the sense that it is not obvious why the latter creates more difficulties than the former.

Appendix III to Chapter Seven

On Saying the Same Today as One Said Yesterday

There are several ways in which one can say the same as another, or as one has oneself said. There is same-saying in the sense of expressing a content such that thereby the same property or relation is predicated in the same order of the same things. Then again, there is same-saying in the sense of expressing a content by means of a sentence not just synonymous[1] but interpreted in the same way. We may define the former as coarse-grained same-saying *de re*, the latter as fine-grained same-saying *de dicto*. Evidently, corresponding to and underpinning both kinds of same-saying are two coarse- and fine-grained notions of content, which we may call content *de re* and content *de dicto* respectively.

Now famously Frege claims that "(w)hen someone wants to say the same [*dasselbe*] today as he expressed yesterday using the word 'today', he will replace this word with 'yesterday'." (Frege 1918/1976, p. 38; my translation) Clearly, there is something very plausible about this claim. But what exactly? That is, what exactly is the same-saying Frege means, however inchoately? He cannot mean same-saying *de dicto* and its associated notion of content, given how these have just been characterised. The sentences "Today is fine" and "Yesterday was fine" are, after all, not synonymous sentences. In principle, he could mean same-saying *de re*, hence content *de re*, and "(m)any philosophers commenting on this passage have concluded" that he did. In effect, they

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[1] One might claim that criteria of synonymy are hard to come by and are closely connected to criteria for sameness of content. No doubt they are hard to come by given ingrained hostility to the ideas of meaning and content. But there is no such hostility here so criteria of synonymy, precisely because they are closely connected to criteria for sameness of content, are not impossible to come by. The noun 'bachelor' means the same as the noun 'unmarried man' in the sense that both make the same contribution to content *qua* what is locuted. And two speakers locute, their locutions possess, the same content, if and only if the content of the one is true *in the same way as* the content of the other, i.e., when the sentences involved in each are such that a semantic theory for their respective languages yields for the one a biconditional sentence specifying truth conditions whose right hand side is the same as the right hand side of the biconditional sentence which such a theory yields for the other.

> … have concluded that Frege intended to abandon a notion of 'what is said', or 'the thought expressed' which was 'psychologically real' [i.e., psychologically *efficacious*] in the sense of being the object of propositional attitudes, and was giving expression to the idea that two people would express the same thought provided that they refer to the same object (in whatever way) and say the same thing about it.[2] (Evans 1981, pp. 306-307)

If, however, that Frege is understood in this way, then he is articulating a conception of same-saying, hence of content itself, which is, at least for those who, like Frege, seek to ground their understanding of linguistic meaning and content in "the distinction between sense and reference," of little interest. Moreover, this is a conception "otherwise … wholly absent from his work."[3] (Evans 1981, p. 307) There would therefore seem no choice but to venture an admittedly speculative hypothesis: Frege is gesturing towards an *intermediate* kind of same-saying lying, as it were, in-between same-saying *de re* and *de dicto*. This is a kind of same-saying which, while not as coarse-grained as the former, is not as fine-grained as the latter because it permits same-saying of the kind putatively manifest in Frege's two sentences, namely, same-saying in locutions involving different indexical references to the same time. Moreover, this intermediate kind of same-saying is underwritten by a correspondingly intermediate notion of content.

At this point, the question arises as to why such an intermediate notion of content, hence of same-saying might be needed. Obviously, one might stipulatively define such an intermediate notion but the question now being asked is what necessity there could be to the notion thereby stipulatively defined. Perhaps, then, the insight towards

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2 In a footnote to this passage, footnote 20, Evans mentions Kaplan as having understood Frege in this fashion.

3 Evans rhetorically asks whether Frege, if he had intended with his remark merely same-saying and content *de re*, "would have been willing to continue" his claim that in order to say the same, one "must replace" the word 'today' "with 'yesterday" by adding "or 'my birthday', or any other expression designating the same day … ." (Evans 1981, p. 307) It is not clear that Frege would have been thus willing. If all Frege were getting at were same-saying and content *de re*, then neither S's assertion on day *d* of "Today is fine" nor S's assertion on day *d*+1 of "Yesterday was fine" would distinguish itself from S's assertion on either day that it is fine on 07.07.79, which latter happens to be *d*. And this would render inexplicable Frege's clear intention to claim that on *d*+1 S will use an *indexical* expression, one, moreover, *systematically related to* the one S uses on *d*.

which Frege is grasping is the following: the intermediate notion of content is necessary because it is a conceptual ability necessary insofar as a subject which must act upon objects in space and time is to do so rationally, i.e., to have its purposive behaviour under its rational control. In particular, it is necessary because it is required for a subject's being able to *comprehend as its** contents perspicuously expressible by it in temporally demonstrative terms—which capacity, or so one might further argue, requires that it be able to comprehend *itself** as having representational *states*, i.e., representations *which persist across time*. In other words, such a subject must understand itself* as possessing *temporally persistent* representational *states* such as belief with *demonstratively temporal* content, i.e., content it can only perspicuously express by means of a sentence involving demonstrative adverbs of time, such as "Today is fine."

Evans is not clearly venturing this hermeneutic possibility if only because it is not clear what hermeneutic possibility he is venturing. It seems as if he reads Frege's remark as articulating a notion of same-saying, hence of content which could *replace*, and is indeed intended by Frege to replace, at least in the case of representations and locutions with content such that their subject must use temporal demonstratives in their perspicuous characterisation, same-saying and content *de dicto* as defined above. Clearly, to read the remark in this way is to construe Frege as rejecting, at least for certain cases, something quintessentially Fregean, the conviction, namely, that content is responsible for both the truth conditions and the causal role of what has it as content. In effect, it is to construe Frege as rejecting for at least some cases component T.2 of the thesis of content inherently *de se*. This, however, would be to read Frege as either muddled, inconsistent or both—surely an undesirable reading.

Yet Evans also makes suggestive albeit under-elaborated remarks of his own about (a) what it is to be a temporally persistent representational state; and (b) what it is to be a content perspicuously expressible by its subject in temporally demonstrative terms—remarks which insinuate precisely that (a) and (b) are interdependent notions.

Perhaps, then, one might both avoid an undesirable reading of a remark made by Frege and put meat on the bones of remarks made by Evans by elaborating the hermeneutic hypothesis just advanced as simultaneously a rational reconstruction of both. The hypothesis that the former is seeing in a glass but darkly the notion and necessity of content 'in-between' must be developed in a way which reveals the latter's insights. This will justify the hypothesis.

What, then, does a subject S say when it asserts on day *d* the sentence "Today is fine"? What does S locute when it thus illocutes? It is perfectly acceptable to characterise this as that it is fine then*.[4] This is what S says *de dicto*. Since what S says in this sense is, at least if one endorses T.2, some one thing accounting for both truth conditions and causal role, it is to this extent Fregean. Crucially, it is perfectly accessible, i.e., knowable: everyone and anyone can know that what S asserts on *d* is that it is fine then* even though, if they do not know this on *d*, they cannot assert or believe what S says. Yet in some sense Frege is right: if asked what S would have to say, on day *d*+1, in order to assert the same as it asserted on *d*, we would answer that S would assert the sentence "Yesterday it was fine." S would then have asserted that it was fine a day ago, i.e., that it was fine on the day before then*. So in whatever sense Frege is right, S is not same-saying *de dicto*. The causal role imparted by what S would have asserted on *d*+1 is not the same, so content *de dicto* is not the same. What notion of same-saying, hence content, is at issue here? And how does this notion help us to understand both (a) and (b) above, thereby revealing its necessity?

Let us look more closely at the two perfectly acceptable reports one might give, *oratio obliqua*, of S's two assertions:

S asserts on *d* that it is fine then*

S asserts on *d*+1 that it was fine on the day before then*

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[4] Here it must be borne in mind that the asterisk serves merely to disambiguate—to disambiguate what is a perfectly acceptable, even ordinary use of the adverb 'then'.

Evidently, the 'that'-clause in the second involves a reference to both *d* and *d*+1: in the adverbial phrase 'on the day before then*' the definite description refers to the former while the asterisked adverb contained in it refers to the latter. Note, however, that in neither sentence is there a reference to the time of assertion, that is, to the point of time on either *d* or *d*+1 at which S asserts. This reflects the fact that in S's assertions the temporal demonstratives used are, respectively, 'Today' and 'Yesterday'. 'Today' refers, as Evans puts it, to "the current *day*" (Evans 1981, p. 303; italics added), not to a point of time on this day at which it is uttered.[5] Similarly, 'Yesterday' refers to the previous day without any reference to a point of time on the day at which it is uttered.

Now because the words used to accomplish temporal reference in these sentences differ, the temporal references themselves differ. So what is said *de dicto*—content *de dicto* as defined above—differs. Yet each 'that'-clause determines one and the same day *d* as referent in the same *general* way: it sets *d* in relation to the particular time, hence context of assertion, this, however, without referring either to this time or to this context. There is reference only to a temporal interval containing the time of assertion, in the one case, *d* itself, in the other, *d*+1. Yet a time of assertion is essential to each of S's assertions since each is an event, not a state, i.e., something occurring *at* a time rather than *across* a time.

This suggests that one may define two contents C_1 and C_2 to be the same in a sense more than *de re* but not yet *de dicto* as follows:

> C_1 and C_2 are each perspicuously individuated by two 'that'-clauses N_1 and N_2 such that each contains either the asterisked or the corresponding demonstrative adverb of time and:

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[5] So S's assertions are *not* more accurately depicted by "S asserts at $t : t \in d$ that it is fine on the day then*" and "S asserts at $t^{\ast} : t^{\ast} \in d{+}1$ that it was fine on the day before then*". S *could*, of course, make an assertion whose perspicuous characterisation involves a reference to the *time* of assertion; S would only have to assert at *t* the sentence, "It is *now* fine." Nor does this possibility imply that a token-reflexive account at least of 'now' is possible. Any such account would be wrong for reasons similar to those speaking against a token-reflexive account of 'I'.

(a) the entities to which there is reference in N_1 and N_2 are the same;

(b) all predicate-expressions are tensed forms of the same linguistic predicate;

(c) all referring terms in N_1 and N_2 *not* identical with *either* the asterisked or corresponding demonstrative adverb of time *or* an adverbial phrase of time constructed out of either are the same and they occur in the same syntactical order; and

(d) those referring terms in N_1 and N_2 identical with either of these adverbs or a referring term constructed out of either are not the same.

This admittedly thus far merely stipulative definition articulates a kind of temporal content which is quite literally 'in-between' since it presupposes both the notion of content *de dicto* and the notion of content *de re*, hence their associated notions of same-saying. Moreover, it involves explicit appeal to the asterisked adverb, hence presupposes that maximally fine-grained content *de dicto* is perspicuously expressible by such anaphoric means.[6] So if this conception of content 'in-between' can be shown to possess a certain necessity, then we receive, so to speak from left field, support for the idea that the thesis of content inherently *de se* not only can but must be extended so as to admit content *de nunc*.

So what specific need might there be for this notion of same-saying, hence of content, 'in-between'? To pose this question is to ask what same-saying in this sense reveals about the nature of demonstratively expressible temporal content and what is involved in saying, that is, locuting it. Here Evans provides assistance because when

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6 Note that only such adverbs, hence only such means, unambiguously show *how*, in the cases just considered, there is reference to one and the same day *d*. That they do so is revealed by something one might at first take as an objection to their use: the very strong intuitive tendency to say, not "S asserts at *t* that it is fine then*," but "S asserts at *t* that it is fine now," a tendency aided and abetted by the present tense of the verbs, in particular, the verb 'asserts'. There is similarly a strong, if perhaps not so strong intuitive tendency to say, not "S asserts at $t^{\blacklozenge}$ on d+1 that it was fine on the day before then*," but "S asserts at $t^{\blacklozenge}$ on d+1 that it was fine on the day before now," or perhaps "… before the one now," the adverb 'now' referring in both cases, of course, to d+1. This tendency is explained by the fact that in English the adverb of time 'then' is typically used to refer to a *past* time, as in 'back then'. Given this, one opts for the adverb of time 'now', in order to capture currentness—currentness relative to the illocution or representation reported, obviously, since no one understands the use of 'now' in the aforementioned sentences to refer to the time of *its* use, hence the time at which the sentences containing it are themselves used.

he speaks of "(t)he metaphor of 'keeping track of something'" (Evans 1981, p. 310), he intimates why we need it. By such tracking he clearly means, or at least wishes to include, the *perceptual* tracking of an object across time—not, however, any old perceptual tracking, such as that engaged in by a lion when stalking its prey, but rather a perceptual tracking done, if not itself self-consciously, then by a being which is self-conscious. For he asks us to reflect upon

> a skill *we* possess of keeping track of an object in a visual array over time. *Our* eyes and *our* heads move, perhaps *we* are also obliged to turn or move *our* bodies, but these changes are required in order to maintain contact with the same object over time. (Evans 1981, p. 310; italics added)

And we, unlike the lion, are self-conscious beings. It seems, then, that Evans is seeking to articulate a condition of the possibility for a certain kind of self-ascription, that, namely, of representations and the contents thereof whose perspicuous self-ascription and -characterisation by their own subject requires demonstrative adverbs or demonstrative adverbial phrases of time. The capacity for such self-ascription, which is a self-conscious awareness *at* a time *of* a time, "is dependent on an ability … necessarily manifested only *over* time." (Evans 1981, p. 310)

What, then, might Evans be getting at? The following seems plausible, both hermeneutically and substantively: if a subject S is capable of ascribing to itself* a representation and the content thereof such that perspicuity of expression requires S to use a demonstrative adverb and/or adverbial phrase of time, then

1. S must *understand* at a time *t* that if something is F then*, then *ceteris paribus* it was F before then* and will remain F after then*;[7] and
2. S must *be able* to track entities perceptually across time so as to be able, at least *ceteris paribus*, to determine at a time *t* if and when something has remained or ceased to be F then*.

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[7] This underpins Evans's observation that "(n)o one can be ascribed at *t* a belief with the content 'It is now ψ', for example, who does not have the propensity as time goes by to form beliefs with the content 'It was just ψ a moment ago', 'It was ψ earlier this morning', 'It was ψ this morning', 'It was ψ yesterday morning', etc." (Evans 1981, p. 309)

In other words, S's capacity to ascribe to itself* a representation whose content requires for its perspicuous expression by S demonstrative reference to an individual time *t* implicates an understanding on S's part of *t* as to be succeeded by some later time *t+n* such that if it* were representing *t* then*, it* would be representing *t* as past; and preceded by some earlier time *t-n* such that if it* were representing *t* then*, it* would be representing *t* as future. As one might put it, S's capacity to ascribe to itself* such a representation implicates a discursively articulable understanding of individual times as elements in a continuum[8] which 'flows', an understanding which, when discursively articulated as in 1., requires use of both the asterisked third-person pronoun and the asterisked adverb. Moreover, this understanding is not itself sufficient for such capacity for self-ascription, but must be accompanied by something non-discursive, the ability, namely, to track entities perceptually across time, as articulated in 2. S shares this ability, of course, with the lion but S, unlike the lion, possesses it self-consciously—this precisely because S, unlike the lion, possesses the understanding articulated as 1., hence can be aware of itself* as tracking entities perceptually across time.[9] In short, Evans is gesturing towards that awareness of time which underpins metaphors of time as 'passing' and is grounding it in "our ability to keep track of a moment *as it recedes in time*." (Evans 1981, p. 310; italics added) Not just "Frege" but Evans himself "might be credited with the insight that a capacity to keep track of," indeed to understand, "the passage of time is not an optional addition to, but a precondition of, temporal thought" (Evans 1981, p. 309), at least insofar as the subject thereof is self-conscious.

Now this admittedly reconstructive interpretation provides a plausible way of reading Evans's obscure claim that a content such that perspicuous expression by its own subject requires this latter to use demonstratively adverbial terms is *dynamic*.

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8 That is, a series such that for any two elements in any ordering of its elements there is always an element between them.

9 Evans is in effect alluding to what Heidegger calls *die Zeitlichkeit des Daseins*—see Heidegger 1979, esp. Division II, Chapter 4.

Evans suggests that we regard the notion of a representation with such demonstratively temporal content, presumably whether a *state*, such as belief, or an *event*, such as mental judgement,

> as essentially an abstraction from the dynamic notion of 'keeping track of an object from *t* to *t*'. And the grasp, at *t*, of a thought [i.e., content] of the kind suggested by the passage from Frege, a *dynamic* Fregean thought, requires a subject to possess at *t* an ability to keep track of a particular object over time. (Evans 1981, p. 311)

He then goes on to claim that

> the *way of thinking of an object* to which the general Fregean conception of sense directs us is, in the case of a dynamic Fregean thought, a *way of keeping track of an object*. This permits us to say … that a subject on [*d*+1] is thinking of [*d*] *in the same way* as on [*d*], despite lower level differences, because the thought-episodes depend upon the same exercise of a capacity to keep track of time. (Evans 1981, p. 311)

On the interpretation suggested here, it is wrong ever simply to *identify* "the *way of thinking of an object* to which the general Fregean conception of sense directs us" with "a *way of keeping track of an object*." Rather, Fregean sense in general, hence that specific Fregean sense whose perspicuous expression is either demonstratively or anaphorically adverbial, *presupposes* this ability. In particular, the capacity to become aware of sense and content only perspicuously expressible in demonstratively or anaphorically adverbial terms *as one*'s own* presupposes this ability along with the aforementioned discursively articulable understanding of time. It now becomes *constitutive* of S's self-ascribing its belief on *d*+1 that it was fine a day before then* that S recognise it on *d*+1 as having a content such that to ascribe *this same belief* a day before then* would be to recognise *this same belief* a day before then* as belief to the effect that it is fine *then*,* i.e., on ***d***!

Notice now that in the characterisation of this recognition, which is inherent to S's self-ascription on *d*+1, all tokens of 'then*' except the last refer to *d*+1 while the last refers to *d*. Notice, too, that precisely because this is so, the notion of sameness

operative in the phrase 'this same belief' is the intermediate one. So sameness of belief and content in the intermediate sense is not just stipulatively introduced by us on the basis of *our* grasp of what S's belief is; rather, it has a structural role to play in *S's* grasp of what *its** belief is. Recognising that it* believes on *d*+1 that it was fine a day before then* involves recognising that had it* had *this very belief* a day before then*, it would have been belief a day before then* that it was fine then*, i.e., on *d*! This is built into the self-ascription of such belief because such belief has the specifically temporal content it has and because it is, like all belief, a state which persists across time. Crucially, this recognition involves the intermediate notion of the sameness of belief and content, so this notion is indeed a condition of the possibility of S's being able to recognise such belief and its content as its*.

Of course, all this needs more elaboration and justification than can be undertaken here. If, however, it is true, then we do need a notion of same-saying and content 'in-between' the notions *de dicto* and *de re*. Crucially, in the formulation of this interpretation both the asterisked third-person pronoun and the asterisked adverb of time have played an indispensable role. One could, of course, re-formulate matters using the first-person pronoun and the demonstrative adverb of time—genuinely *using* and not simply *citing* them, i.e., genuinely asserting and not simply quoting sentences containing them. Indeed, in the literature it is very common to make this kind of point in this way. Yet in so doing, one is *not* using the expressions strictly since in thus using them, one is not seeking to refer solely either to oneself* or to the time then*, the time at which one is either writing or reading the literature. Rather, one is either oneself using the first-person pronoun and demonstrative adverb to make *general* points; or interpreting them as thus used. And the only way to make these general points *literally*, as the general points they are, is to use the asterisked expressions, anaphorically linked, of course, to terms equivalent in function to the terms 'S' and '*d*' used here (which are now, of course, clearly acknowledged as the bound variables

they are). This observation not only bolsters extension of the thesis of content inherently *de se* to content *de nunc*, it also bolsters the thesis itself.

There is, however, even more in what Evans is maintaining! Indisputably, belief is a persistent. That is, one believes something only across intervals of time; just this distinguishes belief as a state from assertion, mental judgement or perceptual experience, which are events or occurrences. There can therefore be no time of belief in the way there is for assertion, mental judgement or perceptual experience. This is, of course, not to deny that belief also exists *at* a time. Rather, it is to point out that in the case of belief with a content only perspicuously expressible by means of the asterisked adverb of time, the adverb does not refer to a point of time, in particular, not to the time at which belief and its content are, if at all, characterised, but always only to a duration containing this time. S only ever believes across some interval of time that it is fine then*, i.e., across this interval of time. Of course, when S *asserts* at a time *t* on day *d* the sentence "Today is fine," what S asserts is also such that its perspicuous characterisation involves reference to *d*, hence to an interval containing *t*, rather than to *t* itself, which occurs within *d*. S *could*, however, assert at *t* a content whose perspicuous characterisation does involve such a reference—if, for example, S were to assert at *t* the sentence, "It is fine *now*," in which 'now' refers to *t*. In no comparable sense, however, can S believe at *t* that it is fine then*, i.e., *t*. Rather, when S believes at *t* that it is fine then*, the asterisked adverb one would use to characterise this belief perspicuously refers to some contextually determined or determinable interval containing *t*.[10]

If, however, one maintains that S's belief on day *d* that it is fine then* has a 'now'-thought as content in analogy to the way S's belief that it* is making a mess allegedly

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[10] Which belief disposes S across the duration of the belief's existence to assert at *t* that it is fine then*, i.e., to assert the sentence "It is fine now." In this assertion 'now' would normally refer to some contextually determined or determinable duration containing *t* within the duration of belief, e.g., today, this morning, etc.; it could, however, both be intended to refer and in fact refer to *t* itself.

has an 'I'-thought as content, then one is embracing 'now' elements in content alongside first-personal ones.[11] One now confronts a difficulty: in principle, S can believe not just on day *d*, but also in week *w*, during month *m*, in year *y* … that it is fine then*. So is one to admit a multitude of different 'now' elements in content which determine that the referent of the asterisked adverb is, respectively, *d*, *w*, *m*, *y*, … ? This is surely implausible or at least odd. Or shall one say instead that there is one 'now' element only, whose referent is a point of time *t* and the singular terms '*d*', '*w*', '*m*', '*y*', … are to understood as expressing functions taking *t* as their argument—as if a phrase such as 'on day *d*' meant 'on the day containing *t*'? If so, what *is t*? This would amount to postulating a multitude, indeed an infinity of absolutely punctual 'now' moments.

Of course, the use just made of 'then*' *in the characterisation* of content might lead one to respond that *t* is simply a time on *d* at which S's belief is perspicuously characterised, i.e., the time of a perspicuous ascription of belief, hence of a use of the asterisked adverb. But then both the content of S's belief and S's belief itself would falsely entail ascription of it, hence use either of the demonstrative or of the asterisked adverb of time with respect to it. One could dodge this false conclusion by taking *t* to be a time on *d*, or, for that matter, in *w*, *m*, *y* or … at which S's belief is *possibly* perspicuously characterised, i.e., the time of a *possible* perspicuous ascription of belief, hence of a *possible* use of the asterisked adverb. While this would allow one to dodge the false conclusion, one would still make two interconnected mistakes. Firstly, one would tacitly assimilate belief *de nunc*, which is a *state*, to (mere disposition to) assertion or mental judgement *de nunc*, which is an *occurrence*. Secondly, by taking S's belief at *t* on day *d* that it is fine then* to be such that the asterisked adverb refers to *t*, not to *d*, one would tacitly distort characterisation itself. That is, one would misconstrue *awareness* of the content of belief, hence of belief itself. For one would

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[11] And, if one embraces 'I'-thoughts, then one is surely obliged also to embrace such 'now' and, for that matter, 'here'-thoughts.

now find oneself forced to construe the asterisked adverb of time as quasi-indicating, in Castañedian fashion, an at least possible thinking by S of *t* as now, just as the asterisked third-person pronoun supposedly quasi-indicates an at least possible thinking by S of S as itself*. Both mistakes go hand in hand with, and presumably underpin, what Evans calls the "atomistic conception" (Evans 1981, p. 309) of belief.

Importantly, by extending in the manner undertaken here the thesis of content inherently *de se* to accommodate content *de nunc*, one avoids both mistakes. For this extension accommodates the asterisked adverb of time in such a way that one need not choose between either a non-denumerable infinity of durationally different 'now'-elements in content—*d*, *w*, *m*, *y*, …, etc.—; or an equally non-denumerable infinity of durationless ones, i.e., absolutely punctual 'now' moments which implicitly undermine the character of belief as a state. For extension in the manner undertaken here does not build the interval of time across which S believes that it is fine then* into content but rather leaves it open. The term to which the asterisked adverb is anaphorically linked in characterisation of either belief or assertion on S's part constitutes a quite unproblematic reference to whatever interval or point of time is contextually appropriate, given the purposes of characterisation. Consequently, the reference accomplished by the adverb itself becomes equally unproblematic.

Where, then, does leave the notion of dynamic belief and Frege's remark? When S believes on day *d* that it is fine then*, S does not *eo ipso* believe on *d*+1 that it is fine a day before then*. Yet the first belief is a resource enabling emergence of the second should this latter need to emerge, i.e., should it become rational on *d*+1 for S to intend to behave then* in a way which presupposes truth of the first belief. Thus, S might desire early in the morning of *d*+1, before it is clear that it will be fine then*, to go to the beach then* if it is fine then*. S then forms the intention early in the morning of *d*+1 to go to the beach (some time) then* as follows: having believed on *d* that it was fine then*, S recalls this belief, which consists, not in forming the belief early in the morning of *d*+1 *that it* had believed on the day before then** that it was fine then*,

i.e., on *d*, but in simply remembering early in the morning of *d*+1 *that it was fine a day before then**. On this basis, S surmises early in the morning of *d*+1 that it is likely to be fine then*, i.e., on *d*+1, and so forms the intention. Note how intermediate notions of same belief and same content, hence intermediate notions of same-saying, are implicated in this: the belief which S had on *d* that it is fine then* enables S's recollection on *d*+1 that it was fine a day before then*, which permits S *to infer* on *d*+1 that it* believed both on the day before then* that it was fine then*, then* being *d*; and that *this same* belief it still has then*, then* being *d*+1! Evidently, this belief has remained the same *in the intermediate sense*. So in this intermediate sense S 'updates', hence 'retains', on day *d*+1 the belief it had on *d*. In this intermediate sense S does say on *d*+1 the same thing by asserting, "It was fine yesterday," as it would on *d* by asserting, "It is fine today."

Appendix I to the Conclusion

In What Sense might One speak of Content *de te*?

When S says at *t* and *l*, "You are making a mess (here and now)," what exactly is S saying, presumably assertorically? The presence of the second person pronoun suggests that S is not merely saying something assertorically but doing so in communicative intent. In other words, S is *telling* someone something, i.e., seeking to get another subject S✦ to believe something by asserting something, which latter consists in saying something, i.e., locuting it, assertorically. Now it would be at best phenomenologically implausible to maintain that S is asserting, hence saying, at *t* and *l* that the person it* is addressing then* and there* is making a mess then* and there* in order to get this latter to believe what it* is asserting then* and there*. This implausibility creates an opening for the following hypothesis: S is seeking at *t* and *l* to get S✦ to believe that *it*✦, *S*✦, is making a mess then* and there*, this by asserting then* and there* that *it*✦, *S*✦, is making a mess then* and there*. Here, the anaphoric link is not to S in its capacity as *subject* of locution and illocution, but to S✦ in its capacity as the *object*, i.e., *target*, of perlocution.

Evidently, if this is right, then there is a sense in which one may speak, not just of a first- and third-person perspective, but also of an ineliminable second-person one. Not only the potential ineliminability of locutions and contents *de te* but also the peculiar structure given to them by this hypothesis makes the latter extremely interesting. For if it is right, then the dimensions of locution and illocution are conceptually intertwined with the dimension of genuinely communicative perlocution even though locution and illocution can, at least as exceptions to the rule, occur in the absence of perlocutionary intent. Moreover, truth of the hypothesis would create conceptual room, indeed would cry out for the idea that the *second* person pronoun is a means for referring to another not just as someone upon whom its user seeks to have such and

such an effect,[1] but as a partner in communication. Thereby it insinuates a claim both plausible and appealing, namely, that locution and illocution are founded, as a condition of their possibility, in acts of communication in which another appears not simply as someone to be affected but as someone *recognised* (*anerkannt*) from the outset as a partner in communication. With this, one arrives at a notion of perlocution which saves it from the simplistic idea manifest in, e.g., Griceanism that communication is just a matter of having effects on others.

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[1] Even an illocutionary effect—see Searle 1969, p. 45.

Appendix II to the Conclusion

Implications for the LOT Hypothesis

In at least one respect the thesis of content inherently *de se* comes at a cost many would regard as too high: inconsistency with the so-called Language of Thought hypothesis (LOT hypothesis). According to this hypothesis, contents are realised as contents by sentences in Mentalese, as stored or processed computationally in the brain of an S at a *t* and *l*. What makes this hypothesis so attractive for so many is the thought that by thus construing contents one makes them tractable for a computionalistically conceived cognitive psychology, which would in turn make cognitive psychology as such possible as a science. What, however, will the hypothesis say about representations and contents *de se*?

Only as part of a 'that'-clause and in conjunction with an explicit or implicit (hyper-)intensional context, e.g., "S believes … ," does the sentence 'it* is F' characterise a content. It is thus never itself a means of illocuting the content which, as a component of a 'that'-clause, it helps to individuate. In other words, the sentence 'it* is F' can be used only in reporting, not in illocuting, a content. Just this, however, prevents it from being a sentence in Mentalese which constitutes the content of a representation. Consequently, when S believes that it* is F, the sentence in Mentalese which constitutes or realises the content of S's belief can only be some Mentalese equivalent of the first-personal sentence "I am F." Insofar, then, as the hypothesis acknowledges and seeks to accommodate content *de se* at all, it must subscribe to the common view that what 'that'-clauses such as 'that it* is F' individuate is only perspicuously expressed by the corresponding first-personal sentence, hence only 'grasped' by S itself. Others can only *gesture towards* what S believes, either by citing *oratio recta* some first-personal sentence, or by asserting that S believes of S in first-personal fashion that it is F. They cannot, however, *literally* say what S believes since that they cannot *literally* say that what S believes is that such and such. The attributions *oratio obliqua* they accomplish by means of the sentence 'it* is F',

attributions to S of a representation to the effect that it* is F, cannot be taken at face value.

The LOT hypothesis thus takes as its point of departure three common ontological assumptions about contents:

1. All contents are, to use Perry's term, 'identified' only by sentences free-standing in the sense that they contain no term whose reference relies on reference elsewhere in linguistic context.

In other words, all contents are only individuated by 'that'-clauses containing free-standing sentences. This assumption goes hand in hand with two further ones:

2. Sentences containing the asterisked third-person pronoun are ultimately to be understood in the manner of Perry 1983, that is, as abbreviating an attribution *de re* in which a first-personal element in content is mentioned.
3. The asterisked third-person pronoun cannot explain the first-person pronoun;[1] explication must run in the opposite direction.

Evidently, the first assumption intimates commitment to the traditional doctrine of propositions, the second commitment to Fregean and Castañedian epistemic privacy and the third commitment to Anscombe's and Bermúdez's conception of how the asterisked third-person pronoun relates to the first-person pronoun. In consequence, the LOT hypothesis, insofar as it is willing to acknowledge personal representations, hence representational contents *de se*, at all, must do so in a way which ties them to first-personal awareness. Note that it makes these assumptions about contents and sentences *in general*, not specifically about representational contents and sentences in Mentalese. In other words, these assumptions *precede* the LOT hypothesis itself, as its essential presupposition.

In this sense, then, the LOT hypothesis is committed from the outset to the idea that "(t)he essence of [the] *de se* is self-awareness, the epistemic concept of one's

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[1] As has been explicitly argued most notably and originally by Anscombe—see Anscombe 1971, p. 47.

conscious access to oneself." (Jaszczolt 2013, p. 82) Should it be reluctant to place such first-personal awareness literally in mental content, it must construe all contents as impersonal, i.e., deny the *de se*. Then, however, it can no longer explain why, "(w)hen you and I both apprehend the thought that I am about to be attacked by a bear, we behave differently." (Perry 1977, p. 19/p. 494) Moreover, to the extent that it is interested in accommodating first-personal awareness, i.e., self-consciousness, at all, it can only do so by appeal to some kind of *Reflexionstheorie*. Thereby the hypothesis encounters all those invidious choices which have bedevilled discussion on and around representation and self-consciousness since Descartes. To this extent, the hypothesis shows itself to be Cartesian in a sense which has nothing to do with the substance dualism embraced by the historical Descartes and everything to do with the ontology of content and representation forcing such invidious choices upon one.

In fact, the Cartesian ontology of content and representation runs even deeper than these three assumptions and the hypothesis can itself be used to show into what specifically metaphysical depths. Jerry Fodor, the principal exponent of the LOT hypothesis, argues that a scientific cognitive psychology—for him one underwritten precisely by the hypothesis—must conceive its universe of discourse, the domain of representation solipistically.[2] Such methodologically motivated solipsism is not the claim that one must think of this domain as if it could exist without, as if it were not part of, nature. From the outset, cognitive psychologists take themselves to be dealing with a subject of representation existing in nature and causally related, via its representations, to other natural entities. Rather, the solipsism to which cognitive psychology is ostensibly methodologically committed is the claim that the elements of the dynamic totality of intentional states and experiences with which the cognitive psychologist deals may be *initially individuated* without presupposing anything about what their causes and effects are. Cognitive psychology makes this assumption about

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[2] See Fodor 1991.

what belongs in its domain of investigation before it sets about investigating the lawful causal connections between items in nature and items in its domain.[3]

Note that this does not preclude that in the end cognitive psychology might postulate some kind of ontological dependence on items beyond its domain. Contents might, after all, reveal themselves *ultimately*, that is, *to the cognitive psychologist*, to be dependent for their identity on that of items beyond the domain of representation in which they are had as contents—in the shape, namely, of a causally externalist account of representational content. The claim is rather that the representations of which they are contents can reveal themselves *initially*, i.e., to *the subject of the domain itself*, without appeal to such items. That is, the subject of this domain, insofar as it is capable of self-ascription at all, can ascribe representations to itself* presuppositionlessly, hence presuppositionlessly individuate the contents of its representations.

This conception of content is clearly inconsistent with Evans's notion of object-dependent thought. In a different way, however, it is also inconsistent with the conception of the *de se* advanced here. The content of the belief a subject S possesses when it sincerely asserts at *t* and *l*, "I am F here and now," is that it*, S, is F then* and there*, i.e., at *t* and *l*, end of story. This commits the thesis of content inherently *de se* to what was called in the Introduction *subject*-dependence. More precisely put, it commits the thesis to dependence on an objective context of representation <S, *t*, *l*>. Consequently, if at *t* and *l* S ascribes this belief or any other representation with this content to itself*, then S believes at *t* and *l* that it* exists objectively then* and there*

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[3] Thus, Fodor would appear to be getting at a naturalised, psychologised variant of what Husserl, properly understood, means by *epoché.* Such naturalised and psychologised *epoché* certainly seeks to ascertain through phenomenological reflection on actual representation both what it is to be a representation and to have a representation and be aware of a representation, i.e., to be a subject *qua* self-conscious domain of representations. But it does not do so in order to achieve a presuppositionless Archmidean point from which to reveal the nonsense implicit, say, in scepticism or indeed in the modern metaphysics of nature. Rather, it undertakes this investigation as part and parcel of determining the causal relations between the domain of representations and the 'external' world and only addresses the ontology of the subject, representation (intentionality) and content insofar as it is necessary for determining these relations.

in the world which presents itself to it* in and through its* representations, in particular, in and through its* perceptual experiences.[4] In this sense, S must always already have placed itself* in the world to which its representations causally relate it, just as the subject theorising about S has always already placed S in the world.

Crucially, what puts the LOT hypothesis at odds with the thesis of content inherently *de se* is precisely the understanding of content embodied by the three ontological assumptions listed above, in particular, by the first, namely, that contents, whatever they are precisely, are always 'identified' by free-standing sentences. It is ultimately this which the notion of methodologically solipsistic, hence presuppositionless access requires—an assumption which, as one might put it, renders representations and their subject 'worldless'. From the outset, then, not only is the LOT hypothesis committed to the traditional doctrine of propositions, up to and including the implicit fourth tenet articulated in Chapter Three; its commitment to the doctrine corroborates something speculatively claimed in Section II of the Concluding Chapter, namely, that the solipsistic ontology of representation and content implicit in the doctrine, hence ultimately the underlying ontology of the representing subject itself, is milk received from a fundamentally Cartesian mother, the modern metaphysics of nature.

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[4] Diverse scenarios can, of course, be constructed in which S self-ascribes while having forgotten that it is S, the F which is G, etc. S cannot, however, either wilfully suspend or causally lose the belief that it* and its* representations objectively exist in the world which presents itself in these representations, in particular, in its* perceptual experiences, even if it no longer knows who, when and where it is in this world. Anscombe appears to be believe that even if through radical sensory deprivation all its perceptual experience were shut down, a subject S could happily and indefinitely continue to individuate and reflect on its representations. By contrast, the thesis of content inherently *de se* must maintain that if such a fate were to befall S, then it would ultimately lose the capacity for self-ascription. More precisely put, it must maintain that the more S lost of its self-locating belief, which belief is, of course, ultimately enabled by perceptual experience, the more S would lose itself. At some point, thought-experiments such as these turn into analogues of Escher lithographs.

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